

Cross Cultural Psychology (PSY515)

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LESSON 01

INTRODUCTION TO CROSS-CULTURAL PSYCHOLOGY**Module: 1-4****Module 1: Introduction to the Course**

Students are introduced to the objectives and contents of the course. Students are introduced to the discipline of cross-cultural psychology and basic concepts in this field.

Overall Objectives of the Course

- To cover social and cultural aspects of human behavior.
- To explore similarities and diversity across societies and cross-cultural research.
- To identify and comprehend both the similarities and differences of people's behaviors, emotions, motivations, and thoughts across cultures.
- To understand and analyze cultural and sub-cultural practices.

Learning Outcomes (for the whole course)

The course aims to cover social and cultural aspects of human behavior, similarities and diversity across societies and cross-cultural research.

Hence at the end the students will:

1. have complete awareness and acceptance about cultural diversity within their own society and across societies.
2. tend to engage with people from different cultures with empathy and tolerance and understand and analyze cultural and sub-cultural practices
3. be able to conceive, plan and conduct cross cultural research
4. differentiate between area studies, cross-cultural studies, and intercultural studies
5. be familiar with cross-cultural research on various dimensions of human behavior

You will be able to understand cultural diversity and engage with people from different cultures with empathy and tolerance. It will also enable you to conceive, plan and conduct cross cultural research. This discipline offers the opportunity to connect with others through a deeper sense of appreciation and understanding.

Contents of the Course

1. Definition of Cross-Cultural and Cultural Psychology with basic terms and concepts
2. Various approaches to study of culture, natural and social sciences, eco-cultural, humanities, integrative and mixed cultural approaches
3. How culture is incorporated in psychological science and what challenges that poses.
4. Comparison of cultures; similarities and differences; types of cultures
5. Research methods and design used in Cross cultural psychology; Experimental, Quasi, cross sectional and field studies Experimental, Quasi, cross sectional and field studies and qualitative research
6. international and indigenous research across cultures
7. Human Development and Socialization; parenting, socialization practices across cultures, families across cultures, developmental stages, moral development, perception of ageing and death across cultures
8. Culture, Cognition and Consciousness; world views of reality, perception of next world, spirituality, culture and religion human consciousness, emotions across cultures,

women across cultures, attitudes towards sexuality and diversity, social cognition, Emotion research, Intelligence and Personality theory

9. Applications of cross-cultural psychology in health, mental health, counseling, working with immigrants, organizations, education and working abroad, global concerns and actions in sustainability, environment and climate, civic behavior and human rights
10. Crossing boundaries and cross-cultural communication; literature, music, arts and crafts as a universal language of human experience and expression. Travel as cultural learning. Learning of language
11. Implications of the course for personal growth

Module 2: Introduction to Cross-Cultural Psychology

A Personal Journey Across Cultures

Let me begin with a personal story. I've had the privilege of traveling to various countries across the world, both in the East and the West. I've spent time in cities and small towns in Japan, the USA, France, Greece, Australia, Nepal, Iran, Canada, the Middle East, Malaysia, Scotland, and England. I even lived in the United Kingdom for a few years for educational purposes. During these travels, I was constantly comparing customs, values, dress, languages, food, behavior, attitudes, public spaces, services, families, beliefs about God, and religious practices. I noticed both differences and similarities. The fact that a Pakistani woman like me could travel and manage life in these diverse countries is a testament to the reality that human beings share universal traits—commonalities that transcend dissimilarities and contrasts. Once you set foot on foreign soil, the study of culture becomes almost second nature.

Cultural Diversity Within Pakistan

Even within our own society, I have never stopped being amazed—and sometimes shocked—by the cultural diversity and stark contrasts within Pakistan itself. For instance, in a small town in Pakistan, a girl might get married without ever having met the boy she is committing to spend her life with. This was unimaginable in my family and social circle. All the children around me were taught to read the Quran from age five or six and given a book guiding everyday behavior as a Muslim. Yet, when I grew up, I discovered that many in my society had not gone through similar education. Some of my classmates spoke of their fathers drinking alcohol—a concept entirely foreign to me until I was 22 and attended a New Year's party at my first job.

Each of you can likely identify similar contrasts around you—from cities to villages, from one province to another, and from family to family. There are also numerous similarities, such as communal eating, festivals, school rituals, values, and family bonding. With this personal reflection, I now introduce you to the discipline of cross-cultural psychology, one of the most fascinating studies of human life and behavior in all its richness and complexity.

Understanding Cross-Cultural Psychology

The Scope and Importance of Cross-Cultural Psychology

It is important to recognize that the conditions in which people live vary greatly from place to place. Human actions and mental frameworks—formed and developed in various environments—may also differ from group to group. These differences, as well as similarities, are studied by cross-cultural psychology (Gudykunst & Bond, 1997). Cross-cultural psychology is the critical and comparative study of cultural effects on human psychology.

Key Elements of Cross-Cultural Psychology

Two key elements of this definition are worth noting:

1. **Comparative Nature:** This is a comparative field. Any study in cross-cultural psychology draws its conclusions from at least two samples representing at least two cultural groups. Because cross-cultural psychology is rooted in comparisons, it inherently involves critical thinking.
2. **Psychological Diversity and Universals:** Cross-cultural psychology examines psychological diversity and the underlying reasons for such diversity. It studies, from a comparative perspective, the links between cultural norms and behavior and how specific human activities are influenced by different, sometimes dissimilar, social and cultural forces (Segall et al., 1990).

Practical Applications of Cross-Cultural Psychology

For example, do disaster survivors experience similar painful symptoms across cultures? If they do (Bemak & Chung, 2008), can a psychologist apply a therapy designed to treat posttraumatic symptoms in the United States to other cultural environments, such as in Sudan or Iran? As Shiraev and Levy (2016) explain, cross-cultural psychology is the scientific study of human behavior and mental processes, including their variability and invariance under diverse cultural conditions.

Distinguishing Cross-Cultural Psychology from Cultural Psychology

Establishing Psychological Universals

Cross-cultural psychology does more than study differences between cultural groups; it also seeks to establish psychological universals—phenomena common to people across many or all cultures (Berry et al., 1992; Lonner, 1980). For example, the structure of human personality—relatively enduring patterns of thinking, feeling, and acting—might be considered a universal trait.

Limited Comparisons in Cultural Psychology

This distinguishes cross-cultural psychology from cultural psychology, where human behavior is seen as determined by unique individual cultures and can only be compared in a limited way.

The Impact and Influence of Cross-Cultural Psychology

A Transformative Study of Human Behavior

Studying human behavior through the lens of culture is a transformative experience. It opens our eyes to the incredible variety of human beings in this world. Cross-cultural psychology is a vibrant and colorful branch of psychology that examines human behavior from a cultural perspective, uncovering aspects often overlooked in other branches of psychology.

Interdisciplinary Reach and Practical Relevance

It spans multiple disciplines, including sociology, anthropology, cultural studies, epidemiology, population studies, and social psychology. Cross-cultural psychology informs various fields, such as medicine, mental health practice, workplace relations, and adaptation in a globalized world.

Module 3: Studying Human Behavior from Lens of Culture

Exploring Commonalities Across Cultures

A significant aspect of cross-cultural psychology is the exploration of commonalities or universals. For example, are the laws of learning, memory, perception, and other basic

processes equally applicable in places like Afghanistan, Benin, Chile, and Egypt, as they are in Anaheim, Chattanooga, or Bellingham, Washington? If not, what accounts for these variations? Is conformity the same everywhere? Can depression be understood in the same way across all corners of the world?

Critical Thinking in Cross-Cultural Studies

By examining an introductory psychology textbook, one might question whether the topics covered are culturally invariant. And if one is convinced that they are, what evidence supports this belief? Cross-cultural psychology challenges us to consider these questions critically, providing a deeper understanding of human behavior in its cultural context.

The photo below symbolizes the colors of human diversity across cultures and societies.



Module 4: Basic Concepts in Cross Cultural Psychology

Culture is not just an ornament; it is the expression of the nation's character, and at the same time it is a powerful instrument to mould character. The end of culture is right living.

---W. SOMERSET MAUGHAM (1874–1965)

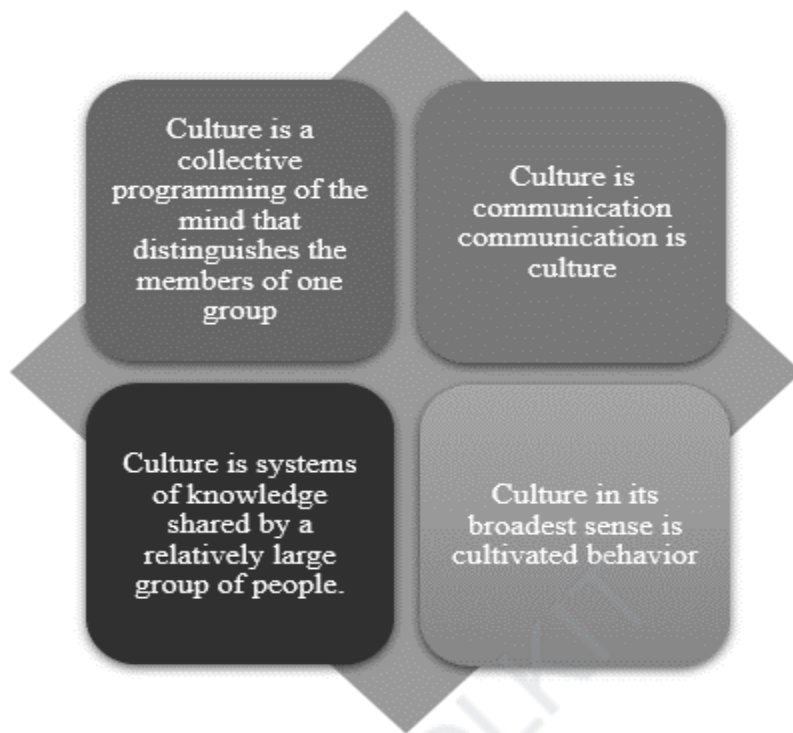
Two possible approaches of cross-cultural psychology:

- **Etic approach:** emphasizes similarities of cultures
- **Emic approach:** emphasizes differences between cultures
- Factors: Cultures have been compared on child rearing and personality variables.
- Culture is a set of attitudes, behaviors, and symbols shared by a large group of people and usually communicated from one generation to the next.

Attitudes	Behaviors	Symbols
• beliefs • values • general knowledge • opinions • superstitions • stereotype	• norms • roles • customs • traditions • habits • practice • fashion	• resent things • ideas • material object • a color • a sound • a slogan • a building

Characteristics:

- Cultures can be described as having both explicit and implicit characteristics.



Lesson 2

APPROACHES IN CROSS CULTURAL PSYCHOLOGY**Module: 5-10****Modules 5: Natural and Social Sciences Approaches****Natural Sciences and the Evolutionary Approach**

The Natural Sciences & Evolutionary Approach is a theoretical model that explores how evolutionary factors influence human behavior. It posits that general biological laws of behavior serve as a fundamental explanation for human actions, laying a natural foundation for human culture. According to this approach, culture is simply a form of existence that fulfills basic human needs and subsequent goals.

The primary objective of human beings, according to this approach, is survival. To endure, humans require food and resources. As a result, people seek mates, conceive, give birth, and then protect their offspring until they mature. Much like animals, humans across all cultures aim to avoid unnecessary pain and eliminate threats to their well-being. This approach is centered around Charles Darwin's concept of "**Survival of the Fittest.**"

Social Sciences Approach

The Social Sciences Approach emphasizes broad social structures that shape society as a whole and, consequently, its individuals. This approach has a significant impact on the scientific and comparative understanding of human behavior within a cultural context. Society is viewed as existing objectively, independent of individual experiences, with particular social forces influencing the behavior of large social groups.

According to this approach, human beings develop and adjust their individual responses in accordance with the demands and pressures of larger social groups and institutions. As a result, culture is both a product of human activity and a major shaping factor in human behavior.

Module 6: Humanities and Eco-Cultural Approach

The Humanities & Eco-Cultural Approach is a cross-disciplinary, comprehensive model that integrates the individual with their environmental context. It emphasizes the following principles:

- The individual cannot be separated from their environmental context.
- People constantly exchange messages with the environment, thereby transforming it.
- The individual is not seen as a passive, static entity influenced solely by the environment, but rather as a dynamic being who interacts with and changes the environment.

Environmental Factors Influencing Individual Psychology

This approach identifies two key contexts that significantly impact individual psychology:

1. **Ecological Context:** This refers to the natural setting in which human organisms and the environment interact, including the economic activity of the population. Key factors within this context include:
 - Presence or absence of food
 - Quality of nutrition
 - Heat or cold
 - Population density

2. **Sociopolitical Context:** This context encompasses the extent to which people participate in both global and local decisions. It includes various ideological values, the organization of government, and the presence or absence of political freedoms.

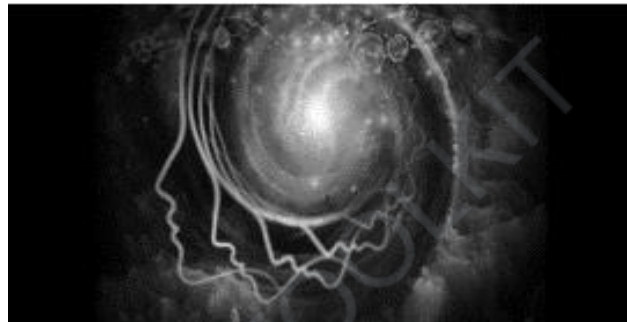
Each of these factors plays a crucial role in shaping individual psychology, influencing how people interact with their environment and broader society.

Module 7: Cultural Mixtures Approach & Integrative Approach

Cultures are moving and mixing. Cultural Identity is becoming increasingly dynamic, absorbing the commingling of different backgrounds, interests, ideas, and choices in one individual self. The cultural mixtures are linked to the concept of globalization. Access to mass media also plays an important role as everything happening around the globe is just a click away.

Globalization is based on few interconnected principles including:

- Economic-Political (free market: anybody can buy or sell anything anywhere)
- Democracy (everybody has a choice to vote and choose their leaders)
- Cultural-Psychological (freedom of choice, tolerance and openness to experience)



This photo is depicting a mixing and intermingling of cultures as colors retain the form but are also mixed.

Psychologists have developed at least three views on how cultures will respond to globalization:

1. First view predicts the weakening of local cultures and development of a new international culture. Individualism, competition and pursuit of efficiency will become global.
2. Second view assumes that today's globalization patterns will pull cultures further apart which resultantly affects the lives of a small portion of world's population (the wealthy ones).
3. Third view suggests that globalization will have a positive impact on only half of the world's population and the other half will suffer. A large group of people will suffer from psychological and economic uncertainty and elevated anxiety due to cultural transition trends (small farmers and small business owners).

Module 8: Cultural Mixtures Approach

Activity is a process of the individual's goal-directed interaction with the environment. Human motivation, emotion, thought, and reactions cannot be separated from human activity, which is determined by individual, socioeconomic, environmental, political, and cultural conditions and changes these conditions.

Access to resources is another important factor that unifies and separates people and cultures from one another. People's access to resources affects many aspects of culture and individual behavior. The Eco cultural approach significantly enriched the scientific understanding of human activity around cultures.

Cross-cultural psychologists enlighten themselves with knowledge from anthropology, history, and sociology. This knowledge is helpful in more informed and multi-level data interpretation

Module 9: Theory of Cultural Determinism

Theory of Cultural Determinism and Cultural Relativism

The position that the ideas, meanings, beliefs and values people learn as members of society determines human nature signifies the theory of cultural determinism and relativism.



This picture posits that people are what they learn.

Cultural Determinism: Optimistic and Pessimistic Perspectives

Optimistic Version of Cultural Determinism

The optimistic version of cultural determinism posits that there are no limits to what human beings can achieve or become. It suggests that human nature is infinitely malleable, allowing individuals to choose their preferred ways of life. In this view, culture is seen as a flexible framework that empowers people to shape their destinies according to their desires and aspirations.

Pessimistic Version of Cultural Determinism

In contrast, the pessimistic version of cultural determinism argues that people are largely shaped by the conditions of their culture, over which they have little or no control. According to this perspective, human beings are passive creatures who conform to the norms and dictates of their culture. They do not actively choose their path but rather follow the scripts provided by their cultural environment.

Cultural Relativism and the Study of Cultural Differences

Cultural determinism also underscores the idea that different cultural groups think, feel, and act in distinct ways. Importantly, it suggests that there are no scientific standards for deeming one cultural group as inherently superior or inferior to another.

The study of cultural differences among groups and societies is grounded in a position of **cultural relativism**. This approach does not imply that one's own culture or society is the standard of normalcy. Instead, it encourages an open-minded and non-judgmental stance when interacting with cultures different from one's own. However, this does not mean that judgment is entirely suspended. Rather, it suggests that informed judgment—based on a deep understanding of cultural differences, their origins, and their consequences—should precede any action or decision-making regarding other cultural groups or societies.

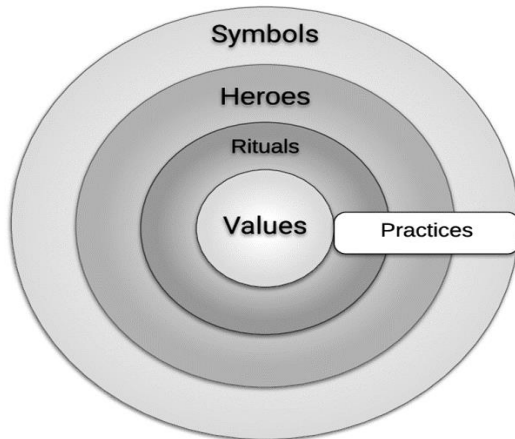


Module 10: Manifestation of Culture

Manifestation of culture means how culture is represented and appears in various forms, objects, practices, human persons and values. Basically, the shapes it takes and behavior and ideas that are held and shown across cultures. Cultural differences manifest themselves in different ways and differing levels of depth. Symbols represent the most superficial and value the deepest manifestations of culture. Symbols are words, gestures, pictures, or objects that carry a particular meaning which is only recognized by those who share a particular culture.



Heroes are persons, past or present, real or fictitious, who possess characteristics that are highly prized in a culture. They also serve as models for behavior.



Rituals

Rituals are collective activities sometimes superfluous in reaching desired objectives of a culture such as community participation or unity or identity, carried out most of the times for their own sake. These include

- ways of greetings
- paying respect to others
- religious and social ceremonies



The Core of Culture: Understanding Values

Values form the foundation of any culture. They represent broad tendencies and preferences for certain states of affairs over others, such as good versus evil, right versus wrong, or natural versus unnatural. These values are not always explicitly stated but can be inferred from people's actions in various circumstances. For example, when someone is seen helping the needy, protesting for peace in a conflict-ridden area, advocating for human rights, or raising awareness

about climate change, observers can infer that this person or group upholds values like justice, equality, kindness, charity, and environmental stewardship. These actions reflect the underlying values that drive behavior and decision-making.

In organizational contexts, core values often guide the mission, vision, and everyday practices of the group. For instance, an organization's commitment to integrity, collaboration, or innovation can be seen in how it operates and interacts with its stakeholders. These values form the cultural backbone of the organization and influence its overall identity and impact.



Lesson 3

SCOPE AND NATURE OF CROSS-CULTURAL PSYCHOLOGY**Module: 11-14****Module 11: Layers of Culture**

People, even within the same culture, carry multiple layers of mental programming. These layers exist at various levels:

1. National Level

The national level **is** associated with the nation as a whole. Symbols, heroes, and practices that represent a country, such as the green flag, heroes of the Pakistan movement, and the Urdu language in Pakistan, or the Zen Garden in Japanese society, are examples of this layer.

2. Regional Level

The regional level **is** connected to ethnic, linguistic, or religious differences within a nation. For example, Bhangra is associated with Punjab, while Ajrak is linked to Sindh. These symbols often appear in cultural shows representing different regions of Pakistan.

3. Gender Level

The gender level involves differences between males and females. For instance, wrestling is more commonly associated with men, while socializing practices and dress styles differ between genders. However, in areas like values, character traits, and emotions, there are no significant cultural differences between men and women.

4. Generation Level

The generation level reflects differences between generations, such as grandparents, parents, and children. Cultural adaptation occurs over time, with technology introducing practices and habits that were not present in earlier generations.

5. Social Class Level

The social class level is associated with differences in education and occupation. This creates cultural gaps between economic classes in a society. For example, education can lead to differences in language use, leisure activities, health awareness, and access to systems, all of which demonstrate the impact of social class on culture.

6. Corporate Level

The corporate level pertains to the particular culture of an organization and applies to those who are employed. This layer is evident in differences between educational institutions, private and public universities, and multinational versus local organizations.

Module 12: Challenges of Incorporating Culture in Psychological Science**Methodological Challenges**

Psychologists may hesitate to engage in cross-cultural studies due to formidable methodological challenges. Designing studies across cultures requires larger sample sizes, ensuring equal variance and matching samples from different countries, and overcoming obstacles related to data collection, such as access to participants, obtaining consent, and providing data collection tools in different languages. Translating questionnaires into various languages is a meticulous process, known as adaptation, which ensures that concepts and meanings, not just words, are conveyed accurately.

Collaborative Research

To address these challenges, collaborative research is common in cross-cultural psychology. Teams with members based on each culture being studied are often formed. Online and big data studies have also facilitated data gathering from large cross-cultural samples. For instance, recent studies on morality, Facebook usage, interpersonal distance, and mate preferences across cultures have used data from 45 countries by collaborating with researchers in each country.

Funding and Disciplinary Compartmentalization

Securing adequate funding for cross-cultural research is another challenge, as is the tendency to compartmentalize disciplines. This mindset argues that the study of culture should be left to anthropologists and sociologists, while psychologists focus on other areas. Additionally, some instructors may avoid cultural topics due to time constraints in their syllabi or a lack of preparedness to address the complexities of culture.

The Argument for Cross-Cultural Psychology

Despite these challenges, the argument for cross-cultural psychology is strong. To achieve the highest level of scientific rigor and influence, comparable to disciplines like chemistry and physics, psychology must extend its investigations to all corners of the world. While hard sciences often produce universally accepted theories or laws, such as gravity or genetic mutation, psychology has fewer universally accepted laws. The **Law of Effect** is one of the few that has held validity across most cultures.

Universality in Human Experience

A large number of questions can be explored in the search for commonalities or universals. Many human experiences are universal, such as maternal instinct, spiritual experience, compassion, love, adventure, and curiosity. Arts, literature, cities, food, and stories are also shared across cultures.

Aesthetics may differ across cultures, but the experience of beauty is universal. Aesthetics refers to the standards of beauty that a culture holds, yet the desire for beauty is a common human trait. Modern culture, in some respects, differs from traditional culture in that it has lost certain standards of beauty, particularly in dress, manners, and arts. In many modern societies, ugliness has become more acceptable in terms of city planning, buildings, art, and social manners.

This child and the waterfall.

The child is **ecstatically** enjoying could be anywhere in the world. Such experiences are universal.



Module 13: Nature and Scope of Cross-Cultural Psychology

Cross-cultural psychology is not a distinct, isolated field within psychology; rather, it is a **methodological approach** that aligns with other established approaches like experimental, physiological, quantitative, and clinical methods. It examines how human thought and behavior are influenced by cultural contexts, making it an essential perspective in understanding psychological processes.

Methodological Challenges in Cross-Cultural Psychology

The unique nature of cross-cultural psychology necessitates addressing specific methodological challenges, particularly problems of **equivalence**—conceptual, linguistic, and metric equivalence. These challenges arise when comparing psychological phenomena across different cultures and require innovative solutions to ensure the accuracy and reliability of findings. Sampling is another area where creative strategies are needed to represent various cultural groups effectively.

When designing sophisticated research in cross-cultural psychology, researchers must consider several critical questions:

- Which cultures should be studied, and why?
- Which communities and individuals should be selected, and why?
- Which behaviors should receive detailed attention?

These questions guide the research process, ensuring that studies are relevant, representative, and insightful.

Breadth of Study in Cross-Cultural Psychology

The scope of cross-cultural psychology is remarkably broad, reflecting the diversity of mainstream psychology. Cross-cultural psychologists explore a wide range of topics, including:

- **Emotion Regulation:** How do different cultures regulate emotions?
- **Anxiety:** How is anxiety manifested and controlled within various family structures?
- **Self-Conception:** How does culture shape individuals' conceptions of the self?

Moreover, cross-cultural psychologists study the consequences of rapid relocation, such as migration, and investigate whether human personality structures are consistent across cultures. The diverse topics and areas of study in cross-cultural investigations underscore the vast scope of this approach within psychology.

Module 14: Cultural Psychology

Cultural psychology is distinct from cross-cultural psychology in its core assumptions and objectives. It posits that culture and mind are inseparable, and that psychological theories developed within one cultural context may not be applicable in another. This field emerged prominently in the 1980s and 1990s, drawing from earlier work in the 1960s and 1970s.

Key Concepts in Cultural Psychology

Cultural psychology explores how cultural traditions, and social practices shape the human psyche, leading to **ethnic divergences** in mind, self, and emotion, rather than a universal psychological unity. It informs various areas within psychology, including social psychology, developmental psychology, and cognitive psychology.

Cultural psychologists typically use **ethnographic** or **experimental** methods to collect data, focusing on how local cultural practices influence psychological processes. For example, while

a cross-cultural psychologist might test the universality of Piaget's stages of development across cultures, a cultural psychologist would investigate how specific social practices within different cultures shape cognitive development in distinct ways.

Conclusion

Both cross-cultural and cultural psychology offer valuable insights into the complex interplay between culture and psychology. While cross-cultural psychology tests the universality of psychological processes across different cultures, cultural psychology delves into how these processes are shaped by local cultural practices. Together, they enrich our understanding of human behavior and thought, highlighting the importance of considering cultural context in psychological research.

VU TOOLKIT

Lesson 4

COMPARING CULTURES**Module 15-18****Module 15: Traditional And Non-Traditional Cultures****Traditional Culture**

The term used to describe cultures based largely on beliefs, rules, symbols, and principles established predominantly in the past, confined in local or regional boundaries, restricting and mostly intolerant to social innovations.

Non-Traditional Culture

The term used to describe cultures based largely on modern beliefs, rules, symbols, and principles relatively open to other cultures, absorbing influences and dynamic. The non-traditional cultures are seen as science-based and technology-driven and relatively tolerant to social innovations.

Although due to global access to technology some of these boundaries have merged between traditional and non-traditional cultures and increasingly diffusing what were seen as characteristics of either type. The terms of traditional and non-traditional are also re-defined and often replaced by other terms to categorize and distinguish the cultures.



Guess which ones are traditional and which ones are non-traditional cultures?



Module 16: Individualistic and Collectivistic Cultures

Individualistic and Collectivistic Cultures

Individualism is a complex behavior based on concern for oneself and one's immediate family or primary group as opposed to concern for other groups or society to which one belongs.

Collectivism is a behavior based on concerns for others and care for traditions and values. People in collectivist culture prefer harmony-enhancing strategies of conflict resolution. People in individualistic cultures prefer more competitive strategies.

Traditional Cultures	Non- traditional cultures
Most social roles are prescribed to individuals.	Most social roles are achieved by individuals.
In evaluations of individual behavior, the emphasis is placed on custom and routine.	In evaluations of individual behavior, the emphasis is placed on individual choice.
There is a clear distinction between good and evil in human behavior.	The distinction between good and evil in human behavior is relative.
Truth is not debatable; it is established and does not change.	Truth is revealed through the competition of ideas.

Collectivism is expected to be high in the Asian countries and Individualism is high in Western countries (Triandis, 1996). Both collectivist and individualistic cultures are concerned with how individuals in a society prioritize and manage their relationships and goals. Collectivist cultures value group cohesion over individual pursuits whereas Individualistic cultures focus on autonomy.



Various aspects of this classification have been studied. In other words, psychologists have studied how characteristics of individualistic and collectivist cultures influence behavior. One such study is present in the page below. Full article can be accessed through relevant journal. In your assignment, you will be asked to summarize the abstract in your own words.

Levels of Organizational Trust in Individualist Versus Collectivist Societies: A Seven-Nation Study

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Abstract

Competitiveness in global industries increasingly requires the ability to develop trusting relationships. This requires organizations, and the individuals they are comprised of, to be both trustworthy and trusting. An important question is whether societal culture influences the tendency of individuals and organizations to trust. Based largely on Yamagishi's (1994, 1998a, b) theories explaining trust, commitment, and in-group bias in collectivist cultures, this study examines potential differences in levels of trust between individualist and collectivist cultures. Survey data was collected from 1,282 mid-level managers from large banks in Japan, Korea, Hong Kong, Taiwan, China, Malaysia, and the United States. We first study differences in how individuals from individualist and collectivist societies trust in-groups versus out-groups. This provides an important foundation for hypotheses regarding differences in individual propensities to trust and two measures of organizational trust: internal trust (trust within the organization) and external trust (an organization's trust for suppliers, customers, etc.). Findings show higher levels of propensity to trust and organizational external trust in the United States than in Asia.

(Organizational Trust; Trustfulness; Individualism/Collectivism)

Introduction

An organization's ability to develop trusting relationships is an increasingly important source of competitive advantage (Barney and Hansen 1994, Lane 1998, Sako 1998). Advantages accrue to firms that enjoy an internal climate of trust (Shockley-Zalabak et al. 2000) and that can develop trust and cooperative relationships with external partners (Zaheer et al. 1998, Dyer and Singh 1998, Barney and Hansen 1994). Trust is particularly important for

firms competing in global markets, where uncertainty and risk are enhanced and where partners' culture, values, and goals may be very different (Lane 1998).

Given the importance of trust for firms competing in foreign markets, an important question is whether the societal culture of its home market influences a firm's ability to trust and be trusted. If so, firms from certain cultures may have an inherent advantage over others in their ability to develop relationships, and thus compete in global markets. The question is important at the national as well as the organizational level. Fukuyama (1995) argues that a nation's prosperity depends on the global competitiveness of its firms, which is influenced by the level of trust inherent in the nation's society.

Few scholars have directly studied the link between societal culture and an organization's ability to trust. Many have written of the high trust widely acknowledged to be prevalent in Japanese business society, compared with low trust in the United States (Casson 1991, Ouchi 1981, Sullivan and Peterson 1982, Sullivan et al. 1981, Hazama 1978, Dyer and Singh 1998). Fukuyama (1995) compares trust in several societies, claiming that Germany, the United States, and Japan are high trust, while China, Korea, Southern Italy, and France are low-trust cultures. Doney et al. (1998) link several trust processes to Hofstede's (1980a) dimensions of culture. None of these studies empirically compares trust across cultures. Perhaps the most extensive work on the topic has been that of Yamagishi and associates (1988a, 1988b, 1989, 1994, 1998a, 1998b), whose careful study of trust in Japan and the United States refutes the common notion that trust is high in Japan and low in the United States.

This paper examines how societal culture may influence organizational trust, with a particular interest in how

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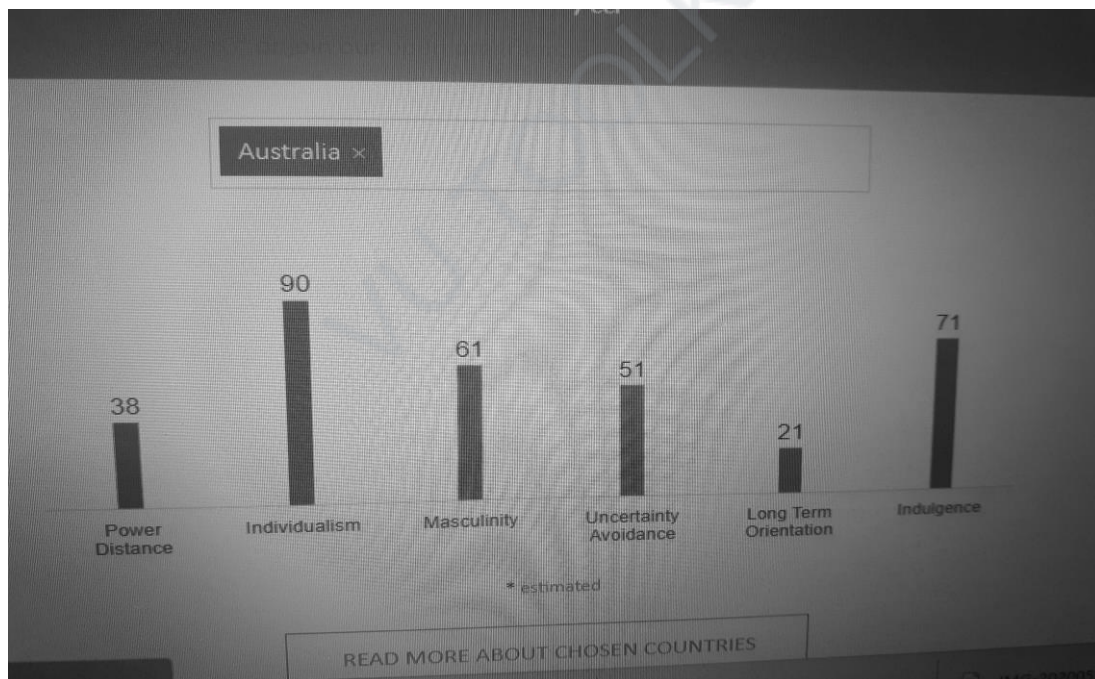
ORGANIZATION SCIENCE, © 2003 INFORMS
Vol. 14, No. 1, January–February 2003, pp. 81–90

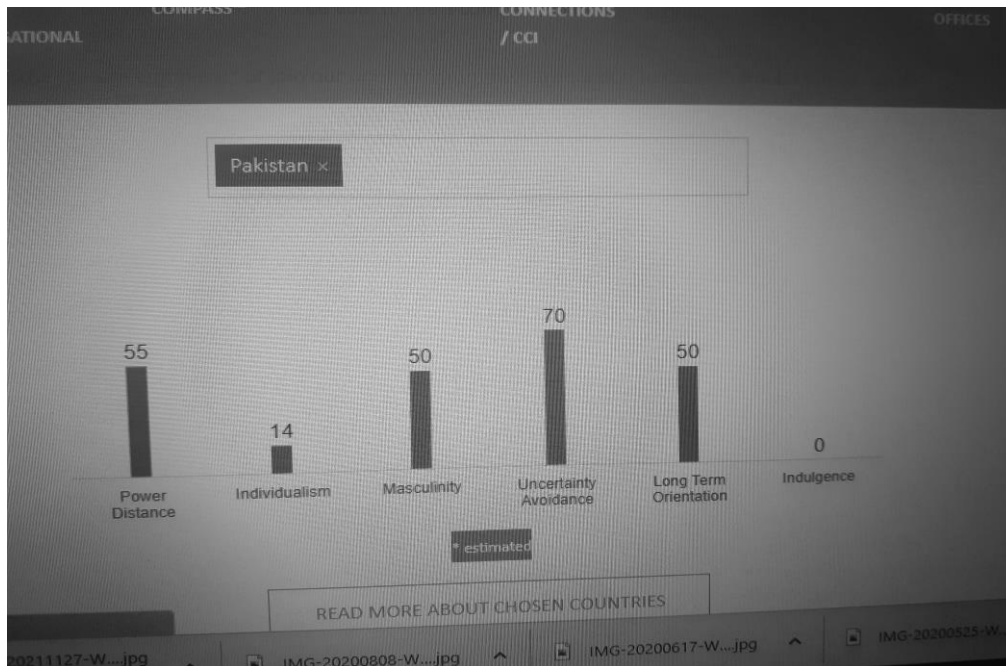
Module 17: Countries and Cultures

An interesting source that shows how cultures and countries are mapped can be found at <https://www.hofstede-insights.com/fi/product/compare-countries/>



At this website you can find cultural differences between various societies on specific traits. In the charts given in hand outs and in recordings, I have given comparison that I found between Australia and Pakistan. Individualism between these two societies has a large difference; Pakistan is much less individualistic than Australia. However, there isn't a very large difference on Masculinity. This cultural compass is very interesting, and you will be doing an assignment on comparing two countries of your choice. Basically, website uses data available on measures of these traits.





Module 18: Religion, Race, Ethnicity and Nation

In cross-cultural psychology some words are used interchangeably with reference to various research samples. These distinctions are about how people or groups are different.

Some of those are:

1. Religion:

It is based on revelation that is the faith of the people who abide by or belong to a religion. It is a socio-cultural system of designated behaviors and practices. It includes moral beliefs, theology, worldviews, texts, sanctified places, prophecies, ethics and organizations. It also relates humanity to supernatural, transcendental, and spiritual. Religious affiliation means acceptance of a particular faith, its beliefs and practices.

2. Race:

Race is a large group of people distinguished by certain similar and genetically transmitted physical characteristics. It is an important element of people's identification.

3. Ethnicity:

It is a cultural heritage shared by a category of people who share a common ancestral origin language, traditions, religion, geographic territory.

4. Nation:

Nation is a very large group of people, who share a legitimate territory and an independent state, they have a common geographical origin, share a common history and in most cases, language. They have a sense of bonding with common ideologies and loyalties.

Lesson 5

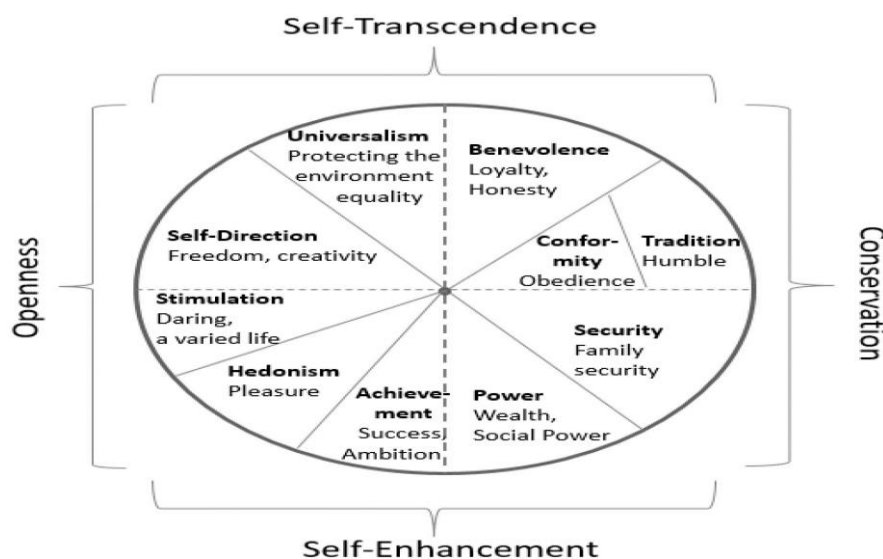
SIMILARITIES AND DIFFERENCES BETWEEN CULTURES

Modules: 19-23Module 19: Culture: Similarities & Differences**Human Value Instantiation**

Human values instantiation means instances of behaviours related to values. Cultures represent both concrete (behavior) and abstract (value) concepts. A study using samples from 3 countries; United Kingdom, India and Brazil found examples of certain behaviours that show values for example helping or being kind. Two studies asked people to describe how a particular value was shown in a behaviour or action and then matched those actions to values i.e., how actions or behaviours show values for example behaviour is saving water and underlying value is protecting environment. Similarly, behaviour is giving money in charity and value is helping. Behaviour playing with friends is driven by the value of enjoyment. These studies are described in the article given in reference below:

<https://www.frontiersin.org/articles/10.3389/fpsyg.2018.00849/full>

Within-country variability of human values (e.g., equality and helpfulness) clearly outweighs between-country variability. This means that people in one culture are different in human values and relating the concrete behaviour to those values more than people across two cultures. The figure below shows the examples of various core values and their dimensions. For example, openness has dimensions of stimulation, daring a varied life, creativity and freedom. Self enhancement has dimensions of achievement, power wealth and so on. These exist in connecting segments of a circle, lower half of circle represents more of self enhancement whereas upper half represents opposite pole of self – transcendence. Similarly, right half represents the value of Conservation whereas left half represents opposite pole of Openness. looking at these opposite poles, you can study cultures in terms of these values. People endorse the same values to a similar extent across countries and instantiate them similarly. These values vary within one culture more than it varies between cultures! Where differences exist, these are due to context.



Module 20: Similarities

Similarities across cultures are found on many values for example helping behaviour, kindness, enjoyment or pleasure, inequality, social class differences, education processes, family interactions, leisure. The inequality also exists in the western and Eastern societies as shown in lectures (USA and Pakistan); Helping behaviour also exists in both cultures. In each culture inequality may be experienced more by some sections of society for example by American Africans and women in USA and minorities in Pakistan.

Module 21: Research Evidence of Differences

Cross cultural research suggests that....

- East Asians need to change their behaviour more frequently to adjust to their environment.
- They hold an incremental theory of self- seeing personality as more flexible.
- compared to European Americans who see self as stable and consistent across situations.
- Based on this it is possible that Asians believe that emotions are also changeable and controllable.

As we discussed earlier cultural psychology is the study of the way cultural traditions and social practices regulate, express, and transform the human psyche including feelings and emotions. Negative emotions are disappointment, hate, anger, resentment, sadness, disgust. Two researchers tested this assumption regarding emotions and found it to be true! East Asian persons controlled their emotions more when shown a negative picture. They also showed less activation in brain scans. The Method was self report of beliefs about emotions for example *“If people want, they can change their emotions”* and Appraisal, *“when I want to feel less negative emotion, I change the way I am thinking about the situation”*

MRI was showing brain activation while they did reinterpretation of the emotions, e.g., things will get better, or things will get worse.

Module 22: Independent and Interdependent Cultures

“Independence” and “interdependence” also became frequently used terms in cross cultural psychology. In some cultures, most people seek to maintain their independence from others by attending to their individual selves and by expressing their unique inner attributes.



In other cultures, people are more interdependent. They accentuate attention to others, fitting in and maintaining harmonious relationship with people of higher, lower, or equal status levels (Markus & Kitayama, 1991).



Comparison studies

- Independent cultures value autonomy over affiliation and obedience
- Interdependent cultures value harmony and cohesion over personal choices
- Achievement and success are ideals
- Community and group goals are more important

We often hear the phrase in our own society, “Family/ baradri ki khtir karna hota hai”!

Most east Asian countries: china, Korea, Japan, Vietnam, Cambodia, Malaysia, India, Bangladesh, Bhutan, Maldives, are seen as interdependent cultures, Arab and African countries, Southeast Asia, Indigenous nations and tribes are seen as interdependent cultures. Whereas Europe, Australia and North America are mostly defined as independent cultures.

Module 23: Acculturation & Multiculturalism

Acculturation can be defined as a process of learning and incorporating the values, beliefs, language, customs and mannerisms of the new country in which immigrants and their families are living. It also includes behaviors that affect health such as dietary habits, activity level and substance use. (Immigrant medicine, 2007).

Enculturation is the process through which we first learn about a culture and can think of acculturation as the process of learning about a second culture.

Immigration and acculturation have a long history as people have been involved in these processes since long ago. It is a process of social, psychological and cultural change. Immigrants, refugees, asylum seeker and many other people experience the process of acculturation.

Examples from Researches:

- Dietary practices among Arabic-speaking immigrants and refugees in western societies: A scoping review. (Sarah Elshahat, Tina Moffat. In appetite 2020)
- Character strength use: a comparison of overseas Pakistani in Saudi Arabia and matched sample in Pakistan. (sidra Javed, unpublished M.Phil. thesis, university of Punjab)

Models of Acculturation

- **Assimilation:** it occurs when an individual adopts the cultural norms of a dominant or host culture, over their original culture.
- **Separation:** individual rejects the dominant or host culture in favor of preserving their culture of origin.
- **Integration:** individuals can adapt the cultural norms of the dominant or host culture while maintaining their culture of origin. Integration leads to and is often synonymous with biculturalism.
- **Marginalization:** individuals reject both their culture of origin and the dominant host culture.

Multiculturalism is a view that encourages recognition of equality for all cultural and national groups and promotes the idea that various cultural groups have the right to follow their own unique paths of development and have their own unique activities, values, and norms.

Acculturation is seen as adhering to no culture or relative freedom from any cultural effects on behaviour. Leaving one's own culture and adapting a contemporary way of behaviour that are contextual and not culture bound. This is like a fluid capacity that allows a uniformity in global world.

Lesson 6

CRITICAL THINKING IN CROSS-CULTURAL PSYCHOLOGY

Module: 24-27Module 24: Critical Thinking in Cross Cultural Psychology

Cross-cultural psychology is the critical and comparative study of cultural effects on human psychology. As a comparative field, cross-cultural psychology draws its conclusions from at least two samples that represent at least two cultural groups. The act of comparison requires a particular set of critical thinking skills. Learning how to think critically is one of the most vital and indispensable components of learning. Thinking is one of the most essential of all human characteristics. It is intrinsic to almost everything we do. But do we ever think about thinking? How often do we subject our thinking process to critical analysis? Problem solving open mindedness, creativity, communication analysis are all components of critical thinking.

Metathinking

It is a skill that can be cultivated, successfully taught and learned. This skill will help someone who is going to conduct cross-cultural research in the domain of psychology.

Module 25: Cultural Dichotomies in Cross Culture Research

No society is culturally homogeneous. There are no cultures that are either entirely similar or completely different. Within the same cultural cluster there can be significant variations, inconsistencies, and dissimilarities. Cross-cultural psychologists establish and conceptualize the main culture's features in terms of cultural dichotomies. Among such dichotomies are high versus low-power distance, high- versus low-uncertainty avoidance, masculinity versus femininity, and collectivism versus individualism.

We have shown a comparison of Australia and Pakistan on such dichotomies in module 17. Defining them here now: **Power distance** is the extent to which the members of a society accept that power in institutions and organizations is distributed unequally (Hofstede, 1980). It is assumed that there are cultures high and low on power distance. Most people in "high-power distance" cultures generally accept inequality between the leaders and the led, the elite and the common, the managers and the subordinates, and breadwinners and other family members. If you look at figures in module 17, you will notice that Pakistan is more accepting of power distance than Australia. Expectedly, there are also cultures low on power distance, in which equality is a preferred value in relationships. Studies reveal that people in hierarchical, high power-distance cultures tend to assign stricter behavior rules associated with social status (for example, "when you become a father you should always act like a respectable head of the family"). On the other hand, people in egalitarian, low power-distance cultures are less preoccupied with the behavioral rules attached to the status ("a father is just a man, after all").

Uncertainty Orientation refers to common ways used by people to handle uncertainty in their daily situations and lives in general. This phenomenon is measured on a continuum between uncertainty acceptance and uncertainty avoidance. Uncertainty avoidance is the degree to which the members of a society feel uncomfortable with uncertainty and ambiguity. People in cultures high on uncertainty avoidance tend to support beliefs promising certainty and to maintain institutions protecting conformity. Likewise, people in cultures low on uncertainty

avoidance are apt to maintain nonconformist attitudes, unpredictability, creativity, and new forms of thinking and behavior. People who accept uncertainty tend to respond to uncertain situations by seeking information and engaging in activities that directly resolve the uncertainty. People who are certainty oriented tend to refer to rules, customs, or opinions of other people, including authority figures, to resolve uncertainty (Sorrentino et al., 2008). Research shows that people in Eastern and Western cultures tend to differ in how they handle uncertainty. In particular, Eastern cultures such as Japan or China tend to be more “uncertainty avoidant” than Western cultures such as France or Canada (Hofstede, 1980).

Collectivism and Individualism are perhaps the most frequently mentioned and examined cultural characteristics (Triandis, 1989). Individualism is typically interpreted as complex behavior based on concern for oneself and one’s immediate family or primary group as opposed to concern for other groups or society to which one belongs. Collectivism, however, is typically interpreted as behavior based on concerns for others and care for traditions and values. Collectivism is expected to be high in the Asian countries, in the traditional societies, and in the former communist countries. Individualism is high in Western countries (Triandis, 1996).

Module 26: Different Approaches in Cross Culture Research

Cross-cultural psychologists use several approaches to examine human activities in various cultural settings. These include Evolutionary or natural sciences approach, Sociological approach, Ecocultural approach, and Cultural Mixtures Approach.

Socio-Biology is a theoretical model that explores the ways in which biological factors affect human behavior and thus lay a natural foundation for human culture. The sociological approach focuses on broad social structures that influence society as a whole, and subsequently its individuals. There are particular social forces that shape the behavior of large social groups, and human beings develop and adjust their individual responses in accordance with the demands and pressures of larger social groups and institutions.

According to **an ecocultural approach** to cross-cultural psychology, the individual cannot be separated from his or her environmental context. People constantly exchange messages with the environment, thus transforming it and themselves.

According to a **“culture mixtures” approach**, researchers should switch their attention from traditional views on culture to new cultural mixtures, contact zones, interconnected systems, and multiple cultural identities. The culture mixtures approach is also seen as new cross-cultural psychology that does not treat cultures as static or confined to particular regions in this age of globalization. The sharing of technology and increased communication between cultures as well as large number of people moving across cultures have softened the boundaries between cultures originating in specific regions.

Integrative Approach: this approach emphasizes human activity i.e., what do people do, how do people behave, etc. it also focuses on the process of the individual’s goal-directed interaction with the environment. Human motivation, emotion, thought, and reactions cannot be separated from human activity, which is (1) determined by individual, socioeconomic, environmental, political, and cultural conditions, and (2) changes these conditions. Two factors, presence of and access to resources, largely determine type, scope, and direction of human activities

Indigenous theories are characterized by the use of conceptions and methodologies associated exclusively with the cultural group under investigation. Indigenous psychology is the scientific

study of human behavior or the mind, and is designed for a people and native, not transported from other regions.

Module 27: Ethnocentrism & Multiculturalism

Ethnocentrism is the view that supports judgment about other ethnic, national, and cultural groups and events from the observer's own ethnic, national, or cultural group's outlook.

Ethnocentrism, in a way, is an exaggeration. Consider an example. College students in several countries were asked to draw a map of the world in 10 minutes, putting in as much detail as possible. In almost all cases, the students' own country was drawn disproportionately large (Whittaker & Whittaker, 1972). Perhaps what is most familiar to us tends to be exaggerated. This is the view that supports judgment about other ethnic, national, and cultural groups and events from the observer's own ethnic, national, or cultural group's outlook.

Ethnocentrism narrows our perception of other countries and social groups. Ethnocentrism is also a distortion of reality. In most cases, being ethnocentric is also judging from the position of a cultural majority. Values and norms accepted by any majority have great power because of the sheer size of the majority and because of the fact that its members hold most positions of power (Shiraev & Levy, 4th edition, page 21).

Multiculturalism is an individual, psychological and theoretical view. It encourages recognition of equality for all cultural and national groups. It promotes the idea that various cultural groups have the right to follow their own unique paths of development. They have their own activities, values and norms. This view is rooted primarily in self-exploration and self-awareness.

In short, ethnocentrism supports judgement while multiculturalism supports unity of cultures.

Lesson 7

RESEARCH METHODOLOGY IN CROSS CULTURAL PSYCHOLOGY**Module: 28-31****Module 28: Goals of Cross-Cultural Research**

Research is a scientific process involving some definite steps for arriving at answer to a question or solution to a problem or acquiring knowledge. Research is also a creative process, answers some questions, raises more questions. Methodology for a study depends upon the goals.

There are four basic goals of research in cross-cultural psychology: description, interpretation, prediction, and management. After identifying the goals, the researcher has to choose a methodological approach that is most appropriate for the implementation of these goals.

1. Description

Accurate portrayal/depiction of phenomenon

2. Explanation/Interpretation

Gathering info about “why” phenomenon exists

3. Prediction

Anticipate an event prior to its occurrence

4. Control/Management

Manipulation of conditions to affect behaviour

An Example from the Book

Imagine, a researcher wants to find out what psychological factors influence the relative stability of arranged marriages of Native Americans, whose family unions last longer than marriages among European Americans and other ethnic groups. To find the answer, the researcher should conduct a scientific investigation and choose appropriate methods. What does the psychologist aim to pursue in this particular project? First, the researcher wants to **describe** some major differences between arranged and non arranged marriage. Suppose one of the most important differences is so-called conflict avoiding behaviour of both spouses in the arranged-marriage family: they seldom escalate tensions and try to resolve every minor problem in their relationship before the problem grows unsolvable. Then, when some differences between ethnic groups are found, the researcher tries to **explain** whether these factors affect marital stability. If they do, then why and how does this influence take place? After an explanation is offered, the psychologist tries to disseminate the received data and their interpretations. The psychologist may attend a conference, share the data with colleagues and students, or publish an article in a scholarly journal. The practical value of the received data may be high if they not only explain, but also **predict** the factors that determine successful marital relationships identified by the research. For example, the psychologist could suggest that conflict-avoiding behaviour is effective primarily in arranged-marital relationships, but not in other types of marriages in which conflict-resolution behaviour is more efficient than conflict-avoiding activities. If this is the case, practitioners could use these research data to help other people to better understand and manage—that is, effectively **control**—their family relationships (Shiraev & Levy, page 28).

Module 29: Qualitative and Quantitative Research

In general, research methodology in cross-cultural psychology can be divided into two categories: quantitative and qualitative. **Qualitative research** consists of an investigation that:

- seeks answers to a question
- systematically uses a predefined set of procedures to answer the question
- collects evidence
- produces findings that were not determined in advance
- produces findings that are applicable beyond the immediate boundaries of the study

Qualitative research is particularly suitable for gaining an in-depth understanding of underlying reasons and motivations. It provides insights into the setting of a problem. At the same time, it frequently generates ideas and hypotheses for later quantitative research. For example, these photos show friendly behaviour and rude behaviour. As an aggression researcher, I investigated when do children fight, what kind of words are used in shouting and do they feel bad about it afterwards. The study was conducted with Pakistani and English samples. I asked for description of the conflict, how it started, what they said and how did it end. This needed a qualitative method.



Qualitative research can be narrative or descriptive. Interviews, observation notes or surveys are some methods used in qualitative research.

Qualitative research is conducted primarily in the natural setting to detect and describe some implicit aspects of culture that are difficult to measure by standard quantitative procedures. It enables to understand a given research problem from local population's perspective. There is an element of subjectivity in qualitative method as the researcher is the observer. One such study is:

- Brailovskaia, J., Lin, M., Scholten, S. *et al.* A Qualitative Cross-Cultural Comparison of Well-Being Constructs: The Meaning of Happiness, Life Satisfaction, and Social Support for German and Chinese Students. *J Happiness Stud* 23, 1379–1402 (2022). <https://doi.org/10.1007/s10902-021-00454-6>. For a review of literature across cultures, see
- Ramzan, N., & Amjad, N. (2017). *Cross Cultural Variation in Emotion Regulation: A Systematic Review*. *Annals of King Edward Medical University*, 23(1).



Quantitative Research in cross-cultural psychology—and in psychology in general—involves measurement of certain aspects of human activity from a comparative perspective. The variables chosen for examination have to be studied empirically, primarily through observation as opposed to other forms of reflection, such as intuition, beliefs, or superstitions. Because cross-cultural psychologists are interested in establishing similarities, differences, and other statistical relationships that occur between two or among several variables, the most common data are measures of central tendency. The measure of central tendency indicates the location of a score distribution on a variable; that is, it describes where most of the distribution is located. There are three measures of central tendency: the mode, the median, and the mean. Numerical data is collected and analysed. Research explores relationship between variables that are Independent (single or multi-levelled) and Dependent (single or multiple). Analysis may permit exploration of an interaction between variables. Comparing samples from two or more cultures, subcultures and societies on a variable(s) of interest using quantitative measures such as scales and structured questionnaires is standard method in quantitative research. Quantitative Research is considered to have as its main purpose the quantification of data. This allows generalizations of results from a sample to an entire population of interest and the measurement of the incidence of various views and opinions in each sample.

For example, measuring support for democracy, character strengths or well being across nations are examples of quantitative studies. One such study is: Universality of the triangular theory of love: Adaptation and psychometric properties of the Triangular Love Scale in 25 countries by P Sorokowski, A Sorokowska, M Karwowski, A Groyecka, T Aavik, et al. The Journal of Sex Research 58 (1), 106-115.

Another quantitative study comparing countries is:

- Human Flourishing in Cross Cultural Settings. Evidence from the United States, China, Sri Lanka, Cambodia, and Mexico.

<https://www.frontiersin.org/articles/10.3389/fpsyg.2019.01269/full>

Module 30: Field Studies of Cultures & Societies

Field study is the process of observing and collecting data about people, cultures, and natural environments without doing a lab experiment or a survey. It is a qualitative research method suited to an interpretive framework rather than to the scientific method. To conduct field research across different cultures, one must be willing to step into new environments and observe, participate, or experience those worlds.



In the two photos above, you can see two different societies, civilians raising voice together for a cause.

Similarly, In the photo below it is clearly a student gathering demanding a peaceful educational environment on campus. These show group behaviour. Cross cultural studies can also compare smaller numbers like mother-child interactions or family environment in home settings.



A field study takes place in the subject's natural environment, whether a coffee shop or tribal village, a homeless shelter or the DMV, a hospital, airport, mall, or beach resort. Field work is optimal for observing *how* people behave across different cultures. It is less useful, however, for understanding *why* they behave that way.

The photo below captures a memorial for victims of Naga Saki and Hiroshima, when America unleashed nuclear bomb in Japan. This was taken in Calgary, Canada by me personally when I was visiting Canada. People from all nationalities were present showing empathy and human concern for a horrific crime in history. We may infer that in world of today, globally citizens condemn crimes against humanity committed in history. But this will be only an inference based on observation not quantitative investigation.



Field studies provide rich observational data.

This picture below shows Pakistani students addressing an award ceremony in USA after winning an innovation competition. Someone studying achievement or joy at achievement across cultures may observe that winning a competition is valued across cultures and a sense of elation and joy is reported or observed on such occasions.

You cannot create experience. You must undergo it.

ALBERT CAMUS (TWENTIETH CENTURY)—FRENCH NOVELIST, PHILOSOPHER, AND JOURNALIST



Module 31: Rationale for Field Studies

For cross-cultural psychologist, field studies create opportunities for first-hand experiences and encourage critical thinking. Learning from field studies is retained long-term and has greater transfer potential. This means that this learning can be used in other situations for comparison. Field studies foster positive attitudes towards science and appreciation for nature. These lead to increased scientific curiosity about characteristics of Cultures that can be described as having both explicit and implicit characteristics. Moreover, field studies are useful in creating cultural sensitivity.

Travel restrictions and social distancing practices put in place in response to the COVID-19 pandemic have largely ground field research to a halt. Fieldwork plays an essential and vital role, often underappreciated, by bringing important local perspectives to the fore and helping to contextualize conflicts within their wider ecosystems and societal and cultural realities. No other method offers quite the same kind of closeup lens on everyday life. Cross cultural psychologists can obtain very detailed data about people and processes of different cultures. It is more detailed than using any other method. There are not many field studies in Psychology yet in Pakistan hence psychologists need to unmask this dimension.

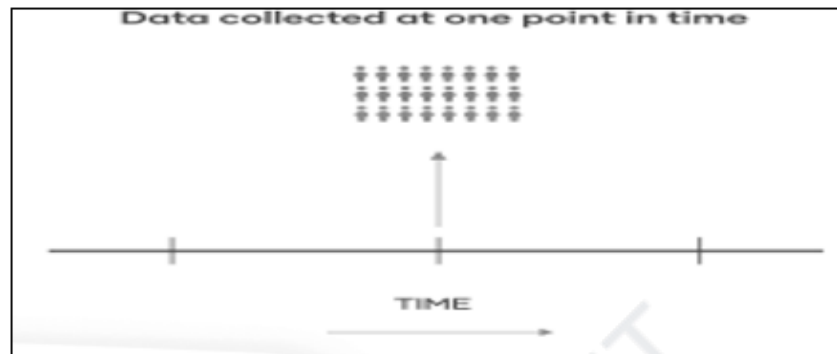
Lesson 8

RESEARCH METHODS-I

Module: 32-37Module 32: Cross Sectional Studies

The cross-sectional studies are a type of observational research in which data is analysed of variables collected at one given point in time across a sample population. It does not involve conducting experiments. The variables are observed without manipulating them.

Data is collected from many different individuals at a single point in time.



To examine the prevalence of some outcome at a certain moment in time, a cross-sectional study is the best choice. Cross-sectional studies are cheaper and less time-consuming than many other types of research. These can be used to describe characteristics that exist in a community, societies and across various cultures.

In Cross Cultural Psychology, it allows researchers to look at numerous characteristics at once (age, income, gender, etc.). It is often used to look at the prevailing characteristics in each population across various cultures. It can provide information about what is happening in a current population. The examples of quantitative studies in Lesson 7 are also cross-sectional studies.

Module 33: Big Data Studies

Big data studies are a combination of structured, semi-structured and unstructured data collected by organizations. This can be mined for information used in machine learning projects, predictive modelling and other advanced analytics applications.

Big data studies in Cross- cultural psychology are often characterized by the three V's:

- the large **volume** of data in many environments
- the wide **variety** of data types frequently stored in big data systems
- the **velocity** at which much of the data is generated, collected and processed

Big Data Studies in Cross- cultural Psychology explore similarities and diversity across societies and cross-cultural research to understand and analyse cultural and sub-cultural practices and to identify and comprehend both the similarities and differences of people's behaviors, emotions, motivations, and thoughts across cultures.

Module 34: Experimental Designs

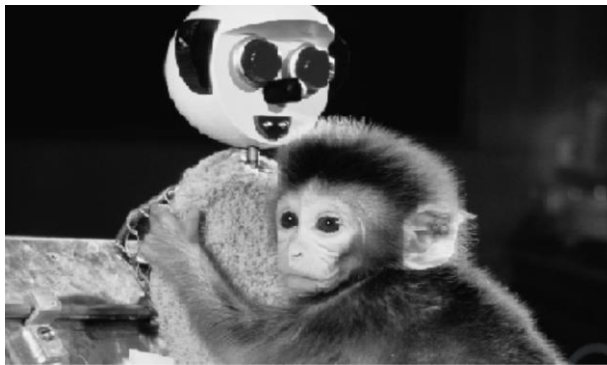
An experiment is a scientific procedure to support or refute a hypothesis or to determine the efficacy and likelihood of something previously untried (e.g. in medical science, pharmacy, or

cross-cultural psychology). Experiments provide insight into cause-and-effect by demonstrating what outcome occurs when a particular factor is manipulated.

In Cross-cultural Psychology, an experiment is a set of actions and observations across cultures performed in the context of solving a particular problem or question to support or falsify a hypothesis or research concerning cultural phenomena (e.g. “If someone falls by the road someone will stop to help them” This experiment was first started in America when someone stabbed a girl kitty with the knife, she kept screaming but no one came to help her then the social researchers developed these experiments). Many experimental studies have been conducted in the field of Psychology. However, not all have compared the findings across cultures.

Two significantly important and often cited experiments are:

Attachment of Infants by Harlow in the 1950’s. This study established that infant monkeys formed an attachment with a surrogate inanimate figure in the absence of a mother.



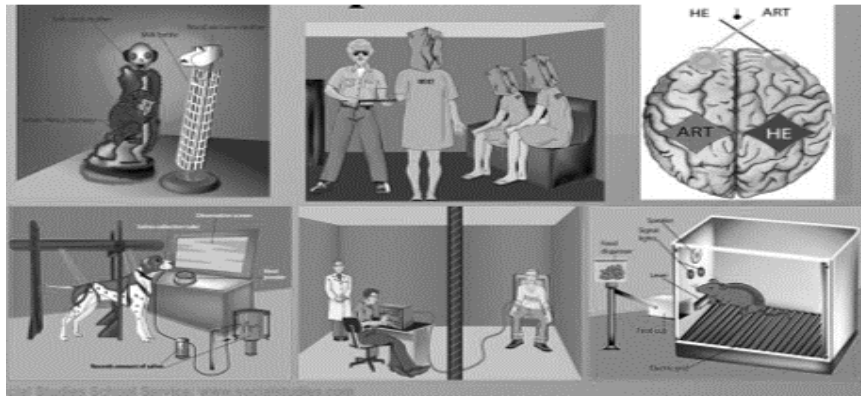
The study by Watson and his colleague’s called ‘Little Albert’ was conducted in the 1920’s. It was carried out to examine the conditioning of fear in toddlers. These have not been replicated in other cultures but have been cited often to explain the phenomenon of fear and explored in therapy worldwide whether a child had a traumatic experience with an object before he or she developed a fear of a certain object person or situation. Hence the finding has been accepted in the scientific community across many cultures.

There are the following types of experiments:

- 1) Quasi Experiment (study whatever is already happening in real life)
- 2) Field (if a team is playing and you started music to study how much it affects their motivation)
- 3) Lab experiments

In later modules, we will learn about more cross-cultural experimental studies that investigated a particular phenomenon through experiments across two or more societies.

We will now discuss the type of experiments in detail.



Module 35: Quasi Experiments

The quasi experiments are also called Natural experiments. It involves making a prediction or forming a hypothesis then gathering data by observing a system. The variables are not controlled in these experiments (e.g. you study the behavior of booking shopping before school opening). So, these are conducted in the everyday (i.e. real life) environment of the participants. For example, Hodges and Tizard's attachment research (1989) compared the long-term development of children who have been adopted, fostered or returned to their mothers with a control group of children who had spent all their lives in their biological families.



Strengths of Quasi Experiments:

- Behaviour in a natural experiment is more likely to reflect real life because of its natural setting
- There is less likelihood of demand characteristics affecting the results
- Can be used in situations in which it would be ethically unacceptable to manipulate the independent variable, e.g. researching stress.

Limitations of Quasi Experiments:

- They may be more expensive and time consuming than lab experiments.
- There is no control over extraneous variables that might bias the results.

Module 36: Field Experiments

Field experiments use experimental design that occur in a natural setting. Researchers examine how the manipulation of at least one independent variable leads to a change in a dependent variable in the context of the natural environment.

A field experiment may be either a natural experiment or a controlled experiment. The degree of control is far less than that in laboratory experiments. It takes place in a real-world setting,

rather than under lab conditions for example, an experiment involving an animal in its natural habitat would be a field experiment.

1) The Stanford Prison Experiment

In 1971; Philip Zimbardo conducted an experiment in this experiment it was told that people would be involved in memory experiments (which was a lie) but in reality, they randomly assigned people the role of guards, and a few were assigned the role of prisoners. The study showed how ordinary people could engage in cruel behavior when placed in positions of power or control, and how those under authority could become passive or traumatized.



Strengths:

- Behavior in a field experiment is more likely to reflect real life because of its natural setting,
- There is less likelihood of demand characteristics affecting the results

Limitation:

There is less control over extraneous variables

Module 37: Lab Experiments

Lab experiments are controlled experiments conducted under highly controlled conditions (not necessarily a laboratory) where accurate measurements are possible (e.g. in lie detector tests). An experimental group is compared with a control group.

The researcher decides:

- where the experiment will take place
- at what time
- with which participants
- in what circumstances
- using a standardized procedure

Some examples of classic lab experiments are Milgram and Ivan Pavlov's dog experiments.

Strengths:

- It is easier to replicate (i.e. copy) a laboratory experiment. This is because a standardized procedure is used
- They allow for precise control of extraneous and independent variables. This allows a cause-and-effect relationship to be established.

Limitations:

- The artificiality of the setting may produce unnatural behavior that does not reflect real-life
- It would not be possible to generalize the findings to a real-life setting.
- Demand characteristics or experimenter effects may bias the results

Lesson 09

RESEARCH METHODS-II

Module: 38-40Module 38: Measurement Scales

Measurement scales are those scales through which data is collected. There are 4 types of measurement scales:

- 1) Nominal Scale
- 2) Ordinal Scale
- 3) Interval Scale
- 4) Ratio Scale

- 1) **Nominal scale**, in which an object is classified by using the list of categories. For example, people get mail offer orders with categories like No response, purchase and pay, purchase but return the product, purchase but neither pay nor return. Such data is called categorical data.
- 2) **Ordinal scale**, assign value to objects with respect to their ranking with each other. For example, a doctor used a scale of 0 to 10 to indicate the degree of improvement. In which 0 indicates no improvement, 10 indicates disappearance of condition.
- 3) **Interval scale**, which represents distance. For example, the Fahrenheit and Celsius scale.
- 4) **Ratio scale** the scores reflect the true amount of the present variable, and zero truly means that zero amount of the variable is present. 4 means double than 2. 1 means a bit more than 0. Used for measurement of behaviors.

Module 39: Major Steps for Preparation of a Cross-Cultural Research

Major steps for preparation of Cross-Cultural Research:

Step 1: Describe a problem you must investigate and review the scholarly literature on the topic.

Step 2: Identify your research goal. Then introduce one or several hypotheses for your study. For this, you can use at least two strategies. A) Inductive B) Deductive.

Step 3: Identify and describe the research sample of your study

Step 4: Choose or design a methodology for your project.

Step 5: Conduct a pilot study to see how your methodology works and whether there are any obstructions to data collection.

Step 6: Collect research data.

Step 7: Interpret your data using statistical procedure.

Step 8: Present the results and analyze them critically in a report.

Step 9: In your report suggest where and how your data should be or could be used.

Module 40: Sampling and Its Types

Sampling means you choose the number of people or groups from whom you have to collect data for research. Samples in scientific research are divided along two lines: **probability** (Representative samples) and **non-probability** samples.

1) **Probability Samples** mean every person has an equal chance of selection. It is the representative of the population. They provide the most valid or credible results. They reflect

the characteristics of the population from which they are selected e.g., residents of a particular community, students at an elementary school, etc.

There are two types of probability samples:

1. Random
2. Stratified

Random Sampling is when a large sample of countries or groups is randomly chosen, that is, any country or group has an equal chance of being selected in the research sample.

Stratified Sample:

- It is a mini reproduction of the population.
- Before sampling, the population is divided into characteristics of importance for the research.
- For example, by gender, social class, education level, religion, etc
- Stratified samples are as good as or better than random sample
- They require detailed advanced knowledge of the population characteristics
- They are more difficult to construct



2) Non-Probability (non-representative) sampling means that each sample group is not equally likely to be selected.

One strategy in non-probability sampling is availability or convenience sampling, in which the researcher chooses a culture by chance or, most likely, because of the researcher's professional or personal contacts in the country in which the samples are selected. For instance, if you have a former classmate and good friend working as a professional psychologist in India, will you hesitate to collaborate with her in a comparative study?

Non-probability samples are less desirable than probability samples as they are limited with regards to generalization. Convenience or availability samples are used when a researcher may not be able to obtain a random or stratified sample, or it may be too expensive. Also, a researcher may not care about generalizing to a larger population. Other types of non-probability samples are **Quota sample** and **Purposive sample**.

In **Quota Sample** the researcher deliberately sets the proportions of levels or strata within the sample. The proportions may or may not differ dramatically from the actual proportion in the population. The researcher sets a quota, independent of population characteristics.

Example: A researcher is interested in the attitudes of members of different religions towards the death penalty. In Iowa a random sample might miss Muslims (because there are not many in that state). To be sure of their inclusion, a researcher could set a quota of 3% Muslim for the sample. However, the sample will no longer be representative of the actual proportions in the population. This may limit generalizing to the state population. But the quota will guarantee that the views of Muslims are represented in the survey.

**Purposive Sample:**

A purposive sample is a non-representative subset of some larger population. A researcher may have a specific group in mind such as therapy patients, bi-linguals, or high-level business executives. A subset of a purposive sample is a **snowball sample** -- so named because one picks up the sample along the way, analogous to a snowball accumulating snow.

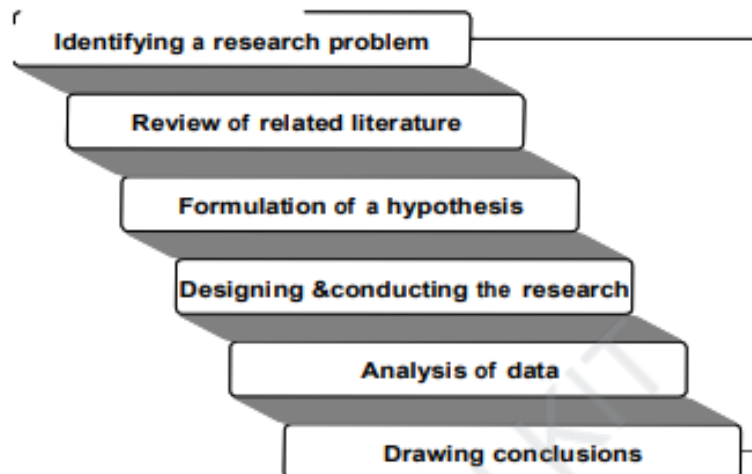


This is achieved by asking a participant to suggest someone else who might be willing or appropriate for the study. It is useful in hard-to-track populations, such as truants, drug users, etc.

Lesson 10

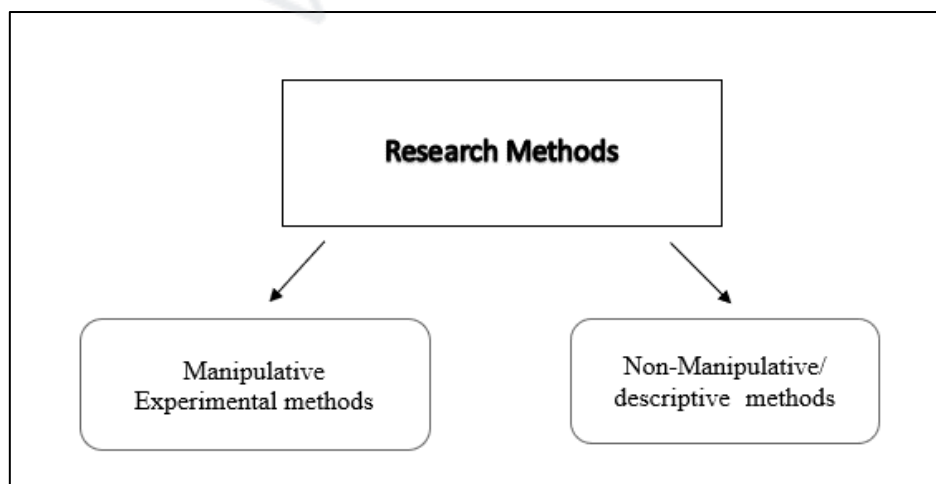
RESEARCH METHODS-III**Module: 41-43****Module 41: Manipulative and Non-Manipulative Research**

The scientific method is an approach practitioner of psychology use for assessing, measuring, and predicting behavior, employing a systematic and pre-defined series of steps or procedures in order to attain optimal efficiency, accuracy, and objectivity in investigation. This involves appropriately framing and properly answering questions.



Manipulative Method in research means that the researcher exercises control over the variables and events. This control is used for determining cause and effect relationships. Manipulating variables is usually done in an experimental setting.

Non-Manipulative Methods mean that the phenomenon of interest is studied the way it exists in nature. The researcher does not interfere with the events, and acts as a passive recorder. The goal is to observe and describe, not control or change hence ways of data collection are different.

**Module 42: Descriptive Research Methods**

Except for manipulative and non-manipulative research there are some other distinctions in research types:

- 1) Basic vs applied

- 2) Based on data collection
 - Qualitative vs Quantitative
- 3) Primary vs Secondary

Moreover, Descriptive research aims to accurately and systematically describe behaviour patterns, situation or another phenomenon. It is the appropriate choice for identifying characteristics, frequencies, trends and categories in a segment of population with focus on the who, what, and where, versus the why or how. Both quantitative and qualitative data can be used in descriptive research.



Methods of data collection are Observation using *structured or unstructured ways of recording and noting*, Survey, Case studies, *In-depth*, interviews, or secondary data such as Archival sources (e.g. newspapers). Focus group discussions are also a type of descriptive and qualitative method.



- Phenomenon of interest is observed, studied, and recorded.
- Recorded observations are analyzed.
- Conclusions are drawn on the basis of analysis.

Module 43: Types of Observation

Observation In Cross-Cultural Psychology

There are two types of observations:

- 1) Observation with intervention
- 2) Observation without intervention

1. Observation Without Intervention

Observation without intervention includes:

Naturalistic Observation

There is no interference by the observer. The observer may make narrative records, take field notes, use audio or video equipment or may use a combination of some or all strategies.

Participant Observation

The observer becomes a part of the situation; plays an active and significant role in the situation. Structured Observation is when the observer may “create” a situation or initiate it. Field studies are also participant observations.

Unobtrusive/ Indirect Ways of Data Collection

Sometimes the person that is the focus of interest may not be present at the time of investigation. This is used for supplementing information collected through observation. It is a replacement of observation in situations where direct observation is not possible. Unobtrusive measures of behavior include Archival data and Physical Trace. **Archival data** means already existing data such as records, documents, different forms of literature, newspaper items, photographs, movies, documentaries, biographies, and autobiographies. Letters and diaries are also such data that is unobtrusive. Narratives of other people like friends or followers are indirect ways of data collection about a person. Content analyses are also a part of archival data.

Physical Traces:

These have remained, remnants, fragments, objects and products of past behavior that are used as evidence. Physical traces can be of two types: Use traces and Products.

2. Observation With Intervention

Laboratory Observation creates a situation which does not occur frequently and tests the impact of variables on behavior. This way researchers gain access to a situation that is otherwise not accessible or open to observation.

Lesson 11

RESEARCH METHODS-IV**Module: 44-47****Module 44: Correlational Research**

Correlation Research is a method used for identifying predictive relationships among naturally occurring variables. Correlation Can be said to exist when two different measures of the same individuals, objects, or events vary together e.g. Relationship between I.Q. score and academic achievement or entry test marks and academic achievement. Correlation is a statistical concept. Correlation is the relationship between two or among several variables. If in one set of data, when variable X is low, variable Y is also low, and when variable X is high, variable Y is also high, we have a positive correlation between the variables. If, according to another data set, when variable A is low, variable B is high, and when variable A is high, variable B is low, we have a negative correlation. Zero correlation means there is no connection between variables. In correlational research surveys, psychometric scores like emotional intelligence, IQ, states, and demographic characteristics (age, income) are also used.

Module 45: Surveys and Source of Data in Surveys

Surveys are the most frequently used method for obtaining information quickly and evaluating people's interest, liking, disliking and opinions without indulging in long- term procedures and techniques. It is also easily used because it is a less costly method, and a large amount of information can be gathered without much difficulty. Surveys consist of presenting a series of questions or statements to the participants and asking them to respond. Surveys are used when quick information is required in a limited time e.g. opinion polls, product preference. Also, useful when information is required from many people e.g. population census. These are more suitable when the goal of the study is to find out about public opinion, attitudes, preferences, traits, behaviour trends.

Moreover, surveys are conducted in several ways, the most common of which is face-to-face and telephone. In face-to-face surveys, the interviewer can see the respondents who are usually at their residences or workplaces, but not exclusively there. Telephone surveys although there is no visual contact between the respondent and the researcher are also based on direct interaction. This type of survey is usually the least expensive one and can be successfully used in places where there is unlimited access of the population to telephones. One of the most common difficulties of surveys is a researcher's inability to identify those respondents who are not honest in their responses.

There are also direct and indirect surveys. In direct surveys, the interviewer maintains or can maintain direct communication with the respondent and is able to provide feedback, repeat a question, or ask for additional information. In indirect surveys, the researcher's personal impact is very small because there is no direct communication between the respondent and the interviewer. The questions are typically written and handed in, mailed, or sent electronically to the respondents in their homes, classrooms, or workplaces.

Sources of Data/Information in Surveys: Questionnaires: in person, mailed, internet Interviews: personal, telephonic Newspaper Survey. Google forms on other on-line questionnaire design applications are now very frequently used by researchers.

Module 46: Steps Involve in Conducting Surveys

There are mainly five steps, which are essential while conducting surveys:

- ***Conceiving the Problem:*** The purpose of the study must be carefully thought out and precisely defined. How is the information to be used? From whom it is obtained? What kind of information is to be gathered etc.
- ***Designing the Instrument:*** There are numerous ways by which information can be gathered from the public such as mailed questionnaires, telephonic interviews, through internet etc. It must be carefully thought which procedure is most effective in obtaining the needed information.
- ***Sampling the Population:*** The problem of obtaining a representative sample of the population is one of the most difficult as well as significant in the field of measuring popular reactions. The sample to be studied must be drawn in such a manner everyone has an equal chance of being selected, and that the drawing of one does not influence the chances of any other being drawn. With this procedure, each age, sex, income, religious and ethnic group in the population will be proportionately represented in the sample. Of course there are a few ways of properly drawing a sample.
- ***Conducting Interviews:*** Even when the questions are carefully worded and carefully designed, a poor interviewer can bias the results. Experiments have shown that females are the best interviewers: at least 21 years of age, who like people, who are unbiased, who are good listeners, who have some college education, and who are familiar with the section they are working in.
- ***Interpreting the Results:*** Even when all the findings are carried out properly, there is always a chance of misinterpreting the results. Errors in questionnaires, statistical methods, and investigator's own subjectivity can easily bias the results.

Limitation of Survey:

- Can not identify the lies of participants.
- Cultural differences can also cause hindrances.

Module 47: Types of variables

A variable (changeable) refers to a person, place, thing, or phenomenon that you are trying to measure in some way. A quantitative study usually holds 3 types of variables:

1. Independent Variable
2. Dependent Variable
3. Control Variable

1. Independent Variable (IV): The variable whose impact is being studied; that is manipulated...in terms of kind or level.

Examples:

- I. How does the amount of sleep impact test scores?
IV: Time spent sleeping before the exam
DV: Test Score
- II. What is the effect of fast food on blood pressure?
IV: Consumption of fast food
DV: Blood Pressure

2. Dependent Variable (DV): The measure of behavior on which the impact of independent variable is being studied

3. Control Variable (CV): A potential independent variable that can have an impact upon dependent variable; it has to be controlled.

Example:

Does caffeine improve memory recall?

CV: Participant Age

Noise in the environment

type of memory test

VU TOOLKIT

Lesson 12

QUALITATIVE APPROACHE IN CROSS-CULTURE PSYCHOLOGY**Module: 48-51****Module 48: Analyses of Qualitative Data**

Content-Analysis: The researcher usually examines transcripts of conversations or interviews, television or radio programs, letters, newspaper articles, and other forms of data as a part of archival research. Systematically categorizes and analyzes the content of the behavior or its related aspects. Inferences are made and then conclusions are drawn after objective identification of specific characteristics of contents. Content analysis is done by keeping specific goals, objectives, themes, and constructs in mind.

Analysis may also cover:

- Contents of live human behavior
- Books
- Journals
- Magazines
- Poetry
- Drama
- Movies
- Folktales,
- TV programs,
- School Textbooks And
- Curricula, advertisements etc.

Example:

- Content analysis of textbooks with reference to gender equity and equality
- Analysis of TV programs with reference to portrayal of women.

Steps to run qualitative content analysis are:

1. Identify and collect the data
2. Transcription of interviews
3. Coding to analyze the qualitative data
4. Extraction of themes and sub themes
5. Compiling results and writing up

Grounded Theory (GT)

It is a research method concerned with the generation of theory which is 'grounded' in data that has been systematically collected and analyzed. This method is used to uncover such things as social relationships and behaviors of groups, known as social processes.

Features of GT:

- Data collection and analysis occur simultaneously.
- Categories and analytic codes are developed from data.
- Theoretical sampling is used to refine categories.
- Abstract categories are constructed inductively.
- Social processes are discovered in the data.

- Analytical memos are used between coding and writing.
- Categories are integrated into a theoretical framework

Module 49: Focus Group Methodology and Meta Analyses

In this variety of interviews are conducted in a group setting. For example, a water company conducted focus group to analyze either people will buy water bottles or not. Focus-group methodology is used intensively both in academic and marketing research. The principal advantage of this method is the opportunity to analyze social, gender, and ethnic discourse on some issues in depth: for example, whether a particular fashion product would have any success among a certain ethnic group or whether a psychotherapeutic procedure would be “working” for several cultural groups. The most common use of this method is a procedure in which a group responds to specific social, political, or marketing messages. The typical focus group contains 7–10 participants. Based on the goal of specific research, the group could be either homogeneous or heterogeneous (ethnically, nationally, professionally, etc.). However, the use of focus-group methodology presents a number of problems for cross-cultural psychologists because these groups do not usually represent randomly selected samples. Also, due to the lack of external validity of any particular focus-group outcome, specialists agree that the validity of the focus-group method in general and in cross-cultural psychology, in particular, rests on the repetition of findings across different groups (Kern & Just, 1995).

In a study using the focus group method, a variety of interviews are conducted in a group setting. The researcher talks to the participants using a pre-developed thematic guideline of queries and learns about their opinions, attitudes, preferences, and experiences. Focus group data can be analyzed via constant comparison analysis especially when there are multiple focus groups within the same study. This allows the focus group researcher to assess saturation in general and across-group saturation in particular.

- **Meta Analysis**

Meta Analyses is a statistics-based method. It is a way of reviewing existing research literature in the same field, about the same phenomena. The analysis covers the results of several independent experiments within the same field. Computer-aided statistical analysis yields overall conclusions. It is presented in the form of a table.

Module 50: Contribution of Cross-Cultural Research to Psychology

According to Matsumoto, culture is very important in understanding human behavior. Matsumoto realize that culture played a basic and important role in understanding and contributing to human behavior as did any other influence on our lives, and to gradually understand its pervasive and profound influence on psychological processes in all areas of functioning. There are at least three major areas of contributions that cross-cultural research has made to psychology:

1. Contributions to knowledge
2. Contributions to the critical thinking process
3. The identification of the psychological factors underlying inter and intra-cultural adjustment.

1) Knowledge

Findings from cross-cultural research have clearly impacted all areas of psychology. It has informed us of cultural similarities and differences in attachment, child rearing, and

development; in self-concepts and personality; in thinking, perceiving, reasoning, and problem solving; in emotion, motivation, and morality; in social and organizational behavior. Indeed, cross-cultural research has contributed to knowledge in just about every other major area of psychological inquiry (Matsumoto, 2001).

These contributions are extremely important because they help create a universal psychology that is inclusive of many people of diverse backgrounds, not just people from a single culture or two who traditionally comprised the subject pools from which research participants were recruited. As cross-cultural research has flourished and new findings have gained recognition, more theories are increasingly incorporating culture. While many classic findings remain classics to this day, such as findings on the universality of facial expressions, the relationship between language and thought, and some developmental processes, many other traditional notions of psychological processes have been modified to include culture. Thus, we know that conceptions of self are culturally bound as are the concrete manifestations of many psychopathological states. These developments are incredibly vital to psychology, and cross-cultural research has played an immensely important role in facilitating them.

2) Critical Thinking/Scientific Philosophy

A second contribution that cross-cultural research has made to psychology is in the area of critical thinking and scientific philosophy. To me, cross-cultural research itself is an example of critical thinking because it asks the all-important question "is what I know to be true for one cultural group also true for another?" By asking this question and conducting studies to test it, cross-cultural research in and of itself naturally facilitates the constant challenging of and scepticism toward one's truths and knowledge. By engaging in cross-cultural research, one is always engaging in critical thinking about the state of the field. The implication of cross-cultural research to critical thinking is related to the concept of scientific philosophy, that is, the logic underlying our science.

Module 51: Psychological Engine Adjustment

3) Identification of the "Psychological Engine" of Adjustment

The third major contribution of the cross-cultural approach is in elucidating the process of adjustment both between and within cultures. Cross-cultural psychologists have studied this topic for years and many important findings have emerged (Berry, Kim, & Boski, 1988; Ward, 2001; Ward & Kennedy, 1993, 1996; Ward & Kennedy, 1999; Ward & Rana-Deuba, 2000). Over the last six years Matsumoto and his colleagues study the factors that can predict intercultural adjustment success and the potential for that success. Using a scale called the ICAPS (Intercultural Adjustment Potential Scale), we have been able to predict the intercultural adjustment of Japanese students, businesspersons, and housewives; Americans; Swedes; Central and South Americans; and Indians using a variety of outcome measures including self-reports of subjective adjustment, peer ratings, interviewer ratings, and behavioral assessments (Matsumoto, LeRoux, Iwamoto et al., 2001; Matsumoto, LeRoux, Ratzlaff et al., 2001). The ICAPS can predict adjustment and adjustment-related behaviours above and beyond that already predicted by personality and by emotion recognition, one of the most stable components of emotional intelligence (Matsumoto, LeRoux, Bernhard, & Gray, 2001). Most importantly, his research has allowed us to identify the "psychological engine" of adjustment. These are the psychological skills necessary to live and succeed in a diverse, multicultural

environment. Factor analyses of normative data on the ICAPS involving over 2,500 individuals have given us insight concerning what those skills are:

1. Emotion regulation
2. Openness
3. Flexibility
4. Creativity
5. Critical thinking
6. Autonomy.

The most important is emotion regulation (ER). Empirically, ER is always the most consistent and strongest predictor of all adjustment indices measured in all our studies. Theoretically, individuals need to be able to regulate their emotions, especially negative ones that arise because of inevitable intercultural conflict, to allow them to engage in creative and critical thinking about alternative ways of understanding the world. ER also allows for the incorporation of new cognitive schemas that are produced based on one's ability to accommodate to cultural differences. And most importantly, the fact that ER has been empirically shown to be the best predictor of adjustment in a wide variety of cultural samples suggests that its importance is universal.

Lesson 13

ETHICAL ISSUES IN CROSS-CULTURAL RESEARCH**Module: 52-54****Module 52: Ethical Principles for Conducting Research with Human Participants**

The Standing Committee on Ethics in Research with Human Participants has now completed its revision of the Ethical Principles for Research with Human Subjects. The new 'Ethical Principles for Conducting Research with Human Participants have been approved by the Council.

Meaning and Need for Ethics

Professional Ethics are a moral framework that is applied to a narrow group of people such as doctors, educationists, or psychologists. The scientific knowledge possesses a double-edged potential, i.e., having both positive and negative impact on the society. This poses an ethical concern for scientists across all the fields. Particularly, psychologists using powerful scientific tools for tackling significant societal issues, must be aware and alert others regarding the potential abuse in research along with its positive impact. (American Psychological Association, 1982, P. 16)

Ethics Code

This code provides a common set of principles and standards upon which psychologists build their professional and scientific work. Ethics Code is intended to provide specific standards to cover most situations encountered by psychologists.

How to Ensure Ethical Conduct

Given the importance of ethics for the conduct of research, it should come as no surprise that many different professional associations, government agencies, and universities have adopted specific codes, rules, and policies relating to research ethics.

Ethics Monitoring Bodies

- ❖ Government agencies:
 - National Institutes of Health (NIH)
 - American Society for Clinical Laboratory Science
 - American Psychological Association
 - Statement on Professional Ethics (American Association of University Professors).
- ❖ Monitoring bodies Pakistan
 - Pakistan Medical Association
 - Higher Education Commission
 - Pakistan Psychiatric Association
 - Pakistan Psychological Association
 - Board of Studies in Psychology

Rights of Participants

- Right to withdraw
- Informed consent
- Confidentiality
- Anonymity

Rights to Withdraw

- Participants should be allowed to decline to participate or to withdraw at any time.

- People who are unhappy about participating should have the freedom to withdraw.

Informed Consent

- Informed Consent is a voluntary agreement to participate in research.
- Obtaining consent involves informing the subject about his or her rights, the purpose of the study, the procedures to be followed, and the potential risks and benefits of participation. The ethical researcher informs participants, prior to participation, of all aspects of the research that might reasonably be expected to influence willingness to participate and explains all other aspects of the research about which participants inquire.
- This means that the participants must be forewarned about those aspects of the research that may have detrimental effects. Participants are rarely misled as to the nature of the experiences they will have during the experiment. Furthermore, an experimenter usually states the purpose of the experimental procedure truthfully.

Confidentiality

- Confidentiality refers to the condition in which the researcher knows the identity of a research subject but take steps to protect that identity from being discovered by others.
- Sometimes one ethical principle is sacrificed for another. For example, to protect welfare of the participant, confidentiality may have to be given up.

Anonymity

- Anonymity means that responses or performance given by the participant is not traceable to them.
- Their identity is not disclosed. In some instances, the identity of participants is not known to researchers even.

Deception and Debriefing

Researchers especially experimenters sometimes mislead participants about the true purpose of an experiment. This false description is often referred to as a “**cover story**.” This kind of deception is usually done to control the subject’s *reactivity* to the procedures of the research. Debriefing is a crucial component for any research involving the use of deception or incomplete disclosure. Debriefing occurs when subjects are given the full explanation of how and why subjects were deceived, and the true hypotheses being tested by the research is also revealed.

How Deception is Inevitable?

Let us consider an example.

People responding on a word association test may only give spontaneous response when not talked about the true purpose of experiment, i.e., to study the underlying thoughts. Instead, they are told that the purpose of the experiment is to test their verbal reaction time. The researcher is concerned that participants’ behavior might change if they knew the real purpose of the experiment, thus effecting the results of the study.

It should be noted that people must be warned if the procedure will place them in danger of physical or psychological harm. Deception in such cases is clearly **unethical**. When a procedure involves only minor risks, the decision regarding full disclosure to participants becomes more difficult.

Welfare of Human Subjects

Welfare is assured through many steps. At all times any distress to subject or lasting effects that may be undesirable are weighed against the benefits gained from the experiment.

Debriefing and Protection from Harm

At the end of an experiment studying participants with depression, the researcher can provide the participants with a list of phone numbers of people who could be contacted in the unlikely event that the subject experience severe depression following the experiment. The list of contact can include the principal investigator, a counsellor, or a competent psychotherapist. The researcher himself can also contact the participants 1-2 days following the experiment to ensure their safe health.

Debriefing also helps in avoidance with harm. Informing participants regarding the true nature of the study and allowing them to ask questions helps them in understanding that the effects of the study were only temporary.

Protection from Harm

Psychologists take reasonable steps to avoid harming their clients/patients, students, supervisees, research participants, organizational clients, and others with whom they work, and to minimize harm where it is foreseeable and unavoidable.

Psychologists do not participate in, facilitate, assist, or otherwise engage in torture, defined as any act by which severe pain or suffering, whether physical or mental, is intentionally inflicted on a person, or in any other cruel, inhuman, or degrading behavior.

If a participant could suffer long-term consequences because of serving in a research project, the investigator has the responsibility for removing harmful consequences.

Module 53: Ethical Principles

Ethics; a branch of philosophy dealing with moral problems and moral judgments. It refers to “the evaluation of human actions”, assigning judgments to behaviour as “right” or “wrong” and “good” or “bad” according to some *socially accepted guideline* (White, 1999). Since social cultures are different, therefore, it is of immense importance to consider ethical guidelines and their varying nature which may exist across these cultures. To describe an act as “ethical” has little meaning unless grounded in some foundational understanding of what is good (Robertson & Walter, 2007), i.e., defining what is good and what is bad?

As Mark Twain once said,

“Always do right, this will gratify some people and astonish the rest”.

The APA’s publication Ethical Principles of Psychologists and Code of Conduct was revised in 2017. Its basic principle states the following:

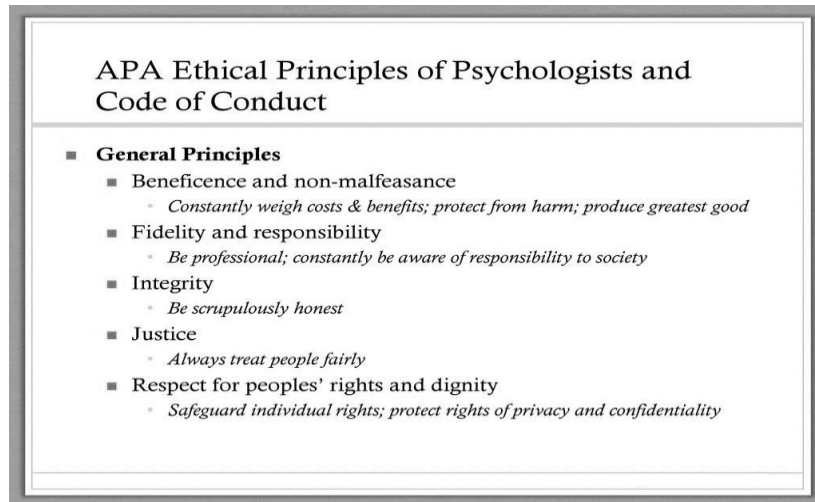
“All psychologists must strive to benefit those with whom they work and take care to do no harm.”

- **Beneficence & Non-Maleficence**

The first principle states that “In their professional actions, psychologists seek to safeguard the welfare and rights of those with whom they interact professionally and other affected persons and the welfare of animal subjects of research.

In short, non-maleficence refers to respecting autonomy, acting justly and faithfully, and

according to dignity and beneficence refers to acting benevolently, pursuing excellence, acting accountably and courageously.



- **Fidelity & Responsibility**

Outlining the value of conscientiousness in the psychological practice and research, the second principle somewhat overlaps with the first one. It differs in the focus it has, moving into an overview of what to mind when working with our colleagues and within our work network.

- **Integrity**

The third principle summarizes what we are supposed not to do in our practice as researchers. Cases of manipulation, fraud, fabricating results and general scientific misconduct are not unheard of, affecting tremendously the field.

- **Justice**

The fourth principle states that “fairness and justice entitle all persons to access to and benefit from the contributions of psychology and to equal quality in the processes, procedures, and services being conducted by psychologists.”

- **Respect For People’s Rights and Dignity**

The fifth principle in a way encompasses the previous four, adding an emphasis on obtaining individual’s consent and protecting their confidentiality and privacy.

The Issues of informed consent and confidentiality are especially important in cross- cultural research, particularly in relation to protection from harm.

Points to Remember

The following points are to be considered when it comes to cross cultural research.

1. **Women and Consent**

When conducting research, you may come across cultures in which the males of the house make decisions on behalf of the females. Consent of a male against the participation of a female cannot be considered as this would not be ethical. The female, herself, should give consent for participation.

2. **Language and Meaning**

You’d be needing to develop and maintain documents in your cross-cultural research. You’d be giving consent forms to the participants to fill. It is important to ensure that the language used should not be alien to the participants and there should be no

ambiguity in the text. In short, every participant should be able to form the same meaning from the mentioned statements.

3. Cognitive Limitations

You may also come across participants which may show cognitive limitations. For example, if you've used difficult Urdu words such as used in Academics, in your forms, the participants who have never studied Urdu will not be able to understand it.

4. Data taken through others

Data may be collected on behalf of other people. For example, a police attendant can provide data, or a religious leader can provide data for his disciples. In such cases some individuals or small groups may remain identifiable. A researcher needs to ensure that the data is not used against the well being or welfare of these participants.

More Points to Remember

- Data protection is very important. As David Matsumoto pointed out, *'Just because a question can be asked, does not mean it should be asked!'*
- There are issues with human rights in some countries. What strategies should be adopted? How will the data be collected and interpreted in important to consider in such scenarios.
- It is also important to develop a culturally sensitive methodology. For example, in cultures which dislikes mingling of men and women, conducting an interview with females of that cultures by a male researcher would be considered insensitive. It is important to value and respect the culture of the participants.
- A researcher should also ensure that he/she is not promoting any stereotype of a culture when studying. A researcher should remain impartial and indifferent of these stereotypes to value and respect the culture.
- Remember, value given to the culture is directly related to respect of the participants.

Module 54: Research Data from Various Cultures

Cross-cultural research is comparative. It requires the collection of data from members of two or more cultures and the comparison of their data. Following is some of the issues which a cross-cultural researcher face:

1. Operationalization of culture; countries, ethnic, regions, i.e., how would a researcher define a culture?
2. Differences within cultures and differences across cultures. People from the same culture are not similar.
3. Linguistic, religious, and economic sub-groups
4. Arnett (2008) asserted that the conclusions of research conducted by American psychologists "are based not on a broad cross-section of humanity but on a small corner of the human population—mainly, persons living in the United States" (p. 602).
5. The term "WEIRD" is used often to refer to cross cultural samples that are predominantly from Western and English-speaking universities— a subset of the populations called WEIRD (Western, Educated, Industrialized, Rich, Democratic), Henrich, Heine, and Norenzayan (2010).

Lesson 14

CROSS-CULTURAL PERSPECTIVES ON INTERPERSONAL TOUCH AND MATE PREFERENCES

Module: 55-57

Module 55: Affective Interpersonal Touch in Close Relationships: A Cross-Cultural Perspective

Interpersonal Touch refers to how one individual touch another individual, for example, in our culture elders touch the heads of young ones to give blessings.

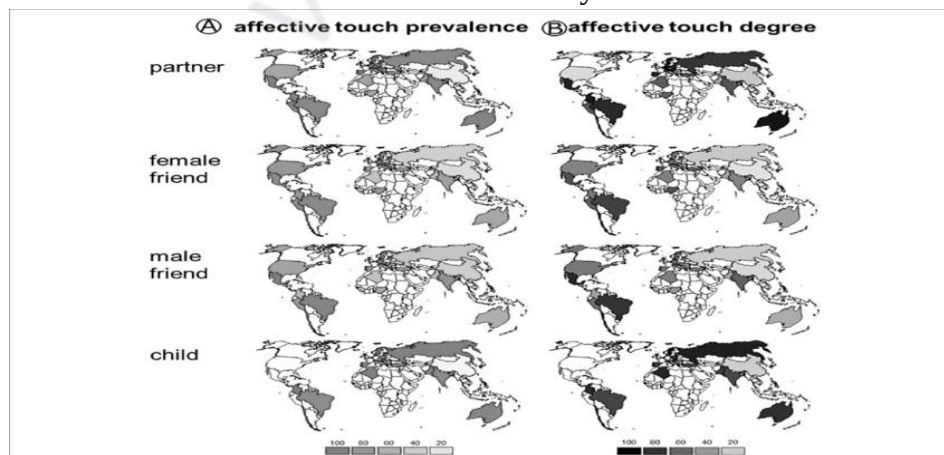
Interpersonal touch behavior differs across cultures, yet no study to date has systematically tested for cultural variation in affective touch, nor examined the factors that might account for this variability.

Over 14,000 individuals from 45 countries were asked whether they embraced, stroked, kissed, or hugged their partner, friends, and youngest child during the week, preceding the study. Researchers examined a range of hypothesized individual-level factors (sex, age, parasitic history, conservatism, religiosity, and preferred interpersonal distance) and cultural-level factors considered were:

- Regional temperature
- Parasite stress
- Regional conservatism
- Collectivism
- Religiosity

in predicting these affective-touching behaviors.

The results indicated that affective touch was most prevalent in relationships with partners and children. Its diversity was relatively higher in warmer, less conservative, and religious countries and among younger, female, and liberal people. This research allows for a broad and integrated view of the bases of cross-cultural variability in affective touch.



Module 56: Gender Differences in Personality

Gender differences in personality have been studied in many cultures. Such differences exist across cultures meaning that in every culture there are differences between men and women that are almost universal whereas there are gender differences that are more culture specific. We will point out the universal ones first.



Men are nurtured in a world in which a conversation is often a contest, best described by a metaphor. It has been pointed out that “*men and women communicate in very different ways*” (Deborah Tannen, *The Argument Culture*, 1999). The differences in communication between men and women can be explained by "different cultures hypothesis. However, in world of today, women and men live in the same physical and cultural environment therefore it is only metaphorically possible to say that they represent two different cultures.



Women are socialized into a more peaceful world where understanding and tolerance are norms rather than exceptions.



This raises the question whether women and men embody or represent two different cultures. John Gray says “*Men Are from Mars, Women Are from Venus* (1992). This is the title of his book referring to communication styles differences between men and women. Later he wrote another book ‘*Venus and Mars talking to each other*’ making the point that understanding can be built if we understand what the other gender means by something.



Studies also show that girls do more backbiting than boys who do more physical fights (in European samples). When we tested this on Pakistani young college students, we found out that there was no difference in backbiting between high school boys and girls! Although males were found to be more physically aggressive than females.



Hence, we can say that the "different culture hypothesis" is like the "different nature hypothesis:"

Men are different from women not only by their physiology but also by their psychological make-up.

Question arises:

Are men and women of the same culture different? Or are these differences caused by two subcultures, one for men and another for women?

Module 57: Sex Differences in Mate Preferences

Even in modern societies there are many values, attitudes and norms in which men and women differ from each other. Men and women also have different social orbits for example in many traditional cultures, they represent two different cultures. Women cannot visit houses where men live. They do not participate in rituals in which only men are actors. They do not know songs that are passed from fathers to their sons.

One interesting example is the preference for mates. **Mate preferences** in humans refers to why one human chooses or chooses not to mate with another human. Men and women have been observed having different criteria as what makes a good or ideal mate (gender differences).

What are the qualities we rely on when we are looking for a mate? Are these qualities same for men and women?

Buss and colleagues (1990) conducted a study of 37 cultures for mate preferences. Results show that in all studied cultures, female preferences for mates are governed by the need for

protection and economic stability and male preferences for mates are dominated by health (beauty) and age issues.

Evolutionarily speaking, these characteristics helped both men and women to flourish their generations. As for males, seeking a spouse which is beautiful creates attraction for him and a younger age increases the chance of him having off-springs. Similarly, females look for mates who are financially stable and competent to protect them.

The recent study conducted included a sample of 45 countries and 14,339 participants from around the worlds, including Pakistan. The purpose was to explore if the preferences for the mates have changed over the periods of time or not.

Following are the findings of this research:

- Support for universal sex differences in preferences remains robust.
- Men, more than women, prefer attractive and young mates.
- Women, more than men, prefer older mates with financial prospects.
- Cross-culturally, both sexes have mates closer to their own ages as gender equality increases.
- Beyond age of partner, neither pathogen prevalence nor gender equality predicted sex differences or preferences across countries.

Sexual dimorphism varies across cultures, Asian and African cultures showed the most and Western European samples showed the least of sexual dimorphism. North and South American cultures being intermediate in terms of male-female differences. The study of Buss and his collaborators is a convincing example of the transcultural universality of sexual selection patterns. Indeed, in general women look for status and men for beauty in almost every known culture.

Reference

- Walter, K. V., Conroy-Beam, D., Buss, D. M., Asao, K., Sorokowska, A., Sorokowski, P., ... & Zupančič, M. (2020). Sex differences in mate preferences across 45 countries: A large-scale replication. *Psychological science*, 31(4), 408-423. <https://doi.org/10.1177/0956797620904154>
- Sorokowska, A., Saluja, S., Sorokowski, P., Frąckowiak, T., Karwowski, M., Aavik, T., ... & Croy, I. (2021). Affective interpersonal touch in close relationships: A cross-cultural perspective. *Personality and Social Psychology Bulletin*, 47(12), 1705-1721. <https://journals.sagepub.com/doi/10.1177/0146167220988373>

Lesson 15

**METHODOLOGICAL CHALLENGES AND CONSIDERATIONS IN
CROSS-CULTURAL RESEARCH-I****Module: 58-61****Module 58: Methodological Considerations**

Below are some points which should be considered prior to conducting research in a cross-cultural capacity:

- **Adequate preparation prior to fieldwork**
Developing an understanding of a particular culture or society is very important.
- **Appropriateness of sampling**
Diversity in the sample is important to understand the culture properly.
- **Adequacy of data collection approach**
The approach should be relevant to the research.
- **Selection of consumers**
Behavior of the consumers vary from culture to culture.
- **Selection of social or cultural context**
Research should be planned around the cultural context of a particular society.
- **Practical and organizational skills**
Ethical and sensitivity issues

In describing research, authors should provide enough demographic information about the participants. This helps:

- (a) to allow valid interpretation of results
- (b) to generalize the results
- (c) to provide useful information for further research in the area

Demographic information includes variables like age, race or ethnicity, sex, and socioeconomic status. Race and ethnicity are not considered as useful explanatory constructs. But this information can be useful to put the results into context regarding to what groups the results might pertain to. Hence the importance of these variables in behavior is obvious. For example, results of brain imaging studies show that culture and age are associated with differences in neural processing (Apanovich, Bezdenezhnykh, Sams, Jääskeläinen, & Alexandrov, 2018; Park & Gutchess, 2006; Wang, 2016).

Another consideration in interpreting data is based on cultural category. Kim et al. (1999). People from Asian countries become familiar with the culture in the U.S. Their behaviors may change quickly. Attitudes may change slowly. So, in one sense, they become members of both cultures, with an outlook dependent on the degree to which they feel comfortable in both cultures (Benet-Martínez et al., 2002).

Module 59: Translation and Adaptation: An Example

Translation is simply a literal translation of content from one language to another. Adaptation takes translation one step further and modifies the content to make it culturally appropriate and accurate.

VIA - Values in Action is a classification of 24-character strengths grouped under six virtue categories.

Classification is claimed to be universal across cultures and religions (Peterson & Seligman, 2004)

Item examples

1. I admire things that look beautiful.
2. I am thankful for good things in my life.
3. I rarely plan things ahead.
4. Finishing what I start is important to me.
5. I am not afraid in situations of danger.



A measure that is, Values in Action Inventory of Strengths (VIA-IS) has been translated and validated in many languages. This study aimed at the Urdu translation and validation of this scale. The data was collected from Pakistani adults taken from different educational institutes and workplaces. Study comprised two parts.

Part I: Translation and Cross-Language Validation

Participants are given both English and Urdu version where scores are compared on both scales.

Part II: Construct Validation

The sample was 542 adults both males and females.

Mentioned below are the findings of this research:

- Satisfactory alpha coefficients for Urdu version.
- Significant positive correlations with positive affect and life satisfaction
- Negative correlations with negative affect were indicators of its convergent validity.
- Age was negatively associated with five strengths.
- Significant gender differences were found on seven strengths.
- Social desirability effects were non-significant.
- Strength-to-virtue level factor structure exploration resulted in a theoretically meaningful four factor structure, mentioned below:
 1. Interpersonal
 2. Cognitive
 3. Vitality
 4. Transcendence
- However, six factor structure was found in cultures foreign to ours.

The study offers a valid Urdu translation for use in future studies with adult Urdu speaking population.

Reference:

Anjum, A., & Amjad, N. (2020). Values in Action Inventory of Strengths (VIA-IS): Translation and validation in Urdu language. *Pakistan Journal of Psychological Research*, 35(1), 163–189. <https://doi.org/10.33824/PJPR.2020.35.1.10>

Module 60: A Hidden Obstacle of Cross-Cultural Studies: Test Translation

Many cross-cultural projects require translation from the researcher's language to another language. The difficult task is to make sure that the translated version of the method is as close to the original version as possible.

Even a well-translated version of a test is always different from the original one. Languages have dissimilar grammar rules and sentence structures. Some identical words may have different meanings for example the word “friend” in English and *amigo* in Spanish: Amigo is for male friend and Amiga for female friend. Some words require additional clarifications like word “cousin.”

In Arabic and Russian languages this word is translated in a particular way so that it always indicates the cousin's sex. An English version, however, does not typically specify who this person is: “he” or “she.” For example, Grand Father in English language does not specify whether he is from the mother's side or the father's side.

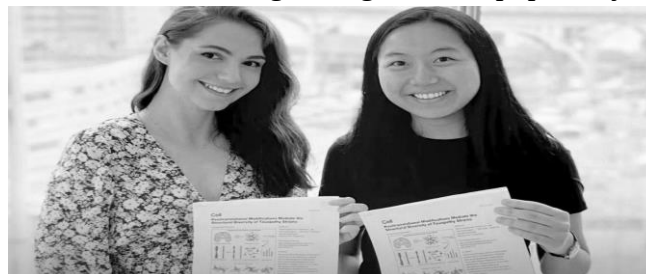
Generic rules for successful translation in cross-cultural studies:

1. Translation process from the beginning ought to be conducted by bilinguals.
2. Several people do translations so that there will be several versions of it that can then be compared and converted into one.
3. Both, original and translated, versions of a questionnaire can be administered on the same bilingual individuals.

If the investigator gets similar results on both versions, this is a good indicator that the translation was conducted successfully.

Module 61: Translation and Adaptation of Scales and Psychological Test across Cultures

Translation and adaptation of instruments or scales for cross-cultural research is very time-consuming and requires careful planning. There's also a thorough need to adopt a rigorous methodological approach to derive a reliable and valid measure. The use of multilingual versions of the same instrument is indeed growing with the popularity of tests.



When an instrument is adapted from one language to another, not only the literal meaning of the items should be preserved but also the connotative one (Hambleton, 2001). Therefore, translation into the new-language version of the test needs to be valid. In the target culture group, for test takers from that culture, a meaningful comparison should exist. This is called

construct equivalence. Equivalence (or lack of it) between multilingual versions of a test relates to several complex questions beyond a good adaptation. Does the construct exist in the target culture? Even if it does exist, is it defined and manifested in the same way in both cultures? Are the questions in the multilingual version measuring the same construct as the questions in the original test?

Traditional back translation (Brislin, 1980) has been widely used in cross-cultural assessment. A test is first translated from the original language to the target language. Then translated back to the original language by another, independent translator. Close similarity between the original version and the back-translated one suggests a good translation.

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Lesson 16

**METHODOLOGICAL CHALLENGES AND CONSIDERATIONS IN
CROSS-CULTURAL RESEARCH-II****Module: 62-65****Module 62: Application of Scales and Psychological Test Across Cultures**

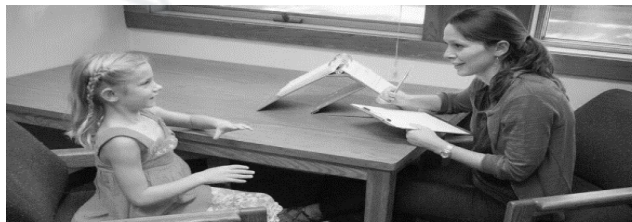
The development of tests is a very complex and time taking process. Once a test has been developed, it is utilized all over the world. This is because only a few countries have developed their own local tests. Majority of the developed tests are from Germany, USA, and England. Psychological tests and scales are widely used across various cultures as a method of assessment for many purposes such as:

- Employee selection and development
- Educational placement decisions
- Clinical and neuropsychological diagnoses
- Interpretations about brain and behavior
- Comparative research

Tests have been found to have substantial validity in aiding in various kinds of decision making in some cultures. Other cultures may wish to employ these measures, or adaptations of them. Items are changed keeping in view the cultural considerations. For example, an Item on the WAIS (Wechsler Adult Intelligence Scale) asks the distance between New Jersey and New York? This question is not likely to be correctly answered by the people in Pakistan. Therefore, researchers here would change the cities in the question by two cities of Pakistan, something which is familiar to the Pakistani people.

Test development, test use, and other psychometric issues have long held an important role in cross-cultural psychology.

Psychological tests are also used in various cultures to test the level of intelligence and cognitive abilities of individuals culturally different/linguistically different.



Cultural norms affect response patterns. One possible reason for the systematic differences in response styles could be the different cultural norms; in many Asian cultures it is more important to be modest. So, responding cautiously and toward the middle of a scale (rather than the extremes) is an expression of this modesty (Zak and Takahashi, 1967).

Module 63: Meta Analysis

Systematic reviews typically involve a detailed and comprehensive plan and search strategy with the goal of reducing bias by identifying, appraising, and synthesizing all relevant studies on a particular topic. Often systematic reviews include a meta-analysis component which involves using statistical techniques to synthesize the data from several studies into a single quantitative estimate or summary effect size (Petticrew & Roberts, 2006).

A statistics-based method, a way of reviewing existing research literature in the same field, about the same phenomena. The analysis covers the results of several independent experiments within the same field. Computer aided statistical analysis yields overall conclusions. This special statistical method allows cross-cultural psychologists to do quantitative analysis of a large collection of scientific results and integrate the findings. It refers to the analysis of analyses, usually called “combined tests”; a large collection of individual results to make sense of a diverse selection of data.

Example: Chao Miao, Ronald H. Humphrey, Shanshan Qian, A cross-cultural meta-analysis of how leader emotional intelligence influences subordinate task performance and organizational citizenship behavior, *Journal of World Business*, 53 (4), 2018, 463-474, ISSN 1090-9516, <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.jwb.2018.01.003>.

Module 64: Avoiding Bias of Generalization

Generalization refers to the holding a certain view about the entire group based on a small sample of that group. Formation of inaccurate assumptions about groups of people is very common. We base our impressions on certain cross-cultural comparisons.

But what kinds of comparisons are we looking for?

Overgeneralization from a few outstanding examples to the group can happen hence inaccurate generalization can take place as a result. For example, we may base our conclusions on few high-income immigrants in Canada or USA and generalize it to all immigrants. It is important to note, as researchers, that all people even from a certain culture/society are not the same.



Following are some recommendations to avoid making quick generalizations from research findings:

- What were the size and representation of the chosen samples in this project?
- Was the method chosen for the study adequate in different cultural settings?
- Was the scale translated properly?
- Is the data convincing?
- Are there any factors that could have affected the outcomes that were not taken into consideration during the study?



About large groups such as in U.S. whites, blacks, Latinos, Asians, or any other ethnic or religious groups; these groups are far from being homogeneous. Few are educated, few are not. These can be wealthy and poor, live in cities and small towns.

In cross-cultural research, it is always useful to request additional information about the countries in which you do research. For example, we're conducting research on university going female students of Pakistan. We need to be considerate about social class, family type, medium of language in which they've previously studied etc. Ignoring such factors would result in an incomplete result regarding the cultural comparison of these female students.

Some people may have either strong or weak psychological attachment to cultural heritage, norms, customs, and values compared to other people who belong to the same group.

Every social group has individuals with very high intellectual skills as well as individuals with very low scores. Everyone has quite different lifestyles and opinions on various issues



Module 65: Know More about the Cultures You Examine

It is important for cross-cultural psychologists to have overall knowledge about countries, cultures, and people that you are studying. Travel, collaboration, and exchange of ideas may shed some light on issues (Bemak & Chung, 2008). This helps us to understand the culture better.



A study on cultural differences in preferences for conflict-resolution styles was conducted. A poll of 200 students was used for the study from universities in the United States and Mexico. The students were asked 20 questions regarding their individual choice/s for conflict resolution, i.e.,

competition – working on one's own win only.

collaboration – working towards a situation where both parties win.

avoidance - trying to avoid the conflict altogether or situations which may incite conflict.

accommodation – working towards a compromise.

The findings tell us that Mexican students preferred collaboration and accommodation styles to a greater degree than the students from the United States. Mexican students were found to be concerned about the effect of the outcomes on others.

Designing interviews, psychologists should also be mindful of traditional practices, values, and beliefs of the cultures they are attempting to study. For example, creating an assessment about suicidal ideation or sexual preferences is expected to be difficult with Muslim clients, especially with those who have not been exposed to Western culture.

So, the advice is to watch, analyze raise doubts, and watch again!



Lesson 17

**UNDERSTANDING CROSS CULTURE DIFFERENCES AND
VARIATIONS****Module: 66-70****Module 66: Intercultural and Area Studies**

Intercultural studies are an interdisciplinary field of inquiry dealing with the significance of cultural differences for social relations in contemporary society. A variety of theoretical and methodological viewpoints are found in intercultural studies. The researchers explore ethnic, religious and linguistic heterogeneity, migration processes, relations between minority and majority constellations in different societies and changing social identities.

Common to their approach is an interest in the promises and possibilities of human diversity in cultural difference as a human resource in a globalised world. There is an increasing demand for these types of perspectives in fields such as school and education, social work, healthcare, police and judiciary, business, tourism, diplomacy, and social media.

Many European and American universities offer masters in intercultural studies. Below are the examples of topics in syllabus and research that these focus on:

- Identity politics, racism, urban planning, intercultural business relations, intercultural communication, and the role played by cultural identity in processes of conflict and reconciliation (Karlstad university, Sweden).
- Cultural Diversity in Organizations, Intercultural Communication, Multicultural/Postcolonial Literature, Geography of Sexual and Gender Identities, sociology of culture, Ethnic relations (Elmhurst, USA)

Area Studies refers to a methodical and scientific study of a nation or society of a defined or specific geographical space planned as a unit to meet requirements of understanding all aspects of life in a specific region/area. It entails a comprehensive study of a single national territory/area or region such as: African studies, Australian studies, American studies, Russian studies and any study of a bi-national or multi-national region/area like Central Asian studies, South Asian studies, European studies. In Punjab university 'Kashmiriat' department focuses on Kashmir studies.

"A scientific study of a particular region in order to understand as well as explain the region's place and role in international society. This can only be achieved by the methodical use of all branches of study that may provide valid explanations" (Dr. Shabbir Khan, Area studies centre, University of Peshawar).

Area studies and intercultural studies are interdisciplinary and multidisciplinary for example philologists, political scientist, economist, historians, social scientists and orientalist all undertake such studies. Some scholars think that area studies aim to impose American international domination agendas. The govt intelligence agencies- area studies link has also been pointed out, meaning that these studies provide information to USA government intelligence agencies. Edward Said is well known for his criticism of narrow and post colonial view of area study scholars.

Module 67: Comparing Evidence Across Cultures

Variability across Cultures:

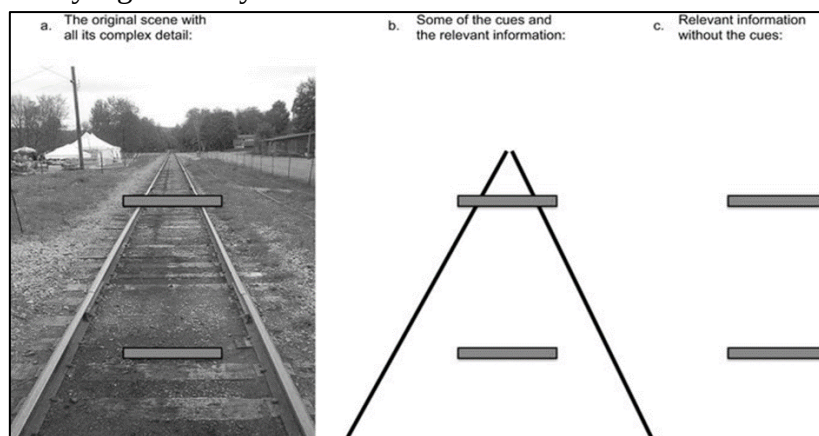
It has been pointed out that “Psychologists who study culture with a focus on prototypical members of that culture may end up ignoring a great deal of individual variation. However, those who study individual differences alone may ignore the way those differences become meaningful only within a cultural system” (Leung & Cohen, 2011).

Using Statistics to look through lens of culture poses an issue as there is variability both between as well as within cultures. How to compare data from two or more cultures? The Mean differences, effect size, Multivariate analyses have been used but these can miss the shades of variability. The theoretical grounds for analyses should be meaningful for the culture being studied. Researcher should be wary of significance when crossing cultures because apparent statistical significance may mislead by assuming differences between cultures whereas these may be specific to samples from each culture. Null hypothesis significance testing, including Type I errors and problems with reproducibility all point to using statistics with caution. Similarly, confidence intervals and effect sizes should be watched.

Cultural insights from relations between variables can be obtained but as we know correlation is not causation and co-variables in cross cultural samples are too many as cultures vary within more than across societies. A challenge is establishing psychometrics, including reliability, validity, and factor analysis. Only after ascertaining this psychometrics, we may be confident in comparing scores from two cultural samples.

What do we compare?

Let's look at what we compare: scores on tests, on scales. In Japanese and American comparison on anxiety, the significant difference meant very little because it was not measuring anxiety for Japanese which is manifested differently in Japanese culture. Different cultures may interpret information differently based on their environmental experiences and cultural conditioning. The **Ponzo illusion** is a classic optical illusion where two horizontal lines of the same length appear to be different lengths due to converging lines in the background, such as railway tracks or a road. This illusion illustrates how our perception is influenced by contextual cues, which can vary significantly across cultures.



When we compare two samples from two cultures for example Tokyo and New York, we are assuming that American sample is average American. Now what is average American? A description given by an author is as below:

“Spends 95 percent of the time indoors, thinks abortion is morally wrong but supports the right to have one, owns an electric coffeemaker, has nine friends and at least one pet, would rather spend a week in jail than become president. He (or she) lives within a 20-minute drive of a Wal-Mart, attends church at least once a month, prefers smooth peanut butter to chunky, [and] lives where the average annual temperature is between 45 and 65 degrees”! (Grimes, 2005, para. 7).

Bob Burns, who was average on every one of the 140 criteria. He is 5'8" tall, is a sports fan, has a deck on his house, likes to fish, and enjoys reading books. Burns's religious faith is important to him, he is accepting of diversity, and he prefers smooth peanut butter to chunky. Like the typical American, he has no desire to be famous. (O'Keef, 2005). Is there an average Mr. or Ms average Pakistani? My own description is as below:

Women: live with in-laws/ expects arranged marriage, cook, cleans and provides nursing care, prays 5 times likes HUM TV, likes to gossip, fights with maid and mother-in-law, or is victim of in-laws, doesn't have a career, educated till intermediate, doesn't care about environment or climate change **OR** her own house, wears designer clothes, goes to super stores, hates other women who are smarter, slimmer, earn more, whose children get more grades, uses designer bags! Doesn't care about environment or climate change! I leave for you to decide which one is Ms average Pakistani.

Now Mr. Average Pakistani

Goes to mosque, is single earner, does not like to change diapers!

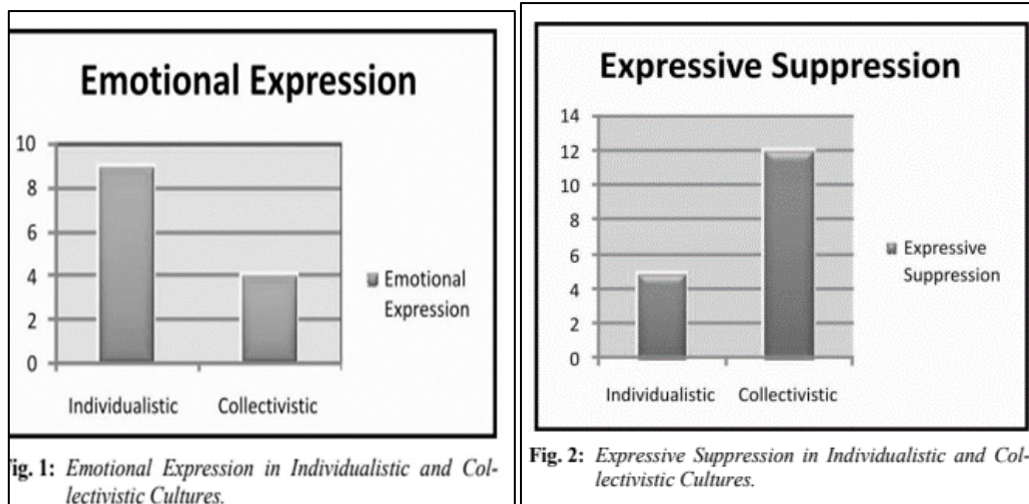
- Watches BOL news
- Doesn't trust the govt or politicians
- Doesn't hate other men (unless he is in politics...)
- Obeys his mother
- Doesn't pay taxes
- Doesn't care about environment or climate change

It would be an interesting study to find average Pakistani man!

Module 68: Cross Cultural Variations in Emotion Regulation

A systematic review of literature on emotion regulation was conducted to identify, analyze and compare the commonly used emotion regulatory strategies, cognitive reappraisal and expressive suppression in individualistic and collectivistic cultures.

Reference: Ramzan, N., & Amjad, N. (2017). *Cross Cultural Variation in Emotion Regulation: A Systematic Review. Annals of King Edward Medical University*, 23(1).



Collectivist culture encourages greatest control on emotion expression while interacting with family and friends and lays more emphasis on maintaining social harmony. On the other hand, individualistic culture endorses comparatively less expression of negative emotions towards strangers. Individuals from individualistic cultures may benefit more from cognitive reappraisal compared to expressive suppression because adjusting one's emotion to the social environment is more important in cultural context

Module 69: Indigenous Studies

In module 69 and 70, two indigenous studies are described. First study was conducted to examine relation between beliefs about aggression and aggressive behaviour. Aggression is a behaviour aimed at harming someone; physically, emotionally, verbally or relationally someone who is motivated to avoid the harm. Research indicates; moral beliefs about aggression predict aggressive behaviour. So, I tested if there is cultural variation in beliefs about aggression and found that:

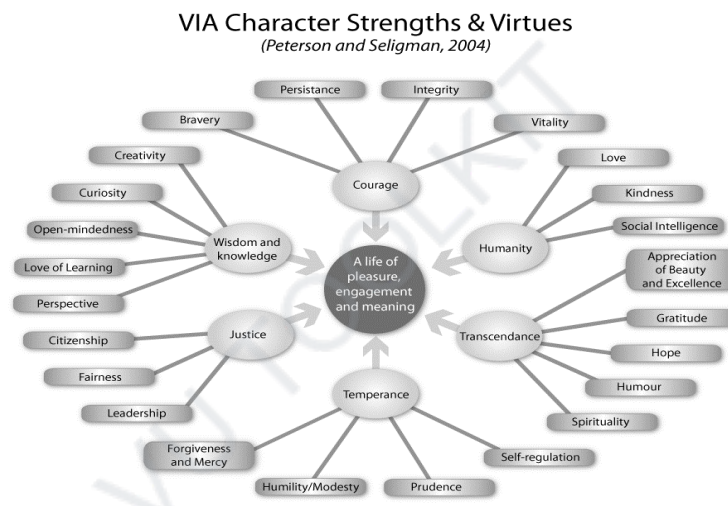
1. Gender differences in aggressive beliefs do not have same pattern across cultures
2. Children beliefs change with age. As children grow older, they are less likely to believe that aggression is acceptable or justified. This trend was observed in UK samples, where younger children had stronger beliefs about aggression, but these beliefs diminished as boys grew older. This pattern was opposite in Pakistani children. Clearly within culture variables like age and gender vary within culture and must be taken into account (Amjad and Skinner, 2004).
3. Situational variations also exist for example boys' responses say that it is not OK to hit a female (young boys' sample). Naturally question arises whether married adults think the same.
4. Extremist beliefs and moderate beliefs were differentiated, and only extreme beliefs predicted joining an extremist group.

The hostile beliefs about other religious groups, sects and race groups can be assessed as I did in my study. For example, from forwarding hate emails to persuading people to burn shop of a minority person to lynching/killing, hostile beliefs vary in intensity. These can be modified through experiments for example we measure beliefs before

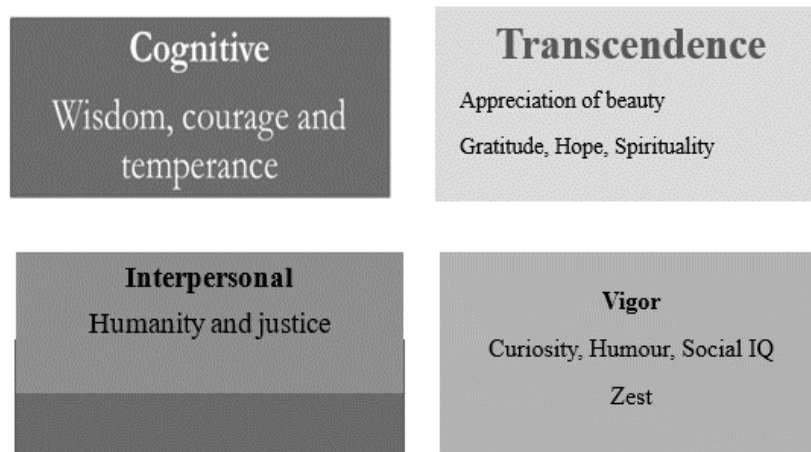
intervention (a talk, an interaction with a kind Jew, a Muslim, a transgender and so on) and then measure beliefs after the intervention. Educational Interventions are useful. Good News is that beliefs can be changed through education, interaction with other groups, empathy neuroscience, awareness, cultivating compassion and looking at things from Spiritual perspective.

Module 70: Character Strengths

Good character is something everyone looks for in other people, whether they are employees, students, friends, or potential partners. Sometimes called character strengths, these are the good qualities that people possess, a collection of positive traits that show people's strengths. Good character is exemplified in 24 widely valued character strengths that are organized under six broad virtues. Six virtues include wisdom, courage, humanity, justice, temperance, and transcendence. **Virtue** is thinking and doing what is right and avoiding what is wrong. Examples: she is a virtuous person; her virtue is patience. Courage is an important virtue of a leader; virtues and vices go hand in hand. The model given below shows 24 strengths classified under 6 virtues.



The study by Afifa Anjum and Naumana Amjad used the character strengths inventory translated in Urdu with young persons and found the following model: 24-character strengths were grouped under 4 virtues. This was analyzed through factor analyses which enables similar concepts as per responses to be grouped together



Lesson 18

**CULTURAL INFLUENCES ON HUMAN DEVELOPMENT AND
SOCIALIZATION****Module: 71-73****Module 71: Culture and Development**

Psychologists distinguish between human development and socialization. **Human development** is viewed as the changes in physical, psychological, and social behaviour that are experienced by individuals across the life span—from conception to death. **Socialization** is the process by which an individual becomes a member of a particular culture and takes on its values and behaviours. Neither human development nor socialization stops at age 18 or even 25. It is a lifelong process with accelerations and delays, changes in direction, sudden transitions, and long-term conversions.

The conceptions of individualism /collectivism can be considered as relevant to development and socialization. They represent value systems, that cultural communities construct and co - construct as shared realities in specific domains of life, that are transmitted and negotiated between generations. Yet, they also represent individual psychologies, which affect perception, motivation, affect regulation and social behavior in characteristic ways (Markus & Kitayama, 1991).

Individualistic and Interrelated Conceptions of the Self

The independent construal of the self (individualistic, egocentric, unique, private, ideocentric) expresses the notion of personal distinctness and separateness with an emphasis on unique personal attributes, abstracted from social responsibilities and duties. These "agencies" are conceived of as independent, assertive, competitive, self assured, efficient, self -sufficient and direct (Church, & Lonner, 1998). The interdependent construal of the self (cf. also sociocentric, relational; allocentric; collectivistic) describes an individual who is fundamentally connected with other human beings who experiences him or herself as part of an encompassing social relationship, subordinating individual interests to the group by being attentive, respectful, dependent, empathic, self controlled, dutiful, self-sacrificing, conforming, cooperative.

The Developmental Context of Parenting

- Infants all over the world have a primary motivation to relate to people.
- Protection from predators and the regulation of diverse physiological and behavioral systems in the offspring are considered to represent the main selective forces.
- The early relationship formation is crucial for the survival of the infant; caretakers provide the infant with food, shelter, warmth and hygiene.
- Infants are also dependent upon a specific social environment, providing them with social responses as well as stimulation to prompt, support and facilitate the psychological development in different domains.
- For securing physical and psychological care, infants are able to attract their caregivers' attention and elicit care giving motivation reliably with a special repertoire of inborn characteristics like the *babyness* (Kindchenschema) and attachment behaviors like crying, smiling, looking and vocalizing (Bowlby, 1969).

- Infants prefer human face over other displays and behave differently towards persons as compared with objects and develop early preferences for familiar over unfamiliar persons.
- They can be consoled by body contact and want to be held and carried.
- Parents are equipped with complementary behavioral propensities to deal with the peculiarities of infants' behaviors.
- The early social interactions between infants and parents forms the bases of later attachment (Bowlby, 1969; Ainsworth et al., 1978)
- Sensitivity to signals from infant by mother as well as prompt response provides the infant with comfort and secure attachment.

Module 72: The Component Model of Parenting

Two interactional mechanisms can be identified during early interactional exchanges between mothers and babies that form components of parenting: **contingency** as the prompt reactivity towards infants' signals and **warmth** as positive acceptance and affectivity. Contingency and warmth reflect basic parenting qualities which are complementary to infants needs when forming early representations of relationships as well as self construal.

Warmth

Warmth has been recognized as an important parenting dimension since the early parenting style studies during the fifties and sixties, mainly as the opposite of parental control across many different cultures. Warmth is described as giving and expressing affection (positive affective exchange, openness and accessibility, nurturance, understanding, empathy and acceptance). Behavioural expressions like hugging, kissing or holding are indexed as expressing warmth.

- Body contact warmth also mediates emotional regulation in the human infant, e.g. reducing negative affect (carrying and proximity are the worldwide most popular responses to distress).
- It seems to play an important role for the development of social and emotional competence and is considered to be an important condition for the development of altruism and sharing.
- Besides fostering social coherence, warmth seems to relate to the development of social imitation and role taking.

Contingency

In interactions with babies, parents (as well as caretakers in general) display an instinct for prompt responsiveness to infant cues. There are different times span reported in the literature, which are considered as prompt ranging from 2 seconds (to 5 - 7 seconds, mainly as responses towards distress signals. There is however evidence, that parents in fact respond much faster to a substantial part of infants, mainly non – distress signals within a latency window of 200 to 800 msecs (Papousek & Papousek, 1991).

- The necessity of the short time span seems to be related to infants restricted memory capacity; infants do not remember that events belong together if distance exceeds 1 second.
- The parental contingency matches infants' contingency detection mechanisms, which are present from birth.

- Infants' early experiences of behavioral contingency might strengthen confidence in acting effectively and thus establish security of self-regulation, leading to independent autonomy.
- The experience of warmth and emotional closeness, on the other hand, may strengthen the ability to relate to others and depend on their social support.

Module 73: Adolescent Future Orientation; An Integrated Cultural and Ecological Perspectives

Future Orientation

Future orientation is the image individuals have regarding their future, as consciously represented and self-reported. Like autobiography, it tells a personal subjective life story consisting of those life domains individuals deem important and gives meaning to one's life. Its importance for individuals' motivation and self-definition has been acknowledged by both psychologists (e.g., Bandura, 2001) and laypersons, as attested by the frequent use of future metaphors for promoting both commercial and public interests.

"Don't wait for the future-go find it"

"Where there cares there is future"

" Invest in the future of your children; buy a house now!"

"The future isn't something you travel to, it's something you build up"

Future orientation is a person's 'model of the future'. As such, it provides the grounds for setting goals, planning, exploring options and making commitments, and consequently guides the person's developmental course (Bandura, 2001; Nurmi, 1991; Seginer, 2003; Trommsdorff, 1986).

- Future orientation has a special importance for individuals going through developmental and transitional periods in which they are normatively expected to prepare themselves for what lies ahead.
- **Early psychological analyses:** Contemporary conceptualizations of future orientation can be traced back to early work of three psychologists: Frank (1939), Israeli (1930, 1936) and Lewin (1939, 1948).
- Their analyses addressed the conceptualization of future orientation as well as its motivational and developmental functions, especially addressing three issues:
 - (a) Future orientation, or the construction of possible events and experiences in the future, is generated in the present,
 - (b) Future orientation is domain specific, and individuals construct their images of the future by relating to different domains
 - (c) The content (themes) of these domains may be personal or social, realistic or ideal, and reality-based or fantastic.

Lesson 19

HUMAN DEVELOPMENT AND SOCIALIZATION**Module: 74-76****Module 74: Erikson Stages of Psychological Development**

Erikson's Stages of Psychosocial Development is a theory introduced in the 1950s by the psychologist and psychoanalyst Erik Erikson. It built upon Freud's theory of psychosexual development by drawing parallels in childhood stages while expanding it to include the influence of social dynamics as well as the extension of psychosocial development into adulthood. It posits eight sequential stages of individual human development influenced by biological, psychological, and social factors throughout the lifespan. American psychologist Erik Erikson (1950) theorized that all humans pass through a series of eight developmental stages that stretch from birth to death. Each stage is characterized by a developmental conflict, problem, or crisis. If the crisis has a positive resolution, the person's ego is strengthened by gaining a virtue that results in greater adaptation and a healthier personality. But if the crisis has a negative resolution, the ego loses strength, resulting in inhibited adaptation and an unhealthier personality. For instance, if a young girl's conflict between a desire to go and play on the street (an independent decision, initiative) and fear of retribution from parents (guilt) has a positive resolution, she will emerge with the virtue of purpose; a negative outcome, however, would result in a sense of unworthiness (see Table below).

Developmental stages according to Erikson

Stage	Ego Crisis	Age	Positive Outcome
1	Basic trust versus mistrust	0–1	Hope
2	Autonomy versus shame and doubt	2–3	Will
3	Initiative versus guilt	3–5	Purpose
4	Industry versus inferiority	5–12	Competence
5	Ego identity versus role confusion	Adolescence	Fidelity
6	Intimacy versus isolation	Young adult	Love
7	Generativity versus stagnation	Adulthood	Care
8	Ego integrity versus despair	Maturity	Wisdom

Source: Based on Erikson (1950).

Erikson thus defined the healthy or mature personality as one that possesses the eight virtues (namely hope, will, purpose, competence, fidelity, love, care, and wisdom) that emerge from a positive resolution at each stage of development. It was Erikson's belief that the outcome of every crisis resolution is reversible.

Stages of Childhood*Stage 1 – Infancy period: Trust vs. Mistrust*

- Virtue: Hope, Maldevelopment: Withdrawal
- Concomitant Freudian stage: oral stage
- Example: Secure environment provided by the caregiver, with regular access to affection and food

Stage 2 – Early Childhood period: Autonomy vs. Shame, doubt

- Virtue: Will, Maldevelopment: Compulsion
- Concomitant Freudian stage: anal stage
- Example: Caregiver promotes self-sufficiency while maintaining a secure environment

Stage 3 – Play Age period: Initiative vs. Guilt

- Virtue: Purpose, Maldevelopment: Inhibition
- Concomitant Freudian stage: genital stage
- Example: Caregiver encourages, supports, and guides the child's own initiatives and interests

Stage 4 – School Age period: Industry vs. Inferiority

- Virtue: Competence, Maldevelopment: Inertia (passivity)
- Concomitant Freudian stage: latency stage
- Example: Reasonable expectations set in school and at home, with praise for their accomplishments

Stage of Adolescence*Stage 5 – Adolescence period: Identity vs. Identity confusion*

- Virtue: Fidelity, Maldevelopment: Repudiation
- Example: Individual weighs out their previous experiences, societal expectations, and their aspirations in establishing values and 'finding themselves.'

Stages of Adulthood*Stage 6 – Young Adulthood period: Intimacy vs. Isolation*

- Virtue: Love, Maldevelopment: Distantiation
- Example: Individual forms close friendships or long-term partnership

Stage 7 – Adulthood period: Generativity vs. Stagnation/Self-absorption

- Virtue: Care, Maldevelopment: Rejection
- Example: Engagement with the next generation through parenting, coaching, or teaching

Stage 8 – Old Age period: Integrity vs. Despair

- Virtue: Wisdom, Maldevelopment: Disdain
- Example: Contemplation and acknowledgment of personal life accomplishments

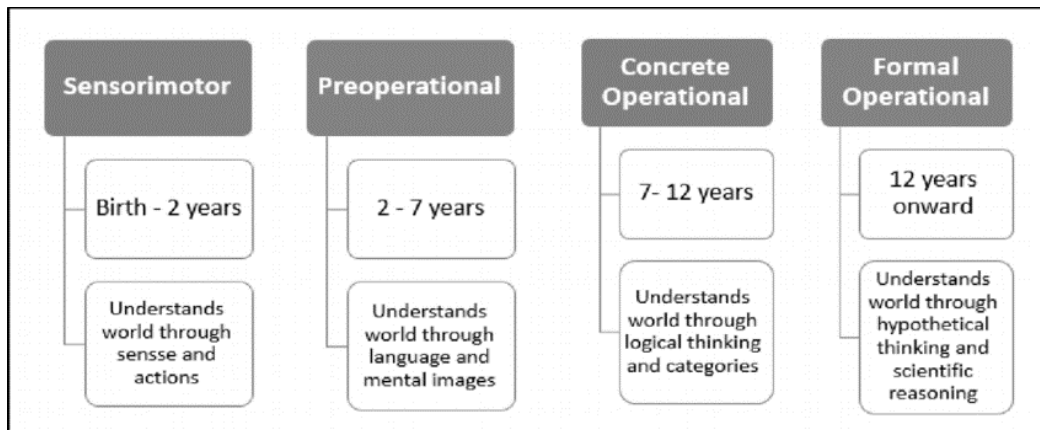
A ninth stage was added by Erik Erikson's wife, Joan Erikson. It considers new challenges experienced with continued aging and incorporates aspects from all previous eight stages of psychosocial development.

Module 75: Piaget Stages of Cognitive Development

Cognition refers to the mental processes involved in acquiring knowledge and understanding. This includes a range of activities such as perception, attention, memory, reasoning, decision-making, problem-solving, and language comprehension. Essentially, it encompasses how we think, learn, and remember information. Cognitive psychology studies these processes to understand how we interact with the world and make sense of our experiences.

Swiss psychologist Jean Piaget (1963) was primarily interested in how children develop the process of thinking about themselves and the world around them. He theorized that the child's cognitive growth is a stage-by-stage process, consisting of four stages:

1. The Sensorimotor Stage
2. Preoperational Stage
3. Concrete Operations
4. Formal Operations



1. Sensorimotor Stage

According to Piaget, at the start of the sensorimotor stage (0-2 years old), infants are only aware of what is right in front of them. They learn with their senses and motor skills, focusing on what they see and do (visual and physical interactions) within their immediate environment.

They're constantly experimenting because they don't yet know how things react. They shake or throw things, put things in their mouth, and learn about the world through trial and error. The later substages include goal-oriented behavior that leads to a desired result. For instance, they may cry to see if you'll attend to them. Between the ages of 5-8 months, infants begin to realize that an object exists even though they can no longer see it. This critical milestone, known as **object permanence**, is a sign that the child is developing memory. For example, the infant learns that when you leave, you still exist, and you'll be back. They may also look for a toy when it's not with them because they know it still exists. They may also show stranger anxiety or fear of unfamiliar faces as they develop object permanence. They may cry and cling to parents or other familiar faces when strangers are around.

As infants start to crawl, stand, and walk, their increased physical mobility leads to more cognitive development. Near the end of the sensorimotor stage (18-24 months), infants reach another important milestone -- early language development -- a sign that they are developing some symbolic abilities.

2. Preoperational Stage

During this stage (2-7 years old), children can think about things symbolically, like using symbols to represent words, things, pictures, people, and ideas. As a result of being able to think symbolically, they can also:

- **Mimic behavior (imitation).** Your child may act as something else, even when the thing they're modelling is no longer with them. For example, they may walk the way someone else walks, even when the person isn't with them. They might use their arms to mimic airplane wings as they run around the room.
- **Play pretend or make-believe.** Your child can imagine and pretend that an object is something else (symbolic representation). For example, a stuffed animal can become a baby, and they may act as the parent.
- **Draw.** Drawing can start with scribbling and making images representing people and things in the child's world. For example, stick drawings may represent family members, and round objects may represent toys.

- **Develop mental imagery.** Your child creates their own mental images, and they may ask you for the names of things so they can better understand what they're thinking about and visualize it.
- **Describe events verbally.** Explaining or imitating experiences with words shows your child can think and learn, not just react to their surroundings.

They may also engage in egocentric thinking, where they can't understand that others think differently from them or see things from another person's perspective.

3. Concrete Operational Stage

At this time, elementary-age and preadolescent children, aged 7-11 years old, show logical, concrete reasoning. Children at this age gain the following skills:

- **Decentering:** Children's thinking becomes less focused on themselves. They begin to realize their thoughts and feelings are unique and may not be shared by others or be part of reality. They also become more empathic. Experts also describe decentering as "theory-of-mind (TOM)."
- **Conservation:** The child becomes aware of their surroundings and learns that things remain the same despite existing in a different form. For example, they know the amount of juice in its original bottle is still the same when poured into a glass cup.
- **Reversibility:** The child learns that things can return to their original state unchanged. For example, they learn that the juice poured into the glass cup can return to the bottle unchanged.
- **Class inclusion:** The child can now group objects based on shape or type.
- **Relations:** The child can use logic to perceive and organize a series of gradually changing items, such as arranging objects by size. But during this stage, most children still can't think abstractly or hypothetically.

4. Formal Operational Stage

Adolescents who reach this fourth stage of intellectual development -- usually around age 11 or older -- can use symbols related to abstract concepts, such as algebra and science. They can think about things in systematic ways, come up with theories, and consider possibilities. They also can think about abstract relationships and concepts such as justice.

Children in this stage may become even more self-conscious and magnify their experiences or circumstances over how others might. A child with a pimple might believe it is bigger than what it is and that others see it the way they do.

Although Piaget believed in lifelong intellectual growth, he insisted that the formal operational stage is the final stage of cognitive development. He also said that continued intellectual development in adults depends on the buildup of knowledge.

Module 76: Kohlberg; Stages of Moral Development

Lawrence Kohlberg (1927-1987) is known for his theory of moral development. American psychologist Lawrence Kohlberg (1981) proposed three main levels, each consisting of two stages of moral development in which children and adults can make several types of moral judgments. In brief, people go from lower stages of reasoning, where they prefer to avoid punishment for wrongdoing, to the higher stages, where they choose social contract and then universal principles to guide moral actions (see Table).

Kohlberg's Stages of Moral Development

Level	Stage	Description
Pre-conventional	Stage 1: Obedience and Punishment	Morality is based on avoiding punishment.
	Stage 2: Individualism and Exchange	Actions are determined by personal gain or reward.
Conventional	Stage 3: Interpersonal Relationships	Morality is based on social approval and relationships.
	Stage 4: Authority and Social Order	Emphasis on obeying laws and maintaining societal order.
Post-conventional	Stage 5: Social Contract	Recognizes individual rights and the importance of rules that can be changed for the greater good.
	Stage 6: Universal Ethical Principles	Moral reasoning based on abstract principles of justice and equality.

1. Pre-conventional Level:

Stage 1: Obedience and Punishment Orientation: Decisions are made based on avoiding punishment.

Stage 2: Individualism and Exchange: Actions are determined by personal gain or reward.

2. Conventional Level:

Stage 3: Interpersonal Relationships: Morality is based on social approval and maintaining relationships.

Stage 4: Authority and Social Order: Emphasis is placed on obeying laws and rules to maintain societal order.

3. Post-conventional Level:

Stage 5: Social Contract: Recognizes the importance of individual rights and societal rules, which can be changed for the greater good.

Stage 6: Universal Ethical Principles: Moral reasoning is based on abstract principles of justice and equality.

Cross-Cultural Examination of Kohlberg's Theory

Kohlberg's stages provide a useful framework for understanding moral development, incorporating a cross-cultural perspective. The theory has been tested by different researchers.

- Snarey (1985) examined 45 empirical studies of moral judgment development conducted in 27 countries and suggested that the first four stages appear to be universal in the subjects of all cultures studied.
- However, some critics express skepticism about the cross-cultural validity of this theory. Why? The methodology used in cross-cultural studies on moral development was based on hypothetical stories about moral choices that were related well only to U.S. subjects (Shweder et al., 1990). For example, in one such story a woman is suffering from an illness. She is prescribed an expensive drug that may save her life; however, the pharmacist in the story charges an excessive amount of money for the prescription. The woman's husband does not have the money. The moral predicament in this vignette is whether it is moral to steal the drug. It looks like a story that makes

sense and the situation described is not unusual. However, in many countries, medicine is under government control, and pharmacists cannot charge patients market prices. Some items are in short supply and bribery in these cases are common ways to get the prescription. Moreover, in some countries, physicians themselves— and not pharmacists—have access to medication and distribute it to their patients.

Broader Contributions: Beyond moral development, Kohlberg's work in educational philosophy emphasized democratic values and student autonomy. He was a proponent of "just community" schools, where democratic principles were integrated into daily school life.

VU TOOLKIT

Lesson 20

SOCIALIZATION AND CULTURAL DEVELOPMENT-I**Module: 77-78****Module 77: Socialization Practices and Culture**

Socialization is the process by which an individual becomes a member of a particular culture, takes on values and behaviors of that culture. It is a lifelong process; there can be accelerations and delays i.e. one child may be able to learn early that he needs to cover his private parts as compared to another, changes in direction, sudden transitions and it includes long-term conversions. A saying by Prophet of Islam states "a child is not born Jew or Muslim or Christian. It is his parents who make him so". Philosophers, religious scholars and social scientists often point to importance of socialization.

"Man is born a barbarian, and only rises himself above the beast by culture". Baltasar Gracian (1601–1658)— Spanish writer and Jesuit priest

"He who opens a school closes a prison". Victor Hugo (1802–1885)— French poet and Novelist.

- Through socialization practices, one can learn about a culture, develop a sense of belonging to the cultural group. Socialization prepares youth for a racially/ ethnically diverse and conscious society. Primary and first agent of socialization are parents and family, followed by peers, teachers, neighbourhood and community. Parents can play their role in socialization in various ways. They need to maintain consistent responses to similar behaviors which help children understand clear expectations. By acknowledging and praising good behaviors, parents encourage desired behaviors through rewards or recognition which allow children to experience the logical outcomes of their actions.

Examples of socialization practices that enable a person to function within his or her culture:

- Interacting with friends and family
- Being told to obey rules
- Being rewarded for doing chores
- Being taught how to behave in public places
- Helping those in need

Module 78: Socialization and Social Evolution

Socialization is the dominant factor in human progress and the central process in social evolution. Sociological variables are key factors that influence social structures, interactions, and changes within societies. These variables play a crucial role in social evolution, which refers to the gradual development of societies over time. Income, attitudes, culture, demographics, and the impact of economy on lifestyle are all sociological variables that shape this evolution. These factors, among others, contribute to the complex web of social dynamics that drive societal change. There is a significant impact of sociological variables and the type of environment in which interaction occurs, as these elements work together to shape individual behaviors, group norms, and broader societal trends. Understanding these variables and their interplay is crucial for comprehending the mechanisms of social change and the trajectory of human development. In studying social evolution, a distinction between traditional and

industrial societies is often used. In traditional societies, social change is slow. Collective models of traditional societies prove stable since these had time to crystallize into an extended traditional heritage. Socialization is obvious, formalized and socially controlled. Cultural characteristics tend to be powerful. Industrial societies go through rapid change. Subgroups become numerous and fluid and there is marked independence from the models that govern society as well as differences between subgroups which can be complementary, disparate and conflict ridden.

Traditional Society	Industrial Society
Incalculable threat: no knowledge of when the next catastrophe will come	Calculable risk
Organizational logics: local	Organizational logics: national
Limited specific threats	Temporally and spatially bound threats
Simple understanding of blame and causality	Complex understanding of blame and causality
Prevailing beliefs anchored in tradition	First modernity: faith in progress and reason
Manufactured risks: insignificant	Manufactured risks: latent
Paradigmatic risk: natural catastrophe	Paradigmatic risk: industrial accident
Subjectivity informed by hunger	Subjectivity informed by inequality

Socialization moves from microscopic level to a broad framework. It is a structural change designed to assess whether social imagination aligns with social reality. Cultural pool means that individuals can now formulate their own socialization and enculturation prescription, and processes become more important than products.

Lesson 21

SOCIALIZATION AND CULTURAL DEVELOPMENT-II

Module: 79-80Module 79: Social Science: See the Society First

In the process of understanding human behaviour and its motivational bases, researchers and theorists should apply their theories in the context of the society and its culture.

Weber (1922) drew a line between two types of societies: ***preindustrial (traditional) and industrial (non-traditional)***.

- People in ***preindustrial societies*** are inseparable from traditions and customs. In these societies, people's desires and actions are viewed as appropriate or inappropriate on the basis of their links – or lack thereof – to the existing customs and rules. For example, married couples in traditional societies are unlikely to pursue divorce because it destroys the traditional family.
- In ***capitalist societies***, rational thinking is seen as a key motivator for human behavior. People carefully evaluate the most efficient ways to achieve their goals. For example, if a married couple decides they can no longer live together, they might choose to divorce. Why? Because they believe it is the best decision for their well-being. People deliberately assess the most efficient ways of accomplishing a particular goal. If two spouses decide that they cannot live together any longer, then they would break up their marriage. Why? Because this act serves their best interests. In such cases, reason tends to overcome emotion; critical thinking often replaces intuition; and assessments of gains and losses tend to replace customs.

In *traditional cultures*, emotions and sentiments are given preference, which might be why a couple chooses not to divorce. However, in *capitalist societies*, personal interests are prioritized, and decisions are made based on what is best for the individual. The scarcity and value of their time often motivate people in modern societies, whereas in traditional cultures time is not viewed as a commodity (see Chapter 10).

Karl Marx preached that an economic condition of inequality activates human needs (Marx & Engels, 1848). Each society is divided roughly into two large and antagonistic social classes. People of the same social class, but of different ethnic groups, have much more in common than people belonging to the same ethnic or national group, but to an antagonistic social class. The *oppressed* want their share of resources, whereas the oppressors want to keep their status quo. However, Marxism failed to explain many other noneconomic aspects of human motivation. For example, it is easy to show that social equality, unfortunately, does not stop aggression and violence. Similarly, economic inequality does not necessarily cause hostility among people.

Module 80: How Culture Influences What We Perceive**Perceptual sets**

Our experience with the environment shapes our perception by creating perceptual expectations. These expectations, known as a perceptual set, make interpretations likely to occur and increase both the speed and efficiency of the perceptual process. Perceptual sets common in people of a particular culture—and most relevant to their experience—are not necessarily developed in individuals from other cultures.

Perceptual sets are shaped by our experiences, culture, and environment, influencing how we interpret the world around us. Different cultures have distinct perceptual sets. For example, in societies with gender segregation, where men and women are socialized in separate spaces, you will observe fewer women in public areas.

No two individuals share identical perceptions, as we interpret symbols differently based on cultural conditioning and personal experience.

Personal Experience Influences One's Sensation and Perception

If many individuals from a particular group share such experiences, there should be some common group-related sensory or perceptual patterns. People living in mountains and deserts tend to overestimate the size of distant objects, as they are accustomed to seeing larger things from afar. Similarly, other perceptual cues come into play. For example, we are usually aware of the aroma outside a restaurant when we are hungry, yet we are much less sensitive to it when our stomach is full. In general, if we need something, we pay attention to the stimuli that are linked to the gratification of the need.

Our perception is often shaped by the culture we grow up in. For example, a researcher visited a jungle-dwelling tribe and took one of the members to the mountains. When asked what appeared to be far away, the person responded, "the ants," as in their perception, the farthest thing was the ants rather than distant landscapes. People living in the jungle develop a perception that focuses on nearby objects, as this helps them quickly react to potential dangers. They tend to approach things step by step.

Our brain constantly interprets things within a given context. Language plays a crucial role in this process, as we associate symbols with meaning, shaping our understanding of the world. Environmental conditions affect sensation and perception in many ways. Studies have shown that traditional hunter and gatherer cultures have a lower rate of color blindness among their members than traditional societies practicing agriculture. This makes sense from an evolutionary standpoint: color-blind hunters could not survive without the ability to distinguish details, colors, and contours, which is critical in hunting or gathering activities (Pollack, 1963). The level of noise in the surrounding environment is yet another example of how environment affects sensory processes. People who live in deserts do not suffer hearing loss to the extent that city dwellers do (Reuning & Wortley, 1973). The average difference in hearing problems between the two groups could be explained by the significantly lower level of noise in a desert in comparison with urban, metropolitan areas.

Lesson 22

Cross-Cultural Perspectives on Child Development and Family Dynamics**Module: 81-83****Module 81: Quality of life and Child Development**

Quality of life is determined by certain basic conditions and parameters such as availability of food and other products, type of living conditions, quality of education and health care, presence or absence of violence in the child's life, and a number of other factors—significantly affect the child's development. Children who are least exposed to violence have good quality of life.

As the child grows, other than quality of life family system also matters a lot. Countries vary in density of and number of immediate family members. A unit of two adults living with their own children is common in Western societies, such as Canada, Sweden, or the United States, whereas the large extended family in which parents, children, grandparents, cousins, and even some distant relatives live in one household is common in non-Western countries, such as Pakistan, Rwanda, or Indonesia.

Technological advancements and socioeconomic improvements may affect the composition of the family (Berry, 1997). A study of 799 students in Greece, Cyprus, the Netherlands, Great Britain, and Germany examined the relationship of family bonds to family structure but did not find substantial differences among families in the sampled countries in terms of emotional closeness, geographic proximity to relatives, and frequency of telephone contacts (Georgas et al., 1997).

However, when the extended families were analyzed, differences were found between generally wealthy individualist countries in the sample (the Netherlands, Great Britain, and Germany) and predominantly collectivist countries (Greece and Cyprus). The extended families in the latter sample were emotionally and geographically closer to each other than the families from the individualist sample.

Specific aspects of family relationship can correlate with industrial and financial advancement. For instance, second- and third-generation Mexican American children showed decreasing frequency of altruistic behavior compared to their first-generation Mexican American peers, who are less advanced economically (Knight & Kagan, 1977). Access to resources and educational opportunities are likely to provide an advantageous environment for the developing child.

Vygotsky (1932) established that *guided interaction* with a more knowledgeable partner should advance the intellectual development of the child. *Poverty* may directly affect relationships within the family. In preindustrial and economically underdeveloped societies, partly because of limited access to resources, close cooperation within families becomes an economic necessity.

Module 82: Norms, Customs and Child Care

What are the standard norms related to childcare, and how do they vary across different cultures? A child's development—emotional, social, and cognitive—is largely influenced by interactions with specific individuals. Who are the key people in the child's life that contribute to their growth, and what roles do these people play? Where do children spend most of their time, and how are they developing through these interactions and roles?

Differences in Role

The child's development and socialization depend on the people with whom the child interacts, the places where they spend time together, and the roles children play (Whiting & Whiting, 1975). Adults assign children to some roles and disallow others. For example, cross-cultural differences in the behavior of boys and girls may be partially due to different roles assigned to them by adults. Girls are more apt to stay close to home and are more involved in child-care activities than are boys (Whiting & Edwards, 1988).

Differences in Activity

Rough-and-tumble play is a common child's activity across cultures. However, in traditional Muslim countries, girls are seldom encouraged by their parents to engage in such games (Ahmed, 2002). Again, there may be exceptions within Muslim societies where some families do allow or encourage rough play for girls.

Differences in Social Support

In many cultures, especially in Western societies, encouraging children to sleep in their own bedrooms is a common practice. This is often supported by child psychologists, who believe that having a separate bedroom promotes independence and self-reliance. In contrast, this practice is less commonly seen in Eastern cultures, where co-sleeping or keeping children in the same room as their parents is more prevalent, often due to the emphasis on family closeness and shared spaces.

There are similarities in patterns of social support from children, spouses, relatives, and friends. However, comparative studies identify plenty of national and cultural differences. For example, rocking or thumb-sucking in children would be considered wrong by white South African mothers. For native African mothers such behavior is absolutely normal. U.S. mothers respond more favourably to their babies' requests when the infants are playing with physical objects. Japanese mothers, on the other hand, are more responsive when their babies are engaged in play with them. Japanese parents, unlike U.S. parents, rarely leave their children with baby-sitters. These children learn how to interact with other adults, and this may explain why Japanese children display a higher rate of anxiety than U.S. boys and girls do when the parents are not present (Bornstein & Tamis-LeMonda, 1989).

Role of Parenting Style in Cultural traditions of Collectivism

Cultural traditions of collectivism are positively correlated with the authoritarian style of parenting, which is based on strict demands, behavioral control, and sanctions (Rudy & Grusec, 2001). In other words, in predominantly collectivist cultures more parents practice authoritarian methods than they do in individualist cultures. Russian adolescents perceived parents and teachers as more controlling than did U.S. students (Chirkov & Ryan, 2001). Russian elementary and secondary education and parenting styles are seen by observers as more authoritarian than the styles practiced in the United States. Findings from a comparative study of white, Mexican American, and Mexican parents revealed that white parents reported less

authoritarian parenting than Mexican Americans. However, no differences were found in authoritarian parenting style between white and Mexican parents (Varela et al., 2004).

Once a norm is established, it may be passed on from one generation to the next. In most traditional African cultures, obedience is a highly desired pattern of behavior for children, a pattern that is crucial for the child's survival in harsh living conditions (Klingelhofer, 1971). Most Western concepts of child-rearing judge obedience critically and condemn most forms of adult-child coercion.

Module 83: Parental Values and Expectations

Parents' expectations for a child can encompass a range of developmental milestones, such as walking, talking, recognizing surrounding, familiarity with people and different paces and social skills. There can also some other expectations. Let's discuss some parent's values regarding these expectations and child's reaction, behavior and learning process:

Developmental Timetables: Parents typically expect their children to acquire particular characteristics (such as walking, talking, or reasoning) at certain ages. There are some cultural patterns in such expectations (Super & Harkness, 1997). In one study, for example, Israeli mothers of European background expected their children to develop certain cognitive skills earlier than did mothers of non-European origin (Ninio, 1979). U.S. mothers had earlier expectations of their children's assertiveness than Japanese mothers, and Japanese mothers had earlier expectations about their children's ability to control their emotions and express courtesy (Hess et al., 1980).

According to Levy (1996), in societies that are small, egalitarian, and with little occupational specialization, children are expected to learn "on their own," whereas in industrialized democratic societies there are explicit expectations about what, with whom, when, and how children should learn. **Parents' particular beliefs** are translated into behavior that, in reverse, influences other beliefs.

"Parents who are afraid to put their foot down, usually have children who stepped on their toes" (Chinese Proverb)

Education: Parents from different cultural groups can hold different views on the *formal education* of their children and their role as parents in this process. Japanese mothers generally view autonomy of the child as her ability to interact with other children. The Chinese mothers expressed a greater interest in education and suggested that they were willing to sacrifice for the sake of the children to a greater extent than their U.S. counterparts. On the contrary, European American mothers stressed the importance of building their children's self-esteem and expressed less motivation regarding their children's education.

Chao (1996) asked a sample of 48 immigrants of Chinese origin (Taiwan) and 50 European American mothers of preschool age children to indicate their views on the role of parenting in the child's school success. The Chinese mothers expressed a greater interest in education and suggested that they were willing to sacrifice for the sake of the children to a greater extent than their U.S. counterparts. On the contrary, European American mothers stressed the importance of building their children's self-esteem and expressed less motivation regarding their children's education.

Most of the Taiwanese immigrants to the United States who were studied came from a middle-class stratum and most of them emigrated from Taiwan for economic reasons. This might suggest a high level of achievement motivation in this group.

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Lesson 23

**MORAL LANDSCAPE: NAVIGATING THE DEVELOPMENT OF
MORAL SENSE ACROSS CULTURES****Module: 84-85****Module 84: Psychology of Morality**

Morality refers to the principles that guide our understanding of right and wrong. The idea of a "moral sense" is like a physical sense like sight or touch, but it involves a person's sense of morality or responsibility. This sense helps us evaluate whether actions are right or wrong. However, morality can change over time due to various factors, including societal shifts and personal experiences. Not everyone shares the same sense of right and wrong, and this variation is a key aspect of the psychology of morality.

In cross-cultural psychology, it's important to explore why different cultures hold varying moral values and how individuals from different backgrounds act based on their sense of morality.

Do people always behave according to their moral beliefs?

Morality can extend beyond social norms, and the scales of right and wrong are often shaped by more than just societal standards. Understanding these differences is crucial for examining how morality functions across cultures.

Now some questions arise:

1. What kind of "sense" is the moral sense? What does it consist of?
2. How do we know right and wrong? Where does conscience come from? That is, where do we get our knowledge of the rules and our feelings about them?
3. Does our moral sense change over time? If so, how and why?
4. Do all people have the same "sense" of right and wrong? If not, how does it differ, both across individuals and across cultures? What accounts for the variation?
5. To what extent do individuals behave according to their sense of morality?

Right and wrong are absolutes that remain constant, regardless of cultural or geographical differences. People across the world, along with all major religions, fundamentally agree on these moral distinctions.

It is in an attempt to answer these and related questions that psychological theories of morality have been formulated. In general, four approaches have dominated the field of morality:

- (1) Freud's psychoanalytic theory
- (2) Learning theories, including social learning theory

- (3) Cognitive-developmental theory
- (4) Evolutionary psychology.

Aspects of morality

Morality encompasses several key dimensions:

1. **Behavior:** which involves aligning one's actions with personal moral values.
2. **Cognitive:** which refers to the internal beliefs and the moral standards one sets for themselves.
3. **Social:** It extend to interactions with others, akin to the concepts of *Haqooq Allah* (duties to God) and *Haqooq ul Ibad* (duties to fellow human beings).

While we often claim that laws should be applied equally to the rich and poor, is that truly reflected in reality?

Do we perceive morality in society as it genuinely exists?

Sources of Morality:

What are the sources of morality?

Our internal cognitive and emotional processes shape our moral compass, which then becomes ingrained in our personality. Reasoning plays a pivotal role here—for instance, if an action is considered wrong in one context, it should logically be wrong in another. Yet, the question remains:

If others engage in a particular behavior, does that justify us doing the same?

Parenting Styles:

Parenting styles significantly influence a child's understanding of morality, while other factors, such as the child's innate capacities and intellectual development, also shape their ability to reason through moral dilemmas. As they grow, they learn to connect different concepts, understanding not only that something is wrong, but *why*—whether it harms others or leads to punishment. Morally developed individuals tend to view actions as wrong not only based on personal consequence but also considering the broader impact on society, culture, environment, and religious teachings.

Module 85: Development of Moral Sense

Conscience develops over time; whether morality develops in an incremental, additive fashion or in a series of distinct and incommensurable stages is debated

The concept of stage-wise development is embraced by a majority of the theoretical approaches.

Psychoanalytical Approach:

The development of moral sense and the formation of conscience can be understood through psychoanalytic theory, which posits that this process unfolds in distinct stages involving three key elements: **the id, ego, and superego.**

Id:

Initially, a child exists in the id stage, characterized by a focus on immediate gratification driven by the pleasure principle. At this stage, the child seeks to satisfy basic needs and desires without regard for social norms or consequences.

Ego:

As the child matures, they transition into the ego stage, where rational thought begins to take precedence. Here, the child starts to evaluate their options and consider which actions may be more beneficial in the long run. The ego acts as a mediator, helping to regulate impulses arising from the id and ensuring that behavior aligns more closely with reality and practicality.

Super Ego:

Finally, the development of the superego occurs as the child internalizes the moral standards and values set by their parents and society. This stage shapes the child's personality and establishes a framework for ethical behavior. The superego serves as an internal compass, guiding individuals in their decision-making processes by invoking feelings of guilt or pride based on adherence to these learned standards.

Cognitive-developmental theory proposes a set of stages in the development of moral reasoning, ranging from the "pre-moral" through the "conventional" and possibly through "post conventional."

Hoffman offers a set of stages for the development of empathy and also refers to internalization in stage-like terms.

Differences in the Moral Sense:

There are three primary distinctions in the moral sense: individual differences, gender-based differences, and cultural differences, with the latter being the most pronounced.

Gender Based Differences: While gender-based roles may shape moral expectations to some degree, cultural factors are far more significant in shaping moral perspectives.

Individual and Cultural Differences: Notably, individuals within the same religious community often share a common moral framework. The manner in which individuals are raised, as well as the values instilled in them, plays a pivotal role in the development of their moral compass.

When witnessing someone in a position of authority engage in morally questionable behavior, one may wonder whether they were never taught proper ethics or if they are knowingly disregarding them.

The relationship between behavior and conscience raises the question:

Can moral beliefs reliably predict behavior?

In a large-scale psychological survey, respondents were asked to reflect on actions that are forbidden but still performed, and on those that are encouraged but frequently neglected. The majority indicated that while lying or backbiting is forbidden, they still engage in such behavior. When asked about morally commanded actions, prayer (namaz) and earning a halal income ranked highest, highlighting a disparity between belief and practice. This suggests a cognitive dissonance where individuals affirm their moral beliefs but fail to act on them.

There are instances where one's moral beliefs become particularly salient—such as when being praised as a "good person" or a "good Muslim"—leading to a heightened motivation to act in accordance with those values. In social contexts, particularly when emotions like empathy and guilt are triggered, self-esteem becomes intertwined with moral behavior, often compelling individuals to act more ethically.

Lesson 24

BILINGUALISM AND FAMILY DYNAMICS IN DIVERSE SOCIETIES**Module: 86-88****Module 86: Bilingualism across Cultures**

Bilingualism, or the knowledge of more than one language, is quite prevalent throughout the world. However, much of the cognitive literature that exists on language processing and memory retrieval has included participants who are monolingual speakers.

Introduction:

Many researchers in language and culture would agree that most individuals in the world are bilingual or multilingual (cf. Bialystok, 2001; Schreuder & Weltens, 1993). Indeed, one could argue that cognitive processing is influenced by the interaction between culture and language, and that researchers in cognitive psychology should actually be investigating issues regarding memory, knowledge representation, perception and the like, by exploring the behavior of multilingual vs. monolinguals.

Basic Definitions

There are likely a greater number of people in the world who consider themselves bilingual or multilingual as opposed to monolingual.

The complexity, however, with defining oneself as bilingual comes from the fact that language proficiency might vary from having some conversational ability and no reading ability in a second language to being fully versed in both reading, writing and speaking in two languages.

Degrees of bilingualism:

There may be different degrees of bilingualism depending upon the language modality one considers. Researchers have sometimes described bilinguals in terms of the amount of knowledge they possess in a particular language. The term functional might be used to describe a bilingual's language abilities in one or the other language if they have sufficient proficiency within a specific knowledge domain such as their job or career.

Interestingly, it might be the case that certain experiences, such as the first-time certain emotions are experienced and labelled, occur only in one language—the native language.

Verbal expressions of emotion:

Bilinguals have access to two languages, and this is beneficial to them. For instance, they can be more expressive since they are not limited to just one language.

Public events are often recalled in a second language, yet the interplay between emotion, culture, and language remains significant. While second languages are typically used for cognitive tasks, individuals tend to express emotions—such as joy, anger, or sadness—primarily in their mother tongue. The native language, being more deeply ingrained in one's

emotional framework, is thus more frequently utilized in emotional expression, whereas a second language is less likely to serve this purpose with the same depth.

Proficiency in both languages, however, can offer a comprehensive lens through which to reflect on past experiences and learning.

Non-verbal expression

Beyond linguistic communication, non-verbal cues are also crucial in the expression of emotion. These non-verbal expressions, though less dependent on language, may vary across cultures.

Non-verbal expressions of emotions and gestures convey:

Respect

Directions or position

Agreement/denying = yes or no!

Gratitude

Mutual attraction

Kindness

Appreciation

Annoyance

Facial expressions, to some extent, are universally understood, while physical gestures and body language often differ significantly based on cultural norms. Thus, the fusion of both verbal and non-verbal modes of communication reveals the complex relationship between language, emotion, and cultural expression.

Module 87: Family: Variations and Changes across Cultures

Introduction:

Cultural variations manifest in family structures and dynamics, with differences in how families are organized and function across societies. Family structures can differ based on the number and relationships of the individuals involved. For example, some families consist of two spouses, while others may include broader configurations, such as parents and children or extended kin. The number of individuals and the nature of their relationships, whether husband-wife, mother-son, or others, defines the family's structure.

Types of Families

The different family types or structures are based on anthropological and sociological studies of small and large societies throughout the world. There are a number of typologies of family types, but a simple one will be presented here.

Two and Three Generation Families

Two Generation Families; The nuclear family consists of two generations: the wife/mother, husband/father, and their children. The one-parent family, divorced or unmarried parent, is also a two-generation family.

Three Generation Families; The different types of extended families consist of at least three generations: the grandparents on sides, the wife/mother, husband/father, and their children, the aunts, siblings, cousins, nieces and other kins of the wife and husband. However, before

discussing the types of extended families, an important distinction must be made between the polygynous (one husband/father and two or more wives/mothers) family and the monogamous (one husband one wife) family.

Kinship Relationships: Kinship relationships also differ across cultures.

Linear kinship refers to direct relationships such as those between grandparents and grandchildren.

Collateral kinship refers to relatives on the same generational level, such as uncles, aunts, nephews, and nieces.

Affinal kinship involves family connections without direct blood relation, like in-laws and the extended family members of one's parents.

There is also the question of whether the nuclear family is distinct from or part of an extended family. As a student, one might reflect on the idea that a family begins with two individuals, each with their own parents, and whether this connection extends into what is considered the larger extended family.

Family ties often relate to similarity, emotional closeness, and affinity, shaping the overall structure and nature of familial relationships.

Module 88: Determinants of Family Types

How are family types related to the type of society?

Cross-cultural psychology has also played an important role in this quest, by comparing different cultures across psychological dimensions.

The Ecocultural Framework considers human diversity, both cultural and psychological, to be a set of collective (the society) and individual adaptations to the context. The Framework is useful in teasing out the ecological and socio-political determinants of family types. Some of the determinants of family types which have been studied are:

1. the ecological features
2. the means of subsistence of society
3. religion
4. Education

We have explored various family structures, such as nuclear, extended, lineal, and collateral, and their relationship to societal norms. These family types indeed differ across societies and cultures, and extensive research has been conducted to understand these variations.

Historically, families lived near one another, forming cohesive units for mutual protection and resource sharing. Due to smaller populations, families often share resources within a defined social orbit. However, with the onset of the industrial revolution, rapid urbanization, and the diversification of occupations, the social landscape expanded. While the fundamental family structures remained largely consistent, societal shifts began to shape familial configurations differently.

Anthropologists have their own theories regarding the evolution of ethnicities, but from a creationist perspective, the family unit began with the marriage of two individuals who then reproduced, leading to further social divisions. The concepts of ecology and subsistence are central to understanding how families adapt to their environments. Ecology refers to the relationship between organisms and their surroundings, while subsistence pertains to the

resources—such as water, food, and fire—required for survival. A family's survival is thus influenced by their interaction with the environment, and this relationship helps shape the way families organize themselves.

The Political and Legal System

The political system in complex societies passes laws regulating types of families and the judicial system adjudicates issues related to the family. Moreover, political and legal systems play an essential role in regulating family dynamics, particularly in matters of inheritance, social bonds, and communal happiness or sorrow. In smaller communities, these connections are often structured within clans or kin groups. Religion, too, provides a moral framework that influences family organization by defining what is desirable and what is forbidden according to divine law. Religious teachings also establish certain family obligations, rights, and the notions of reward and punishment.

Education

Access to education has been a major determinant in different types of families, and particularly in the changes in family types. such as a transition from nuclear to joint families or vice versa. Families may reorganize themselves to accommodate educational pursuits, particularly in societies where access to education is linked to social mobility.

Overall, the interplay of these factors—ecology, legal and political systems, religion, and education—contributes to the formation and transformation of family structures across different societies.

Lesson 25

**ENDINGS AND BEGINNINGS: CROSS-CULTURAL PERSPECTIVES
ON AGING, DEATH AND GRIEF****Module: 89-94****Module 89: Cultural Variations in Perceptions of Aging**

When do people get old? Is aging physical wearing and decline that takes place without a substantial change of attitudes? When do people slow down? Aging is a biological process. Although biologists haven't found conclusive explanations about universal characteristics of aging (Cox, 1988), most people of old age suffer from similar diseases (such as cancer, dementia, and arthritis), their skin becomes less elastic, and their hair loses its pigmentation. The muscles begin to atrophy, the bones become more brittle, and the cardiovascular system becomes less efficient. Most psychological functions decline too. Hearing and visual impairments are common. Memory may deteriorate while there tends to be a decrease in reaction time.

Stages of aging

The three stages in aging are seen as **Primary, secondary, and tertiary**.

Primary aging is a biological decay in nature because of living time. Secondary is due to lifestyle and disease or habits such as smoking. Tertiary aging is the changes nearer to death that are inevitable and lead due to any disease or decline.

Aging and Social Roles

Determining when certain roles are switched, discontinued, or shifted in a certain culture. It includes when one should stop working, taking retirement, house chores responsibility, decision making and or taking financial decisions, or certain prestige or power part of that role is shifted from elderly people to the next generation. It has been observed that the elderly and experienced while having sufficient physical and mental health status are assigned leadership roles in most cultures.

Quality of life of elderly people

It has been found that in many cultures, the quality of life of elderly people includes their physical, mental and emotional well-being but, in some cultures, there is a great need to improve the positive attitude and eliminate the negative opinions and attitudes towards the elderly people. Especially in Western countries life expectancy has increased and elderly people outnumber other age groups of people, so they are putting a great burden on the economy of these countries. Due to the special needs of elderly people, the cost is very high due to their health care and other management needs.

According to the research, the more elderly people use their cognitive abilities the less cognitive decline is there, the perception regarding elderly people that they should be just sitting in the corner or just engaged in the religious rituals needs to be changed. Some cognitive activities be as reading a book or interacting with other people may bring significant improvement in their cognitive ability.

Module 90: How Death Imitates Life: Cultural Influences on Conceptions of Death and Dying

Death and dying are two different concepts. Dying is relatively a process that leads to death. Death is the termination of life suddenly. In case of dying the individual and surrounding people are ready for death in all aspects of life. Different cultures address the common questions related to death differently. The rituals and customs also vary from one culture to another.

Two of the attributes that all humans shares are the experiences of being born and the fact that everyone would eventually die. Although we are excited about discussions concerning birth, people in all cultures discuss death with extreme reluctance. However, even though we may use the same words to describe death, the actual meaning and conceptualization of death differs widely across cultures. The tendency for vast differences to occur in conceptions about issues or events that, on the surface, seem obvious is a major reason why a cultural examination and analysis of every behavioral phenomenon should almost be mandated. This reading explores some of the cultural variations in death and dying and discusses how these differences at once derive from a given culture's worldview as well as influences members of that culture's approach to death. These are manifested in conceptions about death, death anxiety, bereavement, and burial rituals.

Conceptions of Death

How should death happen? There are different prayers or rituals related to death. This prayer aimed to bring peace and ease in the process of death and dying. This is very common in various cultures like African tribes Mexicans igloos and indigenous tribes.

The first definition of death in Webster's Encyclopedic Unabridged Dictionary is that it is "the act of dying; the end of life; the total and permanent cessation of all the vital functions of an animal or plant." (1989, p.372). This appears quite straightforward enough until we realize that it represents a largely Western conception of death.

'Acceptable death' and a "good death"

In Islam or Pakistani culture, shahadat is a good death. Acceptable death is when there is no drama or emotions are not there. The death for which you are prepared and you peacefully say goodbye is called good death.

An acceptable death is said to be non-dramatic, disciplined, and with very little emotion. This is the atmosphere that seems to exist in structured settings such as hospitals in the West where most people die. On the other hand, a good death is said to allow for social adjustments and personal preparation by the dying person and his or her family. This is a time when the dying person attempts to complete unfinished tasks, to say farewells, and for the family to begin to prepare for life without the dying.

Van Gennep (1960) considers a good death as the funeral that the dying gives to the living so as to enable the family to disengage from the dying person as an active part of the family's life. According to some Islamic teachings, the great Prophet Mohamed stated that the sins of a shahid or martyr will be forgiven when he sheds his first drop of blood. In addition, he can admit 70 relatives to paradise and will personally be married to 72 beautiful virgins upon his arrival in paradise (Van Biema, 2001).

Death Anxiety: The Fear of Death

Most humans do not willingly welcome the idea of their own or their loved ones' death. In fact, the most common reaction to the thought of dying is fear. Becker (1973) is among the many theorists who believe that the fear of death is a major motivator of all behavior. When the fear of death is channeled properly, it can be a motivating force to propel individuals into phenomenal achievements with the goal that those achievements would transcend their physical mortality.

Death anxiety is a multifaceted construct that is not easy to define but has been conceptualized to include: fear of death of oneself, fear of death of others, fear of dying of self, and fear of the dying of others. Fear of death of oneself has to do with the fear of the event of death and comprises such things as what happens to the individual after the experience of death. To some, it could be fear of judgment - whether one would go to heaven or hell, fear of cremation, earth burial, the donation of one's body to science, and what might happen to people and possessions that one may leave behind, including one's spouse, children, and businesses. Additionally, people tend to be involved in good deeds like planting trees, making trust, and doing charitable work. These initiatives give them contentment they have left the legacy behind them. People also tend to adopt healthy life activities to avoid death and dying.

Fear of death of others encompasses the apprehension by an individual of death occurring to significant others in one's life, especially family members and friends.

Fear of dying of oneself differs from fear of death of one's self in the sense that the former refers to the process of dying while the latter involves the event of death. A good number of people are not afraid of death itself but are extremely anxious about how they will die. Anxieties here revolve around the notions of wasting away, the possible deterioration in one's physical appearance, and the pain that may be associated with dying. It is not uncommon for some to also worry about the possibility of being a burden to others, both in terms of time and financial costs.

Module 91: Grief Expression and Rituals

Grief and Bereavement: Events leading to death such as terminal illness does not end with the death of the dying person. In fact, all humans, including the dying, experience grief as a response to impending or resultant death. Worden (1991) defines grief as the personal emotional reactions (e.g., sadness, anger, and guilt) that follow a loss. Bereavement refers to the experiences that follow the death of a loved one, while mourning is the process through which grief is expressed. Mourning thus represents the culturally accepted expression of the personal feelings that follow the death of a loved one. There is a wide variation across cultures in how people behave after death and how they are expected to behave. According to a local study conducted in Pakistan, it has been observed that rituals like reciting the Quran, funerals, and social interaction with other people and all the relatives and friends get together to say a last goodbye to the diseased. It has been found that it has some purpose, and it is considered as a script of which we have been already awarded.

Roles of Rituals in Psychology

There are three main objectives of these rituals and norms which include.

Emotional: the feeling of uncertainty, shock, and trauma one is going through so, these rituals facilitate dealing with such emotions.

Social: social interaction and joining this movement gives the feeling of security and support which helps in dealing with loss

Spiritual: These rituals aim to facilitate the deceases according to Islamic beliefs; these recitations will help the deceased and will add to the spiritual healing and good deeds of those alive after him/her. It is for the “swab”. The older Christian word has this concept but now it does not prevail much.

Bereavement is an experience that is experienced after the death of any loved one. Mourning is a way through which we express our sadness over the loss. Different cultures have different forms of grief expression like males hug each other but do not do matam. But females tend to do this. This is due to the cultural shift as well. In modern culture, this does not prevail, but in rural areas, it still prevails. This sounds like a very absurd way of grief or matam.

Sequence of grieving

This has led to the suggestion that grief or mourning may involve a specific sequence. Some theorists have found it convenient to view grieving as a process that consists of stages or phases, and most theorists have divided grief into three phases (e.g., Parkes, 1972). The most common feelings people are thought to express in the first phase are shock, disbelief, and numbness. However, experts believe that it takes at least a year, perhaps more, to progress through the first phase of recovery.

Tasks of mourning not stages

Worden (1991) prefers to view the grieving process in terms of tasks, not stages or phases. The concept of stages or phases suggests that mourners are passive; and have no choice but to go through these stages. In contrast, tasks imply some action on the part of the mourner and suggest that the grieving process can be subject to external intervention. This tends to provide

some hope that there is something the bereaved can actively do about the situation. Worden (1991) proposes four tasks of mourning.

Task 1: Accept the reality of the loss. This can be enhanced by viewing the corpse and attending memorial services, and funerals.

Task 2: Work through the pain of grief. Trying to avoid pain can prolong the course of mourning and may lead to abnormal grief.

Task 3: Adjust to an environment in which the deceased is missing. This task principally involves cognitive readjustment.

Task 4: Emotionally relocate the deceased and move on. This does not really call for a complete disengagement from the deceased, but rather, to find a more suitable place for the deceased in the life of the survivor so as to enable the survivor to live an effective life (Shuchter & Zissok, 1986).

Feelings include reactions of shock and numbness, sadness, anger and anxiety.

Module 92: Cultural Interpretation of Dying and Death in Non-Western Society: The Case of Nigeria

Introduction: The difference between dying and death is that in dying, the individual goes through a process of gradual termination before death occurs. In death, this process is absent (like the person who passes away in his sleep) or relatively short (like the person who bled to death from a gunshot). In both cases, the loved ones are left behind to go through the grieving process. Whereas the grieving process begins before death occurs in the case of a dying person, it begins after death has occurred in the case of sudden or unexpected death. In the case of dying, there is anticipation that death will ultimately result. Therefore, the loved one has time to prepare both emotionally and cognitively for death when it occurs. Here, coping after death is easier for the survivors and the dying person has time to take care of unfinished business like preparing a Will. However, in the case of death, because such preparation is absent, coping by loved ones is difficult and the deceased person hasn't the time to take care of unfinished business like preparing a Will. Most theories and models on dying and death were developed in the West with Westerners in mind. In this chapter, some Western theories and perspectives will be discussed considering the different experiences of non-Westerners in general and Nigerians in particular.

Deaths and dying gradual or sudden

Nigeria: A Brief Description Nigeria, with an estimated population of over 100 million, is Africa's most populous nation. This nation located in the western part of Africa attained independence from the British in 1960 and for most of its post-independence era has been ruled by the military. There are over 250 ethnic groups, but the three dominant ones are the Yorubas to the South-West region, the Ibos to the Eastern region, and the Hausa/Fulanis in the Northern region. With a largely Islamic influence in the Northern part and a largely Christian influence in the Southern part, Nigeria has a triple heritage of Islam, Christianity, and Traditional religious practices that existed (and still exists) before the advent of foreign religions (Mazrui, 1986). Nigeria's triple heritage of Islam, Christianity, and Traditional religious practices is quite influential in that country's judicial system. There are three legal

systems: 1) one based on the Judeo-Christian English law; 2) one based on Islamic laws (Shariah) which operates at the state level, but only in the Northern part of the country; and 3) one (customary laws) based on the customs and traditions of the people in a particular community which operates at the local government level only. Thus, in governance, Nigeria is not a secular society (like the U.S.), but a multi-religious one.

Death is always placed within a perspective, be it philosophical or religious, but most times religious in Nigeria and elsewhere. Religion can be thought of as a cultural system of meaning because it helps to provide answers to the problems of **uncertainty, powerlessness, and scarcity** that death creates. Funeral rituals, evolved to acknowledge this phase of life, have a religious quality to them (e.g., Leming & Dickinson, 1994). Therefore, in placing death within a religious perspective, the bereaved person finds meaning for an event that for most people is inexplicable. For example, why should a 5 year old die instead of the 50 year old? It doesn't make logical sense, but perhaps it does from a religious standpoint. Because of Nigeria's triple heritage of Christianity, Islam, and Traditional religion death rituals are therefore varied and so are the mourning practices of the people.

Preparation for Death The preparation for death could be either formal or informal. In societies where there is a strong entrenchment of the rule of law, the legal dimension to death is very important.

Module 93: Cultural Interpretation of Death

Cultural Interpretation of Death

For most Christians, death is seen as a transition phase to a higher, glorious place called heaven where one is joined with other believers, including loved ones, who have gone ahead. The qualification for entry into heaven is not by one's works on earth but by accepting God's son Jesus Christ as one's savior and redeemer. So there is hope that those who die in Christ will be seen again. It is also because God is sovereign and knows the beginning and end of our lives even before we were born, that the Christian believer can take consolation in his or her beliefs as to why God "allows" the 5-year-old to die instead of the 50-year-old. God is also a just God who punishes evil.

Death as a transition phase to a higher, glorious place

The concept of transition is that the ending of one life is the beginning of another life. Like Christian believers are aware of this, and in the case of the death of their children, are likely to use any of the following three ways to rationalize the death:

1. **Reunion**-The child is in heaven where parent and dead child will eventually reunite (Most frequently used); This is how Muslims make sense of death of a child or a beloved.
2. **Reverence**-The child's death serves some religious purpose, perhaps as an inspiration for parents to do some good works.
3. **Retribution**-The child's death is a result of the parents' sin.

Islam: People of the Islamic faith believe that a person's actions will be judged by Allah (God) after death, and that the holy Quran specifies behaviors that are acceptable and unacceptable to Allah, upon which judgment will be based. Like Christians, Muslims also believe in the sovereignty of God in matters of loss and they seek consolation in the phrase that "Allah gives and Allah takes."

Traditional African Belief System: The traditional African belief system is also referred to as ancestor worship. Unlike the Christian and Western ways of thinking, the premise for ancestor worship is based on an understanding that the life course is cyclical and not linear. Those who are dead, though not physically seen, are alive in a different world and can reincarnate in new births. Furthermore, to be in the world of the dead is to have supernatural powers over those in the world of the living. Such powers include the ability to bless or to curse, and to give life or to take life. The adherents of the traditional African belief system actively engage the dead through worship (which could take the form of food, alcoholic drinks, or money sacrifices) and through prayers for blessings and protection.

Module 94: Coping with Death; Case of Women

Given the three dominant religious belief systems in Nigeria, in addition to the possibility that people could adhere to more than one religion, coping with the death of a loved one could be complicated, as mentioned earlier. However, personality variables (e.g., previous experiences with death, one's gender), the nature of the death (sudden or not) and availability of social support also intersect with religious beliefs, to affect grief outcomes. Though religious beliefs and personality characteristics are important variables in coping with the death of a loved one, more salient however is the amount of support one has, especially from family members and friends immediately after death occurs. Social support is also important in the ensuing months and perhaps years to come. Nigeria, being a collectivist society (Hofstede, 1980), with more people likely to live in multigenerational households (Hashimoto, 1991), one would expect bereaved persons to enjoy adequate social support. However, the plight of widows brings special attention to the contradictions in the traditional social support system in this society, in times of death. Unlike widowers, widows experience inadequate social support.

Types of Marriage and Implications for a Widow's Inheritance

In non-Muslim societies, the male will prepare the body of the female and the female prepare the body of the male after death for the funeral. On the other hand, in Muslim cultures, it happens contrary to this means males prepare the body of a male and females prepare the body of a female. This is the major and most significant difference between cultures. Other than this there are some differences related to widowhood as well. There is a difference in the funeral ceremonies as well. In Western cultures, the females carry the bodies go to the graveyard and remain part of the funeral ceremony. But in the non-western countries, females do not go to the graveyards. In Islam, you cannot separate the children from inheritance but in the Western cultures, one can do this in his or her life.

Personality traits, IQ, and EQ play a very important role in dealing with death. In addition to this social support religious beliefs, gender, and social support impact or determine the bereavement process or its outcomes.

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Lesson 26**DIVERSE DIMENSIONS: EXPLORING WORLD VIEWS, THE DIVINE AND THE SELF IN CROSS-CULTURAL CONTEXTS****Module: 95-98****Module 95: World Views of Reality**

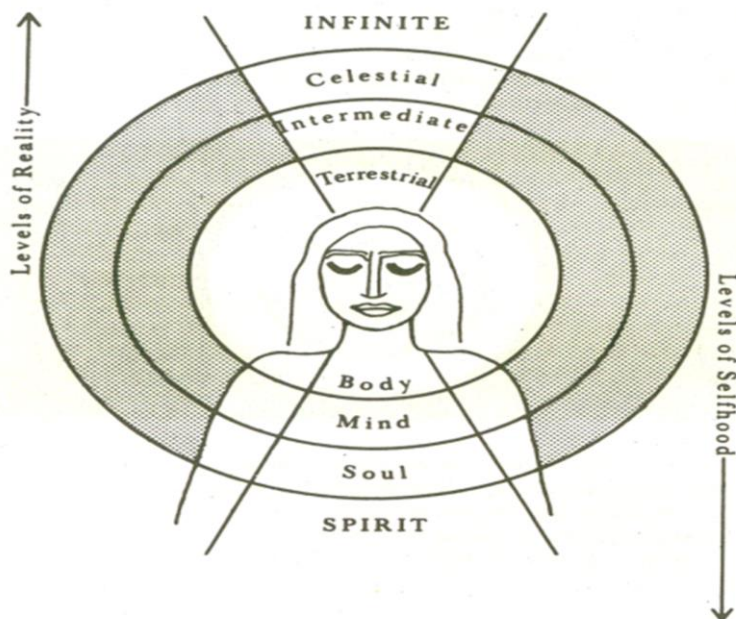
Since the beginning of human existence on earth, philosophers and scientists alike have engaged with the concept of reality or rather Reality, nature of universe, Divine and human, the beginning of existence and the end of existence. Creation of World has been a subject in theology, philosophy, religion and science. The world views of Reality address how world came into being, how man appeared, when and how the world will end. The religious and theological views place world as a creation that came into being through the Divine Will and Word. 'KUN' is a word used in Arabic and Quranic scripture to describe the Divine act of creation. Major world religions believe in creation of the world emanating from the Divine and reflecting or manifesting the Divine attributes.

The scientific era began to deny creation by presenting evolutionary theory. Evolution places human and universe existence as a phenomenon that took place over a long time, simple matter developing or evolving into the present universe. The concept of ages like Stone Age, Iron Age etc. are used as milestones. Cultures based in religious knowledge agree on creation whereas as scientific thought in the post-industrialized era have largely now ignored creation as irrelevant to modern life and knowledge and progress. The beginning of universe is explained through big bang theory, and everything rests on natural laws that are in action without a Creator or Divine Being overlooking the running of the world. This topic is very vast and students can read much in relevant literature. The purpose to introduce this in a course of cross-cultural psychology is to provide a perspective that joins all cultures throughout the history- God, world and man. A common thread that binds all cultures is belief in creation and Divine, human destiny, afterlife and end of world. From ancient to present, cultures have held traditional beliefs in the origin and end of world and after life. Individuals within societies may differ in agnostic stance but largely across cultures these notions exist and are held firmly.

The second question is the nature of Reality and self both human and Divine. Concept of God forms the bases of many practices, rituals and lifestyles in various cultures. A simple example is charity; every culture has tradition of charity; many believe it is in name of God who will be pleased by a good deed. Similarly, piety, morality and values are tied to religious conceptions originating in revealed religions.

Imam Ghazali has provided its distinctions. The difference between the world here and hereafter is body and soul. He described alam e nasoot to alam-e hahoot. Alam e khayal and alam e missal which is the imaginal world. In which alam e nasoot is today's world. Alam e hahoot is its second end where the existence and it's all levels or layers end, at this level the thoughts and words end. The human will or nafs are associated with alam e khayal because the body is related to thoughts and emotions but not visible as a tangible object. Alam e Missal is an imaginary world.

Some modern authors have addressed the understanding about the self across traditions. The chart below is a summing of traditional worldview.



(source: Huston Smith, Forgotten truth)

Module 96: Concept of God in Major Religions

The first question that is being addressed in this regard is who has created the world or from it has come from who made it and how. Karen Armstrong's book 'A History of God' best explained how the concept of God emerged through different religions and at the end how Islam define this concept.

Those who believe in the GOD of the Judeo-Christian –Islamic tradition they must believe in a single being with characteristics of being: SUPREME, ALL POWERFUL, ALL GOOD, ALL PERFECT, ALL KNOWING and ETERNAL.

- Divine Being
- Unseen
- All powerful
- Omniscient
- Omni present
- Infinite
- Eternal
- Western (Christian) thought, God is traditionally described as a being that possesses at least three necessary properties: omniscience (all-knowing), omnipotence (all-powerful), and Omni benevolence (supremely good)

In Islam, being is = Dhaat, and Attributes are = Siffat. The Names of Allah are 99 and they signify His Qualities like Mercy, Provider, All powerful, Life giving, Avenger, All Encompassing, Eternal, Ever present, All-Seer, Wise, Benevolent and so on.

الرَّحْمَانُ

الْإِسْلَامُ

الْمُصَوِّرُ

الْطَّيْفُ

الْوَاسِعُ

الْوُدُودُ

Module 97: Human Self and Psyche in Religious Studies**Human Self and Psyche-A Traditional Perspective****Human being a tri-partite beings consisting of:**

These three parts are integrated.

- Body
- Mind/soul
- Spirit

Nature of the body

- Physical
- Visible
- Perishable/ mortal
- Decays

Nature of Soul

- Soul and Spirit (it is called noma as well)
- Ruh and Nafs
- Maya and Atma (in Yogi Tradition) It is said in the Quran about soul that it is amal-e rabi. Of which no one knows other than God. In this aatma is the soul and maya is body. Soul is immortal self it is called noma as well. The body is physical and mortal. Sheikh Abdullah a swiss writer writes in his book Alchemy when individuals left the house it remains empty and no longer remains house and starts decaying. Similarly, when the soul left the body, the body remains empty and called deceased.
- What is the soul and body? Just like the universe and God. The beyond sky from the earth is infinite just like God. Second is celestial which is the Sky one can see, and the third is in between. And then fourth our body is terrestrial (as mentioned in the picture). In many cultures, there is a concept of the inner five sense which includes thoughts, imagination and impulse or intuition. Amam Ghazali has written in detail about these. How these boundaries are created between one and other level and states. This has been addressed in detail in the given books reference below.

And they ask you about the 'RUH'

Rūḥ (Arabic: روح plural arwāḥ) is a person's immortal, essential self—pneuma, i.e. the "spirit" or "soul". The Quran itself does not describe rūḥ as the immortal self, directly. Nevertheless, in some contexts, it animates inanimate matter. Mind and its faculties include five external senses and five inner senses. The nafs and Ruh are connected on the boundaries of seen and unseen. For a detailed description of this deep and complex area, please read the following article and chapter in the book. Sheikh Alabdullah said in his book

1. Amjad, N. (1986). Psyche- A traditional perspective. *Iqbal Review*, 27 (3), 107-159; *Iqbal Review*, 27 (1), 135-165.

2. Quranic concepts of Human Psyche

Who is running this brain or bodily functions? Nature of soul or aatma.

Module 98: Contemplative Traditions

In all religions there is an inner tradition that contains the spiritual core or element of the outward religion. In Islam it is called Shariat and Tariqat, in Christian tradition, it is Mysticism and monastic tradition, in Judaism, it is kabbalah and in ancient Hindu religion it is Yogi Tradition.

Zen, Sufism, Christian Mystics- Monks, Esoteric Lurianic Kabbalah, Yogi tradition- All paths lead to one summit. All have only one aim; to be one with the One, to unite with the Divine. Nearness to the One, The Divine hence Sanctification

What is common between these inner or contemplative traditions is the focus on spiritual self with an aim to achieve nearness to God (realization or Nirvaan) in our earthly life. Rumi had said 'Die before you die' meaning that achieving realization in God is akin to rising above our material and bodily forms and finding the Centre of our self in our spirit. In Islam the contemplative comprising of extended focus and meditation in Name of Allah has its beginning in pre-revelation time of Prophet's life when he withdrew to a cave to invoke God's Name and spend time in meditation alone, away from the world.





Lesson 27

**CROSS-CULTURAL INSIGHTS INTO HUMAN CONSCIOUSNESS
AND DREAM INTERPRETATION****Module: 99-101****Module 99: Human Consciousness**

Culture is an inseparable attribute of human consciousness, the subjective awareness of one's own sensations, perceptions, and other mental events. It is a process that has several stages or states. It kept going from inside as well as from outside. So, internal and external stimuli are being received consciously.

The “**normal**” **flow** of consciousness may consist of periods of full attention and concentration or relative detachment from the outside events. Periods of wakefulness are altered by periods of sleep. Under various circumstances, the normal flow of consciousness can be altered by meditation, psychoactive substances, trance, or hypnotic suggestion. However, the very concept of consciousness is elusive, thus making its cross-cultural examination particularly difficult.

Waking and alert state

When we are completely alert, in the waking state and consciously processing the stimuli of our surroundings. But there are other levels or layers of consciousness as well.

Altered state

There is a third state as well in between waking and sleeping which is called the altered state. This state is in between waking and sleep. It is a change or transition from one state to another like a dream, when we wake up from sleep, altered states are due to some medicine or anesthesia or getting conscious from anesthesia.

Subsystems of consciousness*1. Exteroception*

It receives external stimuli through the nose, eyes and ears but the sense of touch needs deliberate action to take to sense similarly with the sense of taste. In this case, the eyes, nose, and ears are the source of exteroceptive, which means we receive signals through them. This is a type of consciousness.

2. Interoception

It refers to the internal sense that you become aware that you are about to fall, and you maintain the balance. In this way, it is about maintaining balance. So, it is about the internal balance and sensation.

3. *Input processing*

Whatever is received through stimulation, its interpretation or perception is called input processing. Like if you are listening to someone, you interpret that there is a male or female, dark or light, speaking in which language and wearing which color dress is he or she wearing.

4. *Memory*

The prior coding related to different stimuli is used to interpret the things we have learned through our childhood that with long hair there is a female and with short hair, there is a male so, in this manner, this saved information in the memory let us interpret the things and derive meaning from sensation or stimuli received from the external environment. So, we use it in our conscious state.

5. *Awareness*

This is the ability to know what is happening around the individual.

6. *Sense of identity*

Who am I? This remains in consciousness always. This is called self-awareness or self-consciousness.

7. *Emotions*

There are several emotions like sadness, happiness, shame, disgust, surprise etc. The awareness of emotions

8. *Space and time*

When and where things are happening, was it yesterday or today? What was the time and where was that space is? Is it here or there or anywhere else in this world.

9. *Evaluation*

Consciousness is 'evaluation' as well. Making decisions regarding what one perceives. Which stimuli to attend to or what not to attend? So, deciding on perceived stimuli is after evaluation. If I hear a certain voice of a baby cry need to run quickly.

10. *Subconscious actions*

These are the invisible actions that cannot be seen like shrinking the stomach or stopping breathing for a few seconds. So those things that are happening from inside are called subconscious actions. These are subconscious but are in our awareness like digestion is what one is aware of similarly pain and hunger are too.

11. *Motor input*

Bodily responses to the environment like walking, roaming around touching things, and getting aside from traffic to save oneself is called motor output. It is about the output from one's body or what is being done by the body.

Consciousness tends to be stabilized

It is our way of being. The way we feel at a certain time and place. This means what are we at a certain moment? So, everything in combination or all the elements in total make a sense of integrity and consistency developed by an individual. So, it can be said that all these elements in combination make a stabilized experience of oneself in its awareness.

The idea of individual consciousness as dependent on socialization experiences and other cultural factors was developed throughout the twentieth century by several psychologists (Piaget, 1963; Vygotsky, 1932; Wundt, 1913). According to psychological anthropologist Hallowell (1955), people live within a behavioral environment, a mental representation of time, space, and the interpersonal world. Specific cultural beliefs and practices shape the individual's behavioral environment.

Module 100: Culture and Consciousness

Major ideas about human consciousness was developed within the Christian, Muslim, Jewish, Hindu, Buddhist, and other theological schools of thought (Smith, 1991). They developed fundamental ideas about the soul as immortal, divine, and separable from the body.

Hallucination

Hallucination is the phenomenon of extra perception of any sensation which does not exist like seeing, hearing, smelling or feeling any taste or touch when there is nothing that exists in reality. There are no external stimuli, but the brain is perceiving that. It is psychopathology and one of the major symptoms of schizophrenia or psychosis. In this disorder individuals hear the voices as if someone is saying something to them for example in the past people has been reported that someone asked to commit suicide, someone asked to kill people, or things like that. However, there are some cultures in which hallucinations are not considered a disorder. It means that cultures hold different views regarding consciousness.

It has been found that hallucinations of schizophrenia are more strongly influenced by the cultural environment, for example a member of a traditional society would report hallucinations related to his culture. Hallucinations in this regard have reported, "You are the benefiter of humanity take these 20 peoples along and jump from a certain mountain." So, whatever is part of the culture will be seen in the hallucinations of the members of that society. Witch or wizard will be seen if these concepts or stories are part of the individual's culture. In the indigenous Indian cultures prevails in us tend to hallucinate like plants tend to talk or they hear plants talking to them.

Culture's role in interpretation

The hallucinations experienced by the individual are interpreted by the experts according to the cultural context of the individual, for example the thing or extra perception is interpreted by the individual. Secondly, it has also been observed that in some cultures the hallucinations themselves are considered an influence of spirit or magic and not considered as psychopathology.

The Case of Hypnosis

Hypnosis is a changed state of awareness and increased relaxation that allows for better focus and concentration after achieving this state, different questions are asked from the client relevant to the problem. Most mental health experts believe that it is just a mimicry but the special thing about this treatment method in psychology is that, unlike other therapies in psychology, this therapy can bring responses from people which are culturally imbedded and there is no conscious manipulation involved in their answers to certain questions asked by the therapist.

Adaptive nature of altered states

The altered states of the individual refer to the states where an individual is not using conscious awareness like the state of hallucination, the state of hypnosis, or the state of hallucination. This altered state has some adaptive functions or benefits as well like biological, psychological, sense of rejuvenation, social, and socio-cultural. After this trans-state, the individual is usually physically and psychologically relaxed. Psychologically the feeling of well-being is also experienced. Anxiety or depression is also minimized after this state. Socially this state brings a sense of connection with other people, like in a mausoleum or shrine people tend to remain in the altered state and after that, they feel connected. Altered states also strengthen religious beliefs as well. It creates social bonds as well as in mausoleums or shrines people do some rituals together and share their experiences as well. Altered states are not much studied in science but in some religions, these states are used for the healing purposes like spraying water or milk, blow and recite different religious mantras for healing purposes. Although it is not studied scientifically, it is observed and reported as it is the core objective of cross-cultural psychology to represent what is being practiced.

Thaipusam

It is a tamil hindu practice during which the devotee either lays on the ground for his back hooks or stays standing to receive facial piercings (especially with pins on their tongue). Before the piercings are performed, ash is rubbed on the area to cleanse it and make it pure. Other than this, it includes drumming, chanting, dancing, and singing as well. It prevails in Malaysia, Sri Lanka, and India. In Pakistani culture a religious sect ahl-e- tashe practices self-flagellation. So, the question is how the state of Trans brings about pain rather they have a special feeling of contentment on their face. People feel good about this pain. Similarly, there

are some dances at different shrines in Pakistan and India. On the shrine of Molana Rome individuals tend to dance in a circular form and it is part of spirituality rather than a ritual of treating bad spirits.

Module 101: Culture and Dreams

At this moment, about a third of the world population is sleeping. Sleep is a non-waking state of consciousness characterized by general unresponsiveness to the environment and general physical immobility. During sleep, responsiveness to external, and particularly visual, stimulation is diminished, but it is not absent (Antrobus, 1991). There are tremendous individual variations in how “wakeful” we are when sleeping. In addition, cultural practices, sleeping arrangements, and general environmental conditions can influence people’s responsiveness to external stimulation during sleep. There are also significant individual variations in terms of duration of sleep. In every country around the world, some individuals sleep for five or six hours, whereas others need nine or ten hours. Duration of sleep may vary from culture to culture. As an illustration, in a study of the sleep-wakefulness cycle in Mexican adults, Taub (1971) found that the average duration of sleep in Mexican subjects was longer than in other Western countries.

Interpretation of dreams

Dreams and their interpretation prevail in the religions there are books available on the dreams. Every individual dream has always been in history too. In Islam it is mentioned in detail in book “Tabeer Ur Roya by Imam Ibn E Sereen”. The knowledge of the interpretation of dreams was given to Hazrat Ali (RA) by Allah. So, Imam Sereen heard from him and wrote a book. So, he arranged that knowledge in an alphabetical order in a very systematic way. He just gave a form of encyclopedia or dictionary for dream interpretation. Similarly, it has been found in Egyptian culture as well. In this way, it can be said that culture has played a very significant role in dream interpretation and dreaming.

Cultural supplies templates for dream imagery, interpretation, and expression

Culture provides us with a template or map for the imagery. It provides the ways it could be presented as well as interpreted. So, in this way, dreams are expressed through the cultural frame.

Dream images are cultural creation

The way one imagines or sees images in dreams is embedded in the cultures. The content, frequency, and timings varied from one culture to another. The scientific perspective has a different explanation by looking through a religious perspective which is also one of the influential aspects of dreams, it talks about different aspects and interpretations of dream. Additionally, the individual experiences of the same dream may be different from one another.

Dreams diffuse and diversify culture

Dreams expand, diversify, and fade the reality. Dreams can be used for sorting out many internal problems and issues. These can enhance the understanding of reality as well. As reality cannot always express through words or consciousness. According to Maulana Ahmeed Javed, dreams are manifested or experienced to develop emotional maturity. Another saying about dreams is that when there is no revelation from God, humans will be connected through dreams to another world or level.

In the process of dream interpretation, the dream, its time, the expression of the dreamer while talking about the dream, were observed by Hazrat Imam Ali (RA) and mentioned by Imaam Sereen as well. In the Greek and Egyptian cultures, many scholars interpret dreams in a very efficient way.

Dreams serve these two purposes:

- Dreams also promote cultural diversification
- Dreams suggest novel solutions to dreamers during sleep.
- Dreams of the departed, messages from the other world (as the people who left this world cannot lie and they show what is there and in which condition they are.)
- Dreams depict cultural updating in the mind

REM Sleep

It is a level of sleep in which an individual is in a deep sleep. During REM sleep, the emotional and motivational content is more in the dream. In non-REM sleep, the current issues are more or what is happening recently. The specific events that happened recently get in the dreams. We build updates and cultural dreams are passed on to the next generation through stories etc. Dreams are one of the main reasons that supernatural beings are part of cultural models of reality.

Lesson 28

FAITH IN FLUX: NAVIGATING RELIGION AND CULTURE IN THE DIASPORA EXPERIENCE**Module: 102-105****Module 102: Disentangling Religion and Culture****Anthropological approach**

Separating religion and culture requires an in-depth study of ideologies. Religion has been studied through sociological and anthropological approaches. These approaches just discuss how religions started embedded in the cultures it does not include faith and origins of the religion rather it is just discussed as one of the phenomena or the society.

Anthropology addresses the history of human and religious evolution in society. It addresses how it evolved through the past among the people of society. Though it is a science, it is studied through culture and how it is understood by individuals in the past and present.

Sociological approach sees religion as a product of human thought process and looks at the “capacity of religion to serve for the individual or for a group, as a source of general, yet distinctive, conceptions of the world, the self and the relations between them”. Greetz (1973).

Traditional Approach

According to this approach, 1000 years ago human beings do not think the same way we do especially since the concepts about God changed after industrialization and the overall scientific approach adopted.

According to the traditional approach, the religion is ‘A belief system about reality, existence, social domain and afterlife with guidelines and laws for conduct and societal matters.’

Religion addresses what will happen after death how to spend life and on which principles. On the other hand, science do not discuss anything about it. Religions tell about the afterlife, there are laws regarding societal conduct, laws and how to spend life, and do rituals. So, God, the creator human being, human beings themselves, and the universe and their relationship in between them, the connection between man and God has all been addressed by the religion for the success of the afterlife of human beings. It prevails in all the religions. The study of religion in social sciences has employed sociological and anthropological approaches. The traditional approach to religion has understood religion as it is defined within the religious tradition itself as revealed wisdom comprising of understanding about God and man’s role as viceregent of God. “Religion is a meeting between man as such and God”, says Frithjof Schuon (Isa Nuruddin) a Western scholar of comparative religion who embraced Islam in his youth and became a Sufi Shiekh.

Primordial Religion

It is the religion of nature which has always been part of the universe and will remain always. It prevails before the existence of human beings.

Cultural Approach

Culture is influenced by religion and culture impacts the expression of religion. A few examples are popular festivals like Eid and Holy. Food is culture-specific but often governed

by principles of religion, for example halal or kosher food. Social rituals that are also religious are Nikah, marriage vows, birth and death rituals. An interesting combination is seen among diaspora, people who migrate to other cultures; they preserve their religion but also adapt to new culture. Disentangling religion from culture needs knowledge of religion first. There are boundaries to be understood; certain values are religion and so are practices, for example halal food, whereas certain practices are culture based and there is no harm in giving them up, for example joint family system, dress style and cousin marriages. Culture influences by religion and impacted by how we express religious beliefs. This is the approach of social sciences. But contrary to this, traditional approach says that religion is a far bigger concept than the culture.

Module 103: Religion and Culture A Look of Diaspora

Cultural Migration

Diaspora refers to groups living in a new culture for example Europeans in America: mostly the same religion, Christianity. Muslims have migrated to other countries; both Islamic countries like the Middle East or Malaysia, as well as non-Islamic countries like the USA, Canada, Europe, and Australia. As we mentioned in the previous module, they practice their religion within a new culture and assert religious as well as ethnic identity.

In cross-cultural psychology, many researchers have studied these samples and infer that diaspora, or migrants represent their culture of origin. Many indigenous researchers in countries of origin and public at large view diaspora as a separate cultural group who do not necessarily represent the large population of their country of origin.

Religion and Culture: Tehzeeb and Deen

Religion (Deen) and culture (Tehzeeb) are deeply intertwined, often influencing and shaping each other. In traditional views, religion is seen as superior to culture, setting the foundation for societal norms. However, from a sociological perspective, religion and culture are complex systems that interact in multiple ways. While some view these as distinct entities, in practice, they often overlap. For example, religious beliefs may guide cultural practices, but local customs can also influence how religion is practiced in different regions.

Diaspora and Cultural Migration

Diaspora refers to groups of people who migrate and settle in new cultures, different from their native ones. This cultural migration creates communities that live in a blend of their original and new cultural settings. For instance, Europeans have settled in America, South Asians have migrated to Europe, and many Muslims have relocated to non-Muslim majority countries. This migration introduces changes in both culture and religion, depending on where they move. If Muslims settle in other Muslim-majority countries, such as the Middle East or Malaysia, they may find religious commonality but experience cultural differences. When they migrate to non-Muslim-majority regions, both their religion and culture may face significant adaptations as it can be seen in the following pictures.



Variations in Religious and Cultural Practices

Muslims living in different countries may share the same religious beliefs, but their cultural practices often vary. For example, clothing, food, and social norms may be distinct depending on the country or region. A Pakistani Muslim's cultural expression might differ from that of a Malaysian Muslim, even though their religious practices are similar. Yet, some aspects remain consistent due to the influence of religion. Shared religious customs, such as prayer and dietary rules, often provide a sense of unity among Muslims, regardless of their geographical location.

Cultural Influences on Religious Practices

In many instances, cultural practices can influence how religion is observed. For example, marriage traditions in South Asia often involve arranged marriages where couples do not meet beforehand, a custom rooted in culture rather than religion. Islam, on the other hand, allows for couples to meet before marriage. This shows how cultural traditions can sometimes overshadow religious teachings. Similarly, food habits across the Muslim world vary, yet the requirement to consume halal food remains consistent.

Challenges of Cultural Diaspora

One of the main challenges faced by diaspora communities is balancing integration into a new culture while preserving their religious and cultural identities. Boundaries are often drawn between how much one should adapt to a new culture and how much of their original culture and religious practices they should maintain. For Muslims and Christians alike, the question of how much to embrace a new culture without compromising religious beliefs is a common dilemma. Diasporic communities must navigate these boundaries, often finding ways to blend aspects of both their religion and their new cultural environment.

Impacts on Everyday Life

Cultural diversity in large cities, such as New York, highlights how various cultures and religions coexist nearby. In such settings, many migrants find themselves adapting their religious practices to fit their new cultural context. For example, Muslims may struggle to maintain religious customs, such as the use of water for hygiene in bathrooms, in non-Muslim

countries where such practices are uncommon. Over time, communities find creative ways to maintain their traditions, even in foreign cultural settings, blending their original customs with new influences.

Conclusion

In conclusion, the relationship between religion and culture is particularly complex for diaspora communities. Migrants often face the challenge of maintaining their religious identity while adapting to new cultural environments. Religion may guide cultural practices, but culture also shapes how religion is lived and practiced in daily life. This dynamic interaction between religion and culture is crucial to understanding how people maintain their sense of identity in diverse, multicultural settings.

Module 104: New Entrants to Islam in Europe and North America: a Cultural Group of its own

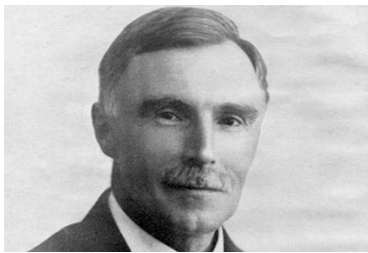
In our lecture, we learned about the unique case of new entrants to Islam. Worldwide in contemporary world and throughout history, people from other religions convert to Islam. Most of these are from the Christian community, a few from Jewish population and many who were atheists or agnostics. Entering a new religion is a personal intellectual and spiritual decision often resulting from a truth-seeking process. Inspiration to enter Islam may come through interaction with Muslim neighbors or friends, marrying a Muslim girl/man, or because of search for guidance in life. In any case finding meaning in Islam that was missing in their existing intellectual scheme is often reported as a major cause. Some of these new entrants have become well-respected scholars and Sufis through their dedication, piety and written work.

There are some religions in which adoption or conversion to those religions is not possible. Like Jews and Hindus. These two religions are those for which you must be born as a Jew or Hindu in your respective family. So, it is race as well as religion. Changing and converting the religion does not prevail now but in the past, specifically in Indo-Pak there were some casts or races which are considered as lower, tended to convert to Christianity. As they have been getting prestige and Honor being in that religion, and they have been considered human. Otherwise, they were not getting basic human rights in their own country and religion. There is a kind of conflict created in that there are some white and some black Christians so, different color Christians depict different cultures and share some common traits as well but there are cultural influences which vary from one place Christian to another who is living in a different culture.

An exceptionally brilliant example is Dr. Martin Lings from England, known as Sheikh Abu Bakr of Shadhli Sufi order. **Martin Lings** (24 January 1909 – 12 May 2005), also known as **Abū Bakr Sirāj ad-Dīn**, was an *England* writer, scholar, and philosopher. He entered Islam at the age of 30 and with passing time, his dedication to Islam, his piety, depth of his metaphysical knowledge and his spiritual stature knew no bounds. In last years of his life he was translating Quran selective surahs which were published after his death. He is source of inspiration and interest in Islam and Sufism throughout the world, having his followers in

Pakistan, India, Morocco, Malaysia, North Africa, Middle East, Europe and Iran. A student of the Swiss metaphysician Frithjof Schuon and an authority on the work of William Shakespeare, he is best known as the author of *Muhammad: His Life Based on the Earliest Sources*, first published in 1983 and still in print, which earned him acclaim in the Muslim world and prizes from the governments of Pakistan and Egypt. His work was hailed as the "best biography of the prophet in English" at the National Seerat Conference in Islamabad. Dr. Martin Lings was an acclaimed author, editor, translator of Quran, and eminent scholar of religion particularly Islam whose work centers on the relationship between God and man through religious doctrine, scripture, symbolism, literature and art.

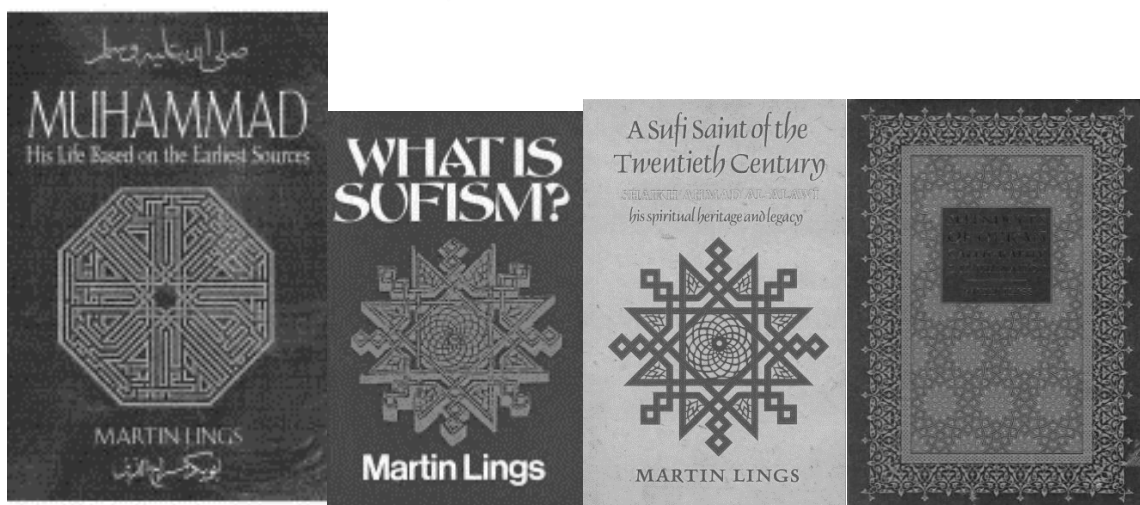
Another notable name is Hamza Yousaf in USA who has influenced thousands of people. Hamza Yusuf (born Mark Hanson; 1958) is an American Islamic neo-traditionalist, Islamic scholar, and co-founder of Zaytuna College. He is a proponent of classical learning in Islam and has promoted Islamic sciences and classical teaching methodologies throughout the world. Students are encouraged to do their search on these great names and read about their contribution to Islamic scholarship, spiritual guidance and community.



Pickthal



Hamza Yusuf



Module 105: Cultural Shades of Religious Practice

In this module we saw that people of the same religion living in various countries and regions of the world practice the same rituals, obey the same religious principles and are governed by same principles. However, keeping essential principles for example eating halal food or observing fasts, or covering body, the shades of practice are colorfully and interestingly different for example, mosques are found in all the different places in the world. Here are some universal things like dome, prayer mats, the way prayer is offered and timings etc. but there are some variations in the design, colors or exteriors as the material is part of the culture. Architecture is a major chunk of the culture so; all the mosques prevail globally are influenced by their local architecture. The way people dress and celebrate Eid in Malaysia or Nigeria may look different in appearance from a Pakistani or Irani Eid. These are just shades of religious practice manifested in various cultures where Islam is the official and majority religion.

VU TOOLKIT

Lesson 29

CULTURAL EXPRESSIONS OF SEXUALITY AND GENDER IDENTITY

Module: 106-109

Module 106: Women across Cultures

In this module, we looked at commonalities between women across cultures. This also includes role of women that can be influenced by culture and status of their rights, access to education, healthcare, and employment. This was only discussed as a possible avenue for looking at culture through the lens of gender. There are many commonalities in role of women across cultures such as being mother, family care, nourishment provider for family and home maker is still the norm in most cultures, although increasing economic pressures have driven women to work and added the role of family income earner even in collectivist cultures like India, Pakistan and China. Girls' education varies across cultures and so does their economic freedom, and autonomy. In Pakistani society girls are given less autonomy in even personal matters than boys such as choice of partner and career. Violence against women and domestic abuse happens in all cultures though legislation and norms may be better in some than others. Saudi Arabia for example has strict punishment for assaulting a woman and Irani and Malaysian society strongly disapproves of harassment. Inheritance of property and custody as well as financial support after divorce varies between western and south Asian countries like India and Pakistan.

Commonalities and Differences in women's lives across cultures

- Physical bodies
- Motherhood and family
- Work and pay
- Violence
- Power and leadership
- Feminist activism
- The theme that links all these issues is *the gendering of power*



- Women and men control of resources and exerting interpersonal and collective power accordingly
- Cultural norms affect whether women work outside the home
- Women are paid less than men worldwide
- One important contributor to the gender pay gap is the “motherhood penalty”. *Maan ki saza...*
- men work in higher-paying and more powerful occupations than women. For example, males are higher in number in army, politics and government etc.



- Women's body dissatisfaction
- Women body dissatisfaction can be explained with the help of two types of theories i.e. Sociocultural theories and Feminist theories.
- Sociocultural theories
 - cultures influence body dissatisfaction through media, family, peers, and other sources
 - Women compare themselves to ideals
 - Feminist theories

Women's cultural roles influence body dissatisfaction and body standards are tools for oppressing women. Body dissatisfaction/ body shame are related to mental health issues including anxiety and depression and this ultimately leads to actions, such as dieting, over-exercising, or choosing cosmetic surgery; also linked to eating disorders.

Violence Consequences include poor health, difficulty walking, pain, compromised daily functioning, memory loss, dizziness, physiological symptoms, emotional distress, and suicidal thoughts (Ellsberg et al., 2008).

Module 107: Culture and Sexuality

Cultural set of requirements, beliefs, symbols, and norms regarding sexuality and its expression may vary. This is known as sex culture and sex cultures vary greatly across the world, influenced by current religious, ideological, political, and moral values developed by society. Men prefer to marry younger, physically attractive women with high reproductive potential. Women prefer to marry older and wealthier men, with material resources, social status. Marital stability around the world is associated with fertility, more children and less chance of divorce. Most cultures consider sexual pleasure as normal, desirable, and natural. Some view it as primitive, sinful, and even abnormal. It is believed that masturbation (self-pleasure) is a sin that can cause retardation /serious psychological problems.

Type of Sex Culture and General Attitudes toward Sex

Issues/Type of Culture	Traditional Sex Culture	Nontraditional Sex Culture
Expression of sexuality	Heavily regulated	Somewhat regulated
Premarital sex	Prohibited and rejected	Somewhat tolerated
Extramarital sex	Prohibited and rejected	Somewhat tolerated
Homosexuality	Prohibited and rejected	Somewhat tolerated
Chastity	High value	Low value

Individual's sexuality, sexual thoughts, frequency of sexual acts, and type of sexual activities is affected by

- Family socialization
- Attitudes
- Adulthood experiences
- Environmental factors

(Kon, 2001)

Module 108: Expression of Sexuality Across Generation and Culture

Stability or change? Expression of sexuality across generations and culture

There are rapid cultural shifts like greater acceptance of sexual minorities though there is still widespread derogation of gay men and lesbian women. There are institutional changes, for example, the removal of homosexuality as a psychological diagnosis from DSM.

The question asked right now; **is sexual stigma dead?** Have perceptions of bisexual and transgender and discriminatory behaviors changed? Despite greater acceptance in some western societies the stigma and controversy of natural and divergent sexual orientation still exists and has myriad physical and mental health consequences.

Another point in sexuality is sexual desire. Lo and Kok (2014) assert that women in Asia rarely consider a lack of sexual desire to be abnormal because Asian women are not entitled to have sexual desire.

Masla mardangi ka

- Bangladeshi men, power over women described as “natural” and “normal”
- Sexual intercourse, described as a “game”, competition of the sexes, game a man may lose to a woman, a threat to his natural power over the woman
- Men feel shame of losing this game
- Negativity toward sexual weakness or dysfunction among Muslim men in the UK; sexual dysfunction is considered a punishment.

Module 109: Attitudes Toward Sexual & Gender Identity Minorities

Individuals ‘different’ from dominant culture experience prejudice and discrimination as Heterosexuals are the dominant sexual orientation group. There is the issue of original sex = termed as cisgender, recognized as a dominant gender identity group.

Individuals who differ from this norm are considered aberrations.

LGBTQAs, stigma violation of norms of majority, “devalued, spoiled, or flawed in the eyes of others”. This trend is changing in Australia, Canada, and the U.S (Kelly, 2001). U. S. General Social Survey have been more accepting of homosexuality over time (Hurley, 2005). These changes are especially noticeable in younger respondents. From observation of younger educated and western educated Pakistani youth and their social media opinions, one can say with some caution that attitudes to sexual minorities are also changing among this segment of Pakistani society mostly social and economic elite. One can see fashion designers and members of artistic community being accepted as gay though may be sniggered at some times.





Researchers have identified a set of predictors of individuals' attitudes toward sexual minorities that appear to hold cross-culturally. These are:

- Interpersonal contact
- Level of education
- Religion: individuals with stronger religious beliefs are more negative toward gays and lesbians.

The public opinion is reflected in the pictures below though these are driven usually by ignorant and conservationist elements of society motivated by political agendas.



When gender differences emerge; women are consistently found to be more accepting of homosexuality than are men (Adamczyk and Pitt, 2009). Heterosexual men are especially intolerant of gay men.

Voices of minority also appear visibly.



Awareness and understanding of transgender issues have increased but has not changed transgender people's status. Attitudes toward transgender people are generally negative. Available evidence suggests this holds cross-culturally. Trans prejudice is associated with sexual prejudice.

Lesson 30

UNDERSTANDING STEREOTYPES: PERCEPTIONS, TARGETS AND ATTRIBUTION

Module: 110-112

Module 110: Stereotypes and Powers of Generalization

We often do not have the necessary time or psychological resources to analyze every fact as new and unique. We categorize almost everything we see, hear, and deal with. Stereotypes are categorical assumptions that all members of a given group have a particular trait. Stereotypes could be positive or negative, simple or differentiated, and held with or without confidence (Smith & Bond, 1993). These qualities could also vary in their degree. The process of social perception often makes us simplify the incoming information and categorize it by groups. For instance, Israeli Arabs see Jews as more intellectually advanced; however, the Arabs see themselves as far superior socially—thus referring to their friendships, love, family traditions, and overall collectivism (Bizman & Amir, 1982). Stereotypical beliefs such as “most illegal immigrants are criminals,” or “interracial marriages are less stable than same-race marriages,” or “all Jews are wealthy” may be expressed in our daily judgments even though many times these stereotypes are incorrect. There are some undocumented aliens who commit crimes, but they represent a small proportion of all undocumented aliens in the United States. Interracial marriages are as stable as same-race matrimony. There are both rich and poor Jews. Stereotypes are heuristic. **Heuristics** are mental shortcuts that provide quick estimates about the likelihood of uncertain events. Heuristics are used to conserve mental effort and time.



Are stereotypes always wrong, mostly wrong, or mostly, right? Are all Jews greedy and want to obtain all powers to control? Are all Pathans Hospitable?

Are stereotypes always negative? For example, men are always offenders in domestic violence, Women are weak, rich people are heartless. These may not be true but still are held.

Module 111: Stereotyping from the Perspective of Perceivers and Targets

Introduction

The term "stereotype," coined in 1798 by the French printer Didot, originally referred to a printing process used to create reproductions (Ashmore & Del Boca, 1981). Journalist Walter Lippmann (1922) later likened stereotypes to "pictures in the head," or mental reproductions of reality. The term gradually came to mean generalizations or, quite often, overgeneralizations about the members of a group such as stereotyping, prejudice, and racism.

Perceiver: The perceiver is the individual or group who holds and applies the stereotype toward others. They are responsible for forming and acting on preconceived notions or assumptions about a person based on their membership in a particular group. For example: A manager assumes that older employees are less tech-savvy than younger ones. In this case, the manager is the perceiver, applying an age-related stereotype.

Target: The target is the individual or group toward whom the stereotype is directed. They are the ones subjected to the assumptions or prejudices formed by the perceiver. For example: An older employee, who is seen as less capable with technology due to their age, is the target of this stereotype.

Prejudice can be thought of as one's affective or emotional response to members of a particular social group.

Stereotypes are most generally defined as "beliefs about the characteristics, attributes, and behaviors of members of certain groups" (Hilton & von Hippel, 1996, p. 240). A common stereotype is the belief that women are more emotional and less capable of leadership than men. This stereotype implies that women, as a group, possess certain emotional characteristics that make them less suitable for high-pressure decision-making roles, such as in executive positions.

Racism is behavior that is discriminative against a particular social group. Each of these concepts clearly influences behavior and therefore can be examined in specific situations. For example, stereotypes are related to one's overall attitude towards a particular group.

Characterizations of stereotypes include "pictures in our heads" (Lippmann, 1922) and the definition, "exaggerated belief associated with a category. Its function is to justify (rationalize) our conduct in relation to that category" (Allport, 1954, p.191). Documenting the impact of stereotypes on intergroup relations has been a major interest of social psychologists across cultures.

- **Stereotyping from the Perceiver's Perspective**

Cognitively, stereotypes are mental shortcuts that we rely on to obtain information quickly and effortlessly. The accuracy of stereotypes about a particular group or individual is a separate issue. On the other hand, from a **motivational perspective**, relying on stereotypes (especially negative ones) to form judgments about people who are not members of our group, helps us maintain or boost our self-esteem.

Self-esteem, or feelings of self-worth, depends on what we think about ourselves as individuals and our accomplishments and talents, and upon the groups to which we belong or with whom

we identify. Self-esteem is often viewed as having two components. Our **personal self-esteem** refers to our feelings of self-worth based on our own individual accomplishments and talents.

Collective Self-esteem refers to our feelings of worth or pride based on our group memberships. When we rely on negative group stereotypes to judge others, we may increase our self-esteem by asserting that our group is somehow better or superior. Thus, we contribute to our collective self-esteem. For example, if I use negative stereotypes to describe an ethnic group other than my own, then I am also implying that members of my ethnic group possess more favorable qualities and can be considered more socially acceptable than members of the other group. Thinking favorably about my group allows me to feel better about myself. Thus, it produces a boost in my overall self-esteem.

Both cognitive and motivational explanations help us understand why stereotypes are so heavily relied upon for judgment. From a cognitive perspective, stereotypes can be thought of as trait associations we have with a particular social group. These trait associations contribute to our overall attitude towards a particular group.

Attitude based on Stereotypes

Attitude refers to one's overall evaluation of a particular social category. Attitudes can be divided into two parts: **unconscious and conscious**. Unconscious or implicit attitudes are defined as, "introspectively unidentified (or inaccurately identified) traces of past experience that mediate favorable or unfavorable feeling, thought, or action toward social objects" (Greenwald & Banaji, 1995, p.8). Implicit attitudes are thought to be unconscious, uncontrollable, unintentional, and efficient. In other words, these are the judgments that you make that are devoid of reason or deliberation. These attitudes are more likely to be based on your gut feeling instead of rational thinking. In contrast, conscious or explicit attitudes are your evaluations based on conscious, controllable, intentional and effortful thought (Wegner & Bargh, 1998).

Shift in Stereotypes and Attitudes

Furthermore, these series of studies demonstrate that stereotypes about ethnic groups do shift somewhat over time. One of the most dramatic examples of these changes is stereotypes for Asian-Americans. Studies demonstrate how changes in a stereotype reflect social and political shifts in inter-group relations, particularly those between minority groups and White-Americans in the United States. Because the Chinese and Japanese came to be seen as political and economic competition by the majority group, the negative stereotypes that initially included physical and racial descriptions such as "yellow" or "slant-eyed", changed to negative characterizations such as "treacherous", "dangerous", and "shrewd" (Sue & Kitano, 1973).

- **Stereotyping from the Perspective of the Target**

It is equally important to assess the impact of stereotypes on the individuals belonging to the stigmatized group. When examining inter-group processes, it is important to understand that both groups can be perceivers and targets simultaneously. That is, members of both groups can be seen as perceivers who rely on stereotypes to judge each other and both groups can be seen as targets of the stereotypes associated with their group.

Stereotype Consensus refers to the extent to which similar traits or descriptors are used to describe a group. Research demonstrates that in-group members also attain a consensus in describing themselves (Haslam, 1997; Haslam, Oakes, Reynolds, Eggins, Nolan, & Tweedie, 1998). Stereotype consensus among in-group members is particularly troubling if the stereotypical traits are primarily negative.

A recent study by Tsuru and Khan (2002) demonstrated that stereotype consensus occurs for both a majority and minority group in a United States sample of White-Americans and Asian-Americans. One major implication of this area of work is that stereotype consensus can be beneficial to the members of a group when positive stereotypes are associated with that particular group. However, future research on stereotype consensus needs to be conducted on groups that are primarily associated with negative stereotypes.



Drawing from a German children's book from 1936 with the text "Trust no fox on the green honors, and no Jews on their oaths". How are Jews portrayed in this drawing, and why was this drawing in a children's book?

Breaking Stereotypes

Do we change our stereotypes and prejudices when we meet the target group? Do we form stereotypes about other cultures based on media? I certainly learned a lot about traditional Turkish culture from the Turkish series of **Ertuğrul** and Usman.



Awareness about Stereotypes related to us = *possibility* of being stereotyped

Assessing and knowing *probability* of being stereotyped in a social setting is more cognitively efficient. Case of medical female student from Swat in TV play 'Maray hamnasheen'. She knows and expresses that females from her region are stereotyped as not empowered or competent in studies hence their success surprises and makes people jealous who then victimize and take discriminate.

Try to say 'Muslim' in an American classroom or *Hindu* in a Pakistani classroom, you will quickly see the stereotypical response. We often perceive we are stereotyped but this is not in all social settings.

Students in this course are encouraged to think about the stereotypes in Pakistani society. I can mention a few common ones.

- Women drivers are clumsy.
- Minority people are lazy.
- Artists are mostly not practical, and philosophers are lost in thoughts
- Non-romantic or geeky scientist

We also have stereotypes about institutions like the Army, madrasas, police, Government institutions, industrialists. When we meet unexpected representatives of that institution that do not match our stereotypes, it is a pleasant surprise.

My experience in other countries is that there are stereotypes about Pakistani women (not empowered, not modern, obedient, purdah observing etc.). When me and my daughters appeared into not match these stereotypes, it surprised the English class fellows and community

in general. They were pleasantly surprised and happy to change their impression of Pakistani women and add new information.



Module 112: Differences and Similarities in Attribution

Imagine you are visiting a museum while on vacation. A stranger suddenly rushes by you, not looking at any displays and bumping into people as they pass. Why do you think the stranger rushed out of the museum? Now imagine the reverse scenario—you must rush through a museum while on vacation. Why did you rush? The answers to these questions are based on attributions. Attributions are inferences about the causes of events. Why do you or someone else act the way they do (Heider, 1958). Did the stranger rush because he/she is uninterested in art? Because he/she is rude? Because the tour bus is about to leave? Because there is an emergency?

Internal attributions are dispositional causes for behavior, which place the cause of behavior in something about an individual (e.g., personality traits, attitudes, ability). He is rude” or “she’s uninterested in art and culture” are internal attributions. External attributions are situational causes for behavior which place the cause of behavior in the environment (e.g., some feature of the current social situation, other group members, luck). He or she has emergency getting late are external attributions.

Attribution Error or Correspondence Bias

When attributing the causes of others’ behavior, a common bias is to explain behavior in terms of internal, dispositional attributes of the target, even when that person’s behavior is constrained by external, situational factors (Gilbert & Malone, 1995; Ross, 1977). This bias is called the ***correspondence bias or the fundamental attribution error***. Easterners show a weaker correspondence bias than Westerners. Koreans, Japanese, and Chinese made similar dispositional attributions as Americans.

Lesson 31

**CROSS-CULTURAL INSIGHTS ON INTELLIGENCE AND
COGNITIVE DEVELOPMENT****Module: 113-118****Module 113: Construct of Intelligence****Definitions of Intelligence**

A quick glance through several introductory psychology textbooks published in the 2000s would reveal the same diverse picture: intelligence is defined in a variety of ways. For example, intelligence may be described as a set of mental abilities; the capacity to acquire and use knowledge; problem-solving skills and knowledge about the world; the ability to excel at a variety of tasks; or as a skill that allows us to understand, adapt, learn, reason, and overcome obstacles. Which point of view should we choose? First, most definitions include the word “knowledge.” Intelligence is knowing and understanding the reality. Then, most definitions draw attention to problem solving, which leads to an assumption that intelligence is a set of mental skills that helps individuals to reach goals. Intelligence is also an ability to use knowledge and skills to overcome obstacles. And finally, intelligence helps in the adaptation to changing conditions. Such an inclusive understanding of intelligence can be useful for cross-cultural psychologists because it allows them to incorporate the cultural factor in the discussion of intelligence. Intelligence is also inseparable from cognition, a diversified process by which the individual acquires and applies knowledge. It usually includes processes such as recognition, categorization, thinking, and memory.

Cattell’s Two Factors of Intelligence

Cattell (1971) partitioned intelligence into two factors: **crystallized intelligence** and **fluid intelligence**.

- **Crystallized Intelligence** refers to the ability to use knowledge, skills, and experience. It involves learning information and skills such as vocabulary, general knowledge, and specific learned facts. This type of intelligence increases over time and tends to improve with age, as it is accumulated through education and experience.
- **Fluid Intelligence** refers to the capacity to reason, solve novel problems, and think abstractly without relying on previously acquired knowledge. It involves adaptability and quick thinking. Unlike crystallized intelligence, fluid intelligence tends to peak in early adulthood and gradually decline with age.

Cattell’s theory contributed significantly to understanding cognitive abilities and how they change over a lifespan.

Types of Intelligence

In cross-cultural psychology, these types of intelligence can manifest and be understood differently across various cultures. Cultural norms, values, and expectations shape how different types of intelligence are perceived, developed, and valued. Here's how each type of intelligence can be understood from a cross-cultural perspective:

1. Intellectual Ability refers to a person's capacity to reason, solve problems, and understand complex ideas. It involves skills such as numerical reasoning, vocabulary use, and memory. These cognitive functions enable individuals to learn, adapt, and apply knowledge in various situations.

2. Emotional Intelligence (EQ) refers to a person's ability to recognize, understand, and manage one's own emotions, as well as to empathize with and influence the emotions of others. It plays a key role in interpersonal relationships and emotional regulation.

3. Social Intelligence is how we interact with other people, understanding social cues and dynamics. It involves both verbal and non-verbal communication, helping individuals navigate relationships and social environments effectively.

Components of IQ tests

The following are some components of IQ tests:

- 1. Memory** refers to a person's ability to retain and recall information.
For example: Remembering a sequence of numbers or words in tests like the Wechsler Memory Scale.
- 2. Numbers** refer to a person's ability to perform mathematical reasoning and calculations.
For example: Solving arithmetic problems in the Wechsler Adult Intelligence Scale (WAIS).
- 3. Comprehension** refers to understanding and interpreting verbal or written information.
For example: Explaining the meaning of proverbs or answering questions about a passage in tests like WAIS.
- 4. Figure Completion/Objects** refers to a person's ability to identify missing parts of a visual pattern or recognize objects.
For example: Completing incomplete pictures in the Raven's Progressive Matrices.
- 5. Vocabulary** refers to persons to understand and use words effectively.
For example: Defining words or explaining their meanings in the Stanford-Binet Intelligence Test.
- 6. Speed and Accuracy** refers to a person's ability to quickly and correctly solve problems or perform tasks.
For example: Timed tasks like symbol searching in the WAIS to assess processing speed.

Module 114: Cross Cultural Studies on Intelligence

Intelligence cannot be meaningfully understood outside its cultural context. As an example, cross-cultural research conducted over a few decades shows that intelligence is understood differently in various cultural contexts. Studies also reveal that children have advanced practical skills that are not recognized on academic tests. In addition, the child's physical health may affect the child's performance on intelligence tests (Sternberg, 2004). Another major point

of most discussions is how to interpret the numerical value of intelligence. If 12-year-old boys and girls in the northern part of a city scored 90 on a test, whereas boys and girls from a southern part of the city scored 105 on the same test, what does this mean?

Most of the questions that cross-cultural psychology attempts to address are concerned with a set of measurable similarities and differences among different cultural, ethnic, and national groups.

- Are ethnic groups characterized by a particular pattern of intellectual ability? For example, can one prove that Italians, in general, are more creative than Germans, but that the German mode of thinking is more “precise” than the Brazilian mode?
- Do some cultural groups have a “better” memory than others?
- Do poverty and other devastating social problems influence intelligence?
- Is systematic formal schooling the key to human intellectual equality? Is such equality achievable in principle?

The Flynn Effect theory posits that average IQ scores have increased over time across various populations. This effect, first documented by psychologist James Flynn, suggests that people’s cognitive abilities have been rising at an average rate of about 3 points per decade. The theory attributes these increases to various factors, including:

- **Improvements in Education:** Better access to and quality of education that emphasizes critical thinking and problem-solving skills.
- **Better Nutrition:** Enhanced nutritional standards contributing to better brain development.
- **Increased Cognitive Stimulation:** More complex and stimulating environments due to technological advancements, media, and increased problem-solving activities.

Flynn’s research highlights the dynamic nature of intelligence and suggests that environmental and societal changes can significantly influence cognitive abilities.

The **Theory of Successful Intelligence** by Robert Sternberg emphasizes that intelligence is not just about cognitive abilities but also about how effectively one adapts to and navigates their cultural environment. It emphasizes three key components:

1. **Analytical Intelligence:** Involves problem-solving and reasoning, which may vary in application across cultures due to different educational and social norms.
2. **Creative Intelligence:** Reflects the ability to generate novel ideas, which can be influenced by cultural values and practices that shape what is considered innovative or useful.
3. **Practical Intelligence:** Entails real-world problem-solving and navigating social situations, which is deeply rooted in cultural context and norms.

Sternberg's theory underscores that success is defined differently across cultures, highlighting the importance of understanding and adapting to cultural contexts in assessing and fostering intelligence.

Module 115: Culture and Cognition

In the two preceding modules, we have already discussed construct of intelligence and covered many aspects of intelligence considering culture.

Culture refers to the shared values, beliefs, customs, and practices that are passed down through generations within a particular group or society. It influences how individuals think, behave, and interact with the world around them, shaping cognitive processes like perception, reasoning, and memory.

For Example: In cultures that value collectivism (e.g., many East Asian societies), individuals tend to think more holistically, focusing on relationships and group harmony. This contrasts with individualistic cultures (e.g., many Western societies), where cognition is more analytical, focusing on individual goals and independence.

Intelligence is also inseparable from cognition, a diversified process by which the individual acquires and applies knowledge. It usually includes processes such as recognition, categorization, thinking, and memory. We have also looked at sensation and perception, in modules 99 and 100. Sensation and perception are basic cognitive processes that help in information processing about us and our environment. The high order and complex processes are thinking, problem solving, decision making and reasoning.

Social Cognition

We perceive others as different from us. There are three distinguishable *levels of social grouping*:

(a) Human Beings as a Mammalian Species: This level views humans biologically, as members of the mammalian species *Homo sapiens*. It emphasizes the shared physiological traits, genetic inheritance, and basic survival behaviors common to all humans, such as reproduction, nurturing of offspring, and social bonding.

(b) Societies: At this level, societies are defined as populations within specific geographical and political regions that share common cultural, social, and economic systems. Societies are organized groups of individuals with a shared sense of identity, language, values, and norms that govern their interactions and institutions.

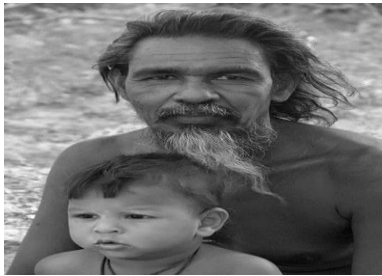
Example: The United States, Japan, or India as distinct societies with their own political structures and cultural traditions.

(c) Cultural Practices: This level refers to the specific customs, rituals, and behaviors that define the way of life within a society. Cultural practices are shaped by a society's history, religion, values, and environment, and they influence everyday behaviors, traditions, and social roles.

Example: Practices like marriage ceremonies, holiday traditions, or ways of greeting in different cultures.

Module 116: Culture and Cognitive Development

Culture plays a central role in cognitive development, regardless of which particular culture a child is born into. First, and most obviously, culture provides a vast storehouse of partial solutions to problems that human beings have previously encountered and solved (Hutchins, 1995). Culture provides a vast storehouse of tools to think and act with.



The world that greets the newborn is a social world, populated by persons who have already acquired a great deal of the cultural knowledge that the child is going to have to acquire, and whose behavior is already shaped by this knowledge.



These cultural resources include practices for organizing babies' experiences so they will, in time, come to play the same role in the social group's next generation that their parents and older kin are currently playing, and that they will take their turn at organizing the experience of the next generation of children who will make possible the social group's continuation.

Module 117: Culture Differences in Cognitive Styles

We have already discussed concepts of cognitive styles such as field dependent and field independent. **Witkin and his colleagues** described a field dependent person as one who includes others within the boundaries of the self and who does not make a sharp distinction between the self and others. Many of the empirical findings about the interpersonal expertise and sensitivities of field dependent people are similar to those described herein for people with interdependent selves. It was predicted that field-independent people would experience themselves as separate and distinct from others, that they would depend largely on internal referents, and that they would be more autonomous in their social relationships than field-dependent people. In more contemporary terminology, a field-independent person's reasoning about themselves and others would be more focused on an autonomous agent, while a field-

dependent person's reasoning would be more focused on an agent whose actions are importantly contingent on the social group.

Module 118: Cognition in Cultural Practices

Cultural practices can be thought of as the proximal units of culturally organized experience (Cole & Packer, 2016). Schweder and his colleagues (1998) expressed this idea when they wrote that whatever universal cognitive characteristics humans share as a species, these features “only gain character, substance, definition and motivational force they are translated and transformed into, and through, the concrete actualities of some particular practice, activity setting, or way of life” (p. 871). Culturally organized practices vary greatly within and between social groups, and so provide rich opportunities to study the relation of culture and cognition.

Nisbett and Masuda (2003) argued that “the differences in attention, perception, and cognition that we have shown are driven by differences in social structure and social practices. An early and compelling example can be found in the work of Serpell (1979). Having studied in Scotland but working at the time in Zambia in southern Africa, Serpell had become suspicious of a body of literature purporting to show that non-literate peoples were deficient in their ability to represent objects, due to a failure to develop appropriate habits of perceptual analysis.



Lesson 32

EMOTION ACROSS CULTURES: RESEARCH, EXPRESSION AND ACTION

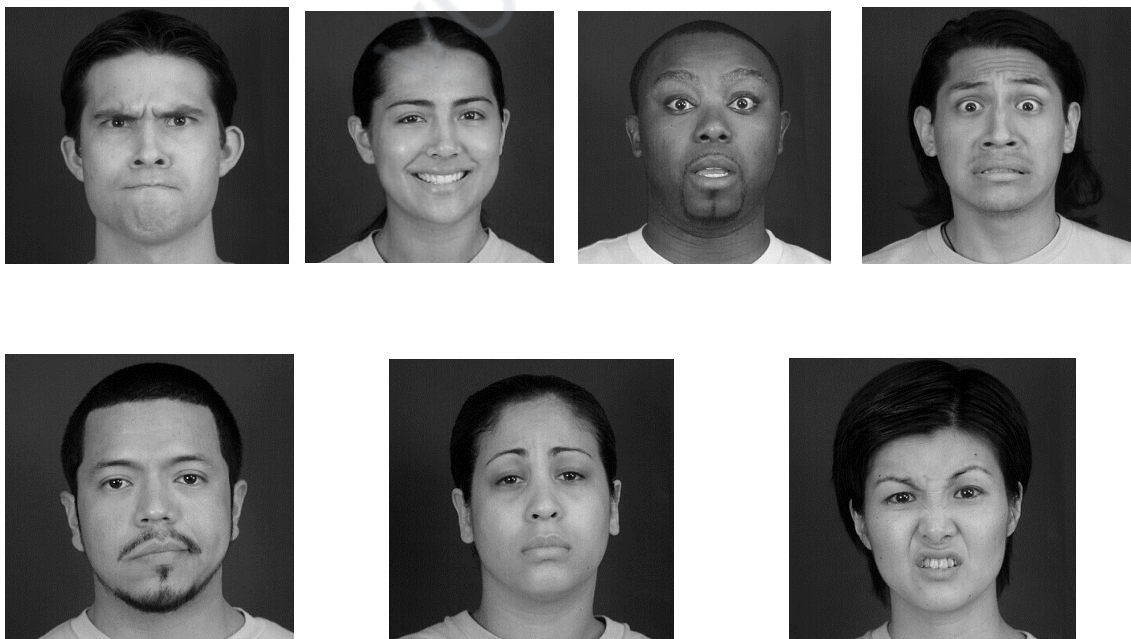
Module: 119-127

Module 119: Universal Emotions

“Emotions are a process, a particular kind of automatic appraisal influenced by our evolutionary and personal past, in which we sense that something important to our welfare is occurring, and a set of psychological changes and emotional behaviors begins to deal with the situation.” - Paul Ekman, PhD.



Seven Universal Facial Expressions



Anger, Happiness, surprise, Fear, Contempt, Sadness and Disgust

<https://www.paulekman.com/resources/universal-facial-expressions/>

When we laugh, we are Happy: Cultural Similarities of Emotional Experience

People can tell other people's emotions. Even though we do not speak someone's language, we can often understand whether this person is happy or sad. If you understand what other people feel by judging their emotional expressions, and if they can judge your emotions correctly, that means human feelings are universal. This is exactly what Darwin (1872) suggested in his famous work, *Expression of the Emotions in Man and Animals*. He collected interviews from around the world and concluded that basic human emotional expressions are similar because they serve an adaptive purpose. Both animals and humans signal their readiness or willingness to help, fight, or run through gestures, postures, and facial expressions.

Imagine, for example, you see your friend's eyes wide open, you hear his scream, and you observe him throwing away a cup of soda. This combination of reactions might alert you to the fact that it is likely your friend is scared or disgusted by something he found in the cup. Almost immediately, you will check to see if anything—a bug?—is in your cup too. Emotions regulate social behavior and may protect people from danger. Fear and anger, for example, produce greater acceleration of heart rate than does joy. This makes sense if one thinks in evolutionary terms. Anger and fear are related to fight-or-flight responses that require the heart to pump more blood to the muscles: all in all, you have to either defend yourself or run away from a threat. In people of all cultures, fear causes a particular defensive reaction in dangerous situations. Likewise, disgust prevents us from trying potentially toxic substances such as rotten food or spoiled water (Izard, 1977).

People show remarkable accuracy in the interpretation of eyebrow positioning and smiling (Keating et al., 1981). For instance, smiling is universally understood as a sign of happiness and lowered eyebrows as a sign of anger or domination.

All in all, supporters of the idea of the universality of human emotion argue that similar emotions exist in all cultures. We react to external events and bodily signals with similar facial expressions, physiological changes, and subjective experiences of pleasure or displeasure.

Module 120: Physiological Arousal

First, an emotion is initiated, there is an underlying physiological process for the emotion, the emotion is experienced, then it is displayed or remains hidden, it somehow affects our decisions, the emotion may cause other emotions, and it eventually fades away.

Primary Emotions are fundamental, universal emotions such as fear, anger, sadness, happiness, surprise, and disgust, which are biologically innate and arise from physiological arousal. They play a critical role in survival by preparing the body to respond quickly to environmental stimuli, such as triggering a fight-or-flight response in dangerous situations.

Are there any cross-cultural findings that shed some light on what role culture may play in these stages? There are significant cross-cultural similarities in the underlying physiological mechanisms of emotions. Universally, we detect stimuli from our surroundings and our body. The signal then goes to the brain. The amygdala serves as the brain's "emotional computer":

It's a complex nuclear mass consisting of several nuclei and nuclear complexes which store information coming from the external environment through our sensory organs. Moreover, it also integrates information from external and internal (bodily changes) environment and assesses the affective significance of the stimulus. Therefore, irrelevant stimuli may cause no emotion. Then the hypothalamus, as a part of the limbic system, activates sympathetic and endocrine responses related to emotion. The brain's cortex also plays several roles with respect to emotion, particularly in the appraisal of stimuli. Moreover, the right hemisphere is believed to be responsible for the facial displays of emotion (Borod, 1992).

Module 121: Time To Revise

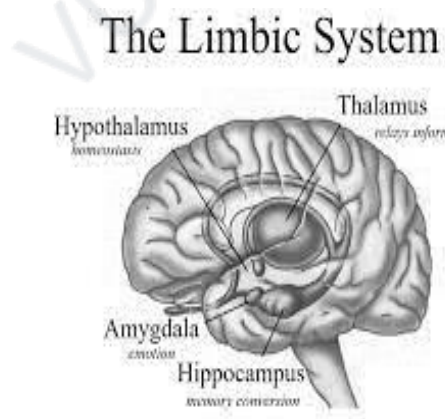
In this module we briefly went over what has been covered

Module 122: Emotions and Brain

Human beings receive sensory information from the outside world (environment) as well as from the internal body. Our brain areas are wired in such a way that they store the information from both external and environment, integrate it and then undergo any emotional experience.

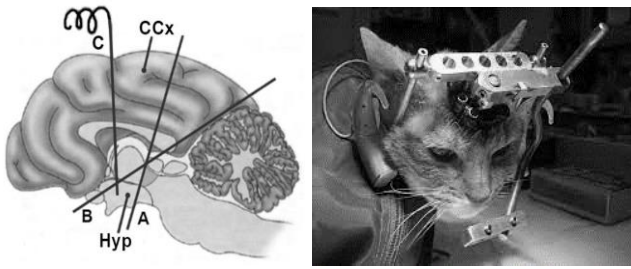
Neurobiological Basis of Emotional Response

- The primary emotions are anger, fear, pleasure, sadness, and disgust.
- Emotions can be conceptualized in terms of their functional or adaptive (help us survive) significance.
- Negative emotions such as anger and fear may promote avoidance or defensive behaviors whereas the positive emotion of pleasure may facilitate ingestive, exploratory, sexual, or novel-seeking behaviors.
- Thus, emotions and feelings may serve to facilitate adaptive behavior and stability.

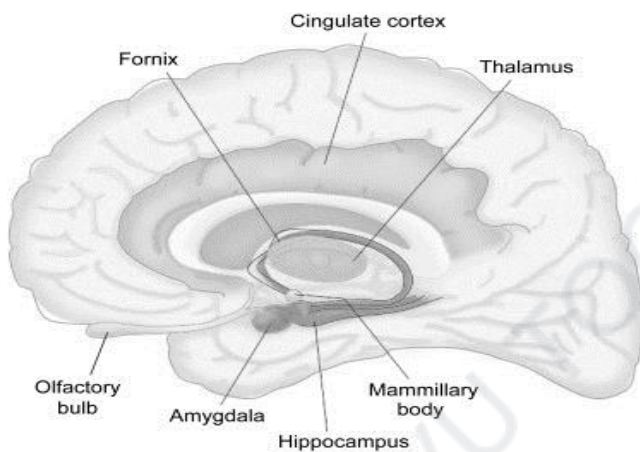


The Limbic System

The amygdala is a complex nuclear mass that can be subdivided into a number of nuclei and nuclear complexes. It integrates information about external stimuli conveyed by sensory cortices with somatic, visceral, and endocrine processes (Adolphs, 1999; Adolphs, Denburg, & Tranel, 2001; Zald & Pardo, 1997). In a threatening situation, the amygdala becomes active leading to fear and a state of enhanced alertness that prepares the organism for flight or fight in the service of self-preservation.



Schematic representation of Bard's experiments on cats. Behavior described as "false anger/false rage" occurs if the cutting line when decorticating a cat goes from the posterior part of the cerebral cortex through the anterior part of the hypothalamus (line marked with (B)), but not if it goes through its posterior part (line marked with (A)). In both cases, a small part of the caudoventral part of the thalamus remains preserved (marked in blue). Electrical stimulation of the hypothalamus with an electrode (without cutting) leads to anger and fear (C). The schematic follows Bard's textual description.



Amygdala (amygdaloid nuclear complex)—initially considered as a fear and emotion center; but latest research reveal that it is also a pleasure center means we may experience pleasure when it gets activated. Some sounds such as sound of baby giggles, pleasant music. Various hypothalamic nuclei—homeostasis, hunger, satiety, sleep onset, and thermoregulation. Limbic midbrain areas—including the periaqueductal gray matter, play critical roles in autonomic function, motivated behavior, and behavioral responses to threatening stimuli.

Cingulate cortex—in the medial aspect of the cerebral cortex, involved with emotion formation and processing, learning, and memory.

Module 123: Emotion Research

- Study of emotion across cultures has a long history in Psychology.
- Humans experience a wide range of affective phenomena and much of it is called "emotion" by both researchers and lay persons alike.

- All of us have a lifetime of access to and contemplation about emotions and other affective states.
- A complex verbal and nonverbal language and communication system with which to express those emotions and talk about them.
- Emotions give meaning to life, motivate behaviors, and color our thoughts and ideas.
- Emotions also have evaluative power. We can give an evaluation of an object or event with the help of emotional expression (e.g. facial expressions).
- Are emotions universal or culture specific? The analysis of many past and latest research reveals that emotions are universal, but expression of emotion can vary from culture to culture. There is a biologically based core emotion system in our body that is calibrated, regulated, and elaborated by culture and cultural learning.

Module 124: Culture, Emotion and Expression

The core emotion system refers to the fundamental neural circuits and brain regions responsible for processing and regulating emotions. It is often associated with structures in the limbic system, such as the amygdala, which is crucial for processing fear and other basic emotions, and the prefrontal cortex, which plays a role in emotion regulation and executive functioning. The insula and hippocampus are also key areas involved in emotional experiences and memory. Cultural norms significantly influence which emotions are considered appropriate or desirable to express in different social contexts.

There are well-documented gender differences in emotional expression and regulation, though these are influenced by both biological and social factors:

Women: Generally, more likely to express emotions such as sadness, fear, and guilt. They may also be more attuned to the emotions of others and more expressive of emotions in interpersonal relationships.

Men: Often socialized to suppress emotions like sadness and fear, while expressions of anger may be more socially acceptable. There is also evidence that men may experience emotions just as intensely as women but express them differently.

Study of emotion across cultures has a long history in psychology. Emotion is a complex verbal and nonverbal language and communication system with which to express those emotions and talk about them. However, do people across cultures agree that certain situations should elicit similar emotions? Do all people concede that the loss of a friend is a sad event, and that the birth of a child is a happy one?

The same situations can be interpreted differently across cultures and, therefore, lead to different emotions. There is also scientific and anecdotal evidence for cultural differences in emotion-eliciting events.

A study by David Matsumoto and Hyi Sung C. Hwang found near-perfect concordance between the expressions of the blind and sighted athletes.

Comparison of Blind and Sighted Athletes
who Just Lost a Match for a Medal



Figure 2b

Comparison of Blind and Sighted Athletes
who Just Won a Match and was Overcome
with Emotion



- Winning what you expected, less than what you expected
- News of winning and at podium

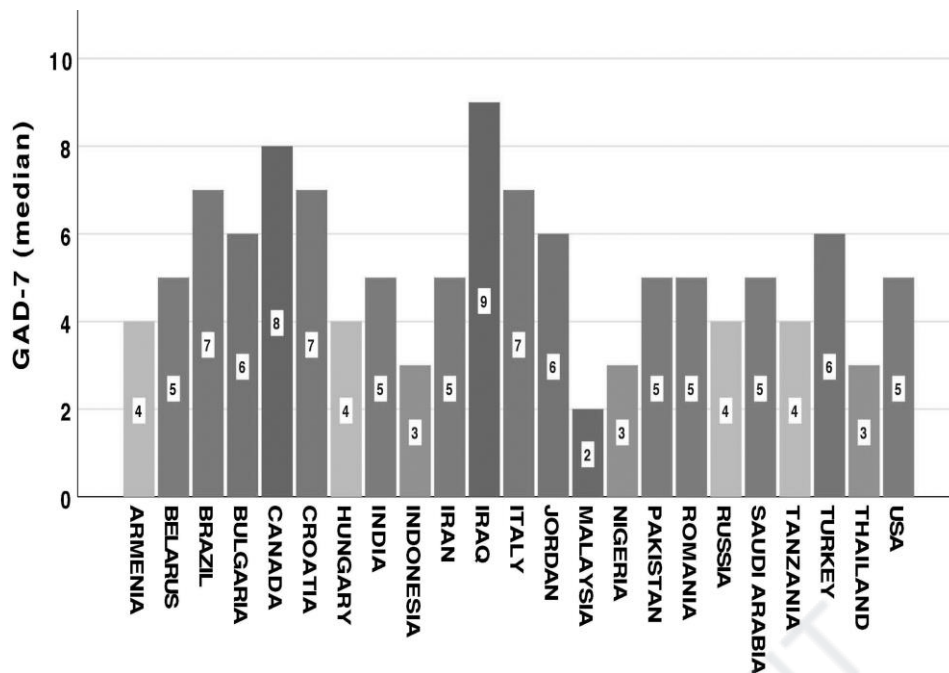


Figure 24.5 Comparison of blind and sighted athletes on the podium.

Conclusion

As mentioned in the Introduction, basic emotions, and the universal facial expressions of emotions that are produced because of basic emotions, are an important part of the biologically based, core emotion system. This core system is evolutionarily-based, part of our phylogenetic history, and naturally selected. This system enables all emotions, and especially basic emotions, to have been incredibly adaptive in our evolutionary history, as well as in our daily lives today. They prepare individuals to respond to events in their environment immediately, automatically, and unconsciously. They are rapid information processing systems that help us deal with threats from predators, problems of nature, and problems based in the social complexity of human life.

Module 125: Emotions Signal a Challenge; Cross-Cultural Research on Stress and Anxiety



The above figure shows the scores of different countries on Generalized Anxiety Disorder in the years of Covid.

The realization of a challenge to a person's capacity to adapt to inner and outer demands is called stress. This definition points to two important aspects of stress:

- (1) Stress is a psychobiological process
- (2) Stress entails a transaction between people and their environments (Lazarus, 1993).

Workplace Stress:

1. **Pressure and Demands:** High workloads, tight deadlines, and unclear expectations can trigger stress, leading to physical and emotional strain.
2. **Impact on Performance:** Chronic workplace stress can impair cognitive functioning, reducing productivity and decision-making abilities.
3. **Cultural Variations:** Cross-cultural differences in work expectations and stress coping strategies influence how individuals experience and manage workplace stress.

Test Anxiety:

1. **Fear of Failure:** Test anxiety often stems from the fear of underperforming, leading to excessive worry and difficulty concentrating during exams.
2. **Physiological Response:** Anxiety triggers physiological reactions, such as increased heart rate and sweating, which can negatively affect test performance.
3. **Cultural Influence:** The pressure to succeed academically can vary across cultures, with some cultures placing a higher emphasis on academic achievement, exacerbating test anxiety.

Module 126: Emotion and Inclination to Act

Do emotions lead us to action? Emotions often, by their nature, bring about a readiness for action. One common example might be desiring to continue a relationship with a person or thing, an object, or event, based on how we feel about it.

Motivations and emotional states change according to your emotions. Often, one's energy level, the desire to achieve something, or the boost or drop in one's motivation may be related to the emotion one is feeling. However, action does indeed frequently occur in given circumstances because of the influence of emotion. But at other times, we experience emotions and do nothing. In what ways our acting or not acting depends upon what the outcome might be. Emotions alone are not always sufficient. Resources play a role, too. At times we are in that state where we want to execute an action based on emotion but can't be due to resource unavailability.

So, when does the action take place? To understand this, it's important we ask ourselves what we think is going to be the result of our actions. We have already described three components of emotion:

Feelings: The emotions can be pure or a mixture. Pure emotions include sadness, joy, anger, fear and disgust. Surprise can be a mixed, for example, being surprised and fearful at the same time. You probably must have heard the Urdu expression "gham-o-ghussa"-a mixed emotion.

Physiological Arousal: We have discussed how emotions involve the activation of parts of the brain. You have had that anxiety in your stomach, or that tight grip in your gut; your heart pounds with fear. That's what we mean by physiological arousal.

Behavioral Response: This is when we interpret the emotions of other people based on their faces. We are continuously gauging the emotions of the people who happen to be in our surroundings if they are angry, sad, or happy based on their facial expressions, eye movements, and body language, etc. Understanding others' emotions is called emotional intelligence. Body language combined with emotional intelligence helps us evaluate how someone else might be feeling.

Which emotions lead to which actions?

If one is happy, the immediate behavioral response often involves a smile. We equate happiness with smiling. Along with joy, there's a movement forward, more energy in the hand and body gestures; often, more physical movements include walking around. While sad, the movement is very slow. People might receive a hug in happiness, jump up and down, clap hands, or give something to any person as a token of joy. Love stirs action embracing or shaking hands taking a step further.

Anger leads to aggression, the urge to strike. Sadness makes us go inside ourselves and a look can say it all. When we are presented with something disgusting, the bad feels good; or is it

rather something that smells bad or otherwise repels us? The ability to act or not also depends on the experienced emotion.

Module 127: Emotion Evaluation and Judgment

Emotions can influence the way people make judgments and predictions. Vice versa, people's thoughts and beliefs influence their emotions.

There is ample evidence that emotional states may shape cognitive processing in different ways.

- People who are depressed, for example, tend to underestimate the probability of their own success and overestimate the probability of bad events occurring in the future.
- People who experience positive affect differ from those who experience negative affect. The former have better memory and use different strategies for problem solving and categorization.
- Anger has been found to lead to more personal accusations, whereas sadness leads to a tendency to understand negative circumstances as more due to fate, chance, or unluckiness.

Emotions lead to belief changes: certain emotional appraisals can cause perceptual generalizations and stereotypes. For example, an individual's negative experience with, and emotional feeling toward, a representative of a particular ethnic group can cause prejudice toward all members of that group. There was a significant difference found between Japanese and U.S. subjects in their attribution of anger. Apparently, the Japanese subjects were comparatively more reluctant to identify anger as being caused by other people than the Americans. Japan is a collectivist culture and perhaps societal interdependency is a factor that makes the inclusion of anger in cognitive attributions, which can be a potentially destructive force, difficult. Physical violence may be interpreted in accordance with individual beliefs. Researchers have found that prisoner-activists with particularly strong political or religious convictions show the most emotional resilience to torture compared to those who do not hold such beliefs.

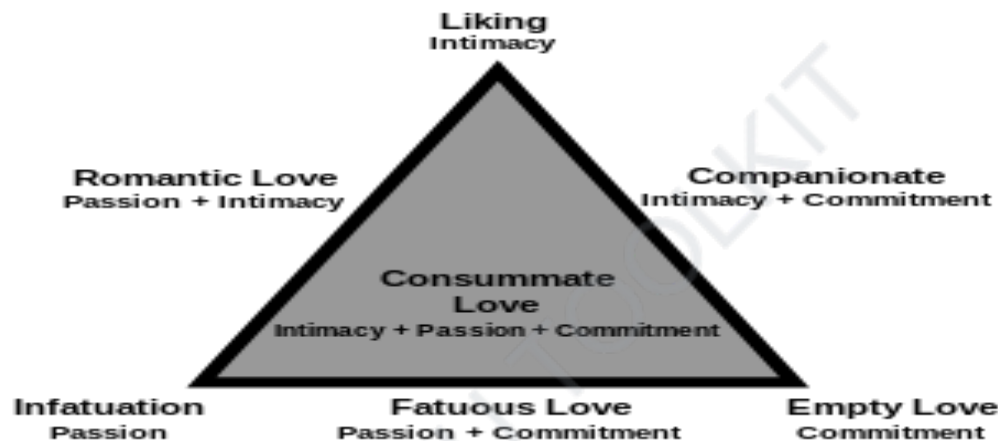
Lesson 33

LOVE ACROSS CULTURES: A CROSS-DISCIPLINARY EXPLORATION OF THE TRIANGULAR THEORY AND PERSONALITY MODELS

Module: 128-130

Module 128: Triangular Theory of Love

The triangular theory of love explains the topic of love in an interpersonal relationship. Psychologist Robert Sternberg's theory describes types of love based on three different scales: intimacy, passion, and commitment. It is important to recognize that a relationship based on a single element is less likely to survive than one based on two or more. Different stages and types of love can be explained as different combinations of these three elements. For example, the relative emphasis of each component changes over time as an adult romantic relationship develops.



The Triangular Theory of Love (measured with Sternberg's Triangular Love Scale – STLS) is a prominent theoretical concept in empirical research on love. To expand the culturally homogeneous body of previous psychometric research regarding the STLS, we conducted a large-scale cross-cultural study with the use of this scale. In total, we examined more than 11,000 respondents, but as a result of applied exclusion criteria, the final analysis was based on a sample of 7332 participants from 25 countries (from all inhabited continents). We tested configural invariance, metric invariance, and scalar invariance, all of which confirmed the cultural universality of the theoretical construct of love analyzed in our study.

Module 129: Personality; Western, Confucian and Buddhist Perspectives

Most current theories of personality are rooted in Western cultural, philosophical, and sociological presumptions about people (Markus & Kitayama, 1998), which hinders psychologists from understanding culturally diverse models of personality.

Confucian ideal personality traits, known as Junzi personality

Chinese philosopher Xi Zhu (1130–1200 CE; Zhu, 2011) defined Junzi as a person of accomplished virtue. Similarly, according to Chinese historian and philosopher Mu Ch'ien (1895–1990 CE; Ch'ien, 2011), Junzi is a person who exhibits the consummate personality traits in Confucius's ideal. These ideal personality traits were recorded in *The Analects*. Bary (1991) describes Junzi as well-bred people with gentle ways, impeccable manners, and a well-developed moral sense. Due to the limitations of translating between different cultural backgrounds, these definitions may be misleading for Western readers because they seem to imply that Junzi is exclusively a concept of morality (Brindley, 2009). However, the concept of Junzi involves both morality and amorality and is beyond the scope of narrow virtue ethics (Chen, 2017).

Buddhist teachings on personality types

Tibetan Buddhism uses the model of the **Five Buddha families** for describing an individual's personality. Chogyam Trungpa said of this psychological model:

The buddha family or families associated with a person describe his or her fundamental style, that person's intrinsic perspective or stance in perceiving the world and working with it. Each family is associated with both a neurotic and an enlightened style. The neurotic expression of any buddha family can be transmuted into its wisdom or enlightened aspect. As well as describing people's styles, the buddha families are also associated with colors, elements, landscapes, directions, seasons-with any aspect of the phenomenal world.

The five main families are:

- **Buddha family**, associated with the wisdom of all-encompassing space and the defilement of ignorance
- **Vajra family**, associated with the mirror like wisdom and the defilement of anger
- **Ratna (jewel)**, associated with the wisdom of equanimity and the defilement of pride
- **Padma (lotus)**, associated with the wisdom of discriminating against awareness and the defilement of passion
- **Karma family**, associated with all accomplishing wisdom and the defilement of envy/paranoia

In western psychology, Warren and Carmichael emphasize what personality is. "Personality is the entire mental organization of a human being at any stage of his development. It embraces every phase of human character: intellect, temperament, skill, morality, and every attitude that has been built up during one's life."

Module 130: Five-Factor and Six Factor Models

Personality Traits and the Five-Factor Model Personality traits are defined as "dimensions of individual differences in tendencies to show consistent patterns of thoughts, feelings, and actions" (McCrae & Costa, 1990). They are familiar to laypersons, who use a huge vocabulary of trait descriptive adjectives (such as nervous, enthusiastic, original, accommodating, and careful) to describe themselves and others.

Allport and Odbert (1936) identified some 4,000 trait names in the English language, and similar (although generally smaller) lists of traits have been compiled for many other languages, including Turkish and Chinese (Somer & Goldberg, 1999; Yang & Lee, 1971). It is apparent that trait concepts are important in every human language, and it would clearly be of great interest to compare traits across cultures.

Questions are:

- Are the same traits found everywhere?
- Are they organized in a similar fashion?
- Do they show the same course of development and the same correlates?
- Or are traits products of culture that vary as dramatically as vocabularies and food preferences do?

It is obviously impossible to conduct cross-cultural studies of each of the 4,000 traits identified by Allport and Odbert, and without taxonomy, the selection of a subset of traits is likely to be arbitrary. Personality psychologists like Raymond Cattell and Hans Eysenck had long ago noted that traits could be organized into much smaller clusters of similar traits. For example, the terms careful, cautious, deliberate, and thorough are near-synonyms, and people who are careful also like to be described as cautious and thorough. In short, personality traits are structured, and a comprehensive yet parsimonious structure would greatly facilitate personality research.

It became clear to most personality psychologists that most traits could be described in terms of five factors or dimensions. The organization of many specific traits in terms of the five factors.

1. Neuroticism (N)
2. Extraversion (E)
3. Openness to Experience (O)
4. Agreeableness (A)
5. Conscientiousness (C) is known as the Five-Factor Model (FFM; McCrae & John, 1992).

Description

Individuals who are high in N are likely to be anxious, easily depressed, and irritable, whereas those who are low in N are calm, even-tempered, and emotionally stable. Extraverts are lively, cheerful, and sociable; introverts are sober and taciturn. Open men and women are curious, original, and artistic; closed people are conventional and down-to-earth. Agreeableness is characterized by trust, compassion and modesty; Conscientiousness is seen in organization, punctuality, and purposefulness. Originally, the FFM was discovered through analyses of English-language trait names. To measure an individual's standing on each of the five factors they are asked to rate themselves on a series of adjectives. But it is also possible to measure

traits using personality questionnaires, in which respondents indicate the extent to which they are accurately described by a series of statements about characteristic thoughts, feelings, and behaviors.

Age and Gender Differences in Personality

Studies of adult personality development in the United States have suggested that there are noticeable changes in the mean level of all five factors between adolescence and about age 30 (McCrae & Costa, 1990): N, E, and O decline, whereas A and C increase. After age 30, the same trends are seen, but at a much slower pace: In terms of personality traits, 30-year-olds resemble 70-year-olds more than 20-year-olds. These developmental patterns were seen in both cross-sectional age comparisons and longitudinal studies, in which the same participants are followed over years or decades. But their origins were not clear: Were the changes due to features of American culture, with its distinctive patterns of socialization and its role requirements at each age, or were they the result of some intrinsic pattern of maturation, akin to passage through the menopause or the graying of hair? Cross-cultural studies might shed light here. If very different patterns of age differences were found, we might suspect that age differences are the product of life experiences in different societies with different histories.

However, if we find very similar patterns everywhere, it will seem more likely that age changes are intrinsic maturational processes. Data from Germany, Italy, Portugal, Croatia, South Korea, Estonia, Russia, Japan, Spain, Britain, Turkey, and the Czech Republic showed patterns of age differences very similar to those seen in the United States. It appears that age, especially from adolescence to mid-adulthood, tends to make individuals better adjusted, more altruistic, and better organized, but also less enthusiastic and less open to new experience (McCrae et al., 2000).

The Personality Profiles of Cultures

Americans are brash, Chinese are modest, Scots are thrifty--or so many people believe. It is not clear how these national stereotypes arise, or whether they are in any respect correct. One more scientific way to characterize the personality profile of a culture would be by measuring traits in a representative sample of the culture. Because NEO-PI-R data are available from dozens of countries, it should be simple to make these comparisons.

Neo-Five Personality inventory is extensively used in **Pakistani research**. A summary of that literature will be too lengthy. However, one study is worth quoting and interesting in terms of cultural personality. We explored the relationship between romantic attitudes, happiness and personality dimensions. We expected that romantic attitudes would be related to openness and also happiness. The first assumption was correct but the second was not supported. May be romance is culturally restricted hence there is more anxiety among young people than happiness.

Citation: Sana Saghir, Naumana Amjad, Amer Saeed and Saira Batool (2019). *Personality traits, Romantic Attitudes and Happiness among young adults. Pakistan Journal of Psychological Research*, 34, issue 1.

HEXACO is a 6-factor personality classification including an extra trait of Humility and Honesty along with Five traits of Neo-five inventory. The authors (Lee & Ashton) call this the 'H' factor in personality. It is now cross-culturally validated and translated in over 20 world languages both eastern and western.

VU TOOLKIT

Lesson 34

**CULTURAL CONNECTIONS: NUTRITION, HEALTH, AND
PSYCHOLOGICAL WELL-BEING ACROSS BORDERS****Module: 131-134****Module 131: Application of Cross-Cultural Psychology: Health**

Cross-cultural psychologists aim to examine both universal, cross-cultural, and specific, culture-related mechanisms of human activity. Psychologists want to understand cross-cultural phenomena. They also want to educate, lend a hand, make changes in people's lives, help individuals realize their potential, and reduce their unnecessary suffering. Psychology remains a theoretical discipline so long as it answers the questions "what?" "When?" and "why?" It becomes an applied field when it starts searching for some specific answers to the question, "How to change?" For example, how can one teach in culturally diverse classrooms, or reduce acculturative stress, advertise products to ethnic groups, or reduce cross-ethnic prejudice?

Health worldwide

Every year, the World Health Organization publishes data about major causes of illness and premature death. It will not be a surprise that environmental problems, poverty, and poverty related issues are mentioned among prime causes of health problems around the world. For example, more than 50 million people today live in countries in which the life expectancy is less than 45 years, and these countries are the poorest in the world.

Despite tremendous changes in the prevention and treatment of childhood illnesses, by 2025 there will still be 5 million deaths a year among children under 5 years of age. It is expected that 97 percent of these deaths will take place in the developing world, and most of them will be due to infectious diseases and malnutrition, which alone account for 50 percent of deaths among young children.

Availability and access to resources

Time and again we see how availability and access to resources affect the overall health of the population in any country, poverty and ecological problems significantly affect people's health-related activities. There are any cultural factors, such as norms and values, that could have some effect on people's attitudes about health, and subsequently, health-related activities. Cultural myths, inaccurate folk beliefs, and fear of being punished affect many people's reluctance to admit the existence of AIDS. In Africa, for example, many doctors are often unwilling to record AIDS as the cause of death. Instead, other diseases such as tuberculosis are often recorded on certificates. Thus, as many international agencies publicly admit, a huge number of AIDS-related deaths are simply covered up.

Educational and counselling programmes for health

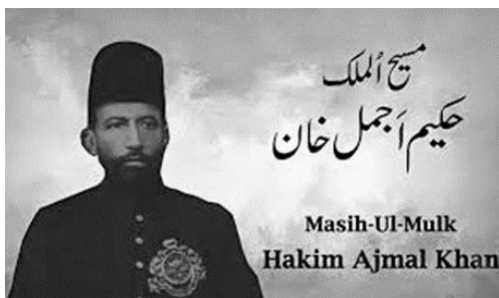
Successful, culture-specific educational or counseling programs attract much attention these days. Among these projects, for example, is the highly acclaimed, decade-long work of Fred Bemak and Rita Chung (2008) on cross-cultural counseling for survivors of natural disasters.

In Sub-Saharan Africa, four types of traditional healers provide health care, namely:

(a) Traditional birth Attendants (b) Faith Healers (c) Diviners and Spiritualists (d) Herbalists.

Indo-Pak has a traditional system of Hikmat and Homeopathic medicine is taught and widely practiced. There are many well educated people in Pakistan who prefer alternate medicine to mainstream western medicine due to various reasons; huge pharmaceutical mafia, over prescription, side effects, re-appearance of disease or symptoms and faith in a non-invasive no-harm remedies. Use of Ayurveda medicine is related to Indian Health Beliefs and often found effective. Traditional Chinese medicine (TCM) is also widespread. Indigenous Shamans and other healers all play their role in maintaining and restoring health in various cultures.

To dismiss any of these health options will be highly unwise and impractical given the deficiencies of modern medicine and health care system and access for less affording.



Module 132: Interaction Between Nutrition, Health and Psychological Functioning: Cultural Perspectives

Food and nutrition occupy the daily thoughts of most people, particularly the 170 million children who are malnourished because their weight is too low. While the interactive effect of malnutrition and infection is responsible for over half of child deaths in developing countries,

being overweight has been declared the number one health problem in other countries. More food is therefore not necessarily better when talking about health.

- The major nutrients are important for health and psychological functioning:

Energy, Protein, vitamin A, iron, iodine, and zinc.

- Cultures differ in their food preferences and their beliefs about the good and ill effects of certain foods.
- Solutions for tackling the problem of impaired growth and development of children are needed

Essential knowledge about nutrition

Food and nutrition occupy the daily thoughts of most people around the world, including children who are preoccupied with their next meal and scientists studying the effects of that meal on health and functioning. Because more is not necessarily better when talking about food, it is important to know what foods, in what quantities, and at what ages produce healthy and productive children and adults. Of course, most people don't have health and productivity in mind when they eat. They may be motivated by the sensory pleasures of eating, the desire for energy, the feeling of being full, or the sociability of eating with others--or they may eat simply out of habit. However, the food preferences of adolescents are very similar to their parents, indicating that family eating influences what we think and like about food. Moreover, there are commonly held beliefs in all cultures about the good and bad effects of certain foods. Consequently, there are many personal, familial, and cultural influences on the food we eat.

Cost of a poor diet

The cost of a poor diet is immense. While the interactive effect of malnutrition and infection is responsible for over half of child deaths in developing countries (Pelletier, Frongillo, Schroeder, & Habicht, 1995), overweight has been declared the number one health problem in the United States. Surprisingly, the overweight problem is starting to appear among urban women in developing countries such as India and Chile that are making the transition to better economies. Obesity, whether experienced in Washington, Calcutta, Santiago or Samoa, is bad for one's health because it can lead to heart disease, diabetes, and premature death. In poor countries, many women are short because of poor diets in youth, and they are anemic because their diets lack iron; consequently many die while giving birth to a normal sized baby.

However, the most pressing moral dilemma of our times is the wasted human potential in the millions of children who are malnourished either at birth or throughout their first five years. They are more likely than well-nourished children to become ill and to die. More information on these infectious diseases can be found at the World Health Organization's website (<http://www.who.int/infectious-disease-report>). If malnourished children survive the first five years, their quality of life will be impaired: they will be less able to learn at school, more fearful of unfamiliar people and new experiences, less persistent at solving daily problems, and less sociable. Simply increasing food intake is not a sufficient or even a wise solution--too much food eaten during pregnancy may have little or detrimental effects, too much iron may be toxic,

and too many bulks destroy a child's appetite. Specific nutrients along with psychosocial stimulation may be the best mix. This will be discussed in subsequent sections.

Childhood Malnutrition

Almost 30% of children fewer than 5 years of age in the world are underweight; most live in developing countries in Africa and South Asia. Typical malnourished children are not thin or wasted looking but are short for their age or stunted. They are usually malnourished at moderate rather than severe levels. Even mild and moderate malnutrition leads to physical health, learning and social problems. Most mothers would be surprised if they were told that their child was malnourished because there is no obvious waste or change in behavior if the child has been this way for months.

The World Health Organization now uses a more accurate formula based on standard deviations from the average. Likewise, if well-nourished children of 4 years of age measure 102 cm or 40 inches in height, a child of 90 cm or 35 inches will be considered moderately stunted, using a rough calculation of less than 90% of expected height. Adults can calculate their own body mass index (BMI) as the quotient of weight (kg) / height² (m²). Somewhere between 19 and 23 are considered healthy; over 25 is overweight, 30 obese, and 17 underweight. The new standards published in 2000 by the Centers for Disease Control are available (<http://www.cdc.gov/growthcharts>). Close to 170 million children are malnourished if we use weight as our indicator of malnutrition.

- Across all developing countries, 28% of children fewer than 5 years of age are malnourished.
- If breastfed, as most rural children are, they probably thrived in the first 6 months on breast milk alone. However, most of these children probably did not gain enough weight after that point both because of infections such as diarrhea and pneumonia and because the food offered was of insufficient quantity and quality for growth and illness recovery. As a result, their weight and height did not rise as it should, and they did not have enough reserves to cope with the next episode of diarrhea or respiratory infection.
- In addition to suffering poor health, underweight children suffer long-term problems in their ability to learn and solve problems, and in their emotional and social life.
- The most immediate, but not the only, cause of malnutrition is the lack of calories that provide energy and protein for building body cells (Waterlow, 1992). Both are needed to put weight and height on a child.
- Unfortunately, many new urban mothers have the misguided belief that they do not have enough milk, and their baby needs more to grow. Consequently, they regularly supplement breastfeeding with other foods and liquids such as cereal, fruit, cow's milk, and tea in the first few months; the supplements in turn impair a mother's milk flow.
- While breast milk alone suffices for the first 4-6 months, infants after this age need weaning foods, namely semi-solid foods such as fruits, vegetables, oil, cereals, and eggs in addition to breast milk.

Solutions

Many ideas for enhancing nutrition and health have been tried and evaluated around the world.

- In addition to improving agricultural yields, governments have helped hospitals promote breastfeeding and banned the use of bottles with infant formula. These have been two very successful nutrition programs.
- Fortifying foods with iodine (iodized salt) and adding vitamin A and iron to children's drinks and snacks. An alternative is to provide vitamin A drops to children every 6 months in their first year or two when they need extra protection from illness. This has been found to reduce the duration and severity of diarrhea and measles, as well as to cut childhood deaths by up to 30%. It also reduces blindness.
- Anemic children, given supplementary iron each day for several months, show better appetites and more activity, without running the risk of getting malaria.
- Zinc supplementation in the first year or two not only reduces the duration and severity of diarrhea and pneumonia, but it also helps children add weight.

Module 133: Universal Health and Fitness Practices

Health as we discussed is not a mere absence of disease. It is the optimum functioning of our body and mind and flourishing in all aspects, material and non-material. The concept of fitness transcends disease and health models. It posits the level of body mechanisms by maintaining it in optimum condition through diet, exercise, timely remedies for dysfunctions, harnessing the inherent resilience strengths. In the global world of today, fitness has become a motivation for many people and there is widespread awareness about fitness.

In simple terms, “physical fitness” refers to the ability of the body to adapt to external environment and cope with daily activities. Good physical fitness not only enables a person to carry out daily work, but also gives him / her extra energy to enjoy leisure, ensuring the body can adapt to unexpected environmental changes and daily pressures. There are two kinds of physical fitness, namely Health-related Physical Fitness and Sports-related Physical Fitness.

Health-related Physical Fitness

Purpose: Healthy body, quality life

- Elements:
- Cardiorespiratory endurance
 - Muscular strength and endurance
 - Flexibility
 - Body Composition
 - Neuromuscular relaxation

Sports-related Physical Fitness

Purpose: Winning trophies and honors in competition

- Elements:
- Cardiorespiratory endurance
 - Muscular strength and endurance
 - Flexibility
 - Body Composition
 - Neuromuscular relaxation
 - Agility
 - Balance
 - Speed
 - Power
 - Coordination

Source : https://www.lcsd.gov.hk/en/healthy/physical_fitness/concept.html

Total fitness: A fit person that has the ability to cope with stress and everyday strain of modern day living, a high level of cardiovascular and muscular fitness, the ability to maintain a positive and meaningful social relationship, and an active lifestyle includes good habits. Total fitness is a multi-dimensional concept that includes aspects such as emotional, social, spiritual, mental, nutritional and physical fitness.

Five components of Physical fitness are:

- Muscular strength
- Muscular endurance
- Cardiovascular fitness
- Motor fitness
- Flexibility

There are many fitness practices and healthy habits that have been adapted across cultures. Indigenous practices always existed in every culture, they are now globally searched and practiced.

Yoga: Yoga is an ancient and complex practice, rooted in Indian philosophy. It began as a spiritual practice in world's ancient religions. Yogi is someone who contemplates, has body awareness and complete harmony between body and mind. It involves self-discipline and

focus. In the modern world, Yoga has become popular as a way of promoting physical and mental well-being.



Module 134: Health Policies and Research Findings

Much of the overlapping information for this module has been included in module 131. So, this should be read together.

Culture Influences

How healthy we are, what we do to stay healthy, and what we do when we are sick. There is surprising diversity in the ways that different cultures define and conceptualize health. Is health simply the absence of disease? Does health imply a broad, holistic notion of balance in a person's life?

Researchers have produced an interdisciplinary understanding of health, especially in non-Western cultures and their perceptions of well-being. Clearly, the Western biomedical understanding is not the only view of health and illness in the world. Different kinds of healers play central roles in evaluation, diagnosis, and treatment across cultures

Differing philosophies, religious influences, use of such natural substances as medicinal plants, and Western medicines all have a role in the definition and maintenance of health.

Conceptualization of health

No disease, eating sleeping well maintaining weight pain free = health from the western point of view. "A state of complete physical, mental and social well-being and not merely the absence of disease or infirmity" (World Health Organization, 1946). Race, age, where you live, religion, concepts about health by family also determine how healthy we are or report so = culture.

- SES: Socio economic status and health means that there are health disparities due to access, class and affordability.

- Health behavior means what lifestyle we peruse in terms of eating habits, exercise, sleep, coping with stress and recreation. How aware we are of our body and its functions and how we look after it in the normal course of daily activities.

VU TOOLKIT

Lesson 35

NAVIGATING MENTAL HEALTH: CULTURAL PERSPECTIVES ON DEVELOPMENTAL DISABILITIES AND WELL-BEING**Module: 135-139****Module 135: Culture and Mental Health**

Culture influences how individuals manifest symptoms, communicate their symptoms and cope with psychological challenges, and their willingness to seek treatment (Eshun & Hodge, 2014). Understanding the role of culture in mental health is crucial to comprehensive and accurate diagnoses and treatment of illnesses. Overall epidemiological, clinical, and other studies suggest a “moderate but not unlimited impact of cultural factors” on mental health (Draguns, 1997, p. 213). This implies that accurate evaluation and diagnoses of psychological disorders within the culture are crucial for appropriate and effective treatment and intervention (Eshun & Hodge, 2014).

However, despite efforts in the field of counseling and clinical psychology to include or emphasize cultural influences on psychopathology in our traditional training programs, we are still limited. There is much research to show that the mental health problems of indigenous peoples are the result of their colonization by Europeans; their forced assimilation led to the loss of their indigenous cultures, disintegration of family and kinship systems, intergenerational trauma, land dispossession, and sociopolitical oppression.

Approaches of universalism and relativism

The notion of an underlying disorder that is exhibited in its variant forms across culture. Relativists interpret the same information to mean that the cultural variation in symptom presentation could reflect the existence of syndromes that are culture-specific or culture-bound. First Nations in Canada see health as a balance among four equal and interconnected dimensions of a human: the emotional, the mental, the spiritual, and the physical (McCormick, 1996). Many of the First Nations are also guided by relational ethics that are commonly known as the seven grandfather teachings: wisdom, love, respect, bravery, honesty, humility, and truth (Verbos & Humphries, 2014).

In New Zealand, the Māori concept of health and well-being is reflected in the Te Whare Tapa Whā model (Vaka, 2016) which is represented by a house (whare) that sits on the land (whenua) and supported by four poles. Culture-bound syndromes are a combination of somatic and psychological symptoms that are exhibited and recognized as an illness only within a specific culture or specific region of the world. A few examples of the culture-bound syndromes that appeared in the DSM-IV-TR (American Psychiatric Association, 2000) are dhat in India, an anxiety reaction to fear of semen loss from excessive masturbation (Grover et al., 2016); amok, or sudden and unexplained short-lived outbursts of violence in Malaysia (Haque, 2008); and koro in South Asia and China, which is characterized by intense anxiety that the genitalia or nipples will retract into the body (Crozier, 2011).

Illustration through Example:

A man who, until recently has been normal, suddenly began to behave in a bizarre way somewhere in Southeast Asia. His relatives suspected that he had lost his spirit, so they took him to the house of the local shaman. Upon careful examination, the shaman declared that indeed the man's spirit had left him. Soon afterwards, the man received lots of sympathy and was exempted from his usual social duties and work. Even though his behavior was seen as bizarre, he was not sanctioned because he was seen as not been directly responsible for his strange behavior, but the departure of his spirit. After further examination involving an all-night ceremony with sacred chants where various deities were called upon to enter the body of the shaman, the shaman identified who is responsible for the lost spirit. He offers animal sacrifice to appease the deities, and then begins a "spirit-hooking" ritual in which his own spirit journeys on a magical flight to the land of the dead to track down the lost spirit. Once the lost spirit is tracked down, he is brought back and deposited in various food dishes, which the man had to eat to regain the lost spirit. The shaman also removes poisonous harms from the man body and his household, during which time the man had to remain in the shaman's house for closer observation. Once the shaman correctly identified the whereabouts of the lost spirit and the prescribed rituals and rites conscientiously followed for a couple of months, the lost spirit returned into the man, and he eventually got well again.

Current Cultural and Cross-cultural Research in Mental Health

Depression is perhaps the single most common mental health problem; accounting for over 17% of the 8.1% of the Global Burden of Disease (calculated in Disability Adjusted Life Years - DALY) which mental health problems account for. It therefore serves as a good illustrative example when reviewing current cultural and cross-cultural research in mental health. In addition, it is one of the mental health problems that has received much research attention. A historical landmark in research was a series of studies sponsored by the World Health Organization (WHO) between 1973 and 1986 (Draguns, 1990; Sartorius, 1983). Among the important results of these studies is the suggestion that the core symptoms of depression include dysphoria, anxiety, tension, lack of energy, and ideas of insufficiency.

Although much less common than depression, **schizophrenia** is a serious and highly stigmatized mental health problem that affects millions of people each year and has very poor prognosis. Despite evidence suggesting biological etiology (see e.g., Chua & McKenna, 1995; Davis, Kahn, Ko & Davidson, 1991), we still lack complete knowledge about the local prevalence rates and prognosis, as well as variations in symptom presentation.

Module 136: Developmental Disabilities

Culture is constantly evolving. Culture influences newcomers' approaches to disability, including:

- their understanding of a disability and its etiology
- whether to seek help
- treatment options

- their relationships with health professionals

In many cultures, social interdependence and individual role within larger family and community are valued, while independence and autonomy are valued less than in Western cultures. This perspective can affect how disability is perceived. Many cultures seek spiritual healers and traditional 'alternative' medicines. Attitudes toward disability may include religious acceptance. People may believe that disability is caused by influence of 'past lives' or mystical intervention.

Culture influences key aspects of and approaches to treatment for developmental disabilities, including:

- Whether to seek help
- What treatments to use
- The availability of resources
- The expectations parents have of, and for, their child
- Relationships between families and care professionals



Module 137: Well-Being across Cultures

All individuals strive to be happy. How they pursue this ultimate human goal, however, seems to vary in interesting ways across cultures. Have you ever thought about how happy you are with your life? "Of course!" might be the immediate reaction of people who have lived most of their lives in highly individualist Western cultures

A widely used term in the field of psychology is subjective well-being (SWB; for review, see Diener, Suh, Lucas, & Smith, 1999). Subjective well-being includes three components: 1) Life satisfaction—a cognitive evaluation of one's overall life, 2) The presence of positive emotional experiences, 3) The absence of negative emotional experiences. Thus, a person is described as enjoying a high level of SWB if she is satisfied with her life, frequently experiences positive emotions (such as joy, affection), and seldom feels negative emotions (such as anxiety, sadness). One hallmark of SWB is that it is judged from the individual's own perspective. Thus, in SWB, a person's subjective perception about her own well-being is of paramount importance, which is shaped in complex ways by cultural factors.

Explaining Differences in happiness between cultures

When it comes to happiness, it might be more critical to have a high sense of personal choice and freedom than to have a reliable social safety net during difficult times. After all, bad life events happen only occasionally, whereas personal goals constantly affect the quality of daily experience. Another possibility is that the desire to be happy might be stronger in individualistic cultures than in collectivist cultures.

In individualist cultures where much personal freedom and opportunities are available, each person is highly accountable for his happiness. Being unhappy, in such a cultural context, is indirectly admitting that one has not been able to make the most out of his life opportunities, talents, and capabilities.

In many collectivists East Asian cultures, on the other hand, people are believed to have only limited control over happiness. Various factors beyond personal control, such as luck or family background, are thought to play significant roles in determining the ultimate happiness of an individual. Because the responsibility to be happy is more squarely on the person's shoulder in individualist than in collectivist cultures, it is possible that people try harder to be happy in the former culture. Being more eager to be happy, individualists might organize their lives in ways that would give them the best chance to be happy. Furthermore, when making evaluations or reports about their lives, individualists may try more, both consciously and unconsciously, to put a positive spin into them. Although quite speculative, there is also the possibility that people living in individualist cultures might find it easier to "think" they are happier than people in collectivistic cultures.

Judgment of Life Satisfaction

Another interesting pattern of cultural difference emerges when people make judgments about their life satisfaction. Culture enters the picture here by determining the types of self-relevant information that are constantly present in the person's mind. In individualist cultures, internal attributes (e.g., emotions) are the key building blocks of the self and are thus easily brought to the person's attention. In collectivist cultures, social elements of the self (e.g., other people's evaluation, social norms) are more chronically salient to the individual. This cultural difference leads to a relatively straightforward prediction: Individualists might base their life satisfaction judgments heavily on their emotions, whereas collectivists might evaluate their lives frequently based on normative information. This is precisely what Suh, Diener, Oishi, and Triandis (1998) found in two large international samples. The more individualist the nation, the more strongly the life satisfaction judgments were based on internal emotions. Basically, individualist cultural members seemed to adopt the logic that "if I am feeling good these days, it must mean my overall life is quite satisfying.

Module 138: Culture and Psychotherapy

Psychotherapy is a method used to help individuals change behaviors, thoughts, and emotions that cause problems or distress. It involves working with a trained therapist to address specific issues or general life stressors through verbal and psychological techniques.

Here are some common types of psychotherapy:

- 1. Cognitive Behavioral Therapy (CBT):** Focuses on identifying and changing negative thought patterns and behaviors.
- 2. Dialectical Behavior Therapy (DBT):** A type of CBT that emphasizes emotional regulation and mindfulness.
- 3. Psychodynamic Therapy:** Explores unconscious processes and past experiences to understand current behavior.
- 4. Humanistic Therapy:** Centers on self-development and achieving one's potential.
- 5. Interpersonal Therapy (IPT):** Addresses interpersonal issues and aims to improve communication and relationships.
- 6. Family Therapy:** Involves family members to improve communication and resolve conflicts within the family unit.
- 7. Group Therapy:** Involves a small group of individuals with similar issues who support each other under the guidance of a therapist

An interesting fact: Some techniques are frequently used in different cultural contexts to achieve therapeutic aims. For example, clients of Japanese Naikan therapy and clients of Western-derived cognitive behavior therapy may both learn to use the same technique of self-observation and self-monitoring. Japanese Naikan therapy clients would engage in self-observation to recall benevolences received from their mothers in terms of specific things their mothers did for them to mobilize a forgotten sense of gratitude.

Module 139: Culturally Competent Counselor

Culturally competent counselors are accurately aware of culturally learned assumptions by themselves and their clients, comprehend the culturally relevant facts and information about a client's culture and can intervene skillfully to bring about positive change through counseling.

A three-stage developmental framework proceeds from awareness to knowledge to skill in defining necessary competencies through a needs assessment.

Competence begins with "awareness" of your own culture in relationship with the other cultures around you, and an awareness of the culturally learned assumptions which control your life, with or without your permission. Accuracy depends on making the right assumptions. Once you have achieved awareness, the next level is to gather the facts, knowledge and information required for comprehending the meanings behind your own and your client's behavior.

Comprehension depends on having the right facts and information about the cultural context. Once you have achieved awareness and comprehension, the third level is to develop appropriate skills for bringing about change in the right direction.

Competent skill depends on an accurate assessment of the situation and meaningful understanding to bring about positive changes in each cultural context.

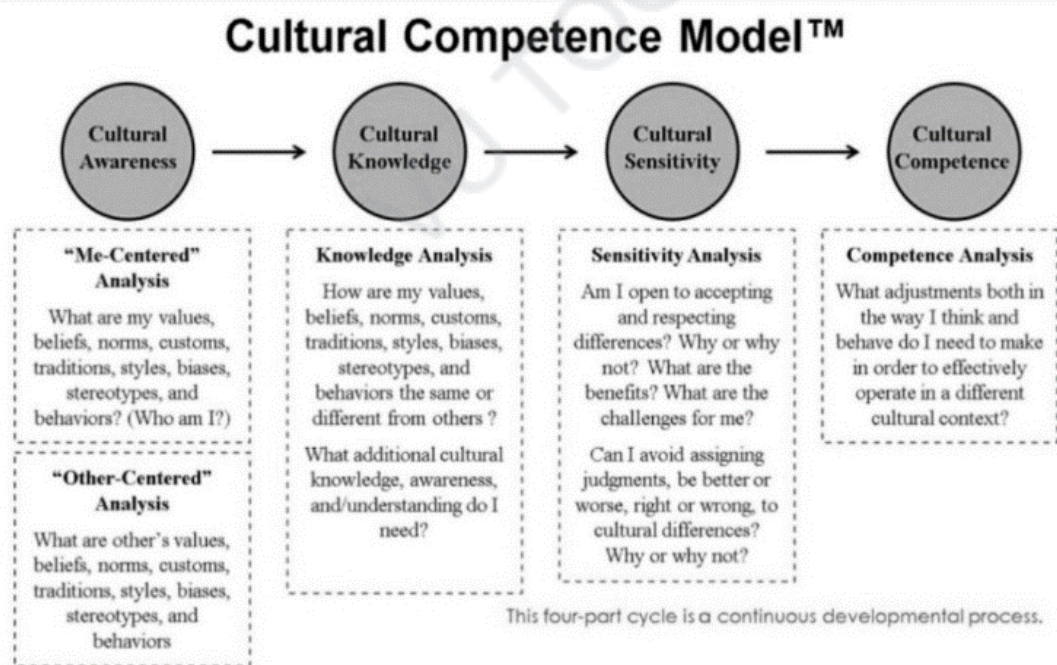
Multicultural competence is developed through a three-stage developmental sequence that begins with awareness of culturally learned assumptions and moves through comprehension of culture toward the practice of active skills.

1. An Assessment of Awareness Needs

The first step of developing multicultural competence is an assessment of cultural awareness needs. Each person's level of awareness is determined by their ability to judge a situation accurately both from their own viewpoint and the viewpoints of members in other cultures. Becoming aware of culturally learned assumptions as they are both similar and different from members of other cultures is the essential foundation of counseling competence.

2. Assessment of an individual's knowledge is the second stage of a need assessment. If awareness helps people to ask the right questions then meaningful knowledge helps them get the right answers to those questions. Knowledge leads to understanding the complex alternatives and ambiguity in each cultural context. Learning the language of another culture is a good example of how new knowledge facilitates counseling.

3. Assessment of an individual's skill is the third aspect of this needs assessment. If awareness and knowledge are lacking the counselor will have a difficult time becoming skillful. If awareness is lacking the counselor will make wrong assumptions. If knowledge is lacking, then gaining a meaningful understanding will be difficult.



Lesson 36

SCIENTIFIC APPROACHES TO MENTAL HEALTH ACROSS CULTURES**Module: 140-144****Module 140: Spirituality and Science of Mental Health**

During the past century, psychological science in most Western countries developed in the context where there was a distinct separation between psychology and religion. As a result, a researcher's appeals involving "spiritual" issues were rejected in the mainstream psychology of many countries, including the United States, England, Canada, Russia, and France.

Most professional psychologists attending colleges and universities in developed Western countries have little knowledge about the concept of spirituality and the use of religious beliefs in counseling and psychotherapy. Many contemporary psychologists are only at the beginning stages of understanding spirituality, a source of motivation and reasoning for many people living in traditional cultures.

Spirituality refers to a broad range of phenomena concerning "nonmaterial" matters related to faith, trust, and hope, in contrast to "material" matters related to ownership, accumulation of possessions, and competition.

The Psychological Context of Spirituality

It emphasizes mind over matter, being over having, and mental effort over physical action. Individuals develop a strong belief in the existence of a spiritual essence that fills everything in the universe, including human beings. This essence exists before, after, and beyond material existence. Using a multidisciplinary scientific approach, psychologists try to understand spirituality and its effects on treatment and health. Rejecting sheer speculations about the "power of the mind," psychologists currently try to apply scientifically sound methods of comparative analysis. In a typical methodology, two groups of subjects are selected. One group represents individuals who accept spirituality and regularly practice their beliefs. Such practices vary and depend on cultural conditions and characteristics of populations: Some people indicate their deep belief in God; some attend religious services (in a mosque, church, synagogue, etc.); some pray regularly; yet others may emphasize meditation, trance, and other activities indicating their belief in spiritual power.

Life and Death

What criteria constitute the death of the human body? Absence of all movements including breathing? Absence of heartbeat? Permanent nonattendance to stimulation? Irreversible loss of consciousness? Even though there are ongoing and heated debates about when life begins—at conception or at some point during prenatal development—there are some national standards of what is considered death of the body. In the United States, in the beginning of the 1980s, a presidential commission and state courts reached a consensus that brain death signals the end of human life. In Japan, however, there is a prominent belief that it is not only the brain that makes us human. Even a brain-dead person is alive until the last beat of that person's heart.

Therefore, organ transplants, until the end of the 1990s, were banned in Japan (except cornea, kidney, and bone marrow transplants because they do not require a brain-dead donor). But despite recent changes in the government's stand on organ transplant, donors are few because of the Japanese belief that bodies must remain intact for the trip to the afterlife. Besides, Japanese people tend to be very uncomfortable bringing part of someone else's body into their own. It is like you have part of their soul.



A CASE IN POINT

Medical Profession and Beliefs

A national survey of 1,100 physicians, conducted in 2004, found that 74 percent of doctors believed that miracles have occurred in the past, and 73 percent believed that miracles could occur today. The poll also indicated that U.S. physicians are surprisingly religious, with 72 percent indicating they believe that religion provides a reliable and necessary guide to life. Those surveyed represent

physicians from Christian (Roman Catholic, Protestant, Orthodox Christian, and other), Jewish (Orthodox, Conservative, Reform, and secular) Muslim, Hindu, and Buddhist religious traditions.

Source: HCD Research and the Louis Finkelstein Institute for Religious and Social Studies of the Jewish Theological Seminary in New York City.

Module 141: Group Discussion

A group discussion was held with young students of Applied Psychology on perceptions about mental health in Pakistani society. The recording will be available. It must be watched for learning and interest. No written content needed.

Module 142: Developmental Disabilities Across Cultures



Culture is a pattern of ideas, customs and behaviors shared by a particular people or society. It is dynamic, yet stable. Developmental disabilities have been defined as a set of abilities and characteristics that vary from the norm in the limitations they impose on independent participation and acceptance in society. Developmental disabilities may occur in isolation or together. They include:

- Intellectual disabilities
- sensory-related disabilities (e.g., related to hearing and vision)
- communication and language disabilities
- Physical disabilities

In some South Asian cultures, such as in parts of Pakistan, a girl is expected to be like her mother and a boy like his father. When this does not occur, it can be seen as a disturbance in the natural order. In traditional communities, a family may wonder whether their child with a disability has been taken over by a djinn (spirit) or they see him as a 'changeling'. Parents may even feel isolated from the rest of their community because of the perceived stigma of having a child with developmental disabilities. Indian cultures offer multiple causes for a disability, ranging from medicines or illness during pregnancy and consanguinity, to psychological trauma in the mother and lack of stimulation for the infant.

Module 143: Prevalence of Schizophrenia

Schizophrenia, which is characterized by severe distortions of thinking, perception, and emotion, is also common in Pakistan, complete with all its dramatic symptoms. This condition affects about 1.5% of people. The start of schizophrenia often begins between the ages of 20 and 40 in both men and women. Ranging from 15 to 40 years of age. The most prevalent form of schizophrenia is paranoid schizophrenia, which includes the other three forms—catatonic, hebephrenic, and undifferentiated.

The prevalence rates of schizophrenia depend upon a whole range of factors, such as the availability of and response to treatment. The prevalence of schizophrenia, as with other mental disorders, can be calculated from a few sources—from the case registers to field surveys. The latter lend themselves more readily to estimation of period prevalence than point prevalence, while case register data can provide point prevalence more readily. The denominator can be the whole population or only a small defined population.

Facts about schizophrenia in Pakistan

- The stigmas attached to schizophrenia such as rejection, humiliation, isolation and generational transmission also often do not let people see a psychologist.
- Due to the Baradari system endogamous marriages (marriages within family) are also in common practice. Some families prefer their first cousin for marriage; if a mate is unavailable among first cousins, then they look for second and so forth. Such practices are increasing the risk of both biological and mental disorders.
- A couple of organizations are trying to educate people through the media about ill consequences of intermarriages; people have started realizing the fact, yet the majority still prefer it.
- Investigators have found that sexual abuse is also crucial in causing schizophrenia in women.
- **Fountain House Lahore**, Pakistan is mainly dedicated to services for schizophrenics. There are a large number of schizophrenics who are offering not only treatment but also the rehabilitation services so that after recovery they can integrate back in to the society at large. Some of the common therapies that they are offering to schizophrenics are as follows: Art and music therapy, Cognitive behavior therapy, Token economy, social skill training and Occupational therapy.

Why can't they recover?

In 1957 Karl Menninger wrote “The psychotherapy of schizophrenia is, in my opinion, as much in the mind of the observers as in the mind of the patient. We must change before he can change. He has long been incurable because we have been hopeless.”

As reported by one therapist: “Psychotherapy is one treatment tool. I have practiced it for 48 years with success. Not all the patients I treated have recovered, however, many have and I believe many more could have if the atmosphere was more hopeful and there were better community resources”.

Module 144: Counselling across Cultures (also see modules 138 and 139)

Culture is a complex construct affecting most domains of our life and counseling is no exception. People live in various cultural groups and their counseling needs are diverse. Counseling as used here refers to an interpersonal, professional relationship involving two or more individuals, one of whom is perceived as able to help the other(s) in some way. The aim of the counselor is to assist clients in the process of adjusting to or otherwise negotiating relationships, environments or conditions encumbering their wellbeing.

The Counseling Enterprise

Even though counseling is a holistic process, here, for the purpose of cultural analysis, it is broken down into several parts: (1) the counselor as a person, (2) the relationship, (3) diagnosing, (4) treatment plan, (5) intervention, (6) follow-up, and (7) payment for services.

The Counselor as a person: The culture in which counseling takes place determines who performs in the role of helper (Abel, Metraux, & Roll, 1988). In oral societies where authority and wisdom are attributed to the oldest living men and women in the community, elders are usually sought out for advice and direction for almost every aspect of life.

In Western societies in particular, the counselor is anyone, male or female of any age, who has met the academic preparation requirements set by the state or some other jurisdiction (Vontress, 2001). Entry into counseling and other psychotherapeutic professions depends on the individual's ability to obtain the requisite academic preparation and license to practice.

The Counseling relationship: As an interpersonal relationship, counseling resembles many other social encounters but differs in important ways.

First, it is usually designed to be psychotherapeutic for the help-seeker. Secondly, the interactants are relative strangers. Thirdly, there are socially sanctioned rules and ethical standards that regulate intercourse. Fourthly, it is an economic enterprise. The client is expected to pay for the services, even though immediate benefits from the counseling may be uncertain.

Diagnosis: Diagnosis is the act or process of determining the nature of the presenting problem by examining or analyzing reported and observed symptoms. Making a diagnosis is usually the first step in counseling. It requires that counselors make a judgment of the client. They must decide if and how much the client's behavior deviates from the way other people in the same culture behave. Making such a decision is difficult in cross cultural counseling, because

psychological judgments are never free from the influence of therapists' native cultural values. Problems are encountered when they attempt to use the standards of their personal cultural background to evaluate the treatment of culturally different clients (Vontress & Epp, 2000).

The main tool used by counselors and therapists in general is the Diagnostic Statistical Manual of Mental Disorders (4th Ed.) (DSM) (American Psychiatric Association, 1994). The writers of the document indicate that there is "wide international acceptance of DSM" (APA, 1994, p. xxiv). However, they caution that a "clinician who is unfamiliar with the nuances of an individual's cultural frame of reference may incorrectly judge as psychopathology those normal variations in behavior, belief, or experience that are particular to the individual's culture" (APA, 1994, p. xxiv). Despite this advice, few counselors can modify their diagnostic procedures for the cultural difference. The directions for formulating diagnoses and treatment plans provided by managed health care companies explain in part why therapists are unable to deviate from their usual diagnostic methods.

Treatment plan: After diagnosing the client's presenting problem, the counselor is expected to state what ought to be done, why, by whom, the duration of the intervention, and its likely outcome to eliminate the problematic or troubling condition. Writing such a statement requires that counselors be knowledgeable of the culture of their clients. Each culture holds different ideas about what constitutes problems in living. The remedy, reason for it, the person to consult, and for how long the consultation should last are also culture specific.

Counselors should not assume that writing a treatment plan for a Moroccan is the same as writing one for an American client. A realistic treatment plan is based on four factors.

- ✓ The first one is the counselor's knowledge of what is usually done in the client's culture to eliminate the presenting problem.
- ✓ The second one is an understanding of the usual treatment in the counselor's own culture for a client with the diagnosed problem.
- ✓ The third one is an awareness of how well clients are acculturated to the host culture. If the client is well acculturated to host culture, counselors can feel more comfortable designing a treatment plan similar to what they usually design for native clients. If the client is a recent arrival from a developing country, counselors may want to consider how they can incorporate into the treatment plan some remedies known to the client.
- ✓ The fourth factor is the willingness of clients to participate in a proposed remedy.

Intervention: Intervention refers to the process of aiding clients to correct, overcome, negotiate, or adjust to the condition or situation that caused them to seek consultation. To be therapeutic, counselors must have four understandings.

- ✓ First, they need to understand the general culture in which the client was socialized. This knowledge gives them a preliminary perception of their client's personality.
- ✓ Second, counselors need to understand the host culture in which their culturally different clients currently live. Understanding is essential, because cross-cultural

counselors need to comprehend the nature of multi-faceted aspects of cultural clashes impacting culturally different clients.

- ✓ Thirdly, counselors need to understand their clients' personality. To be sure, an individual's personality reflects the general culture in which he or she was socialized (Triandis, 1994). However, it is also a product of the client's genetic heritage and racial-ethnic socialization.
- ✓ Fourthly, cross-cultural counselors ought to have a thorough understanding of their own socialization that made them who they are. Without such self-examination, they may become biased mediators. Culturally biased counselors can become unwittingly anti-therapeutic for their clients.

Follow-up: Follow-up refers to counselors reviewing their work with clients. It is especially important in cross-cultural counseling.

There is so much that counselors do not understand about their clients' native culture, the host culture, and the interaction of the two. Counselors need to know if the presenting problem existed before the individual arrived in the new environment or whether it is a product of the attempt to adjust to the new culture. The follow-up provides continuous in-service training for the counselor.

Each client and each presenting problem are opportunities for counselors to learn better ways to help culturally different people. It is advised that counselors' audio or video tape each counseling session with their clients and listen to them either alone or with a colleague at the end of each day.

Lesson 37

CROSS-CULTURAL WELLBEING AND MENTAL HEALTH**Module: 145-150****Module 145: Women Wellbeing and Culture****Women and Body Dissatisfaction: A Cultural Perspective**

Body image ideals differ across cultures. For example, in some African and Asian cultures, features like elongated necks (Kayan people of Thailand) are symbols of beauty, while in the West, slimness is often idealized. In Western cultures, media promotes unrealistic beauty standards, leading to eating disorders and mental health issues. In contrast, cultures that value larger bodies may experience less dissatisfaction.

**Mental Wellbeing: The Influence of Culture on Women's Health**

Domestic responsibilities often placed on women affect mental health. In cultures where roles are shared or support is provided, mental health outcomes are better. Postpartum Care Practices in Pakistan, India, and Bangladesh, where women are supported for 40 days post-childbirth, help reduce postpartum depression. In contrast, Western cultures may pressure women to return to work sooner, increasing mental health risks.

Women's Resilience and Physical Health

Women's hormonal and biological traits, such as estrogen, help them cope with stress. Motherhood fosters psychological strength, though women are more prone to anxiety and depression, they often cope better long-term.

Aging, Media, and Cultural Perspectives on Women

In Western cultures, aging is often feared, and youth is idealized. Anti-aging products fuel anxiety. However, in many Asian and African societies, aging is associated with wisdom and respect, positively impacting women's mental health.

Reproduction, Domestic Responsibilities, and Postpartum Care: Cultural Comparisons

In cultures like Pakistan and India, women are given time to rest post-childbirth, promoting recovery. In contrast, in Western cultures, the pressure to resume duties quickly can harm women's wellbeing.

In some regions, new mothers are secluded, which can be both supportive and stigmatizing, depending on the cultural context.

Violence and Women's Wellbeing

Gender-based violence, including intimate partner violence and cultural practices like honor killings, severely impacts women's mental health, causing anxiety and depression.

The rise of cyberstalking and non-consensual pornography introduces new forms of violence, further threatening women's autonomy and mental wellbeing.

A Note on Well-being of Women in Pakistan (2024)

Women are increasingly affected by societal instability, injustice, and political victimization. These issues cause stress and concern, particularly about the future of their families, stolen votes, corruption, and lack of government welfare support.

Conclusion

Women's wellbeing is shaped by cultural norms and expectations, influencing body image, societal roles, and health. Understanding cultural contexts is crucial for addressing the challenges women face and promoting their mental and physical health globally. Policies must support women's autonomy, resilience, and wellbeing across diverse cultures.

Module 146: Access to Mental Health

This module explores the concept of mental health access across different cultures, focusing on the factors that influence the availability and acceptance of mental health services, with a particular emphasis on the challenges faced in Pakistan.

**What is meant by Access to Mental Health?**

Access to mental health refers to the ability to receive mental health services, including therapy and psychiatric care, without barriers such as cost, stigma, or distance. It also includes traditional methods like spiritual healing, especially in cultures like Pakistan.

Are Mental Health Help and Services Accessible in All Cultures?

Mental health services are more accessible in urban areas with hospitals and clinics. In rural Pakistan, people often rely on spiritual healers like shamans and imams, which may not effectively treat severe mental illnesses.

Is It a Norm to Obtain Mental Health Services?

In Western cultures, seeking mental health help is common and socially accepted. In Pakistan, cultural stigma makes people reluctant to seek help, and professional services are often sought only in severe cases.

**Gender-Related Dynamics in Access to Mental Health**

In Western cultures, both men and women are encouraged to seek help, though women may hide their struggles due to societal pressure. Whereas in Pakistan, women face greater barriers to accessing mental health care due to cultural stigma and fear of being labeled unstable. Men also struggle with stigma but may avoid seeking help due to societal expectations of emotional strength.

**Does Education Make a Difference?**

Education improves understanding and access to mental health services. Wealthier, educated individuals in Pakistan can afford private care, while public services are limited, especially in rural and low-income areas.

Perception of Mental Illness in Pakistani Society

Mental illness is often viewed as a spiritual issue, attributed to "jinn" or divine punishment. This can lead to reliance on religious healing. Stigma around mental health remains strong, though urban areas are slowly becoming more aware.

Conclusion

Access to mental health in Pakistan is influenced by cultural, economic, educational, and gender factors. While urban areas have more services, rural regions rely on traditional methods.

Stigma remains a barrier, especially for women, despite the growing awareness in some parts of the country.

Module 147: Cultural Aspects of Depressive Experience and Disorders

Depression is a global health issue influenced by biological, psychological, and sociocultural factors such as chronic illness, social conflict, and societal changes. Cultural differences significantly affect how depression is experienced and treated.

The Concept of Depressive Experience and Disorder

Western Historical Perspectives

The term "depression" originates from the Latin word *deprimere*, meaning "to press down." In early Western medicine, depression was linked to "melancholy," described by Hippocrates as caused by excess black bile. By the 17th century, "melancholy" was replaced by "depression" in medical texts, but melancholy reappeared as a subtype of depression in the DSM-IV.

Cultural Variations in Depression

- **Latino and Mediterranean cultures:** Depression is expressed as nerves and headaches.
- **Chinese and Asian cultures:** Depression appears as weakness or tiredness.
- **Middle Eastern cultures:** Emotional distress is described as heart problems.
- **Hopi culture:** Depression is expressed as being "heartbroken."

Cross-Cultural Research on Depression

Key findings include:

1. Depression is not universally understood.
2. Symptoms and meanings of depression are shaped by culture.
3. Non-Western cultures often present depression through physical (somatic) symptoms.
4. Suicidal thoughts and guilt are less common in non-Western societies.
5. Personality traits linked to depression in the West, like low self-esteem, may not apply in other cultures.

Western Assumptions vs. Sociocultural Context

Western mental health professionals view depression as an individual problem, treating it with empirical methods. Postmodern views argue that sociocultural factors like poverty and inequality also shape mental health, stressing the need to consider the broader context in understanding and treating depression.

Conclusion: Culture and Depression

Cultural differences impact the causes, symptoms, and treatment of depression. Understanding these variations is essential for improving mental health assessments and outcomes across different societies.

Module 148: Assessing and Treating Depression in Cross-Cultural Contexts

Culture plays a crucial role in shaping how depression is experienced and treated. Clinicians must understand cultural influences to effectively work with diverse populations. Below is a summary of key cultural determinants and treatment guidelines.

Checklist: Cultural Determinants of Depression

Use this checklist to evaluate how much a patient identifies with cultural traditions and behaviors on the following scale: Very Much (4) Somewhat (3) A Little (2) Not At All (1) Don't Know (0)

1. Concepts of personhood and self-structure.
2. Beliefs about abnormality, normality, and wellbeing.
3. Attitudes towards illness and disease.
4. Practices regarding breeding patterns and genetic risks.
5. Pre-natal, birth, and post-natal care practices.
6. Socialization through family, community, and religion.
7. Medical and health care beliefs, including healers and doctors.
8. Stressors from sociocultural and economic changes.
9. Patterns of deviance and dysfunction in alternative economies.
10. Stressors related to roles, values, and identity conflicts.
11. Sociopolitical stressors like racism, sexism, and marginalization.
12. Resources like institutional support, social networks, and religion.

If the score is higher than 24, then the use of conventional Western psychiatry may pose risks. Additional assessments may be needed if there are many "don't know" ratings.

Guidelines for Cross-Cultural Assessment and Treatment

1. **Formal Training:** Clinicians should seek training in cross-cultural psychology.
2. **Cultural Fluency:** Learn languages and immerse in the culture to enhance understanding.
3. **Culturological Interview:** Conduct specialized interviews to assess cultural identity and stressors.
4. **Cultural Participation:** Collaborate with the patient's community to create culturally relevant treatments.
5. **Cultural Equivalence:** Use qualitative methods like storytelling when Western tools are limited.
6. **Cultural Diagnosis:** Focus on cultural context rather than standardized diagnoses like DSM categories.
7. **Collaborative Treatment:** Involve patients in treatment decisions, offering traditional and complementary methods.
8. **Cultural Experts:** Work with specialists in the patient's culture as consultants or co-therapists.
9. **Cultural Context:** Be mindful of the patient's life history, including experiences of poverty or racism, and advocate for social change when needed.

These guidelines help clinicians adapt treatment approaches to better align with a patient's cultural background, ensuring more effective and compassionate care.

Module 149: The Development of Multicultural Knowledge Resources**The Development of Multicultural Knowledge****1. Cultural Patterns and Influence**

- Cultural patterns and "rules" are passed down by parents and society.
- Awareness of different cultures often challenges our belief in the superiority of our own.
- Embracing a multicultural approach expands our perspectives and options for interacting with others.

2. Multicultural Theory (MCT) - Key Propositions

- **Worldview Diversity:** Every theory represents a unique cultural perspective.
- **Client-Counselor Dynamics:** Counseling should focus on both the client-counselor relationship and the changing cultural context.
- **Identity Influence:** A person's cultural background shapes their problem-solving and goal setting in counseling.
- **Expanded Helping Responses:** Culturally centered counseling increases available methods to assist clients.
- **Alternative Roles:** Counseling includes varied roles from diverse cultural contexts, not just conventional methods.
- **Contextual Awareness:** MCT promotes expanding awareness from individual to societal levels for broader understanding.

Resistance to Multiculturalism

- Seen as competing with traditional theories.
- Negatively linked to affirmative action and political correctness.
- Critiqued for lack of clear definition and difficulty in universal application.
- Complexity and potential biases lead some to question multicultural competence in counseling.

Benefits of a Culture-Centered Perspective

- Accurate assessments are possible when behavior is understood in its cultural context.
- Cross-cultural interactions reveal shared values, fostering understanding despite behavior differences.
- Cultural diversity protects against narrow perspectives and enhances society's mental well-being.
- Multicultural perspectives support social justice and moral development.
- Adapting to rapid social changes becomes feasible with cultural awareness.

Skills for Multiculturally Competent Counselors**1. Knowledge and Learning Methods**

- Knowledge of standard counseling and broader social factors is essential.
- Engaging with community cultural representatives deepens understanding.
- Immersion experiences help students and faculty gain practical multicultural insight.

2. Multicultural Skill Development

- Skills involve identifying shared positive expectations between culturally different individuals.
- Cultural conflicts, such as family disagreements, can be reframed to show different "cultural" perspectives.

- The **Interpersonal Cultural Grid** illustrates:
 - Similar behaviors/positive expectations.
 - Different behaviors/positive expectations.
 - Same behaviors but with hidden negative expectations.
 - Different behaviors and negative expectations, representing deep conflict.

3. Triad Training Model

- This model involves three participants (counselor, pro-counselor, and anti-counselor) to help counselors understand the client's internal positive and negative messages.
- This training aids in seeing the client's perspective, reducing defensiveness, and improving recovery from misunderstandings.

Conclusion and Takeaways

1. Cultural Competence and Counseling

- Counselors need to understand the complexities of each client's cultural context.
- They must adapt theories and methods based on the specific cultural background of clients.

2. Key Questions for Culturally Competent Counseling

- Which counseling theories are effective in various cultural contexts?
- What psychological phenomena are universal, and which are culturally specific?
- What are the limitations of a counseling theory when applied across cultures?

Module 150: Cross Cultural Understanding of Psychological Wellbeing

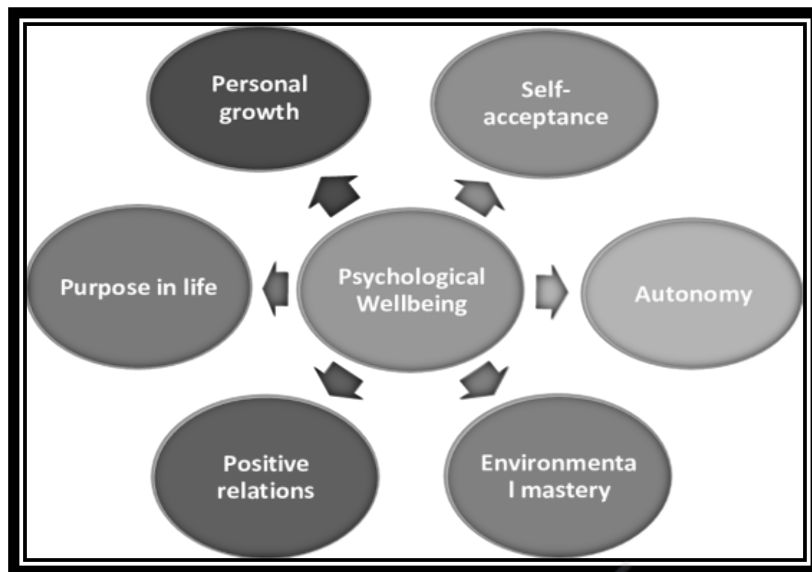
Psychological wellbeing involves emotional, mental, and behavioral health, reflected in an absence of distress, effective daily functioning, and a sense of purpose and pleasure. Healthy coping mechanisms and resilience are key for thriving in various aspects of life.

Integrated Models of Wellbeing:

1. Ryff's Psychological Well-Being Model:

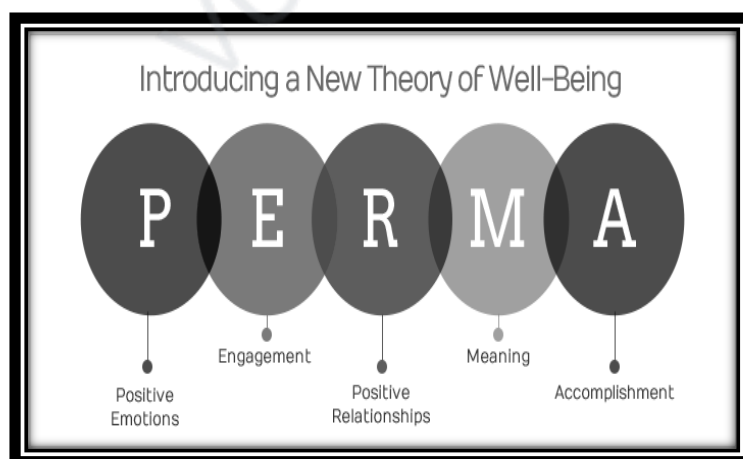
Being and Well being	
<i>Our being</i>	
Body, Mind, Soul	
<i>Well being</i>	
Physical, mental, spiritual	
Healthy body; respecting our body, fitness, self care	
Peaceful mind	
Tranquil soul	

Focuses on six core elements: personal growth, self-acceptance, autonomy, environmental mastery, positive relationships, and purpose in life. These represent holistic emotional, mental, and behavioral functioning.



2. Seligman's PERMA Model:

Highlights five pillars for sustained wellbeing: Positive emotions, Engagement, Positive relationships, Meaning, and Accomplishment.

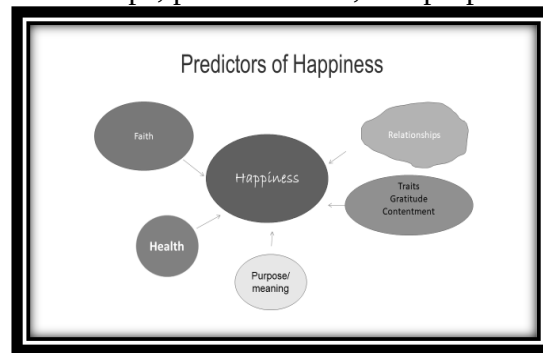


3. Tayyab Rashid's View:

Advocates the idea that focusing on strengths can help undo life's challenges: "explore and accentuate what's strong to undo what's wrong."

4. Five Predictors of Happiness:

Faith, health, relationships, personal traits, and purpose.



5. Naumana Amjad's Indigenous Model:

Emphasize gratitude (shukr) and patience (sabr) as central to wellbeing, recognizing the natural shifts in happiness and the importance of accepting life's emotional fluctuations. Happiness is seen as chemistry, and hope exists both in this world and the next.



Conclusion

These models present wellbeing as a dynamic balance between personal fulfillment, emotional resilience, and cultural wisdom.

Lesson 38

FLOURISHING AND WELLBEING ACROSS CULTURES**Module: 151-156****Module 151: On Human Flourishing****What is Human Flourishing?**

Human flourishing refers to living in a state of well-being and thriving in multiple domains of life. Dr. Tyler VanderWeele, a prominent epidemiologist, defines flourishing as "doing well in every way," encompassing various aspects of life. Flourishing is not just about being physically healthy but also about fulfilling one's purpose, experiencing happiness, and maintaining stability in life.

Six Domains of Human Flourishing

VanderWeele's conceptualization of flourishing includes six interrelated domains that contribute to an individual's overall well-being: *physical and mental health, financial and material stability, happiness, positive relationship, character, purpose*

The Role of Religious Communities

Dr. VanderWeele also points out that religious involvement can be a powerful social determinant of health and well-being. Religious communities often provide: social support; purpose and meaning; and guidance on character and virtue.

Resilience and Flourishing

Resilience is crucial for flourishing, as emphasized by Tayyab Rashid's Strength-Based Resilience (SBR) model, which focuses on:

- **Character Strengths:** Using strengths like courage and gratitude to face challenges.
- **Positive Psychology Interventions:** Enhancing well-being through strengths and supportive relationships.
- **Adaptation and Growth:** Growing stronger through adversity rather than just surviving.

Conclusion: The Path to Flourishing

Human flourishing requires a holistic focus on health, relationships, purpose, and stability, emphasizing resilience and growth. Promoting these values can create environments where individuals thrive.

Module 152: Flourishing; Comparison of Societies and Cultures

This module summarizes the article "Human Flourishing in Cross-Cultural Settings," authored by **Dorota Węziak-Białowolska, Eileen McNeely, and Tyler J. VanderWeele** (<https://www.frontiersin.org/articles/10.3389/fpsyg.2019.01269/ful>), which examines flourishing across five culturally distinct populations: the United States, China, Sri Lanka, Cambodia, and Mexico. It aims to deepen the understanding of well-being in cross-cultural psychology by highlighting how culture, socio-economic conditions, and values influence flourishing.

Human Flourishing Overview

Human flourishing is a multi-dimensional concept that encompasses physical and mental health, happiness, life satisfaction, character and virtue, positive relationships, financial stability, and meaning and purpose. While these domains are universally relevant, their expression varies significantly across different cultures due to social, economic, and cultural factors.

Key Findings from Comparative Study

- **United States:** Despite the highest financial stability, respondents scored lowest in most flourishing domains, except for happiness and life satisfaction.
- **China:** Respondents excelled in social relationships and health domains.
- **Cambodia:** Character and virtue, along with life satisfaction and happiness, were relatively high.
- **Mexico:** Although having the lowest financial stability, respondents reported the greatest sense of meaning and purpose in life.
- **Sri Lanka:** Respondents were the least happy and satisfied with their lives.
- **Physical and Mental Health:** Chinese participants reported the most positive health assessments, followed by Mexican and Cambodian respondents, while Sri Lankan and American respondents were the least positive. WHO health indicators suggested a different ranking.

Conclusion: Pathways to Flourishing in Pakistan

The study highlights that along with financial stability and health, meaning, relationships, and purpose are vital for flourishing. Pakistan's cultural and religious heritage provides a strong basis for well-being, even amidst economic challenges. Countries like Mexico and Cambodia show that strengthening social ties, fostering virtue, and promoting purpose can lead to a more holistic approach to flourishing. Research on flourishing is growing globally, as shown in the map below:



Some questions to consider!

- Are we flourishing? As individuals? As a society?
- To which country and culture we closely resemble?
- Explanation for differences in flourishing?

Module 153: Character Strengths a Culturally Derived Model

The Strengths Approach centers on leveraging personal strengths rather than focusing on weaknesses. Key concepts include:

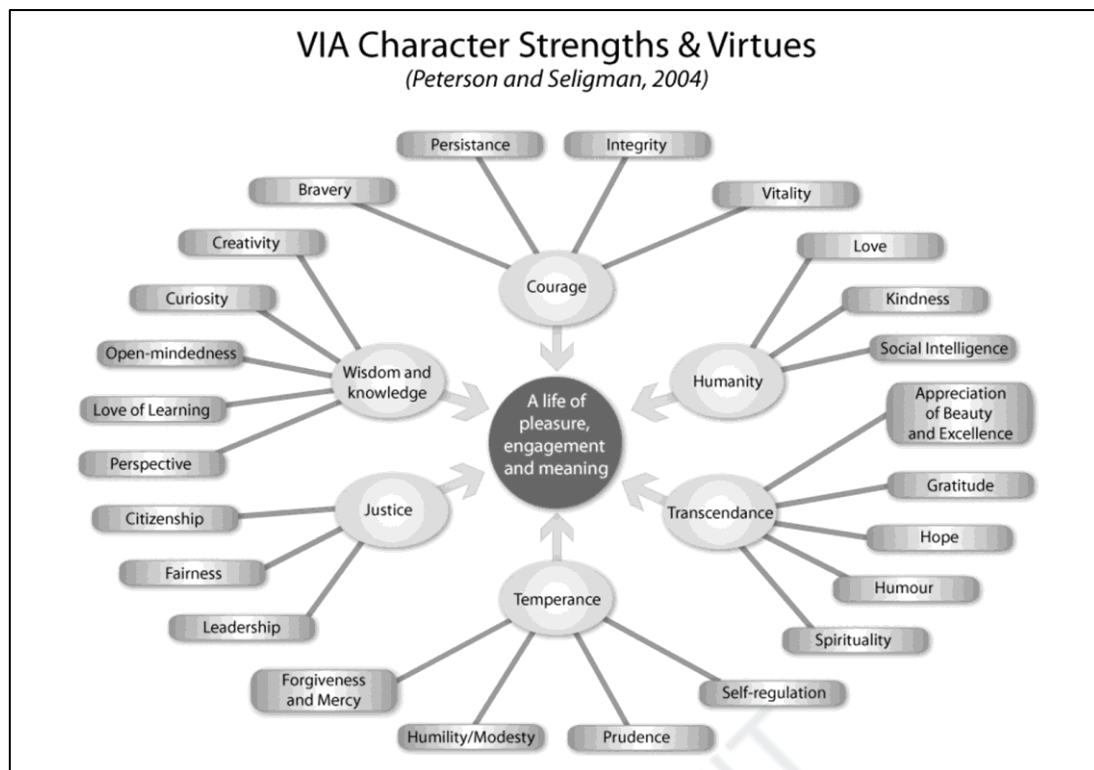
- Every individual possesses unique strengths.
- Maximum growth potential lies in cultivating these strengths.
- Success is achieved by utilizing strengths and addressing weaknesses.

VIA Classification of 24 Character Strengths

The VIA Classification of 24 Character Strengths, developed by Peterson and Seligman (2004), organizes human strengths into **six core dimensions** or virtues. Each virtue comprises specific character strengths that reflect positive traits valued across cultures. These dimensions are: wisdom & knowledge, courage, humanity, justice, temperance and transcendence. These strengths are universal and contribute to personal well-being, social connection, and life satisfaction across cultures.

 The VIA Classification of 24 Character Strengths ViaCharacter.org					
WISDOM	CREATIVITY • Originality • Adaptive • Ingenuity	CURIOSITY • Interest • Novelty-Seeking • Exploration • Openness	JUDGMENT • Critical Thinking • Thinking Things Through • Open-mindedness	LOVE OF LEARNING • Mastering New Skills & Topics • Systematically Adding to Knowledge	PERSPECTIVE • Wisdom • Providing Wise Counsel • Taking the Big Picture View
COURAGE	BRAVERY • Valor • Not Shrinking from Fear • Speaking Up for What's Right	PERSEVERANCE • Persistence • Industry • Finishing What One Starts	HONESTY • Authenticity • Integrity	ZEST • Vitality • Enthusiasm • Vigor • Feeling Alive	
HUMANITY	LOVE • Both Loving and Being Loved • Valuing Close Relations with Others	KINDNESS • Generosity • Nurturance • Care & Compassion • Altruism • "Niceness"			SOCIAL INTELLIGENCE • Aware of the Motives/Feelings of Self/Others • Knowing what Makes Other People Tick
JUSTICE	TEAMWORK • Citizenship • Social Responsibility • Loyalty			FAIRNESS • Just • Not Letting Feelings Bias Decisions About Others	LEADERSHIP • Organizing Group Activities • Encouraging a Group to Get Things Done
TEMPERANCE		FORGIVENESS • Mercy • Accepting Others' Shortcomings • Giving People a Second Chance	HUMILITY • Modesty • Letting One's Accomplishments Speak for Themselves	PRUDENCE • Careful • Cautious • Not Taking Undue Risks	SELF-REGULATION • Self-Control • Disciplined • Managing Impulses & Emotions
TRANSCENDENCE	APPRECIATION OF BEAUTY & EXCELLENCE • Awe • Wonder • Elevation	GRATITUDE • Thankful for the Good • Expressing Thanks • Feeling Blessed	HOPE • Optimism • Future-Mindedness • Future Orientation	HUMOR • Playfulness • Bringing Smiles to Others • Lighthearted	SPIRITUALITY • Religiousness • Faith • Purpose • Meaning

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Culturally derived model by Dr. Afifa Anjum

Dr. Afifa Anjum's research at the University of Punjab presents a culturally derived model highlighting the role of character strengths in shaping well-being, personal development, and social adjustment, particularly among young adults in a Pakistani context. The studies emphasize that these key traits positively influence various outcomes, focusing on their significance within a Muslim Pakistani population. According to her there are four main dimensions of character strengths: cognitive, transcendence, interpersonal and vigor.

Cognitive

- wisdom, courage and temperance

Transcendence

- appreciation of beauty, gratitude, hope and spirituality

Interpersonal

- humanity and justice

Vigor

- curiosity, humour, social IQ and zest

Module 154: Outcomes of Character Strengths

Character strengths are positive human traits, considered important in a number of outcomes. The overarching aim of the research by Dr Afifa Anjum was two folded; to explore character strengths in a less studied interdependent Muslim Pakistani population and to advance existing knowledge on outcomes of character strengths in young adults.

The thesis consists of five studies divided into two parts, exploring the impact of character strengths in this specific cultural framework.

Part One involves two studies that developed and validated the Urdu version of the Values in Action-Inventory of Strengths (VIA-IS-U). The first study established the instrument as a reliable measure of character strengths with a four-factor structure: cognitive, interpersonal, vigor, and transcendence. The second study created a shorter version, the VIA-72-Urdu, which also proved valid.

Part Two comprises three studies examining the outcomes of character strengths. The third study found significant direct and indirect relationships between character strengths and subjective well-being (SWB) and university adjustment. The fourth study demonstrated that character strengths can differentiate between clinical and community samples regarding well-being. The fifth study explored how character strengths relate to antisocial and prosocial behaviors, showing that those with character strengths reported better behavioral outcomes. Overall, the research suggests that character strengths are vital traits influencing well-being, mental health, self-efficacy, and college adjustment among young adults. It highlights cross-cultural consistency in character strengths and proposes future research and practical implications for youth development. Key outcomes of character strengths include improved well-being, mental health, pro-social behavior, and enhanced college adjustment, although some strengths may diminish upon entering university.

Conclusion

Character strengths are essential traits that promote wellbeing, social behavior, and personal development, particularly in youth. These findings have significant implications for both cross-cultural psychology and practical applications in education and counseling.

Module 155: Study of Well-Being across Cultures

Introduction

Well-being varies across cultures, shaped by cultural values and beliefs. While some aspects of well-being are universal, many are culture specific. This module explores these differences and the factors that contribute to well-being across societies.

Key Concepts of Well-Being

1. **Subjective Well-Being (SWB):** SWB refers to how individuals perceive their own happiness and life satisfaction. In individualistic cultures (e.g., the West), personal achievement and self-esteem drive happiness. In collectivist cultures (e.g., East Asia), well-being is tied to social harmony and fulfilling group roles.
2. **Cultural Models of Well-Being:**
 - **Individualistic Cultures:** Focus on personal success and self-esteem, leading to higher happiness reports.

- **Collectivist Cultures:** Value social cohesion and group roles, where happiness is linked to relationships and community bonds.
- 3. **Cultural Differences in the Self-Concept and Well-Being:** In Western cultures, self-esteem and self-consistency are key to happiness, while in collectivist cultures, happiness comes from social responsibilities and group well-being.
- 4. **Universal Aspects of Well-Being:** Across cultures, factors like health, relationships, and material needs are universally important for well-being.

Cross-Cultural Research Findings

- **Kim-Prieto & Kukoff (2018): Universals and Differences**
Highlights both shared and culture-specific aspects of subjective well-being.
- **Brailovskaia et al. (2022): Meaning of Happiness**
A study comparing German and Chinese students shows differences in the meaning of happiness, with Germans linking it to personal freedom and Chinese to social harmony.
- **Joshanloo et al. (2021): Four Distinctions in Well-Being**
Key differences in how cultures define well-being:
 1. **Hedonic vs. Eudaimonic:** Pleasure vs. meaning.
 2. **Self-Enhancement vs. Self-Transcendence:** Personal achievement vs. contributing to the greater good.
 3. **Independence vs. Interdependence:** Personal autonomy vs. relational well-being.
 4. **Material vs. Spiritual:** Material success vs. spiritual fulfillment.

Issues of Measurement and Interpretation

Cultural differences affect how well-being is measured. People in some cultures may underreport happiness due to societal norms.

Key Findings from Cross-Cultural Research

1. **Individualistic Cultures Report Higher Happiness:** Due to emphasis on personal freedom and achievement.
2. **Self-Related Attributes Influence Happiness:** Self-esteem matters more in individualist cultures, while social harmony is key in collectivist societies.
3. **Cultural Differences in Cues for Happiness:** People use different cues to assess happiness, influenced by cultural values.

Conclusion

Well-being is shaped by both universal and culture-specific factors. Understanding these differences is key to developing culturally sensitive approaches to enhancing well-being.

Recommended Reading

- Kim-Prieto & Kukoff (2018). *Subjective Well-Being across Cultures: Some Universals and Many More Differences*.
- Brailovskaia et al. (2022). *A Qualitative Cross-Cultural Comparison of Well-Being Constructs*.
- Joshanloo et al. (2021). *Four Fundamental Distinctions in Conceptions of Well-Being Across Cultures*.

Module 156: Happiness and Contentment – The Case of Bhutan and Skardu

Happiness and contentment are often viewed differently across regions and cultures. In this module, we explore two unique regions, Bhutan and Skardu, to understand how cultural, environmental, and governance factors contribute to happiness and well-being.

Bhutan's Gross National Happiness (GNH) Index

In 1972, Bhutan's 4th King, Jigme Singye Wangchuck, introduced the concept of *Gross National Happiness (GNH)*, declaring that "Gross National Happiness is more important than Gross Domestic Product." This reflects a holistic view of progress, placing well-being above mere economic growth.



The Concept of GNH

The GNH is rooted in Buddhist principles and advocates for sustainable development that balances material and non-material aspects of life. It focuses on achieving happiness through:

- **Buddhist understanding of happiness:** Inner peace and contentment.
- **Holistic development:** Acknowledging well-being beyond economics.
- **Non-economic well-being:** Prioritizing mental, cultural, and environmental health.

Four Pillars of GNH

1. **Good Governance:** Effective and inclusive governance that promotes the well-being of citizens.
2. **Sustainable Socio-Economic Development:** Progress that respects both societal needs and environmental sustainability.
3. **Cultural Preservation:** Protecting and valuing traditional practices and beliefs.
4. **Environmental Conservation:** Ensuring a healthy and balanced natural environment.

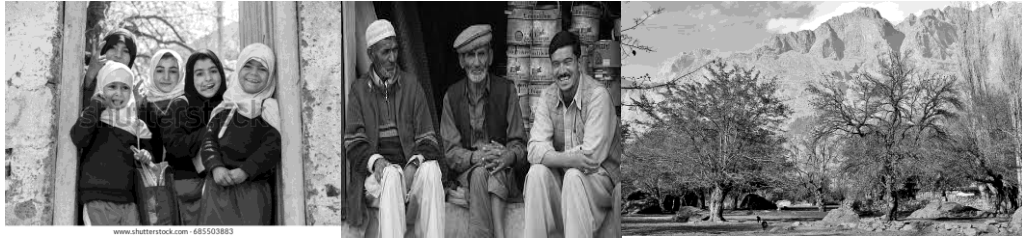
Nine Dimensions of GNH

To ensure comprehensive well-being, the GNH index includes the following dimensions:

1. **Psychological Well-Being:** Mental health and life satisfaction.
2. **Health:** Physical well-being and access to healthcare.
3. **Education:** Access to and quality of education.
4. **Time Use:** Work-life balance and leisure time.
5. **Cultural Diversity and Resilience:** Preserving cultural identity and practices.
6. **Good Governance:** Fair and effective governance systems.
7. **Community Vitality:** Strong social support and connectedness.
8. **Ecological Diversity and Resilience:** Environmental protection and biodiversity.
9. **Living Standards:** Economic stability and access to resources.

Skardu: A Case of Contentment

Skardu, located in the northern region of Pakistan, is often compared to Bhutan in terms of simplicity and contentment. Despite the lack of formal indices like Bhutan's GNH, the people of Skardu exhibit a strong sense of contentment, possibly due to their connection with nature, close-knit communities, and a slower pace of life compared to urban areas.



Comparison to Bhutan

- **Cultural Values:** Like Bhutan, Skardu places high importance on cultural preservation and communal well-being.
- **Connection with Nature:** The pristine environment of Skardu contributes to the well-being of its residents, similar to Bhutan's focus on environmental conservation.
- **Lack of Formal Well-Being Measures:** Unlike Bhutan, Pakistan has not implemented a happiness index or ensured structured well-being pillars in Skardu. However, the people there naturally seem more content than those in larger cities.

Conclusion

Both Bhutan and Skardu offer unique insights into the concept of happiness. While Bhutan's GNH is a formalized and holistic approach to measuring happiness, Skardu reflects contentment through its natural environment and cultural richness, even without formal measures. These cases highlight that happiness is not just about economic growth but also about well-being, culture, and environment.

Lesson 39

CULTURAL PERSPECTIVES ON DECISION MAKING**Module: 157-158****Module 157: Complex Decision Making****Introduction to Decision Making**

Everyday life requires us to make decisions, big and small. From choosing what to eat to deciding which career to pursue, decision-making is central to human experience. Cognitive psychology explains decision-making through models like the "expectation-times-value" principle, where we choose alternatives based on their value and likelihood of success. However, real-life decisions often go beyond simple models due to their complexity and unpredictability.

Characteristics of Complex Decision Making

Big decisions are defined by several key features that make them more difficult:

- **Complexity:** Numerous interrelated factors influence the decision, and no factor can be considered in isolation.
- **Multiple Goals:** Decision-makers often face conflicting or unclear goals.
- **Dynamics:** Decision contexts change over time, independent of the decision-maker's actions.
- **Opacity:** Important factors may be hidden or difficult to assess.

These characteristics increase uncertainty and make long-term effects difficult to predict.

Cultural Influence on Decision Making

Cultural norms heavily influence important decisions. While limiting individual freedom, these norms relieve some of the burden of making complex decisions by providing predefined paths (e.g., which career to pursue, whom to marry). Cultural values also shape decision-making styles across contexts.

Case Study Example

Imagine you're dissatisfied with your university's student representatives. Various factors, like other students, faculty, and administration, interrelate, making it difficult to change the situation. Your goals—whether to influence policies or run for a representative role—may not be clear. This mirrors complex national situations like political or economic turmoil, where citizens feel helpless, and solutions seem opaque.

Key Components of Complex Decision Making (CDD)

CDD involves several cognitive and behavioral processes:

- Clarifying goals and setting priorities
- Gathering information and understanding variables
- Monitoring trends and developing strategies
- Evaluating short-term and long-term effects
- Implementing plans and revising strategies as needed

Humans, however, are not always well-equipped to handle CDD due to cognitive limitations like methodism, lack of exploration, and central reduction, which lead to faulty decisions.

Cultural Context of CDD

- **Predictability of the Environment:** Cultures with stable environments develop routine solutions, while dynamic environments require ad-hoc, short-term strategies.
- **Exposure and Experience:** Individualist cultures promote decision-making independence, while collectivist cultures encourage following group norms. Despite this, modern Pakistani youth often make independent, informed decisions due to economic competition.
- **Power Distance and Social Hierarchy:** In high power distance cultures, decision-makers often avoid risk and focus on social implications, whereas low power distance cultures promote assertive decision-making.

Conclusion

Complex decision-making is a universal challenge, yet it is deeply influenced by cultural factors. Understanding these influences is crucial for developing effective decision-making strategies in different cultural contexts.

Module 158 - Decision Making in Individualistic and Collectivist Cultures

Overview

Cultural values greatly influence how individuals make decisions, with distinct differences between individualistic and collectivist cultures. This module examines how these cultural frameworks shape decision-making processes and behaviors, presenting both normative and descriptive models. It explores decision-making strategies across cultures using empirical research, offering insights into how individuals from different backgrounds navigate complex decisions.

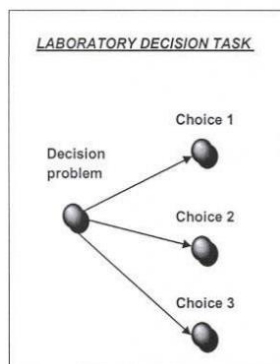


Figure 1: Abstract schema of a simple decision task

Figure 2: Abstract schema of a complex life decision problem.

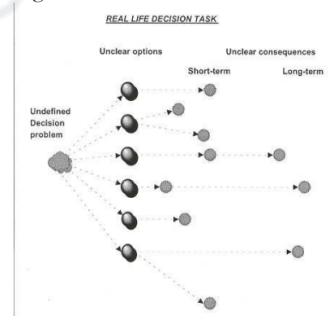


Figure 2: Abstract schema of a complex life decision problem

Normative vs. Descriptive Models of Decision Making

- **Normative Models**

These models suggest individuals make decisions to maximize expected utility. For example, a student deciding what to study would weigh the probability of success and personal values for each option.

Example Formula

Expected utility = (probability of success) x (utility of the outcome).

However, real-life decisions are more complex, with multiple success criteria and unpredictable long-term consequences, making it difficult to assign precise values to options.

- **Descriptive Models**

Descriptive models focus on how decisions are actually made, emphasizing that decision-making is often a process embedded in other cognitive activities. Individuals gather information, evaluate alternatives, and make choices over time, rather than following a strict, rational calculation.

Cultural Influences: Individualism vs. Collectivism

- **Individualism**

Found predominantly in Western cultures like the U.S. and Germany, individualism emphasizes personal independence and self-reliance. Decisions are often focused on personal goals and task efficiency, with less regard for social influences.

- **Collectivism**

In cultures such as India and Venezuela, collectivism emphasizes social roles and relationships. Decisions are made with a focus on group harmony and social obligations, often involving input from family and community members.

Cultural Influence on Decision-Making:

- Perception of the problem
- Generation of alternatives
- Selection of one alternative

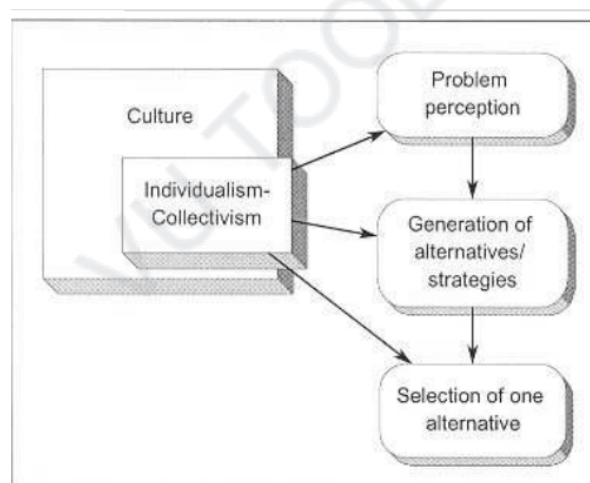


Figure 3: Cultural influences on decision making

Empirical Research on Decision Making

1. **Conflict Management (Ohbuchi, Fukushima, & Tedeschi, 1999)**

- Compared decision-making in American (individualistic) and Japanese (collectivist) students.
- Found that collectivist cultures use more indirect strategies (e.g., third-party intervention), while individualists are more assertive and direct.

2. **MBA Student Study (Strohschneider & Halcour, 2000)**

- German (individualistic) and Indian (collectivist) students ran a simulated business.

- Germans took an expansive, risk-taking approach, while Indians adopted a cautious, incremental strategy, reflecting the different market stability in each culture.

Decision-Making Strategies

1. Individualistic Cultures

- Focus on task efficiency and quick solutions.
- Emphasis on personal responsibility and independence.
- Example: Choosing a course of study based on personal interests and career prospects.

2. Collectivist Cultures:

- Emphasize social consequences and group harmony.
- Decisions are influenced by family and societal expectations.
- Example: Involving family members in educational or career choices.

Conclusion

Decision-making processes vary significantly across cultures. Individualistic cultures tend to focus on independence and personal goals, while collectivist cultures prioritize social harmony and group approval. Understanding these cultural frameworks helps to better predict and explain decision-making behaviors across different cultural contexts. Further research can continue to explore these dynamics to enhance cross-cultural understanding in decision-making.

Lesson 40

MULTICULTURAL EDUCATION AND IMMIGRANT INTEGRATION

Modules: 159-161Module 159: Working with Immigrants

Psychologists working with various immigrant groups, particularly refugees—those unable to return to their home country due to persecution—face several challenges.

Acculturation

Acculturation is the process of adjusting to a new culture. It is based on assumption that individuals can appreciate and identify with multiple cultures independently.

Types of Acculturation

Four common types of acculturation include:

1. **Assimilation:** Acceptance of the new culture's customs, rejecting the old culture.
2. **Separation:** Preference for maintaining the original culture's values and customs.
3. **Integration:** Acceptance of key features of both cultures.
4. **Marginalization:** Rejection of both cultures.

Critics suggest expanding this classification to include a focus on subcultures and cultural interactions.

Acculturative Stress

Acculturative stress is a psychological reaction to unfamiliar cultural environments, often experienced as “culture shock.” This term encompasses complex, often unpleasant psychological experiences.

- **Historical Context**

Research by Oberg (1960) confirmed that newcomers to a culture may quickly develop negative psychological symptoms. Studies showed increased psychiatric hospitalization rates among immigrants compared to nonimmigrants (Fried, 1964). While the link between culture shock and these rates was unclear, it became evident that social and cultural changes can cause psychological distress (Berry & Annis, 1974).

- **Emotional Disorders**

Many emotional disorders, such as depression and anxiety, experienced by newcomers are directly related to culture shock.

Communication Barriers

Research shows that African exchange students in the U.S. often struggle to communicate their problems, impacting their adjustment (Constantine et al., 2004, 2005). Many immigrants also fear speaking out against harmful practices due to concerns about family honor or deportation.

Psychopathology in Immigrants

Skepticism exists regarding the assumption that all immigrants experience psychopathology.

- **Learning Experience**

Furnham and Bochner (1986) described culture shock as a learning experience, while Harry Triandis (1994) characterized it as a loss of control in cross-cultural interactions.

This loss is often maladaptive but not always associated with significant psychological issues.

- **Recent Perspectives**

Recent theories view culture shock as part of the adjustment process, linked to personal development and growth (Pedersen, 1995).

Risk Factors for Emotional Issues

Research on Asian American youths identified family conflicts and lack of acculturation as significant risk factors for stress and emotional problems, including suicide (Lau et al., 2002). Current research focuses on stress factors, successful adaptation, and psychological skills developed to cope with stress (Mok et al., 2007; Shupe, 2007).

Psychodynamic Psychotherapy

Psychodynamic psychotherapy with immigrants and refugees necessitates an understanding of sociocultural factors that shape psychological processes. This includes:

- Migration and acculturation
- Social location and identity (bicultural and bilingual)
- Traumatic stress and cultural identity development

Therapeutic Considerations

Therapy should address themes of mourning, separation, loss, and trauma from a culturally informed perspective.

Intercultural Therapy

Research explores the strengths and limitations of **Intercultural Therapy** for Eastern European migrants, emphasizing the unique challenges faced by this population (Tatsiana Steven, 2021).

Module 160: Conceptualizing Cross-Cultural Education

Cross-cultural education has gained significant importance in today's interconnected world. It facilitates understanding between diverse cultures, promotes global citizenship, and enhances students' knowledge and appreciation of cultural differences. This handout explores key concepts related to cross-cultural education, tracing its historical roots and contemporary significance.

Historical Context of Educational Travel

- **Origins in the Roman Republic:** The practice of educational travel dates back to ancient times, reflecting its ties to social life and development.
- **Impact on Society:** Educational travel has influenced social and economic growth by fostering the acquisition of knowledge and enhancing migration processes.

Conceptual Framework

1. Defining Education and Migration:

- **Education:** Involves social organization, cultural values, specialized personnel, institutions, and personal motivation.
- **Migration:** Requires motivation, organization, resources, and individuals to facilitate the movement.

2. Types of Learning (Bennett's Distinction):

- **Academic Learning:** Professional skills and specialized knowledge from formal instruction.
- **Informal Learning:** Values, attitudes, and behavior patterns acquired outside formal settings.

Transfer of Learning and Strategic Social Placement

- **Acceptance and Integration:** The ability to be accepted by others affects cultural adaptation, influencing whether one's experience becomes an asset or liability.
- **Communication Channels:** Ongoing communication is essential for fostering relationships and understanding across cultures.

The Transnational Eduscape

- **Changing Landscape:** The rapid evolution of international education necessitates a shift from viewing students as mere participants to recognizing them as agents of knowledge formation.
- **Mobility of Knowledge:** International study encourages the circulation of knowledge, contributing to a richer educational experience.

Cross-Cultural Learning

- **Understanding Cultures:** Cross-cultural education enhances awareness of one's own culture while fostering knowledge of others.
- **Sensitivity and Communication:** Students learn to recognize and articulate cultural differences with confidence and sensitivity.

Contemporary Relevance

- **Economic Impact on Higher Education:** Many universities in the UK, USA, and Canada rely heavily on international students for revenue, leading to increased competition for students from countries such as Japan, China, India, and those in the Middle East.
- **Integration into Curricula:** Educational institutions worldwide are increasingly incorporating cultural knowledge into syllabi to prepare students for a globalized world.

Case Study: Stanford Program on International and Cross-Cultural Education (SPICE)

- **Multidisciplinary Approach:** SPICE connects Stanford University with K–12 schools, developing resources that address global issues such as sustainability, health, politics, and cultural knowledge.
- **Teacher Development:** Offers professional development seminars and distance-learning courses to enhance cross-cultural education.

Challenges in Pakistan

There is a significant gap in cross-cultural education in Pakistan, where students often lack exposure to diverse regional cultures within the country. For instance, students from Baluchistan may not interact with those from Lahore, and vice versa.

Conclusion Cross-cultural education is vital for fostering understanding and cooperation among diverse cultures. As globalization continues to shape our world, it is essential to prioritize cross-cultural learning in educational systems, ensuring that students are equipped with the knowledge and skills to navigate and contribute to an increasingly interconnected society



Module 161: Study and Teaching in a Multicultural World

Cross-cultural education is vital in fostering understanding and cooperation among diverse cultures. This module explores the significance of studying and teaching in a multicultural context, emphasizing personal experiences and research that illustrate the impact on individuals and societies.

The Value of Cross-Cultural Education

As noted by Hu, a Chinese student at the University of Tokyo, studying abroad allows individuals to view their own cultures from different perspectives. This experience enriches lives, broadens consciousness and enhances connections to humanity. Understanding other cultures helps us appreciate our uniqueness and recognize our interconnectedness in a globalized world.

Transformational Experiences

Studying abroad leads to profound personal transformation. One anecdote reflects this change: “I am not the Beenish who left Pakistan 3 years ago.” Such experiences significantly shape individuals, expanding their knowledge and sense of wonder. Traveling and studying in diverse environments enhances understanding of global interconnectedness and the myriad contributions of different cultures.

Challenges of Studying Abroad

Despite the considerable benefits, studying in another country presents challenges. Students must navigate differences in educational systems, skill requirements, evaluation methods, and cultural adjustments. Experiences, such as those from the University of Warwick, illustrate the learning curve involved in adapting to a new academic and cultural environment.

• American Psychological Association's 6 general guidelines:

- Awareness of own attitudes, biases, and beliefs
- Recognize importance of cultural sensitivity, responsiveness, and knowledge
- Employ multiculturalism and diversity as constructs in psychological education
- Encouraged to conduct ethical and culture-centred research with clients from minority backgrounds
- Support organizational change and multicultural policy development
- Apply culturally appropriate skills in clinical practice

Working Abroad: Opportunities and Challenges

Working abroad offers opportunities for professional growth and cultural exchange. Many professionals, particularly Pakistanis, seek employment in developed countries for better prospects. Whether in healthcare, IT, or academia, these experiences enhance skills and professional profiles. However, adapting to new work ethics and institutional demands is essential for success.

Navigating Censorship

Professionals in fields like journalism and academia often encounter censorship challenges. Understanding the nuances of political, ideological, and moral censorship is critical. Journalists must navigate restrictive practices justified by local customs or laws while recognizing and criticizing these practices to respect cultural sensitivities.

Cultural Considerations and Democratic Change

Cultural dynamics can significantly influence political structures and democratic changes. Research, such as Schaffer's study in Senegal, illustrates that cultural factors often outweigh individual electoral choices. Understanding these contexts is vital for effective communication and collaboration in international settings.

The Importance of Educational Exchange

Educational exchanges facilitate intercultural communication, establishing lasting connections between individuals and institutions. These collaborations enhance the overall academic landscape, promoting cross-cultural understanding.

Individual and Institutional Benefits

Scholars who study abroad gain access to foreign literature and professional networks, fostering long-term collaboration. These exchanges lead to enduring patterns of cooperation between educational institutions and professional organizations, enriching both individual and collective knowledge.

Educational System Needs

To support effective cross-cultural education, certain needs must be addressed:

- **Language Facilitation:** Proficiency in the language of instruction is essential for comprehension and integration.
- **Counseling:** Support services are necessary to help students navigate cultural adjustments and academic challenges.
- **Adaptation Strategies:** Programs should include strategies for adapting to different cultural norms and educational practices.
- **Content and Teaching Levels:** Ensuring that the curriculum is appropriate for diverse learning backgrounds is crucial for effective teaching.

Conclusion

Studying and teaching in a multicultural world is both enriching and challenging. Understanding the complexities of cultural dynamics, adapting to new environments, and fostering intercultural communication are vital for personal and professional growth in today's interconnected global landscape.

Lesson 41

SOCIAL MOTIVES AND HELPING BEHAVIOR ACROSS DIVERSE CONTEXTS

Modules: 162-166

Module 162: Cross Cultural Psychology of Work

Cross cultural Organizational Psychology is comparing human behavior at workplace across cultures. There are similarities and differences are quite Interesting! George Bernard Shaw once said, “England and America are two countries divided by a common language.”

Every country has managers who manage, but when we define what that means, it is not unusual to see that although we speak the same language, what we mean by what we say is quite different. Organizational psychology provides a framework for understanding individual and organizational behavior. The discipline combines research from social psychology and organizational behavior, with an emphasis on leadership, teams, motivation, values, and attitudes. Cross-cultural psychology provides a framework for understanding differences and similarities in individual and social functioning across cultures. By looking at organizational psychology in a cross-cultural context, we can better prepare individuals and organizations for the current challenges faced by the organizations today.

A study of organizational citizenship behavior (OCB) in China, Farh et. al. (1997) found that while some dimensions of OCBs in China were similar to those found in the United States (e.g., civic virtue, altruism, conscientiousness), other dimensions found in the United States were not relevant in China (e.g., sportsmanship and courtesy) and at least one dimension found in China was not yet identified in the United States (interpersonal harmony, protecting company resources). When the Americans tried to apply their American business practices in a British work environment, it was a disaster.

A comparison of employees who worked for the same company in the United States, Mexico, Poland, and India explored the fit of empowerment and continuous-improvement practices with national culture (Robert et al.,2000). Empowerment was negatively associated with satisfaction for the supervisors in India and positively associated with satisfaction for the supervisors in the United States, Mexico, and Poland. Further, satisfaction with co-workers was positively related with empowerment in Poland, negatively related in India, and showed no effect in the United States and Mexico.

Continuous improvement was positively associated with both types of satisfaction in all four countries. These findings suggest that if a strong organizational culture exists, then managers should rely on this culture. If the national culture is different from the organizational culture, then managers would be better off incorporating aspects of the organizational culture, rather than the national culture, into their actions when deciding how to manage employees

Reference:

[https://www.academia.edu/4588340/Organizational Psychology in Cross Cultural Perspective](https://www.academia.edu/4588340/Organizational_Psychology_in_Cross_Cultural_Perspective)

Module 163: Cross Cultural Psychology of Work-II**Areas of study and some questions:**

There are few areas of study in organizational psychology keeping in view the aspect of cross-cultural are as follows:

1. National character and organizational culture
2. Leadership styles and culture
3. Consumer behavior
4. Management styles and practices

It is not only working in another country that cross-cultural differences emerge. There are regional cultures that are poles apart in homes, in community and society and in organizations. I interviewed a female academic in management sciences who had worked in a conservative region of Pakistan.

Narrative of a researcher living in a regional culture

- How one changes; she reported that she changed in her attitudes, acceptance of male dominance at office, becoming more docile and less assertive and learned how things worked in that region.
- Glass ceiling effect for females more
- Get Used to work culture
- Regional culture becomes part of personality
- Rare female faculty in co-education universities
- Male female ratio of students
- Educational environment / work environment was restricted compared to universities in Lahore and Karachi.
- Interaction with opposite sex students had to be reserved and cautious as it raised eyebrows and caused gossip and misunderstandings.
- Office rooms for females/ common room were not same as for male colleagues
- Colleagues' interaction was limited

There are multiple considerations reported by those who work in a culture different from their own whether regional or international, such as:

- Organizational culture
- Professional behavior
- Conflict resolution
- Regulatory and standard practices
- Requesting a female; in a male dominant culture

Cross-Cultural Organizational Psychology
Zeynep Aykan and Michele J. Gelfand
The Oxford Handbook of Organizational Psychology, Volume 2 Edited by Steve W. J. Kozlowski
Print Publication Date: Jul 2012
Subject: Psychology, Organizational Psychology, Social Psychology
Online Publication Date: Sep 2012 DOI: 10.1093/oxfordhb/9780199928286.013.0033

Module 164: Social Motives in Cultural Context

Various motives, such as aggressiveness, helping behavior, and achievement motivation, have been extensively studied and are recognized as significant across different cultures. With the exception of a few motives like hunger and thirst, nearly all motives are socially relevant or somehow directed toward social outcomes. Examples include affiliation, aggression, altruism, achievement, approval, power and numerous others. Some of these motives, like aggression, are considered natural and have been present in all societies throughout history. However, the forms of aggression may evolve over time, with modern manifestations including cyber violence or bullying. Interestingly, while aggression is more dominant in certain cultures, it appears to be less prominent or even absent in others. The main difference between these is to be seen in their biological aspects. Cultures differ greatly with respect to aggressiveness and achievement.

Cultural Aspect of Aggression

In one study, taking as indicators such phenomena as the frequency of war-like conflicts, violent crimes, head-hunting or even malevolent sorcery, one can readily differentiate between "aggressive" and "nonaggressive" cultures. For example, the Kwoma, Apache, Comanche, Raripi, Eipo and Janamali belong to the more aggressive group of cultures, whereas the Hopi, Ko-Bushman, Semai and Hutterites are described as low or non-aggressive (Kornadt, Eckensberger, & Emminghaus, 1980). Of course, here cultures are described globally as one entity, leaving aside intra-cultural differences between individuals.

The question is: what causes these differences in aggressiveness? Sigmund Freud postulated sexuality (Eros) in its broader meaning as the general driving force to live and later also

postulated a "death-drive" (Thanatos) as its antagonistic force and source of aggression. Those drives are viewed as biologically rooted motivational forces. William McDougall who assumed a number of "instincts" and among these an "aggression instinct". Perhaps the most famous perspective was the aggression theory of Konrad Lorenz (1966). He postulated a kind of aggression energy which becomes permanently produced and accumulated if not released by some aggressive act. Furthermore, it is also known that aggressiveness like other biological conditions as, e. g., weight or height, is based on genetically-caused individual differences.

Another factor relevant for aggressiveness are the diverse culturally-sanctioned social rules, a culture's values and its dominant religious beliefs. For example, in Japan values of non-aggressiveness, politeness and considerateness characterize all social interaction. These values go back to a long Confucian-Buddhist tradition. Compared to Western cultures with similar industrialization and modernization, only very low violence and interpersonal aggression is reported for Japan (Kornadt, 2002; Kornadt & Tachibana, 1999).

Here, aggression and its developmental conditions in two European (Switzerland, Germany) and three East Asian (Japan, and Bali, Batak from Indonesian cultures) were studied. The sample consisted of adolescents, mothers, and their children. Especially the Japanese adolescents and children showed a significantly lower aggression as compared to the European samples. This is in accordance with the respective cultural values and social rules in these countries.

Cultural Aspect of Achievement Motivation

Achievement motivation, or the drive for mastery, is nearly universal and found across all cultures. It stems from the desire to excel in a particular task or skill and to gain recognition for one's expertise. However, how this motivation develops varies greatly depending on individual circumstances, environmental influences, and the level of appreciation or recognition received. Since the foundational work of McClelland, Atkinson, Clark, and Lowell (1953), it has been understood that early independence training plays a crucial role in achievement motivation. Once a child begins to think independently, they are more likely to develop a sense of accomplishment following their achievements. This early development of autonomy fosters a mindset that encourages striving for success and mastery in various tasks. However, early independence training is different across cultures.

Module 165: Helping Behaviour in Diverse Cultures and Subcultures

Introduction

There is an incident described in the book "cross-cultural psychology" below:

Two images: First, as a six-year-old boy growing up in New York City, I am walking with my father on a crowded midtown street. The rush of pedestrians suddenly backs up before me as people narrow into a single lane to avoid a large object on the sidewalk. To my astonishment, the object turns out to be a human being lying unconscious against a building. My father quickly points to a bottle in a paper bag next to him. Not one of the passing herds seems to actually notice the man--certainly, none make eye contact--as they robotically follow the

makeshift detour. My father, who I look up to as a model loving, caring man, explains that the poor soul on the sidewalk "just needs to sleep it off." When the prone man suddenly begins to ramble senselessly, my father warns not to go near. "You never know how he'll react."

I later came to see these two teachings-- "There's nothing you can do" and "Try not to get involved"--as my anthems of urban survival. Next, fast forward several years to a market in Rangoon, Burma (now Myanmar). I had spent the previous twelve months traveling in poor Asian cities, but even by those standards, this was a scene of misery. Besides the inconceivable poverty, it is sweltering hot, ridiculously crowded and the wind is blowing dust everywhere. Suddenly, a man carrying a huge bag of peanuts calls out in pain and falls to the ground. I then witness an astonishing piece of choreography. Appearing to have rehearsed the scene many times, a half dozen sellers run from their stalls to help, leaving unattended what may be the totality of their possessions. One puts a blanket under the man's head, another opens his shirt, a third questions him carefully about the pain, a fourth gets water, a fifth keeps onlookers from crowding too close, a sixth runs for a doctor. Within minutes, the doctor arrives, and two other locals join in to assist. The performance could have been passed for a final exam at paramedic school.

Rousseau once wrote, "Cities are the sink of the human race." But as these experiences in New York and Rangoon made clear, **no two cities are the same**. Places, like individuals, have their own personalities. In what cities is a needy stranger more likely to receive help? What sort of community teaches a citizen to withhold altruism toward strangers?

As grown-up social psychologists, my colleagues and I have spent much of the past decade trying to test these questions systematically. Our studies have produced significant data. What we have learned more than anything, however, is how difficult it can be to measure cross-cultural differences in real-life social behaviors meaningfully. Moving from the anecdotal observations of a traveler to the scientific generalizations of a social researcher may be a bigger leap than one imagines.

There are many difficulties for cross-cultural researchers; This is what is meant by cross-cultural field research being a noisy discipline. However, there is a silver lining to this noise. You may find that what does not work in your research can be as informative as what it does.

Problem One: Measuring Helping

Our first problem was to develop field measures that would reflect helpfulness toward strangers in different locales. Our challenge was not only to identify behaviors that would be valid indicators of helpfulness but to identify a sample of behaviors that would be sufficiently representative of such a broad concept as helpfulness. This problem is not, of course, limited to cross-cultural research. Psychologists usually pay considerable care to achieving representative subject samples. We are often not as attentive; however, to creating multiple measures that span the full meaning of the variables we study. This is certainly the case in studies of helping behavior. With few exceptions, we found, helping field studies have used convenience samples of one or two helping behaviors. One study, for example, might measure helping by the number of people who are willing to fill out a questionnaire while another might measure helping by how many of them assist a person who collapses on the street. The term

"helping" covers a lot of ground. Without carefully considering the sampling of measures, it is difficult to generalize to a wider range of helping behaviors. This problem of generalization is further complicated by a lack of attention to systematic taxonomies of helping behaviors. Without such a classification scheme, it is difficult to gauge where on the spectrum any arbitrarily selected helping behavior resides and, consequently, to determine which other helping behaviors to which it might be related. To our good fortune, Pearce and Amato (1980) have developed an empirically derived three-dimensional model of helping that lends itself to operational definition. Their model poses a threefold structure of helping: (1) doing what one can, (direct help) vs. giving what one has (indirect help); (2) spontaneous (informal) help vs. planned (formal) help; and (3) serious vs. non-serious help.

These three dimensions correspond, in order, to: (1) the type of help offered; (2) the social setting in which help is offered; and (3) the degree of need of the recipient. We developed five field experiments that attempted to fill Pearce and Amato's three-dimensional space. [See Levine, Martinez, Brase, & Sorenson (1994) for a description of how these five measures fit into Pearce and Amato's taxonomy.] Each of these studies was carried out in main downtown areas, during primary business hours, on clear summer days. Multiple trials of each measure were conducted in each city, targeting a relatively equal number of male and female pedestrians. **Retrieving a dropped pen:** The experimenter (a neatly dressed college age male), walking at a moderate pace, would reach into his pocket and "accidentally," without appearing to notice, drop his pen behind him, and continue walking. In each city, we observed the number of occasions a passing pedestrian helped the experimenter retrieve the pen.

Hurt leg. Walking with a heavy limp and wearing a large and clearly visible leg brace (the ugliest ones we could find), the experimenter "accidentally" dropped, and then unsuccessfully struggling to reach down for, a pile of magazines. What proportion of approaching pedestrians offered assistance?

Blind person crossing the street: An experimenter wearing dark glasses and carrying a white cane acted in the role of a blind person needing help getting across the street. 1. We measured the percentage of instances in which help was offered. Change for a Quarter: With a quarter in full view, the experimenter approached a pedestrian passing in the opposite direction and asked politely for change for a quarter. We observed how many pedestrians in each city stopped to check for change.

Lost Letter: A neat hand-written note, "I found this next to your car," was placed on a stamped envelope addressed to the experimenter's home. The envelope was then left on the windshield of a randomly selected car parked a meter in a main shopping area. How many of these letters arrived at the address? Our first studies were done in the early 1990's, when we and our students visited 36 cities of various sizes spread across every region of the United States.

Findings: The results did nothing to dispel my childhood impressions of New York. Combining the results of the five experiments, New York City came out dead last. Thirty-sixth out of thirty-six. (A sixth measure of helping, per capita contributions to United Way for each city, was also counted in these earlier studies.) Overall, we found that small and medium-sized cities in the southeast were the most helpful and large northeastern and West Coast cities were

the least helpful. (For complete results, see Levine, et al., 1994 and Levine, 1997). Far and away the best predictor of helping was population density. Density was more closely tied to the helpfulness of a city than even characteristics like crime rates, the pace of life, economic conditions or environmental stressors like noise and air pollution. Overall, people in more crowded cities were much less likely to take the time to help. New York City was Exhibit A. Crowding brings out our worst nature. Urban critics have demonstrated that squeezing too many people into small a space leads to alienation, anonymity, de-individuation and social isolation. Ultimately, people feel less responsible for their behaviors toward others- especially strangers. Previous studies have shown that city dwellers are more likely to do each other harm. Our U.S. results indicate that they are also less likely to do them good, and that this apathy increases with the degree of city-ness.

Module 166: Empathy Neuroscience

The term "empathy" first appeared in the neuroscience literature in 1967, where it was defined as "the capacity to identify one's own feelings and needs with those of another person." It was seen as the foundation for caring and the desire to help others, making it a concept of critical importance for addressing modern challenges such as interpersonal callousness and aggression. A letter received by Dr. Naumana from a British Academy Conference regarding the topic: 'The Neuroscience of Empathy: Practical Implications for Conflict Resolution.' The content of letter is given below:

A letter arrived!

January 23rd, 2016

Dear Naumana,

Re: The British Academy London Conference, March 7th-8th 2016: "Empathy neuroscience: translational relevance for conflict resolution"

On behalf of the British Academy and my fellow co-convers, I am delighted to extend an invitation to you to attend the above conference that was selected by the British Academy as one of their 2016 Conferences. More details about the programme listing the internationally eminent speakers we have invited can be found at http://www.britac.ac.uk/events/2016/Empathy_neuroscience.cfm

We hope that you can attend this unique two-day meeting as we feel that your participation will add great richness and substance to the presentations and following discussions

The goals of the conference are:

- To discuss latest research into the social and biological neuroscience of empathy
- To consider empathy as a natural resource for conflict resolution
- To relate the above two goals to the long-standing conflict between Israel and Palestine
- To highlight examples of how empathy approaches are being translated, as methods for building peace between these two communities and
- To showcase how scientists, clinicians, and practitioners in these two communities are working together, listening to and respecting each other's perspectives.

With best wishes

Professor Simon Baron Cohen, Chair of the Empathy Neuroscience Conference, on behalf of the co-convenors: Haifa Staiti, Gather Fellow, Seeds of Peace Ahmad Abu-Akel, Birmingham University Professor Ruth Feldman, Bar Ilan University, Israel, Professor Simone Shamay-Tsoori, Haifa University.

Today looking back, I realize that citizens and academic community on both side of border, in Palestine and Israel made an excellent initiative; they fulfilled their duty for peace between two countries. If only governments would listen to the citizens!

What did I learn at this conference? Oxytocin is the hormone that is at base of interpersonal empathy. Lab experiments showing we feel the pain of a person of our own colour more intensely (at brain activation level) but not of another race or colour!

VU TOOLKIT

Lesson 42

**COPING WITH THE PANDEMIC: CULTURAL ADAPTATION AND
THE ROLE OF POPULAR CULTURE****Modules: 167-173****Module 167: Mental Health during Pandemic**

COVID-19 was one phenomenon that transcended cultures and boundaries of countries. Every country was impacted, however the way its impact was experienced and reflected in healthcare, work life, family life, policies, citizen behaviour and coping with disease shows many interesting cross-cultural strengths and trends. International and local studies have made observations for differences within culture and identified risk and buffer factors in spread as well as coping with the pandemic. A study by Dr. Tayyab Rashid (2020) across Canada in schools, colleges and universities observed the impact of COVID on mental health, risk factors, psychological factors of young population.

Many points for deliberation emerged such as:

- Role of optimism in recovering as individual.
- Pro-active approach of society and citizens was helpful in some cultures like Pakistan, New Zealand and Thailand whereas some countries were far behind in dealing with the challenges to health care and economy.
- Less conformity to medical model was helpful.
- More innovation would bring new solutions, so conservatism was out.
- Community cohesion was observed and seen as very helpful.
- Survival instinct of less advantaged!!!

Was COVID a disease of the affluent and educated?

This was a puzzlement in Lahore, Pakistan as there were large working class, congested and densely populated areas where hardly any cases were reported whereas in affluent and high-end posh areas there was high alert and cases were being reported in each street. We have never been able to figure it out. Similar low cases average was observed in rural and mountain areas. One assumption is that people did not go for covid-test and hence cases never reached the hospital. But does that mean they recovered as one recovers from common flu? I support this conjecture as there is no other explanation that makes sense. Resilience and good immune system were a factor across cultures though some say it hit the white Caucasian the hardest but then there were high figures from India too. Bravo to the survival and hardiness of the disadvantaged segments of Pakistani population and three cheers for the government and leadership in place during COVID 19 in Pakistan.

Challenges of Pandemic brought new learnings. It taught us about the strengths that sustained us and how to apply this new learning in future challenges.

Module 168: Coping with Pandemic Global Evidence across Cultures

The COVID-19 pandemic has had a significant impact on the mental health of individuals worldwide, including those in Pakistan. Studies have reported high levels of stress, anxiety, depression, uncertainty, isolation, fear of death, and psychological distress among the Pakistani population due to the pandemic and related restrictions. However, few positive changes will also be experienced and observed in our society such as empathy, prosocial behavior etc. The death toll has risen during this period, intensifying feelings of trauma, grief, and resentment. Uncertainty has become a significant source of unease in society, leaving people unsure of how to cope and support one another.

The crucial question is how to cope with the pandemic in Pakistan. First, we must recognize the "strengths that sustain us." Additionally, various cultural and societal factors play a significant role, including the contributions of the community, the government, mental health professionals, hospitals, local and international NGOs, the economic system, the healthcare department, and the performance of doctors. Remarkably, Pakistan has scored as one of the best countries in managing the pandemic response.

We have gained valuable insights from the challenges posed by COVID-19, which will aid us in coping with current and future pandemics. In this context, the International Association of Positive Psychology identifies four strengths that can enhance our resilience:

1. Give and receive from others
2. Think, imagine and create
3. Achieve your goals.

These strengths can empower individuals and communities to navigate adversity more

Give and receive



effectively.

Responsible citizenship



Module 169: Universal Interaction**What you do not want done to yourself, do not do to others.**

How do two cultures interact or connect with each other? In this context, we discussed the concept of universal interaction. Globally, the interaction between one country or culture and another occurs on various levels. A direct level of interaction is conducting **business** through trade, import-export, or collaborations, whether online or physical. In business dealings, several elements come into play: agreements that are clear and understandable to both stakeholders, universally accepted financial terms, and mutual consensus on quality and quantity standards. People who have conducted business with different countries often share their experiences, such as working with Japanese, Indian, or British counterparts.

Another form of universal interaction is **traveling**. When you travel across the globe, it not only influences you but also impacts your culture by exposing you to new ideas, traditions, and practices. **Education** is another direct level of interaction. During your time as a student in another country, you not only acquire knowledge but also learn about the etiquette, traditions, cuisine, lifestyle, and behavior of students from that culture. **Cross-cultural marriages** are another significant form of universal interaction. Such unions allow individuals to deeply engage with and learn from another culture, enriching their understanding and perspective.

On the other hand, **indirect interaction** occurs through media such as movies, television, social media, and books. For instance, we have read books from other cultures, and our literature, such as Iqbal's poetry, has been studied globally. Similarly, we have learned from Chinese stories, which often impart valuable lessons about societal values such as care, sharing and helping behavior. These forms of interaction foster a deeper appreciation and exchange of cultural knowledge. Social media platforms, consumer products, food items, and machinery are all examples of indirect universal interactions. Through social media, cultures interact and influence each other by sharing traditions, lifestyles, and ideas globally without physical contact. These interactions shape perceptions and foster cultural understanding on a broader scale.

What does this interaction teach about another culture?

Direct interaction teaches us a great deal, including behavior, lifestyle, popular culture, art, social values, etiquette, and qualities like character, trust and honesty. However, indirect interaction also offers learning opportunities, though they can be more limited and selective. For instance, if indirect interaction is restricted to specific mediums like Korean dramas or Japanese cartoons, it may lead to forming narrow stereotypes, such as perceiving all Koreans as warriors or all Japanese as meticulous. Some stereotypes diminish over time as direct interaction provides a broader and more accurate understanding of a culture. Conversely, certain stereotypes may become reinforced or even evolve into new ones through further interaction. Both direct and indirect interactions, therefore, play significant roles in shaping cultural perceptions, though direct engagement often provides a more nuanced and balanced perspective.

How has it been studied?

The important question is: **How do we study this interaction?** The answer lies in observing it when individuals move to another country to live, study, or work as immigrant workers. This is when cultural interaction is most prominently studied. However, studying cultural adjustment, adaptation, or learning through travellers is relatively rare. Another critical question is whether universal interaction affects indigenous culture. The answer is **yes**, particularly at the level of **material culture**, such as technology, fashion, or consumer goods, and sometimes at the **family level**, influencing values, traditions, or lifestyles to a certain extent.

When cultures interact through mediums such as business, travel, marriages, education, movies, books, products, or social media platforms, several questions arise. For instance:

- Are new stereotypes being formed, or are existing ones being reinforced?
- Does this interaction provide correct and comprehensive knowledge about the other culture, or is it limited and selective?
- What do we learn about their values, character, and ways of communication?
- How do they deal with happiness and sorrow, life and death?
- What insights do we gain about their food, rituals, marriages, and overall way of life?

These interactions provide opportunities to uncover deeper truths about a culture's practices and beliefs, but they can also perpetuate misconceptions if engagement remains superficial or biased.

Another concern is whether such interactions influence indigenous culture. The answer is yes. For example, when foreigners visit our country, many of us initially notice their physical appearance, such as their skin color, often associating it with being "white." We admire their work ethic, punctuality, and honesty, and these traits can inspire changes in our indigenous culture. Similarly, people from other countries living in Pakistan also learn from us. They may adopt aspects of our traditions, hospitality, or ways of life, which, in turn, influence their own culture. This mutual exchange highlights how cultural interactions can lead to adaptation and enrichment on both sides. We learn numerous valuable aspects from other cultures, such as work ethics, civic behavior, efficiency, tolerance, and social interactions. These interactions also allow us to compare values, gaining insight into how different societies approach life, relationships, and responsibilities. Such cultural exchanges not only broaden our perspective but also help us reflect on and improve our own practices.

Module 170: Cultural Adaptation

Adaptation is understood as any alteration in the structure or functioning of an organism (or group of organisms) that improves its ability to survive and reproduce in its environment. Two types of adaptations are biological adaptation and cultural adaptation. Biological adaptation is essential for survival. We arrive in a cold region and our body adapts by acclimatizing.

Metabolism works harder and accommodates the changes in body temperature, air quality, weather, sunlight, noise level, moisture or dryness. Sometime biological adaptation takes time, and we experience some disorientation and fatigue.

Cultural adaptation includes a change in our knowledge and information system, in our reaction time to stimuli, in understanding of messages, directions, customs and practices. It also includes learning ways of communicating, verbal and non-verbal, social habits and socialization practices, rules and norms. Thus, cultural adaptation is a more complex process. Interacting with other cultures or taking up living in new cultures is not a modern phenomenon; it started with Adam and Eve who not only had to adapt biologically to the conditions of the earth, learn to survive and reproduce here but also build a family and society, deal with the first murder in human history and live with the organic nature of the pure unpolluted earth. They basically started from scratch!

Human beings are pre-wired for adaptation; children adapt to being born into the world, then moving out of home, then moving into a new family and finally to the old people home or to the next world! There are individual differences in our ability for cultural adaptation. Some people find it harder. This is called cultural adaptability potential.

In the field of psychology, we adapt measures and scales that assess abilities and personality traits or attitudes. We adapt to therapeutic techniques and mental health services. Some examples are:

- Adapting a program or service to needs of consumer from a different culture; mental health services
- Products for various cultures; Chinese food, Indian food, Italian food
- Evidence-based practice and parents' programs for behavior problem children
- Research findings support the treatment benefits of culturally adapted interventions for children and their families, if disseminated and implemented appropriately

Reference:

http://cfs.cbcs.usf.edu/projects-research/docs/CLC_ResearchBrief1.pdf

Module 171: Cultural Adaptability Potential

In cross-cultural psychology, we've discussed cultural adaptation, where one culture adopts elements of another, leading to mutual influence. Now, let's explore the concept of cultural adaptability potential and its applications. Individuals vary in their ability to adjust to new cultures and changing environments. A key psychological trait in this regard is 'flexibility', characterized by openness to experience, prior exposure to different cultures, and a family environment that values openness. People with high adaptability potential often exhibit these qualities, which aid in adjusting not only to different cultures but also to diverse sub-cultures.

In an interview, Dr. Najma Najam was asked about the importance of cultural adaptation and how it can be cultivated. She emphasized that adapting to new cultures is crucial, yet one should hold on to their own cultural identity. Recalling her visit to America, she shared how she often wore "shalwar kameez" and sometimes 'churiyan' (traditional bangles) to express her cultural

heritage. She also highlighted that she presented herself as a strong woman, symbolizing the resilience of Pakistani women, and maintained her cultural values in symbolic ways. Through this approach, she aimed to convey that adapting to another culture doesn't mean losing one's own; rather, it's possible to integrate both, showing respect for the new culture while celebrating one's roots.

This adaptability is influenced by personal traits, learning ability, IQ, and resilience. The potential for cultural adaptation is especially beneficial for students, newly married couples, travellers, business professionals, social workers, foreign delegates, and diplomatic staff.

Module 172: Popular Culture Described Module

What is popular culture? what do we see when we look at other cultures? This is explained by Dr. Najma Najm in her interview which is recorded for students of this course. She explains that popular culture are the forms that are visible and open for all to see. These are visible in street art (for example truck art), in dresses and design of buildings, in songs, books, cinemas and movies, in stories and folklore, in conversations, rituals and festivals and in public gatherings and events. There is both continuation and variations over time and generations in popular culture of a society.

What is preserved in a popular culture? What aspects continue and which one's change?

Examples: customs such as giving gifts, visiting relatives on festivals

Practices such as saving for children, giving charity when asking favours from God, visiting the sick, condolences.

Food: most popular foods continue in a culture though new ones are added sometimes borrowed from other cultures

Art: all art forms are preserved in popular culture. Creative arts undergo transforming periods but cultural expression is preserved.

Stories, literature and folklore continue in written and oral forms.

Module 173: Popular Culture Preserved

In cross-cultural psychology, we've been exploring the concept of popular culture. Now, let's delve into how popular culture is preserved over time. This raises an important question: which aspects of a culture endure, and which evolve or fade away over time? Traditions surrounding marriage offer a clear example of this dynamic. Some rituals, or 'rasomat', have been newly introduced, while others have disappeared. For instance, the trend of holding combined 'mehndi' ceremonies has become popular in recent years. Traditionally, the bride would remain on the female side and the groom on the male side. However, with the rise of event halls and stage setups, it's now common to see the bride entering the venue accompanied by her father or brothers. When people from other cultures witness this, they often perceive it as a distinctive and popular feature of our culture.

Similarly, the tradition of bedtime storytelling by grandparents or parents was once a common practice within the household. Over time, however, this tradition has shifted beyond the confines of the home. While storytelling remains a cherished activity, its format and setting have evolved. Today, storytelling sessions are frequently organized as public events, often held in cultural spaces across cities like Lahore. These changes reflect how cultural practices can adapt to new contexts while preserving their essence. Similarly, religious practices have also undergone notable changes, particularly in the aftermath of the pandemic. One example is the way meat distribution on 'Eid-ul-Adha' has evolved. Traditionally, meat was handed out directly, but now, the use of pre-packaged shoppers or packets has become widespread, streamlining the process and ensuring hygiene. Funeral rituals have also seen significant shifts. It has become increasingly common to place flowers on graves, a practice that was less prevalent in the past. Additionally, the attendance of women at funerals, which was once rare in some communities, has now become more accepted and widespread. These changes reflect how religious and cultural practices adapt to societal shifts, balancing tradition with modern needs and sensibilities.

In another interview, Dr. Najma Najam was asked what people tend to notice first when encountering a new culture, whether it's popular culture or other aspects. She explained this through a concept in social psychology known as 'the marginal man'. When you encounter a different culture, you experience it as an outsider, observing from the periphery or the margins of that culture. From this position, certain differences stand out immediately, such as food, language, dress, and music. These are often the most visible and tangible elements of a culture, offering a glimpse into its unique identity. Being a "marginal man" provides a perspective where you can appreciate these cultural differences while still holding on to your own cultural framework. This initial stage of cultural encounter is crucial for understanding and navigating cultural diversity. A single culture often encompasses a wide array of subcultures, each contributing to its complexity and richness. To truly grasp the deeper layers of a culture, it is essential to explore these subcultures. Popular aspects of a country's culture can be observed through its films, music, cuisine, and symbols.

In response to a question posed by Dr. Najma Najam regarding whether popular culture changes over time due to shifts in media, dress codes, and language, she stated that popular culture cannot remain static; it must evolve. For instance, the impact of the 1947 Partition is vividly reflected in our films. Similarly, political changes in our country have also influenced the themes and narratives in our movies and dramas. This demonstrates how popular culture continuously transforms aspects of media, language, and societal expression. The fusion of modern music with Sufism is yet another example of the dynamic nature of popular culture. This blend not only revives traditional spiritual themes but also makes them accessible to a broader, contemporary audience. Through this synergy, Sufi poetry and mysticism find new life in genres like rock, pop, and electronic music. This transformation highlights how popular culture adapts and evolves, bridging the gap between the old and the new while resonating with the values and emotions of different generations.

Lesson 43

SUSTAINABILITY SCIENCE AND CLIMATE ACTION FOR ENVIRONMENTAL RESILIENCE**Modules: 174-176****Module 174: Sustainability, Development and Environment**

What binds us together is our earth and our common origin. All cultures are manifestations of human diversity just as flowers, birds and variety of stones are manifestation of variety in nature. Human beings have lived on earth for ages and treated it as home. When the planet that is home is threatened, it is concern for all humanity worldwide. Sustainability and environmental awareness have emerged as prominent themes in cross-cultural psychology. In the past, this field primarily focused on topics such as child-rearing practices, language development, mental health, and research methodologies. It also explored how individuals grow and adapt within their specific cultural contexts. However, sustainability and environmental concerns transcend individual cultures. These issues have become global imperatives, with every culture and religion acknowledging that the world, as we know it, is finite and will eventually come to an end.

What remains crucial is our collective responsibility to protect the planet and sustain its environment. Unlike earlier psychological studies rooted in cultural boundaries, sustainability science addresses universal challenges. It is an applied science, akin to agricultural or health sciences, and is driven by practical concerns—in this case, the pursuit of sustainable development. The foundation of sustainability science was laid by the World Commission on Environment and Development, also known as the Brundtland Commission. Their pivotal report, issued decades ago, underscores the interdependence of environmental preservation and human development. They stated: “Environment” is where we all live, and “development” encompasses our efforts to improve our lives within that shared space. The two are inseparable. Humanity has the capacity to make development sustainable, ensuring it fulfills the needs of the present without jeopardizing the ability of future generations to meet theirs.

Key elements for sustaining our environment include water, trees, flora, fauna, ecology, education, health, and resources. These components are integral to the Sustainable Development Goals (SDGs), a global framework that has brought nations together in pursuit of a shared vision for a sustainable future. Every country recognizes the importance of these goals and incorporates them into their policies, reflecting a collective commitment to environmental and social well-being. An innovative example of this global shift is Bhutan's introduction of the “Happiness Index”. Unlike traditional models that measure a nation's progress through economic growth alone, Bhutan emphasizes the well-being and happiness of its citizens. This model highlights the significance of mental and emotional health, proposing that societal happiness is as important as material wealth.

Initially, the focus was on development goals aimed at improving living standards. However, over time, these goals evolved into “Sustainable Development Goals”, emphasizing a balance

between development and environmental preservation. The adoption of the SDGs marks a historic moment where the global community united to address interconnected challenges, ensuring a healthier, more equitable planet for current and future generations. Hence world community came together and agreed on sustainable development goals as presented below:



The Sustainable Development Goals (SDGs) comprise 17 objectives aimed at addressing critical global challenges. For instance, Goal 12 focuses on promoting responsible consumption and production patterns. This involves encouraging institutions and societies to carefully monitor the products they produce and consume, making choices that minimize waste and environmental harm. Simple changes, such as using paper bags instead of plastic and opting for public transportation, can significantly reduce our carbon footprint. Goals 1 and 2—eradicating poverty and ending hunger—are both pressing challenges and top priorities. Achieving these goals requires equitable wealth distribution, creating sustainable livelihoods, and supporting local businesses and agriculture. These efforts ensure that communities can thrive economically while maintaining their cultural and environmental integrity. To conserve energy, we must adopt practices like maximizing the use of natural light and minimizing electricity consumption. Similarly, water conservation is essential—every drop saved contributes to a sustainable future. Lastly, to combat global warming, it is crucial to phase out practices that harm the environment, such as the excessive use of fossil fuels, and shift toward renewable energy sources.

Combine all 16 Sustainable Development Goals and evaluate how partnerships can be built by educating people about these goals, fostering collaboration across relevant departments, and coordinating efforts globally. Among these goals, one is **Climate Action** (Goal 13), and another is **Sustainable Cities and Communities** (Goal 11), which focuses on cities with fewer trees, excessive buildings, widespread use of air conditioning, and growing populations. The

emphasis is on how technology is utilized in such contexts. Most collaborations revolve around addressing climate change, such as forest fires in Florida or recurring floods in Pakistan over recent years. Recently, a climate report was presented at a summit in Morocco, concluding that floods in countries like Pakistan are not solely due to their own actions but are a result of the impact industrialized nations have had on climate change. Essentially, developed countries are more responsible for climate change and its consequences than underdeveloped nations.

Module 175: Sustainability and Environment

The Earth holds immense significance as it connects cultures, humanity, and people across the globe. Many years ago, discussions around sustainable development goals—encompassing industrialization, economic growth, and other indicators—began to take shape. However, it soon became evident that such development often came at a cost, with the rich becoming richer and the poor falling further behind, deepening inequalities in education, depleting natural resources, and exacerbating issues like air and water pollution, deforestation, and overall environmental degradation. These outcomes made it clear that development could not be sustainable in the long term without a more balanced approach.

In response, global sustainable development goals were established, aiming for a more equitable future by incorporating insights from experts around the world. Despite this inclusive approach, the ideas and priorities of developed nations have largely dominated the formulation of these goals. As a result, achieving truly sustainable progress will require a greater balance of perspectives and contributions from all corners of the globe. Four questions arise in this scenario:

1. Is knowledge of developmental goals accessible to all cultures, and is it included in their professional training?
2. Are actions for implementing sustainable goals consistent across all cultures?
3. Is the attitude toward the environment, sustainability, and climate change the same across cultures, and do people universally consider these issues important?
4. Are sustainable practices consistent across cultures, and which cultural factors contribute to positive environmental practices?

A survey conducted by Deloitte on consumer attitudes and behaviours towards sustainability reveals that consumers are increasingly making conscious choices with sustainability and the environment in mind. However, there is still a need for greater efforts to provide consumers with better access to information, as well as to improve the affordability and availability of sustainable options. The result of survey has been discussed in video lecture and Link of survey is given below:

<https://www.deloitte.com/uk/en/pages/consumer-business/a.html>

Our attitude toward sustainable development goals is shaped by several key factors, such as our feelings about whether they are important and why it is necessary to act on them. This attitude is influenced by the environment, society, and economy. As human beings, we hold certain attitudes toward sustainability and the environment, just as we have specific behaviours

toward the poor, co-education, and following rules and regulations. Similarly, culture influences our attitudes toward the environment, sustainability, and related behaviours. Attitude change towards sustainable development (SD) may be defined as a change in one's feelings towards the issues related to environment, society, or economy. It is about developing a concern and feeling for the planet earth and life on it (humans and other living creatures). A change in attitude towards SD refers to feeling bad for environmental destruction, climate change, oppression, and socioeconomic injustice. It also involves a strong feeling of undertaking pro-sustainability actions at individual or collective levels.

Culture and attitudes to environment

- Democracy or autocracy
- Economic equity
- Education

The greater Transition scenario: a world beyond 2050 in which the quality of human knowledge, creativity and self-realization are the measure of development, not the quantity of goods and services. Requisite values for this are quality of life, human solidarity, and ecological sensibility.

I am quoting from a review article that addresses the values that affect our pro-environmental attitudes.

“Values are often invoked in discussions of how to develop a more sustainable relationship with the environment. There is a substantial literature on values that spans several disciplines. In philosophy, values are relatively stable principles that help us make decisions when our preferences are in conflict and thus convey some sense of what we consider good. In economics, the term *values* are usually used in discussions of social choice, where an assessment of the social value of various alternatives serves as a guide to the best choice under a utilitarian ethic (the greatest good for the greatest number). In sociology, social psychology, and political science, two major lines of research have addressed environmental values. One has focused on four value clusters: self-interest, altruism, traditionalism, and openness to change and found relatively consistent theoretical and empirical support for the relationship of values to environmentalism. The other line of research suggests that environmentalism emerges when basic material needs are met and that individuals and societies that are *postmaterialist* in their values are more likely to exhibit pro-environmental behaviours. The evidence in support of this argument is more equivocal. Overall, the idea that values, especially altruism, are related to environmentalism, seems well established, but little can be said about the causes of value change and of the overall effects of value change on changes in behavior.”

Reference

http://sustainability-success.com/three-pillars-of-sustainability/?ez_vid=7386d98bee3ecd79fbec0d4ab17b0954e9a3d4#ezoic-pub-video-placeholder-9

Module 176: Climate change and Action

In cross-cultural psychology, there has been limited direct research on the impact of culture on sustainability, the environment, and climate change. However, studies conducted in different countries and among various societal segments suggest that culture significantly influences environmental attitudes. For instance, societies with a prevailing attitude of care tend to foster more environmentally conscious behaviors. Family culture also plays a critical role; some families emphasize cleanliness, avoid wastefulness, discourage unnecessary noise, and practice frugality. This demonstrates that households and families have their own distinct cultures. While sustainability goals are universal and global, there are notable differences between groups within the same society, city, or even from one family or institution to another. For example, in many places, lights and air conditioning are left on carelessly, showing a lack of regard for electricity wastage. This disregard often stems from an absence of environmental concern; people may think that if they aren't directly paying for it, it doesn't matter. However, this neglect prevents resources from being used by others and reflects a broader issue of environmental irresponsibility.

Sustainable Development Goal 13 focuses on addressing climate change, which is essential for our survival. To achieve this goal, we must raise awareness among citizens about its importance. Many bird species we saw in our childhood are now nearly extinct, visible only in villages or rarely at all. To ensure resources for future generations, we must avoid water wastage and work toward its preservation. Planting trees is a crucial, environmentally friendly, and sustainable practice, deeply rooted in our religious teachings, and it must be embraced to safeguard our environment. The time to act is now—delaying will lead to dire consequences, such as reduced rainfall, unclean air, and challenges in sustaining life. Adopting these measures today is vital for protecting our future.

Now what is climate change? **Climate change** refers to long-term alterations in global or regional climate patterns, primarily driven by natural processes and human activities. These changes include shifts in temperature, precipitation, wind patterns, and weather events over decades or centuries. Effects of climate change include global warming, rising sea levels, melting glaciers, extreme weather events (e.g., hurricanes, droughts, and floods), and disruptions to ecosystems. Climate change is caused by human activities and threatens life on earth as we know it. With rising greenhouse gas emissions, climate change is occurring at rates much faster than anticipated. Its impacts can be devastating and include extreme and changing weather patterns and rising sea levels. If left unchecked, climate change will undo a lot of the development progress made over the past years. It will also provoke mass migrations that will lead to instability and wars. Climate change also resulted in scarcity of water.

Another question is what is climate action? **Climate action** refers to efforts taken at individual, community, national, and global levels to address and combat the impacts of climate change, for instance, reducing greenhouse gas emissions, adapting to the changing climate, and building resilience to its effects. Key components of climate action include transitioning to renewable energy sources, improving energy efficiency, protecting and restoring forests, promoting sustainable agriculture, and adopting eco-friendly technologies. It also emphasizes policies and international agreements, such as the Morocco submit, aimed at limiting global temperature

rise and fostering global cooperation. requires raising ambition, covering entire economies and moving towards climate-resilient development, while outlining a clear path to achieve net-zero emissions. Immediate measures are necessary to avoid catastrophic consequences and secure a sustainable future for generations to come. Climate resilience refers to the ability of individuals, communities, ecosystems, and economies to anticipate, prepare for, respond to, and recover from the adverse impacts of climate change. It involves adapting to changes such as rising temperatures, extreme weather events, and sea-level rise while minimizing risks and maintaining essential functions.

What steps can we take for Climate Action?

The guidelines to climate action and what we can do individually and collectively are found on

<https://www.globalgoals.org/goals/13-climate-action/>

It includes small steps from buying ecofriendly products, reducing waste by buying reusable products instead of disposables, walking or biking to reduce our own carbon emission, recycling our waste and composting. The guidelines are passed below from this site.

- Recycle paper, glass, plastic, metal and old electronics.
- Compost. Composting food scraps can reduce climate impact while also recycling nutrients.
- Choose reusable products. Use an eco-bag for shopping and a reusable water bottle or a cup to reduce your plastic waste.
- Buy eco-friendly products. Read the packaging to see if products are produced in an eco-friendly way.
- Bike, walk or take public transport. Save the car trips for when you've got a big group.
- Consume less meat and become vegetarian for one day a week. The meat production industry has a huge impact on the environment.
- Reduce your use of paper. Avoid printing and substitute it with electronic devices or carriers. Don't shop for pets! Visit your local animal shelter and adopt an animal there.

Solving the problem

To address climate change, we must vastly raise our ambition at all levels. Much is happening around the world – investments in renewable energy have soared. But more needs to be done. The world must transform its energy, industry, transport, food, agriculture and forestry systems to ensure that we can limit global temperature rise to well below 2°C, maybe even 1.5°C. In December 2015, the world took a significant first step by adopting the Paris Agreement, in which all countries committed to take action to address climate change. However, more actions are critically needed to meet the targets. Businesses and investors need to ensure emissions are lowered, not just because it is the right thing to do, but because it makes economic and business sense as well.

Our humble action



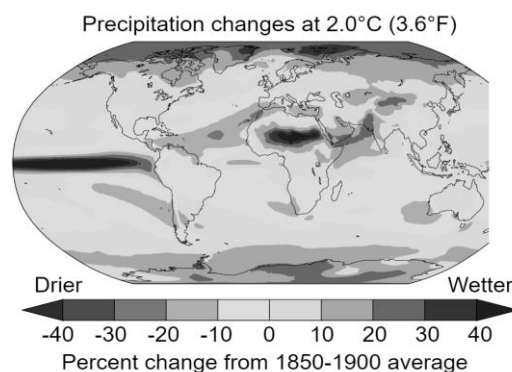
What happens if you don't act?

If left unchecked, climate change will cause average global temperatures to increase beyond 3°C and will adversely affect every ecosystem. Already, we are seeing how climate change can exacerbate storms and disasters, and threats such as food and water scarcity, which can lead to conflict. Doing nothing will end up costing us a lot more than if we act now.

Are we investing enough to combat climate change?

According to the UNFCCC, global climate finance flows reached an annual average of \$803 billion in 2019–2020, a 12 per cent increase compared to prior years. However, this still falls short of the levels needed to limit warming, and fossil-fuel-related flows exceeded climate financing for adaptation and mitigation in 2020. In 2019, at least 120 of the 153 developing countries had undertaken activities to formulate and implement National Adaptation Plans to enhance climate adaptation and resilience, an increase of 29 countries over the previous year. Furthermore, progress in meeting the 2020 disaster risk reduction target has been slow.

The chart below shows global warming.



Lesson 44

**CULTURE, COMMUNICATION, AND BEHAVIOR:
CROSS-CULTURAL PERSPECTIVES****Modules: 177-186****Module 177: Civic Behaviour and Culture**

What is civic behaviour?

Civic behavior refers to how individuals act as members of a society, sharing common spaces and responsibilities. It encompasses behaviours such as following laws, respecting public property, keep clean our common space such as mosque, streets, cafes, subways, bridges etc and engaging in community activities. The question arises: Does culture play a role in shaping civic behavior? If yes, then What factors of culture influence civic behaviour?

The picture below is from a university owned property in Khanaspur, Murree valley where learned professor and his family had a party and left the garbage on green ground. Is it Pakistani culture that even education and respectable society status has not given awareness and sensitivity for environment and our surroundings' cleanliness.



Civic behaviour is our actions and behaviour that is in accordance with the ethics of living in a society demonstrating respect for others and our environment.

Civic Responsibility

- Keeping our surroundings clean especially public places
- Smoking only at designated places
- Being Polite to others
- Showing consideration to the elderly, women, children and disabled people.
- Driving in one's lane without honking
- Throwing one's garbage in dustbins

- Not obstructing public streets or thoroughfares
- Respecting privacy of others
- Not creating noise
- Obeying traffic rules
- Treating animals with kindness
- Respecting other places of worship and their culture

We can extend the list but one look at the points above will show that Pakistani society lacks many of these.

Most important! How do we teach civic behaviour?

One answer; Teach it early, teach to young boys and girls at school level.



Module 178: Cross Cultural Communication

Communication is a core component of any society, and language is an important aspect of that. As language began to develop, different cultural communities put together collective understandings through sounds. Over time, these sounds and their implied meanings became commonplace, and language was formed. Intercultural communication is a symbolic process whereby social reality is constructed, maintained, repaired and transformed. As people with different cultural backgrounds interact, one of the most difficult barriers they face is that of language.

People of all cultures communicate through use language—a major similarity across people around the globe. At same time language also stands out as one of the most salient differences observed across cultures. Different languages have some common features like verbs and nouns, singular and plural, past and present tense. Language can contribute to both understanding and misunderstanding between people. Children learn language without formal raining, though influence of parents and culture is there.

Researchers have studied commonalities across languages universality. Complex communication involves decoding messages and being mindful of the context. If an

extraterrestrial being observed humans communicating, they will notice commonality- we all use language. Whereas we as creatures on earth notice differences in communicating styles. In metaphors and humour like jokes, we always find cultural shades. Often differences in thinking and perception can provide the basis for cross-cultural misunderstanding. An interesting example is phrase **باز آ جا نو**. If one person was saying it to another and it was translated in English for a foreigner, it could be misunderstood as per context it could be a friendly teasing or a serious warning.

Gestural signs are nonverbal. Other examples are Al-Sayyid Bedouin Sign Language (ABSL), Nicaraguan Sign language (NSL). In some languages there are set of colour names. If there are only 2 words, then these would be black and white. Some syllables preferred more than others form example b in the middle rather than towards the end.

Commonalities - linguistic universals studied by Hockett (1966)

1. Language is discrete
2. Can be acquired- we are born with ability to learn language not a specific language
3. Grammatical categories
4. Provision for creating new sentences
5. Language is Hierarchical- phonemes into morphemes

Consider the sentences “I ate a handful of beans, I ate a mouthful of beans, I ate a handful of beets”. Changing words change meaning.

Module 179: Language And Culture-I

Studies comparing individuals from different cultures often confound culture with language. It is frequently experienced that the translation carries the meaning, but does it convey the thought? Studies with bi-lingual people are helpful in disentangling culture from language. English is spoken and used in education in many countries of the world and in international business. Still some phrases are culture bound, and a literal translation will not convey the meaning or thought.

Communicating in a global world involves more than language competence; it requires cultural knowledge and shared concepts. There is developmental evidence indicating that infants from different cultures, for example, Italian Canadian and Japanese, are as similar in the development of their gestures as infants from more similar cultures, for example, Italian Canadian and English-Canadian (Blake, Vitale, Osborne, & Olshansky, 2005). There are more words for snow in Inuit language than any other language for obvious reason. I want to ask if there are more words for anger in Urdu than in Inuit for the same logic that Inuit has more words for snow!



Communication also occurs through non-verbal and sign languages that are found in many cultures.

Whorf claimed that the language we know could affect the way we think about the world. As an insurance inspector, Whorf considered the possibility- the way an individual thinks about a situation could be limited by language. An employee in a warehouse dropped a match into a gasoline drum located in an area of the warehouse displaying the sign **empty**. The employee understood the word empty to mean that nothing at all was inside the drum- was not able to think about the possibility of flammable vapours in the drum.

Dani language of New Guinea has two colour terms only: mala and mili meaning bright and dark. English and Dani speakers could perceive shades equally well and the focal colour- Dani just don't have the words for it. There has been a lot of research on words for colour across languages.

Module 180: Language And Culture-II

“If culture was a house, then language was the key to the front door, to all the rooms inside.”
— Khaled Hosseini, Afghan-born American novelist and physician

Cultural identity is heavily dependent on a few factors including ethnicity, gender, geographic location, religion, language, and so much more. Culture is defined as a “historically transmitted system of symbols, meanings, and norms.” Knowing a language automatically enables someone to identify with others who speak the same language. This connection is such an important part of cultural exchange. Turkish speakers usually express manner and path in different clauses (e.g., She ascended the hill while walking). In English, manner and path are often expressed in a single clause (e.g., She walked down the hill).

Misunderstood meanings? What about exchange and occasions where crucial information may be missed due to misunderstood meanings? In a study conducted by Roberts, Moss, Wass, Sarangi, and Jones (2005), communication between patients and doctors in London—an environment where many languages are spoken—was analysed. They concluded that in 31% of the recorded cases, there was a communication failure, while two-thirds of the sample experienced difficulties with language or had limited English proficiency. Another interesting case of being bitten by the dog is illustrated in a book. A doctor asked the patient who had been bit by a dog “does dog receive vet care?” The patient answered “Yes that’s what the owner said!!!” The doctor missed the skepticism as he was not an English-speaking person! There are assumptions about intent in this as if the owner said something that was doubtful!

Writing systems used in different languages

Some languages, such as English, rely on writing systems that are largely phonetic; written characters represent sounds. Chinese is written using characters that are largely ideographic; symbols represent words or morphemes.

Eastern cultures tend to emphasize relationships more than objects, whereas Western cultures tend to show the opposite pattern. For example, when given the words “seagull, tree, squirrel” and asked which two words go with each other, a Chinese speaker is likely to choose “tree” and “squirrel” because of the relationship between them. An English speaker is more likely to choose “seagull” and “squirrel” because they are members of the same category, “animal.”

Module 181: Culture Emotion and Expression

When we use language, it serves as an expression of many things. Similarly, emotions are also a way to express certain feelings, and they are universal. All human beings experience emotions and tend to express them in similar ways. For instance, everyone feels their heartbeat quicken during moments of anger or fear. Emotions are physiological, behavioural, and/or communicative reactions to stimuli that are cognitively processed and experienced as emotional.

Scientists who searched out semantic patterns in nearly 2,500 languages from all over the world found that emotion words — such as angst, grief and happiness — could have different meaning depending on the language family they originated from. While emotions themselves are universal phenomena, they are always influenced by culture. How emotions are experienced, expressed, perceived, and regulated varies as a function of culturally normative behavior by the surrounding society. According to Darwin, emotions are universal, and everyone experiences them in the same way. For example, Darwin claimed that as monkeys show their teeth in anger, humans do the same. However, this is no longer entirely true, as culture and language also influence how emotions are expressed. According to contemporary research, while emotions are undoubtedly a universal phenomenon, there is significant variation in how they are expressed, experienced, perceived, and regulated, depending on the norms of each culture.



Language of **love**, Words for **joy**, words for **sadness**, Terms for **anger**

Culture and language are intermingled!

Module 182: Shared Language of Emotions

While emotions themselves are universal phenomena, they are always influenced by culture. How emotions are experienced, expressed, perceived, and regulated varies as a function of culturally normative behavior by the surrounding society.

Many cultures don't think about their emotions as something that lives *inside* of an individual, but more as something *between* people. In those cultures, emotions are what people do together, with each other. So, when I'm angry, that is something that lives between you and me. Thinking about emotions as living between people has consequences on how we regulate emotions and how we recognize emotions in ourselves and others.

<https://www.psychologytoday.com/us/blog/between-cultures/201803/how-culture-shapes-emotions>

People in different cultures acquire different emotions. For example, people in many Western contexts may think of shame as a bad emotion. But shame is considered a good emotion in other cultures—it is in one category with modesty and embarrassment and these feelings show that you have propriety, that you know your place in the world.

Having an emotion like shame when you don't behave in ways that fit the cultural norm is considered a good way of doing something about it. In our (Western) cultures, shame is often associated with behaviours that are destructive for the relationship: We withdraw in shame, we don't want to show ourselves. But in other cultures, it's an emotion that comes with reaching out to others—it repairs relationships.

Many languages have words whose meanings seem so specific and nuanced that there's no way to translate them; they can only be imported wholesale. Consider the German *schadenfreude*, the pleasure derived from another's misfortune, or *sehnsucht*, a sort of deep yearning for an alternative life.

Take the Persian word *ænduh*, which is used to express the English-conceptualized emotions of "grief" and "regret." The Sirkhi dialect of Dargwa, in contrast, uses *dard* to convey both "grief" and "anxiety." Persian speakers, it seems, may think of grief as more related to regret while Dargwa speakers may see it as more like anxiety.

Module 183: Travelling as an Ethnographer

Ethnography is the study of a particular group of people and includes the approach of participant observation. When observing others, an ethnographer can obtain qualitative data by direct observation to tell the story of a particular group of people. He or she may live among them in any role or may be in another culture for any purpose and cultural ethnography taking this opportunity.

This is what I have done over the years but without a formal plan. My living abroad for education and travels for various professional and personal reasons have provided extremely

valuable and precious observation and experiential data that could not have been possible through any other means. It has also taught me life lessons, respect for diversity and joy of human interaction. Cultural ethnography done during travel is the best way to compare cultures; the strengths of our own culture, the bothersome aspects of my own culture, beauty of each culture and things I could not accept in other cultures have all been learning from the travel as ethnographer. Some of these learnings have gone into this course, some in my research on cross-cultural beliefs about aggression. It will ultimately be documented in a book and some visual material.

Module 184 and Module: Language as a means of Communication: Interview with Poet Yusra Amjad

This interview explores the complexities of translating poetry across cultures, focusing on its nuanced nature. Dr. Naumana asks whether poetry, with its deeply embedded meanings, can be understood across cultural and linguistic barriers. Pakistani poet Yusra Amjad highlights the challenges of translating poetry, noting that it is the most delicate use of language, reliant on connotations, inferences, and rich linguistic contexts. She explains that successful translations often create a new poem in another language, carrying different cultural and linguistic nuances, but may not fully capture the original's essence. She cites an example from her school days, where translating Mirza Ghalib's verse "Dil-e-Nadan tujhy hoa kiya hai" into "My stupid heart, what has happened to you?" lost the original's emotional depth. Despite these challenges, she notes that the ghazal, deeply rooted in Indo-Pak culture, has gained popularity even in America, highlighting its universal appeal and cultural transcendence.

Module 185: Cultural appropriation and consumer behavior: case of Kashmiri Shawl: discussion with Mrs. Bushra Jamil (Interview)

This module explores the concept of adapting material culture across different contexts, with a focus on items like dress forms, embroidery, and pottery. The interview examines how cultural artifacts and traditional designs are reimagined or integrated into new settings, reflecting the interplay between preserving cultural identity and embracing innovation. Such adaptations often serve as a lens to understand the transmission of cultural values, aesthetics, and meanings, as well as their transformation when interpreted through diverse cultural perspectives.

Mrs. Bushra Jameel is an assistant professor at Pakistan Institute of Fashion Designs, Lahore with an M.Phil. in Cultural studies from NCA. She has done extensive research on Kashmiri Shawl as it has been popularized and adapted in major European countries and later in other parts of the world. She explained how Kashmiri shawl was taken up by colonial rulers of India, becoming a status symbol for English and French and Indian nawabs. It has since changed forms and authentic shahtoosh or Pashmina are not easy to find except among family heirlooms. The interview recoding forms part of teaching materials and students will watch it.

Module 186: Music, Drama, Stories-Connecting Cultures Across Time and Space

Arts is a shared language across cultures. There is no doubt that culture and arts are inseparable, and culture underpins and defines much of what we call arts and creative arts in a society. However, arts as a heritage of humanity have always transcended geographical boundaries from historical times to modern world. Persian carpets, Italian crafts, Indian miniature and classic music, Shakespearean drama and European and African stories and indigenous nations arts crafts and music has travelled the world and embraced with joy by people in every culture.

The traditional music of different cultures may fluctuate in notion and harmony. For instance, conventional Western harmony is different from Japanese and Indian styles (Sadie, 1980). In many non-Western traditions the idea of the note as a stable, sustained pitch is foreign. Some Indian and Japanese musical intervals—or tonal dyads differing only slightly in frequency ratio—are perceived as extreme dissonance in the West and are usually avoided by composers and musicians. However, these intervals appear to be beautiful and are used freely in the classic music of these two countries (Maher, 1976). Contemporary Western music notation reflects the underlying general perception of beauty developed in Western culture.

Music and speech processing share similar cognitive systems, making music a powerful tool for enhancing problem-solving abilities. Engaging with music fosters learning in a relaxed and enjoyable environment, encouraging independent thinking, especially when composing music. Moreover, music serves as a bridge between cultures, providing insights into diverse traditions and values. For example, love songs, dance tunes, and lullabies are universal across cultures, often sharing patterns and themes that connect people worldwide. This cross-cultural aspect of music not only enriches individual experiences but also promotes global understanding.

Perceptual problems that can cause displeasure in the Western listener—born and raised in Sweden, Italy, or Ukraine—may occur because of the different scales, intervals, and rhythmic patterns used in Western and non-Western music. In non-Western cultures—for example, in Middle Eastern Islamic countries—classical music for the most part is not written down in advance, as is the practice in Europe and America. Notwithstanding the fact that written notations are found in many cultures around the world, in many non-Western countries, classical music is usually improvised on framework-like patterns. In fact, in these societies many types of music exist mostly in performance. One should not exaggerate, nevertheless, cultural differences in musical perception. Contemporary mass media, global trade, and interpersonal contacts provide unique opportunity for many people to learn, understand, and appreciate different musical styles.

Lesson 45

SUMMARY OF THE COURSE**Modules: 187-188****Module 187: Summary of the Course**

Learning from such an extensive course takes a deepening process. However, let me comment first what I have learned as instructor.

1. I learned a lot of new information and added to my knowledge of cultures and contemporary research in this area.
2. Application of cross-cultural knowledge and skills in mental health discipline
3. Reflections on common ground between cultures
4. Relishing the variety and the colorfulness of diverse cultures yet being comfortable in my cultural identity!

Another important goal of this course was to learn cross-cultural knowledge, research, and application as well as appreciation of diversity of cultures, tolerance for others different from us and be able to think critically.

Module 188: Learning from the Course

The course carried five main themes that included many topics.

1. Understanding Cross-cultural Psychology- introduction, approaches, scope
2. Research methods and indigenous and international research in this area
3. Socialization and development; similarities and differences across cultures
4. Application of cross-cultural psychology in Health, workplace, education, mental health and international adaptation
5. Cross-cultural communication and crossing boundaries by sharing cultural heritages

Enjoy the learning and experience of this course!